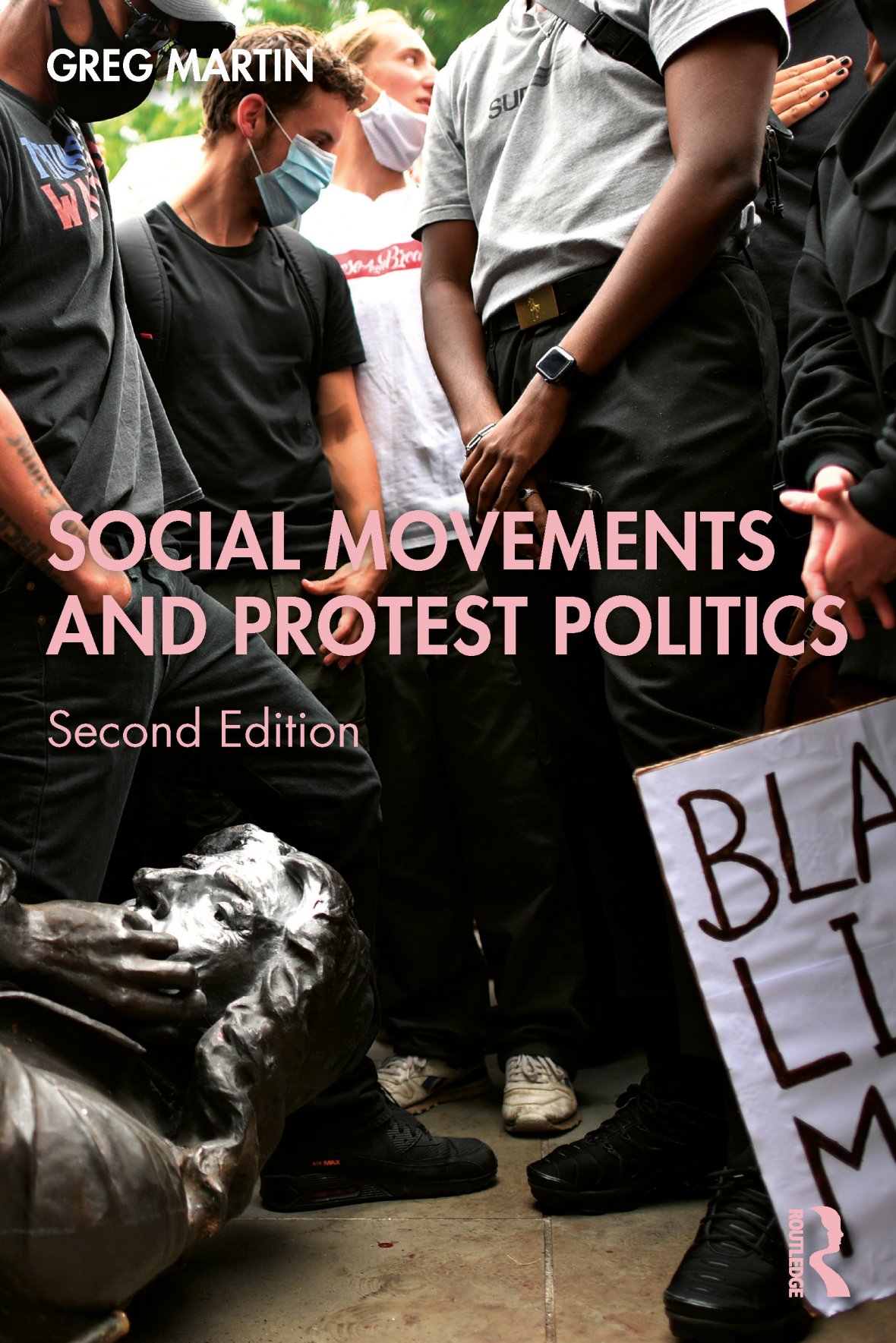

GREG MARTIN
SOCIAL MOVEMENTS AND PROTEST POLITICS
Second Edition
ROUTLEDGE

SOCIAL MOVEMENTS AND PROTEST POLITICS

This fully revised and updated edition of *Social Movements and Protest Politics* provides interdisciplinary perspectives on the sociology of protest movements. It considers major theories and concepts, which are presented in a clear, accessible, and engaging format. The second edition contains new chapters on methods and ethics of social movement research, and legal mobilisation, protest policing and criminal justice activism, including calls to abolish or defund police made at protests during the COVID-19 pandemic. This edition introduces readers to the concept of the 'post-protest society' wherein the right to protest is whittled away to near vanishing point, and authorities have considerable legal recourse to ban protests and render the tactics of protest movements ineffective. The book also looks at recent developments and novel social movements, including Black Lives Matter, Extinction Rebellion, Gilets Jaunes, #MeToo, and Hong Kong's Umbrella Movement, as well as the rise of contemporary forms of populism in democratic societies.

The book presents specific chapters outlining the early origins of social movement studies and more recent theoretical and conceptual developments. It considers key ideas from resource mobilisation theory, the political process model, and new social movement approaches. It provides extensive commentary on the role of culture in social protest (including visual images, emotions, storytelling, music, and sport), religious movements, geography and struggles over space, media and movements, and global activism. Historical and contemporary case studies and examples from a variety of countries are provided throughout, including the American civil rights movement, Greenpeace, Pussy Riot, Indigenous peoples' movements, liberation theology, Indignados, Occupy, Tea Party, and Arab Spring. Each chapter also contains illustrations and boxed case studies to demonstrate the issues under discussion.

Social Movements and Protest Politics will be an indispensable resource for undergraduate and postgraduate students in the social sciences and humanities wanting to be introduced to or extend their knowledge of the field. The book will also prove useful to university teachers and academic researchers, activists, and practitioners interested in the study of social, cultural, and political protest.

Greg Martin teaches criminology at Murdoch University, Perth, Australia. He has published widely in criminology, law, and sociology. He is the author of *Crime, Media and Culture* (Routledge, 2019), and a co-editor of *Secrecy, Law and Society* (Routledge, 2015) and *The Emerald International Handbook of Activist Criminology*. He is the founding co-editor of the book series *Emerald Studies in Activist Criminology*, an associate editor of *Crime Media Culture*, and a member of the editorial boards of *Social Movement Studies* and *The Sociological Review*.

"What a difference a decade can make! The first edition of this wonderful introduction to social-movement theory appeared before Trump was elected. The new edition therefore includes more on the resurgence of rightwing and hate groups, on Black Lives Matter, and the increasing intensity of online politics and surveillance. It gives a fair hearing to a range of theories: an excellent text for courses and the general reader."

James M. Jasper, *author of* The Art of Moral Protest Culture, Biography, and Creativity in Social Movements *(1997)*

"Greg Martin's text provides thorough historical overview of both the development of social movements and the growth of ways to make sense of them. *Social Movements and Protest Politics* is global in approach, theoretically engaged, and filled with vivid illustrations of key ideas. A valuable introduction, it is an invaluable resource for anyone who wants to understand and maybe influence the development of contemporary social movement politics.

David S. Meyer, *Professor of Sociology, Political Science and Planning, Policy, and Design, University of California, Irvine, USA*

"This comprehensive and compelling new edition forces reconsideration of the meaning and efficacy of protest in an era of populism and technological change, while providing critical new insights on the power and limits of law as a tool of social movements. It is essential reading for social movement scholars and activists, raising challenging questions about the potential for radical change in contemporary society while providing rich examples of strategic social movement adaption providing optimism that a better world is possible."

Scott L. Cummings, *Robert Henigson Professor of Legal Ethics, University of California, Los Angeles, USA*

"Social movements are a social phenomenon that reveals much about society at large and the evolution in their study constitutes a central part of the history of sociology, with many different approaches trying to provide alternative explanations. In this book, Greg Martin acts as an expert guide through the complex field of social movement studies, reconstructing how sociologists have tried to make sense of them from the 19th century to contemporary internet-based activism. Research methods for social movement analysis, the difference between old and new movements, and alternative approaches, such as the study of collective identity, resource mobilization and political opportunities, are all covered in this very comprehensive yet concise volume. This volume is strongly advised to both students and researchers who are fairly new to the field and more advanced scholars who want a systematic review of central questions in the field."

Paolo Gerbaudo, *Senior Research Fellow in Social Science, Complutense University of Madrid, Spain*

Social Movements and Protest Politics

Second Edition

Greg Martin

Routledge
Taylor & Francis Group
LONDON AND NEW YORK

Designed cover image: Protesters topple a statue of slaver Edward Colston during a Black Lives Matter rally held on 7 June 2020 in College Green, Bristol, in memory of George Floyd who was killed by police on 25 May 2020 in the US city of Minneapolis © Ben Birchall/PA Archive/PA Images

Second edition published 2024
by Routledge
4 Park Square, Milton Park, Abingdon, Oxon OX14 4RN

and by Routledge
605 Third Avenue, New York, NY 10158

Routledge is an imprint of the Taylor & Francis Group, an informa business

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First edition published by Routledge 2015

British Library Cataloguing-in-Publication Data
A catalogue record for this book is available from the British Library

Library of Congress Cataloging-in-Publication Data
Names: Martin, Greg, 1971- author.
Title: Social movements and protest politics / Greg Martin.
Other titles: Understanding social movements.
Description: Second Edition. | New York, NY : Greg Martin, [2024] | Revised edition of Understanding social movements, 2015. | Includes bibliographical references and index. |
Identifiers: LCCN 2023037828 (print) | LCCN 2023037829 (ebook) | ISBN 9780367420963 (hardback) | ISBN 9780367420970 (paperback) | ISBN 9780367821760 (ebook)
Subjects: LCSH: Social movements. | Social change. | Online social networks. | Globalization--Social aspects.
Classification: LCC HM881 .M37 2024 (print) | LCC HM881 (ebook) | DDC 303.48/4--dc23/eng/20230814
LC record available at https://lccn.loc.gov/2023037828
LC ebook record available at https://lccn.loc.gov/2023037829

ISBN: 978-0-367-42096-3 (hbk)
ISBN: 978-0-367-42097-0 (pbk)
ISBN: 978-0-367-82176-0 (ebk)

DOI: 10.4324/9780367821760

Typeset in Sabon
by MPS Limited, Dehradun

In memory of my grandad, Wally Toomes (1919–2022)



Taylor & Francis
Taylor & Francis Group
http://taylorandfrancis.com

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ACKNOWLEDGEMENTS

For their tremendous patience, I am grateful to the editorial staff at Routledge and in particular Chris Parry. As ever, thanks to Rebecca Scott Bray for her love and support (and always remembering my research). For the endless entertainment, thank you, Simon Allaway. Thanks also to Kim Porter for keeping me on my toes.

CHAPTER 1

Introduction

This is a book about social movements and protest politics. As we shall see, the study of social and political movements has a long history in the social sciences, and the idea of social movement as broadly equating to social and political change stretches back to the dawn of sociological thought. The earliest mention of 'social movement' in the scholarly literature has been credited to Lorenz von Stein who, in a series of three volumes published between 1842 and 1850, introduced the German term, 'Soziale Bewegung', which translates to social movement, or what von Stein took to mean 'all political as well as ideological movements of the nineteenth century aiming to promote the welfare of the working-class in industrial society' (Mengelberg 1961: 268).

Also midway through the nineteenth century, Karl Marx famously pronounced, 'philosophers have only *interpreted* the world in different ways; the point is to change it' (Marx, quoted in Thompson 1996: 175, original emphasis). And, in many respects, this captures the essence of what social movements are about. They are collective forms of protest or activism that aim to affect some kind of transformation in existing structures of power that have created inequality, injustice, disadvantage, and so on. In this way, they represent demands or grievances made beyond or outside of conventional channels of political participation (e.g. elections), and so can be thought of as forms of protest politics.[1] That is not to say all social movements and contentious politics are necessarily positive or progressive in nature. For, as we will see occasionally in the book, social movements and political protest can also be conservative, reactionary, or regressive.

The rise of the Tea Party movement in the United States is a recent example, which, to many, paved the way for the election in 2016 of

DOI: 10.4324/9780367821760-1

Donald Trump. However, while Tea Party 'was always dogged by accusations that it was more AstroTurf than grassroots' (Tormey 2019: 26), Trump provided a charismatic figurehead for populism in the US, where he continues to have an unnervingly resilient 'base'. Trump supporters have also innovated protest tactics, such as 'Trumptillas' or the populist regatta; a 'spontaneous parade of patriotism' where boats are festooned with American flags, and participants represent themselves as the common people:

> The women stood on the foredecks in their red, white, and blue bikinis, raising their Pabst Blue Ribbon tallboys to salute patriots in nearby boats. The men stood on the control decks projecting the sort of manly toughness you associate with steelworkers, even though these men were more likely to be real estate agents. (Brooks 2021)

While the election of Trump spawned a multitude of protests from a broad range of groups and organisations representing a variety of issues, all falling under what came to be known collectively as 'the Resistance' (Andrews et al. 2018; Derber 2017; Gose and Skocpol 2019; Meyer 2021a; Meyer and Tarrow 2018; Pirro and Castelli Gattinara 2018; Pressman et al. 2022), since writing the first edition of this book, the rise globally of 'distasteful' or 'ugly' movements (Esseveld and Eyerman 1992; Gillan and Pickerill 2012) has been noteworthy. One of the more disconcerting aspects of this phenomenon has been how forms of right-wing authoritarianism, reactionary politics, and sometimes extremist beliefs have coalesced with populism in mainstream politics, at times with retrogressive consequences. In the US, for example, Trump's appointment of conservative pro-choice justices to the Supreme Court led ultimately, and somewhat inevitably, in 2022 to the reversal of women's abortion rights established in *Roe v Wade* 410 U.S. 113 (1973).

Also locating the Tea Party movement within more 'normalised' forms of politics, Robinson and Barrera (2012) suggest 'twenty-first-century fascism' may come into play, conforming outwardly to democratic systems of representative government but co-existing with violent hate groups and anti-immigration campaigns, thus paving 'the way for institutionalised oppression insofar as all are expressions, they argue, of "the psychopathy of white decline, sharp militarisation and pervasive policing" and have "fascistic characteristics"' (Ashbee 2014: 498, quoting Robinson and Barrera 2012: 4).

Troubling, too, is the fact that the confluence of retrograde politics is not limited to an isolated set of cases. For instance, it has been observed that in many countries there are 'points of continuity between the mainstream anti-feminism of politicians and courts and the extremist views of anti-feminist men's groups organising on the Internet' (Dragiewicz and Mann 2016: 3). In addition, Dragiewicz

and Mann (2016) say, while the anti-feminist organising of men's movements has centred mostly on issues of gendered violence and the family, anti-feminist activism is also tied more broadly to nationalist movements promoting racism, xenophobia, and patriarchal agendas.

In a version of that view, Fang and Repnikova (2018) have shown how the mythical construction of female-led cyber-nationalism in China under the label 'Little Pink' – using social media to propagate reunification memes following Taiwan's 2016 pro-independence election – was attacked by self-proclaimed liberals on the Web adopting aggressively gendered discourse paralleling that of the state. They conclude therefore that 'digital nationalism' in China remains a highly masculine affair. We will revisit this type of argument about the gendered dimensions of digital technology use in Chapter 10 when we consider how women's social withdrawal following image-based sexual abuse can also drive them offline, thus bolstering male dominance of online spaces.

The rise of Trump in the US has also been compared to Brexit where both are 'interpreted as a manifestation or result of the growing anger with the political and economic status quo and a victory for populism' (Ishkanian 2019: 147). Indeed, just as Tea Party comprised 'a significant tranche of seniors' (Ashbee 2011: 160), so Brexit was seen as a vote predominantly of the baby boomers who are often pigeonholed as a selfish yet lucky generation (Martin and Roberts 2021), having 'climbed the ladder provided by the welfare state, then pulled it up after them' (Beckett 2010: xiii), thereby 'kicking the financial can down the road' (Johnson 2015: 8). As we shall see in Chapter 9, opinion is divided as to the extent Tea Party can be regarded a grassroots movement *or* a media creation, while Brexit has been seen as the outcome of media *and* grassroots activism beyond party politics (Brändle et al. 2022).

Beyond generations, Brexit, like Tea Party (see Chapter 9), actually had a heterogenous base of supporters: from 'elite Brexiteers' like hedge-fund managers tired of overburdensome European Union regulations to left-leaning so-called 'Lexiteers' opposing the European Union on the basis of socialist principles advancing worker rights and anti-racist policies (Ishkanian 2019). While the origins of both Trump and Brexit are more historically deep-rooted – perhaps, as elsewhere, examples of 'populism in abeyance' (Newth 2022) – commentators see the 2008 Global Financial Crisis (GFC) as providing fertile ground for these forms of populist politics insofar as that crisis accentuated divisions between the 'winners' and 'losers' of globalisation (della Porta 2017; Streeck 2017).

Like other social movement scholars reluctant to acknowledge the authenticity of rightist movements *qua* social movements (Ashbee 2014), della Porta (2017: 27) regards the Brexit and Trump campaigns

not as social movements but as 'other forms of populist politics'. However, whether treated as movements or forms of populist politics this view of populism is myopic. Indeed, while Tea Party, Trump, and Brexit are variously characterised by nativism, xenophobia, protectionist policies, and economic nationalism, other forms of populism also arising as a response to the 'Great Recession' occurring around the time of the GFC have been described as 'movements of hope' (Ishkanian 2019: 148). Accordingly, Aslanidis (2016) argues that because they framed their collective identities around notions of 'the People' challenging elites – evident in claims to represent the 99 percent pitted against the corrupt yet powerful 1 percent – Occupy Wall Street and the European Indignados can also be thought of populist social movements. As we will see in Chapter 8, Gerbaudo (2023) similarly argues Occupy is one among other movements (e.g. France's Gilets Jaunes) signalling a 'populist turn' in contemporary protest politics.

Protests were similarly polarised during the COVID-19 pandemic where, on the one hand, social justice and human rights demonstrations took place around the protection of refugees in detention, Black Lives Matter, and women's safety (Martin 2021, 2022a, 2022b, 2023a), while, on the other hand, anti-lockdown and anti-vax protestors plugged into conspiracy theories and populists' deep suspicion of establishment figures and experts. Although a process occurring well before, the COVID-19 pandemic also precipitated new forms of retreatism and 'deglobalisation' (Kornprobst and Paul 2021), evident in the closure of international borders to all travellers (not just refugees) and the enactment of 'vaccination nationalism'. We examine globalisation and anti-globalisation movements in Chapter 11. However, given the somewhat bleak vision of social movements and protest politics presented so far, we should at least consider the prospects for positive social and political transformation, even when capitalism continues to produce gross inequalities and injustice, and liberal democratic governments across the globe seek to intensify the suppression of dissent.

CAN WE BE OPTIMISTIC ABOUT PROTEST POLITICS AND SOCIAL MOVEMENT RADICALISM?

As already stated, most social movements aim to affect transformations in politics and society. Indeed, the emergence globally of Occupy and the Arab Spring across the countries of the Middle East were heralded as beacons of hope for radical politics and democratic change in the contemporary period. Against this, it has been observed, many commentaries tell a rather gloomy and pessimistic narrative of

depoliticisation, apoliticality, and social movement de-radicalisation (Dean 2014). In some ways, this reflects sociological accounts of declining civic engagement, part of which involves disengagement from conventional forms of politics and government (Putnam 1995). It also echoes the view that the discipline of sociology itself has been cut adrift from its radical roots, such that where once disciplinary transformations came from social movements, now we are all too familiar with the image of 'a conventional textbook on globalisation, social change or modernity with a dramatic cover photo of protestors – and a complete absence of social movements *within* those same covers' (Cox 2014: 968, original emphasis).

In other ways, these developments reflect scholarly work about 'diminishing social movement radicalism and a narrowing of possibilities for egalitarian, radical democratic alternatives to existing structures of inequality and domination' (Dean 2014: 454). Essentially, what Dean alludes to here is the presence of a 'paradigm' (Kuhn 1962); that is, a set of beliefs shared by the political theory community (including social movement scholars), which, although highly persuasive, is not necessarily supported by empirical data. Such accounts of the prevalence of political disinterest and apathy are variously premised on a belief in the ubiquity, and indeed hegemony, of neoliberal capitalism and the operation of free markets, which have become key elements in the current political orthodoxy and consensus formed around centrist-right politics. In short, so the argument goes, we are now living out or reaping the consequences of the neoliberal restructuring projects of the Reagan-Thatcher era, wherein, Thatcher once infamously said, in an interview for *Woman's Own* magazine in 1987 (and I paraphrase): 'There is no such thing as society, only individual men, women, and their families'. Inevitably, we are left with an impoverished public sphere, not only privatised industries, but privatised lives and selves, a corporatised state, the end of 'the social' and concomitant rise of (anti-social) economic reductionism and self-interested individualism, and, ultimately, a hollowed out, morally bankrupt remnant of 'society' (see Marquand 2014 for discussion); a 'post-care society', if you will.

The upshot for those who hold a pessimistic view of society and radical politics is that there is no alternative to the current status quo. However, according to Dean (2014: 455–456), such accounts tend to dismiss, or at least gloss over, the potential significance of movements like the global anti-capitalist movement, which, among other things, was responsible for the successful disruption of the World Trade Organization (WTO) ministerial meetings in Seattle in 1999. To be sure, questions as to efficacy, such as this, lie at the heart of social movement studies. But to what extent do movements like the global justice movement, Occupy, the Indignados, Black Lives Matter, and the Arab Spring *actually* change things, or 'make a difference'?

In the context of the austerity-funded bank bailout following the 2008 GFC, it is easy to see why some lacked optimism or hope for any genuine alternative. Indeed, what was especially galling was the establishment's capacity to reinvigorate the ideology and institutions of neoliberal capitalism after the near collapse and widespread discrediting of the economic order in the wake of the GFC (Jones 2014). However, while to some disengagement was the only option, others became so enraged they felt there was no alternative *other than* to get involved in protest, demonstrations, marches, and the like. This proved to be the case with the Indignados in Spain, Occupy, and the Arab Spring.

We will look at each of these movements at various points in this book. But it is worth making the point here that while these movements have, to varying degrees, fizzled out or become less prominent at least, the legacy of the GFC, bank bailout, and austerity measures implemented during the Great Recession ought not to be underestimated. For example, cuts to public spending made by successive British governments were regarded a significant factor contributing to the National Health Service's lack of preparedness amid the COVID-19 pandemic (Bennett 2023), when many protestors came out in support of healthcare workers who suffered tremendous stress during the crisis (Martin 2021: 277, 2022b: 32, 2023a: 180).

During the COVID-19 pandemic, we also witnessed the global resurgence of Black Lives Matter and, before that, the emergence of the #MeToo movement, both of which have combined social media activism using hashtags with street protests. Other protestors have sought to use more radical tactics to get their voices heard. Extinction Rebellion (XR) and other environmental/climate activists, such as Just Stop Oil protestors, have modified direct action and civil disobedience tactics, gluing their hands to roads or equipment, or disrupting traffic flow in major urban areas by 'slow marching'. As we shall see shortly, as often happens, the state has sought to thwart the use of these tactics by introducing laws that create new criminal offences designed to deter protestors and give police enhanced powers to ban protests.

Given it appears increasingly difficult to participate in protests, it is useful to ask what motivates people to become involved in collective action in the first place, which is a question often posed by social movement scholars. Some believe people are motivated by emotions, such as anger, indignation, and a sense of injustice; others reckon people are driven by thinking strategically about how they might best achieve political goals collectively. The matter of motivation, in turn, leads us to other areas of interest. For example, one of the principal dilemmas for activists is how willing they are, or should be, to engage with established actors and organisations within the political system. In order to achieve their goals, should

social movements engage with and harness the resources of professional organisations and political parties, or should they seek to be autonomous of the existing system and its constituents? Put simply, how far should social movements be willing to go to achieve their goals? Should they remain true to their original radical goals, or be prepared to compromise to affect a modicum of change?

Important here, too, is the idea of social movement 'success'. Should we 'measure' success simply in terms of the attainment of policy or legal outcomes, such as facilitating the introduction of some anti-discrimination law, or should we conceive of success more broadly in terms of raising awareness, spreading knowledge, and disseminating information, or changing cultural values and attitudes? Movements like the women's movement and the American civil rights movement brought about widespread transformations across a broad range of spheres (social, cultural, political, legal, economic), while other movements have made more specific or piecemeal contributions.

SOCIAL MOVEMENTS IN SOCIETY

What we have discussed thus far are among the issues one confronts in the 'social movement society' wherein, Meyer and Tarrow (1998: 20) propose, 'social protest has become more common, more easily diffused and sponsored by increasing numbers and types of organisations'. If this is the case, Meyer and Tarrow (1998: 26) say, and 'states have become more adept at institutionalising movements and activists are becoming both more professional and more interchangeable with interest groups in their activities, what will happen to those actors who refuse the blandishments of recognition and legitimation?' Here we confront a fundamental issue in social movement studies whereby some scholars focus on the relationship between social movements, the state, and wider political systems, while others see social movements as eschewing conventional politics altogether.

Those who hold the former view tend to work within political process, resource mobilisation, or contentious politics frameworks. Although these perspectives have different emphases, the common denominator is, as Scott (1990: 10–11) puts it, a belief that the telos of social movement activity is the integration of previously excluded issues and groups into the 'normal' political process. This is a perspective that was developed principally in the US and is one that continues to hold sway there. As we will learn later in the book, this approach can be juxtaposed with approaches developed in Europe, which, from the 1980s, identified the emergence of so-called 'new social movements'. The argument here is that contemporary 'new' movements differ from the 'old' labour movement since they are concerned not with socio-economic issues but with 'post-material'

values related to lifestyle and 'identity politics', which exist beyond old (i.e. class-based) politics. Unlike their American counterparts who believe social movements seek to be included in the polity, new social movement theorists believe movements strive to be autonomous of the political system.

In very broad terms, this rather polarised way of thinking has and in some sense still does mark a distinction between North American and European ways of thinking about social movements. Again, speaking very generally, the distinction has been and to some extent still is reflected in the approaches adopted by the two specialist journals in the field: the North America-based journal, *Mobilization* (established in 1996), and the journal, *Social Movement Studies* (established in Europe in 2002). A caveat is required, however, for, although each of these journals has their own take on social movement research, there is nevertheless much cross-pollination of ideas and a high degree of interdisciplinarity nowadays in this field of study. Indeed, it is hoped that interdisciplinarity is something that comes across in this book; for example, in the inclusion of chapters dedicated to religion, space/geography, media, as well as law, policing and criminal justice, which are topics not ordinarily featured so prominently in books about social movements and protest politics.

Notwithstanding the increasingly interdisciplinary nature of social movement studies, as in other fields, there will still be those who have a preference for one set of ideas or one theory over others. It should be noted, however, that, for the most part, theories about social movements have been generated in the Global North, which, it has been argued, points to the essential ethnocentricity of social movement studies. Accordingly, it is said students of social movements have not taken seriously enough questions that are, for instance, posed by the global justice movement, such as how the prosperity of the Global North has been achieved at the expense of the Global South. With its stress on post-materialism (and tendency to neglect political-economic issues), the new social movement perspective is especially guilty of this. We will consider that and other criticisms of new social movement theory in the following pages. Among other things, we will also look at some of the ways academic researchers have developed anti-colonial critiques of Western conceptions of science that have subjugated Indigenous knowledge (Chapter 2), as well as explore the ongoing legacies of policing's origins in slavery and colonialism, which are raised by Black Lives Matter activists and critical criminologists (Chapter 10). In addition, by providing case studies and examples of protest and social movements from around the world it is one intention of this book to remedy, in some small way, the tendency towards ethnocentrism in the literature. But there will undoubtedly be omissions.

POLICING THE POST-PROTEST SOCIETY

As indicated earlier, it would seem that in the context of the state's persistent attempts to clamp down on dissent, Meyer and Tarrow's (1998) somewhat sanguine view of the status of protest in the 'social movement society' is increasingly open to question. It is true that social movements and political protest continue to spring up. Indeed, since publishing the first edition of this book, a myriad of new or rejuvenated protests and movements have emerged. They include the second wave of Black Lives Matter protests following the police killing of George Floyd in Minneapolis on 25 May 2020, the Gilets Jaunes (yellow vests) in France in late 2018, which in many ways was an articulation of anti-austerity protests examined in the book's first edition, as well as the MeToo movement that came to prominence from 2017 after *The New York Times* published allegations of sexual assault and harassment made against movie producer Harvey Weinstein, thus empowering women globally to share their own stories of sexual assault and harassment across social media using the #MeToo hashtag.

As we shall see particularly in Chapter 9, many contemporary movements like these combine online activism using hashtags and social media with physical street protests, which, as considered in Chapter 4, is part and parcel of movement repertoire or tactics changing over time and adapting to certain contexts. Indeed, we have mentioned already how activists are increasingly inclined to adopt 'extreme' tactics to gain attention and get their messages across. For instance, by gluing themselves to roads, XR protestors have practiced a new variant of direct action and civil disobedience. Meanwhile, activists continue to disrupt major sporting events, including 118 animal rights protestors who delayed the start of the Grand National steeplechase at Aintree Racecourse, England in April 2023, as well as Just Stop Oil activists who disrupted a match at the World Snooker Championship held at The Crucible Theatre, Sheffield also in April 2023, the Gallagher Premiership rugby union final at Twickenham in May 2023, and the first day's play of the second Ashes test match at Lord's Cricket Ground in June 2023. On each of those occasions, Just Stop Oil protestors released orange powder/paint into the air (and over themselves), though in their disruption of a first-round match at Wimbledon in July 2023, they threw jigsaw pieces and orange-coloured confetti onto a tennis court; a tactic reminiscent of the 'glitter bombing' used by the LGBT rights movement (Galli 2016).

We will return to look at links between sport and social movements in Chapter 11 when we consider how global sporting events have increasingly become protest sites not only for activists but also participating athletes, which has ignited debate over whether

sportspeople should get involved in activism or just stick to playing sport. We also look at the symbolism of *political colours* in Chapter 6, though in the case of Just Stop Oil activists have simply said orange is used because it is 'a bright colour, a symbol of hope' (Mouriquand 2022).

As the literature on social movements and protest politics tells us, when activists change or innovate tactics so do states and state agents of social control such as police. One of the starkest illustrations of that was when police globally developed and refined new repressive techniques (e.g. containing protestors by 'kettling') to deal with protests following anti-globalisation activists' disruption of the WTO meetings in Seattle in 1999. Indeed, what became known as the Battle of Seattle has been seen as a watershed moment, after which police tactics became steadily more repressive and authoritarian, and the criminalisation of dissent intensified (Martin 2017a). Another example of the way police and protestor tactics interact and co-evolve that is invoked in Chapter 9 is what Gary Marx (2007: 299) describes as the 'surveillance arms race' involved when activists and police seek to outmanoeuvre one another in a series of moves and countermoves. An example is bodyworn cameras used by police to document their own conduct and that of protestors, which followed on the heels of protestors using smartphones to video police (mis)conduct at protest events.

As discussed in Chapter 10 (and mentioned above), critical criminologists increasingly draw attention to the origins of police in the slave patrols of colonialism and how that has a legacy in continuing to affect the role of police in protecting profits and ensuring the uninterrupted accumulation of capital via the maintenance of inequality. In the context of protest, too, that has meant police are required to safeguard the interests of the ruling elite and international capital when those interests are threatened by protestors – even if that means trampling on citizens' protest rights in the process. This privileging of business interests over protest rights has been described as an aspect of the 'political economy of protest' (Martin 2017a).

On a transnational scale, that has been evident in the securitisation and policing of space at so-called 'mega-events' like APEC, WTO, and G20 meetings (Martin 2011b). Here, nation-states strive at all costs to promote the 'global cities' in which these events are staged as *safe places* for tourism and capital investment. Often legislation is introduced by governments giving police special powers for the duration of mega-events, though these laws often remain on the statute books in some form or other long after the events have ended. This is but one example of the many instances of the encroachment or 'creep' of police powers into areas not previously regarded the domain of law enforcement, as well as the normalisation of

extraordinary measures that ramped up after the terror attacks of 11 September 2001 (Martin 2010).

While it is a principle of democratic systems of government that a balance be struck between protest rights, the economic rights of business, and the rights of citizens to go about their daily lives unimpeded, many have argued that for some time the scales have tipped too far against the right to protest. Given what has been said already about the vested interests involved in that process, it is instructive to observe the distinction Ben Bowling and James Sheptycki (2015) make between what they identify as the move from rule *of* law to rule *with* law, whereby legal engineers use 'power tools' to achieve certain ends, e.g. privileging economic rights over protest rights. It matters not whether the legal devices used are just, fair, or comply with human rights, or that they uphold the spirit of the law, so long as they adhere to the letter of the law.

We see rule *with* law play out across many contexts in ostensibly democratic societies, which are probably better thought of as 'post-democratic' societies. Here, 'post-democracy' is regarded a consequence of neoliberalism designating 'a situation where all the institutions of democracy – elections, changes of government, free debate, rule of law – continue, but they become a charade, because democratic institutions have been surpassed as major decision-making entities by small groups of financial and political elites' (Crouch 2016). We will return to look at these ideas in Chapter 11 as they provide important background for the emergence of movements like Occupy and the Indignados that have voiced opposition to the profound inequalities produced by capital accumulation under neoliberalism. For now, we can consider the operation of rule *with* law in the protest context as displayed in the meting out of ever harsher penalties to protestors in an intensification of the criminalisation of dissent.

For example, many Australian states and territories have introduced legislation providing both fines and jail terms of up to seven years for 'locking on' to equipment at mining and logging sites (Martin 2017a: 282). The most recent example of this has been the passing of the *Sustainable Forests Timber Amendment (Timber Harvesting Safety Zones) Act 2022* (Vic), which 'gives authorised officers additional powers to issue banning notices in restricted worksites where forestry activities are being undertaken', as well as the potential to impose fines on protestors of more than $20,000 or a jail term of up to one year if they enter those zones and interfere with workers or machinery (Mayers 2023).

State governments in Australia have also responded directly to XR tactics. In South Australia, laws were rushed through to deal with what Premier Peter Malinauskas saw as 'a new type of protect action emerge from Extinction Rebellion', after an XR protestor disrupted

the 'safe operation' of the state and city when they abseiled from the Morphett Street bridge, causing traffic chaos in Adelaide (Prosser and Richards 2023). The next day, the South Australian government introduced amendments to the *Summary Offences Act 1953* (SA) providing up to three months imprisonment and a possible fine of $50,000 (previously under section 58 of the Act there was no jail time and a maximum fine of $750) where a person 'intentionally or recklessly obstructs the free passage of a public place' (Kurmelovs 2023; see also Moulds 2023). In a similar manoeuvre, the New South Wales government has amended the *Crimes Act 1900* (NSW), which now imposes jail terms of up to two years and potential fines of $22,000 on protestors causing 'damage or disruption' to major roads or public facilities (Doherty 2023).

Meanwhile, commentators have observed that breaches of public assembly restrictions by protestors during the COVID-19 pandemic provided a pretext for the British government to strengthen police powers under the *Police, Crime, Sentencing and Courts Act 2022* (UK) (the Police Act) to deal with peaceful protests causing significant disruption, including a new offence of 'intentionally or recklessly causing public nuisance' (s 78), which attracts a penalty of up to ten years imprisonment (Martin 2023a). Subsequently, the *Public Order Act 2023* (UK) (the Public Order Act) created new offences intended to deal with disruptive protest tactics, such as locking on and being equipped for locking on, causing serious disruption by tunnelling, obstruction of major transport works, and interference with key national infrastructure.

The Public Order Act came into force on 2 May 2023, prior to the Coronation of King Charles III on 6 May 2023 where controversially the Metropolitan police detained six anti-monarchist protestors for 16 hours before releasing them without charge after they were arrested on suspicion of planning to employ luggage straps (used for securing their placards) to lock on to something and cause disruption (Syal and Grierson 2023). The locking on offence carries a maximum penalty of six months imprisonment, an unlimited fine, or both, whereas the maximum penalty for the offence of going equipped to lock on is an unlimited fine.

To George Monbiot (2023), the Public Order Act is much worse than the Police Act since '[t]he new offences it creates have been designed to allow the police to shut down every form of effective protest'. Indeed, in a further enhancement of police powers, section 34 of the Public Order Act broadens the definition of 'serious disruption', allowing police to break up 'slow march' tactics that are used by Just Stop Oil protestors to halt traffic on busy roads (Gayle 2023a). In addition, provisions under the Public Order Act 1986 (Serious Disruption to the Life of the Community) Regulations 2023 – lowering the threshold on public processions and public assemblies

that may result in serious disruption to the life of the community – now give police 'near total discretion' over which protests can be banned in England and Wales, according to leading human rights lawyer Adam Wagner (Gayle 2023b).

Previously, I have written about the intensification of criminalising dissent (Martin 2017a), as well as the ways police power at protest events operates *relatively autonomous* of judicial rulings affirming protest rights (Martin 2022b). However, what we have seen recently takes things to another level. In combination, the catalogue of laws giving police almost total control over protests paints a rather depressing picture of the current conjuncture that is at odds with Meyer and Tarrow's (1998) portrayal of the social movement society. Indeed, given the whittling away of protest rights to near vanishing point, we appear to be reaching a tipping point as we edge closer towards a 'post-protest society'.

SOCIAL MOVEMENTS AND PROTEST POLITICS

Given social movements and contentious politics largely aim to change society for the good, it would seem logical that a fundamental task of this book lies in understanding social movements and protest politics as *collective agents of change*. As we will see in Chapter 2, some researchers believe they have an important role to play here: intervening in collective action and/or partnering with social movements in their struggles for social justice. However, as noted earlier, not all social movements are progressive, which is pertinent to some of what we consider in Chapter 2 not only when we look at the ethics of researching these types of movements, but also when we examine critiques of research treating social movements as objects of study rather than as producers of knowledge in their own right. In this regard, and given what we have already discussed in respect of growing populism across democratic societies, we ought to heed della Porta and Pavan's (2017) contention that, '[i]n a moment in which "regressive" politics and right-wing populism emerge as strong threats, we expect knowledge production to be perceived even more relevant by movements struggling for justice and inclusion'. The theme of regressive movements also arises in Chapter 3, when we explore early attempts to understand social movements and other forms of collective behaviour. Some of the early collective behaviour theorists saw any kind of mass action as inherently irrational and ultimately dangerous, since it was associated, respectively, with the suppression of individual free will or with the emergence of fascism in twentieth-century Europe.

As we shall see, though, not all of the early theories of social movements regarded collective behaviour as necessarily negative or

bad. In Chapter 4, we turn to consider the other extreme, if you will, of the collective action spectrum, when we look at theories of social movements as essentially *rational collective actors* (i.e. means-ends oriented). Hence, according to resource mobilisation theorists, a movement's success is determined by its effective mobilisation of resources (means) to achieve certain political goals (ends). As such, much of the material covered in that chapter falls under the political process umbrella mentioned above. In Chapter 5, we consider new social movement theory, which emerged partly as a critique of the overly rationalistic resource mobilisation perspective and the overly political focus of the political process model, both of which, it is argued, tend to ignore the hidden cultural dimensions of social movements. As with other approaches, new social movement theory has not been without its critics, and in Chapter 5 we will consider those, addressing, among other things, the seemingly intractable question, 'what's new about new social movements?'

As a perspective that privileges the cultural over the political dimensions of social movements, new social movement theory can be seen as a product of the 'cultural turn' that occurred in the social sciences towards the end of the twentieth century. However, a concern for the cultural aspects of social movement activity is not limited to new social movement theory. So, in Chapter 6, we extend our cultural analysis of movements to examine other broadly cultural aspects of protest, looking, for instance, at the role of passion and emotion, storytelling and narrative, photography, art and crafts, music, and other performative elements of collective action. Chapter 7 considers religious movements and social movements. It explores some of the similarities and differences between religious and social movements by looking, for example, at the religious or spiritual qualities of social movements and the political and emancipatory features of religion and religious movements.

Chapter 8 considers the confluence of geography and social movement studies. It looks at both the physical and non-physical spaciality of social movements and protest, which includes issues relating to geo-political space, social space, cultural, and identity space. It also examines how protest space is policed and controlled by state authorities. Chapter 9 looks at the relationship between social movements and media, which includes the mainstream mass media and social media, as well as digital technologies, such as the Internet and smartphones with photographic and video-recording functionality. Like Chapter 2, Chapter 10 is a new chapter written exclusively for this second edition of *Social Movements and Protest Politics*. In that chapter, we consider the subfield of law and social movements, including looking at some of the ways lawyers work with activists to secure legal rights and social justice. On the related theme of law enforcement, the chapter also considers the exercise of police power at protest events. Lastly, the

chapter looks at criminal justice campaigning to explore contemporary debates over reform versus abolition.

Among other things, Chapter 11 considers globalisation and transnational activism, including a look at the global justice movement. In that chapter, we also look at the ways movements and activists have mobilised international human rights law, including in the case of former 'comfort women' who were subject to rape and sexual slavery instituted by the Japanese military during the Second World War. Indeed, here it should be stressed that in each chapter of the book examples of actual cases are provided to illustrate theoretical and conceptual points. Chapter 12 is a final concluding chapter, which draws together some of the main themes and perspectives that have figured prominently in the book. Our journey begins now though by looking at some of the methodological and ethical issues involved in conducting research into social movements and protest politics.

Note

1 It will be noted that the title of this second edition of the book has been changed to capture this way of thinking about social movements.

CHAPTER 2

Social movement research methods

INTRODUCTION

Scholars have tended to give insufficient attention to research methodology when studying social movements. When they have, it has been argued, they have often applied methodological tools and techniques 'without paying the least attention to the contexts in which these techniques had originally been elaborated' (Diani and Eyerman 1992: 1). So stated Mario Diani and Ron Eyerman (1992: 1) in their introductory remarks to an early volume that sought to consider 'some of the methodological problems involved in the study of collective action', including some that have been canvassed in subsequent published works that are covered later in this chapter.

Topics in that early volume included the dilemmas researchers face when they engage participants in 'distasteful movements' (Esseveld and Eyerman 1992), or what Gillan and Pickerill (2012: 136, referring to Creek 2012) call, 'ugly movements'. They also included discussion of the utility of protest event data, including media coverage of protest events (Rucht and Ohlemacher 1992); later examined by McCarthy et al. (1996), among others. Also considered are the temporal limitations of survey data (Klandermans 1992; Kriesi 1992) and other species of *quantitative* data, which might be remedied by *qualitative* techniques such as life history methods that can be used to 'illustrate how the experiences of individuals evolve and change instead of being static and stationary' (Chewinski and Corrigall-Brown 2023: 3; see also della Porta 1992).

DOI: 10.4324/9780367821760-2

A decade on from the Diani and Eyerman (1992) collection, Bert Klandermans and Susan Staggenborg (2002) edited a collection that included chapters on classic research methods, techniques, and strategies, such as surveys, interviewing and case studies, some of which are referred to in this chapter, though not always considered in detail as they encompass a mix of methodological issues that are addressed apropos of other topics. An example is the case study, which has been described not as a method per se but 'a research strategy, based on the triangulation of various data sources and data-gathering procedures, that seeks to generate rich, detailed, contextualised accounts of social phenomena that are interesting in their own right' (Snow 2023: 3).

More recently, Donatella della Porta (2014a) edited a text devoted to methodological practices in social movement research, contributions to which are also cited in this chapter, including Milan's (2014) chapter on ethics, which is a topic rarely, if ever, considered in books providing coverage of social movement research. Over time, then, consideration of methods has appeared to become more important to those interested in social movements and protest politics, though it could not be said there is yet a coherent literature on the topic as there is in other areas. Accordingly, this chapter draws on what remains a relatively disparate range of sources that explore issues involved in researching social movements.

Some texts on social movements do contain information on research methods, although this material can be somewhat limited and seldom appears as a discrete chapter. Hank Johnston (2014) does devote a chapter to researching social movements in his book, *What is a Social Movement*? He covers historical-comparative approaches (including Charles Tilly's work on the evolution of collective action repertoires that we look at in Chapter 4), qualitative methods (participant observation and intensive interviewing), and quantitative methods, including an exploration of the various selection biases involved in media reporting of protest events, which we discuss later in this chapter.

In her book on social movements, Staggenborg (2011: 47–49) also devotes some space to the use of different methods in social movement research, such as surveys, in-depth interviews, and participant observation. She notes, but does not consider in any detail, that each method has its strengths and weaknesses, concluding that, 'the use of multiple methods within and across empirical studies has been critical to the development of social movement theory' (Staggenborg 2011: 49). I use these examples only to illustrate the point that a thoroughgoing consideration of research methodology in texts on social movements is largely lacking. And while the first edition of this book was no exception in that respect, the inclusion in the book's second edition of this new chapter on research methods and

movements is intended to remedy that prior omission; though, it must be said, the material presented here does not by any means cover the field but instead canvasses some key debates in social movement studies, as well as 'classic' methodological issues and dilemmas confronted generally by social researchers.

THEORY BUILDING OVER METHODOLOGY?

As methodological issues have been neglected or ignored, theoretical and conceptual issues have predominated (Crist and McCarthy 1996). At other times, innovation of methods has been seen as a source for theoretical development (Roose 2016: 4). For Stefania Milan (2014: 449), the focus on theory building can be seen as a function of the 'progressive institutionalisation of social movement studies', which has meant, among other things, movement theory has been inclined to be self-referential. That, in turn, has resulted in movements being seen largely 'as objects of knowledge for academics, rather than as knowledge-producers in their own right' (Chesters 2012: 145). However, as Barker and Cox (2002: 1, 2, original emphasis) remind us, 'movements and their activists also produce "knowledge"', which is not the preserve of academics whose narrow theorising tends to 'treat what are, precisely, *movements*, as static "fields"'. In many respects, this object of knowledge/knowledge-producer distinction is bolstered by what Milan (2014: 447) sees as 'two radically different organisational cultures and routines, academic individualism on the one hand and activist collectivism on the other'.

However, while some argue critical distance and detachment from research subjects must be maintained for research to qualify as bona fide *scientific* research that is neutral or objective and thus valid and reliable, many social movement researchers, including Milan (2014: 458), believe it is important to bridge what can at times be 'the significant gulf between researchers and activist groups' by partnering with activists in a kind of symbiotic, reciprocal relationship, co-generating knowledge and working collaboratively with movements on the prefigurative politics they seek to enact. In her field research on social movements in Iran, Paola Rivetti (2017: 76) locates this species of research method in the 'co-research' that originated in the 1960s and 1970s during the early years of what came to be known as *operaismo*, or 'Italian workerism', whereby research is carried out in cooperation with subjects and research questions are 'co-constructed' by researchers and those they met in the field.

As we will see during the course of this chapter, to be both credible and ethical, this type of approach requires researchers exercise a

significant degree of self-reflection, or what is often termed 'reflexivity', which has been defined as 'a conscious experiencing of the self as both inquirer and respondent, as teacher and learner, as the one coming to know the self within the process of research itself' (Guba and Lincoln 2005: 210). The commitment to working with or alongside social movements is a theme running through this chapter and constitutes what Milan (2014: 452) calls, 'engaged research' that 'recognises the status of movement activists as autonomous and sophisticated knowledge producers'. Engaging activists in this way also helps researchers correct the inequality and power imbalance that exists between themselves and those they research, as well as resolve the ethical dilemma researchers often confront, which, if unresolved, may give rise to forms of exploitation whereby, for instance, '[a]ctivists might be left with the impression that researchers "take advantage" of activists merely to further their careers, while activists and their movements do not benefit from the research' (Milan 2014: 456).

This is a particular problem if the research relates to marginalised and disadvantaged groups. In the case of Indigenous peoples, for example, Lewis (2012: 233) argues attention ought to be given to the placed-based contexts in which Indigenous knowledges are situated, maintained, and transferred, often through storytelling, and how accordingly 'the particular knowledges of specific Indigenous peoples […] cannot be universalised'. In this way, Indigenous epistemologies and research methodologies conflict with notions of validity that are central to Western institutions and systems of thought, though as we will also see in Box 2.2, life history methods can be used effectively to situate individual experience within wider social structures (Chewinski and Corrigall-Brown 2023).

More broadly, Lewis (2012: 233) proposes this approach be tied to academics' wider ethical responsibility to incorporate anti-colonial analyses into their research and writing, which 'does not require that an Indigenous paradigm be insulated from broader critical research perspectives, but rather recognises that the primary aim of research is to benefit the community and contribute to resisting colonialism'. Similar arguments are made by Chabot and Vinthagen (2015: 518, original emphasis) who point to the 'Eurocentric universalism' of Western thought around civil resistance that is narrowly focused on public contention to expand political and civil rights within liberal democracies, thus ignoring struggles to challenge rather than join the liberal world system, as well as 'the *subjugated knowledges* of marginalised communities that refuse to be governed by coloniality and experiment with decolonising modes of being', including, as we will see in Chapter 8, the Zapatistas in Mexico. As we shall in Chapter 11, these issues point to the ethnocentricity of social movement theory that has been generated principally by reference to studies of protest

and activism in the Global North. These arguments also speak to the entwined issues of research ethics and scientism, both of which are considered in this chapter, including in the next section which looks at some of the possibilities for activist-led scholarly research.

POSSIBILITIES FOR ACADEMIC-ACTIVIST RESEARCH

On the occasion research methods are considered by social movement scholars, they are sometimes explored within the confines of a substantive area of study. One example of that is Veronica Barassi's (2013) idea of 'ethnographic cartography', which resonates with both methodology and the field of geography and social movements; the latter being the subject of Chapter 8. Drawing on ethnographic research within the Cuba Solidarity Campaign (CSC), and noticing how 'the spaces of action of CSC often changed and lost meaning', Barassi (2013: 57) uses the concept of ethnographic cartography as a methodological and analytical tool to discern the ways social movement networks are embedded in everyday practices and narratives of place-making. Another example related to what we will look at in Chapter 5 relates to the increasing interest in visual methods of social movement analysis, which spotlights the power of images used by resource-poor activists, such as young precarious workers, who find visual strategies highly effective in diffusing ideas for social change with global reach (Doerr and Milman 2014; Doerr and Teune 2023).

In another instance of methodological issues being explored via substantive areas of study, this time relating to narrative and storytelling as discussed in Chapter 6, Polletta and Gardner (2014: 542) show how stories can act as data *and* method insofar as '[m]uch social movement research involves interviewing activists, who recount, usually in narrative form, their experiences in a movement or movements'. Moreover, the centrality of oral testimonies in rights claiming and the formation of political and ethnic identities is key to what Lynn Stephen (2013: 21) calls the 'ethnographic collaborative research' she conducted as an anthropologist working for a quarter of a century with Indigenous groups and organisations in Oaxaca, Mexico. In what has been described as 'a classic example of engaged activist-scholar research', Stephen 'inserts herself directly into the story. She recounts posting videos of protests on YouTube and collecting material to assist in political asylum claims' (Becker 2018: 205).

It is not uncommon for those identifying as 'activist anthropologists', such as Stephen, to conduct research that is overtly political and aligned to struggles for social justice (see Hale 2008; Naples 2003; Speed 2006, 2008). In part, that stems from what is now a long-standing critique within the discipline of anthropology as to its colonial

origins, including calls by the Modernity Coloniality Group to decolonise the social sciences (Castro-Gómez 1998, 2000) in an effort to give voice to subaltern groups in the Global South and their counter-hegemonic discourses that 'question "extractive methodologies" and confront positivist perspectives that, in the name of "scientific neutrality", end up reifying the status quo', which increasingly adheres to and bolsters a neoliberal logic (Hernández Castillo 2016: 34). And these arguments extend to the field of social movements, which, for Aldon Morris (2019: 125), 'is too white, contains too many elite biases, and is too western and insular'.

A case in point is Hernández Castillo's (2016) reflections on her work with Indigenous women in Latin American rural communities. Reflecting, in particular, 'on the methodological routes' that are the basis for her book, 'with emphasis on the epistemological possibilities of activist research', Hernández Castillo (2016: 33) draws on her 'experience as an academic and an activist working for almost three decades advocating for women's rights in contexts of cultural diversity', where she has confronted 'disparaging remarks from the positivist academy and skepticism from anti-academic activisms'. Specifically, she says, 'I defend the epistemological wealth resulting from conducting research in alliance or collaboration with social movements, and I propose that social research can contribute to developing critical thought and destabilise the discourses of power in struggles waged by movements working for social justice' (Hernández Castillo 2016: 33) (see Box 2.3).

It is against this backdrop that is critical of the scientism and positivistic claims of those based largely in the Global North as to neutrality and objectivity that we should frame our initial thoughts about the ways students of social movements have approached methodology. While some have striven to fulfil the requirements of Western social scientific research, others aligning themselves with social justice causes have collaborated with the *subjects* of their research; as opposed to research *objects* (Truman 2000: 28). If we think about this in terms of the longue durée of sociological thought, we might observe it as a view that coheres with Max Weber's(1949) belief that *all* social scientific research is 'value-relevant' insofar as sociologists are inevitably guided by their own values or make value judgements when choosing topics to research for their 'ethical interest'. That view of what is essentially 'partisan research' is also consistent with Karl Marx's position, set out at the beginning of Chapter 1, regarding the purpose of social science as being not to interpret the world but to change it.

As we shall see later in the chapter, that is not to say those conducting research in these ways do not strive to carry out rigorous research that is ethical and seeks to produce valid, reliable, and representative data, since 'to eschew value-freedom does not deny

openness, accountability, rigour, honesty, and transparency, and indeed for some nor does it mean that we cannot retain a reference to objectivity' (Canning et al. 2023b: 12, citing Agozino 2020). However, research into social movements is distinctive for having the potential to partner with research participants to bring about change. Like Marx, Carole Truman (2000: 26, citing Cook and Fonow 1986) points to this when she says, 'research should not merely exist to describe the world but to change it'.

Drawing on discourse from feminist and disability research, as well as her own research collaboration with an activist group of gay men called, Healthy Gay City (HGC), whose aim was to tackle safe sex and health issues in the gay community in Manchester, England (see Figure 2.1), Truman (2000: 30) shows how research might have *transformative potential* 'to be more than participatory, but actually emancipatory'. In her case, she partnered with HGC to conduct a health-needs assessment, the results of which were intended to influence policy makers and fundholders. Hence, there was a direct link between research and activism aimed at impacting policy, such that HGC 'saw social research as being integral to their activism and campaigning work to secure resources in the fight against HIV/AIDS' (Truman 2000: 29).

As a lesbian, Truman (2000: 31) describes her participation in the project as one of 'conscious partiality', since she was 'party to the broad arena of lesbian and gay politics', though she was aware also that her identity as a lesbian could not mask 'important differences, tensions, and inequalities between lesbians and gay men'. Her structural position as an academic was also key to her identity and to the research itself, ensuring the technical success of the study and providing it with credibility, which, along with the university affiliation, gave weight to the final research report so as to appeal to policy makers and funders. What Truman describes here is not dissimilar to what Santos (2012) talks about in terms of it being the ethical thing to do to self-reflexively acknowledge that all actors, including researchers, are *situated subjects*, as well as to embrace politics as an intended effect of knowledge production. In this context, she says, where researchers strive not for some illusory goal of value-neutrality, '"double-agency" – understood as the politically engaged role of scholar-activists within academia – becomes not only legitimate, but desirable' (Santos 2012: 246).

The activist-academic relationship has been addressed by several commentators across the social sciences. Anthropologist, Charles Hale (2006: 97), for instance, describes 'activist research' as 'a method through which we affirm a political alignment with an organised group of people in struggle and allow dialogue with them to shape each phase of the process, from conception of the research



Figure 2.1 'Welcome to Manchester's Gay Village' mural on the wall of Churchill's public house on Canal Street in the lesbian and gay village in Manchester, England

Source: © zoompics/Alamy

topic to data collection to verification and dissemination of the results'. Hale (2006: 98) goes on to juxtapose activist research with 'cultural critique', that is, an 'approach to research and writing in which political alignment is manifested through the content of the knowledge produced, not through the relationship established with an organised group of people in struggle'. Accordingly, Hale 'positions activist researchers as having a dual responsibility to their academic community and to a specific political struggle' (Smeltzer 2012: 262).

In a similar vein, Dawson and Sinwell (2012) draw on Croteau's (2005) distinctions between the 'SCHOLAR-activist' and the 'ACTIVIST-scholar' – each respectively stressing either the primacy of academic careers or prioritising activism over scholarship – to argue for an integrated 'SCHOLAR-ACTIVIST' approach that entails what Juris (2007: 164) calls 'militant ethnography' or 'a politically engaged and collaborative form of participant observation carried out from

within rather than outside grassroots movements' (see also Box 2.1). This role of activist-intellectual simultaneously 'requires scholars to be embedded and active within movements and to challenge the "institutional logic of academia itself"' (Dawson and Sinwell 2012: 188, quoting Juris 2007: 165).

The balancing act involved in managing these various roles will mean that, under certain circumstances, academics may act as handmaidens to activists' ends. Thus, from the perspective of the gay community in Truman's (2000: 32) research, it was the HGC who were conducting the research not her as an 'academic spectator'. Hence, from the outset, HGC had a commitment to spend the research money in the gay and lesbian community by, for instance, having gay men undertake face-to-face interviews. That way, gay men received payment for their work as well as gained training, experience in research work, and skills enhancement in the process. This approach also had the advantage of resolving an ethical dilemma often faced by researchers in terms of the question of who benefits from research.

Although feedback from participants in Truman's study with the HGC indicated they were happy to be involved because they saw it contributing to the greater good of the community, all too often academic careers are advanced via the exploitation of research participants and the information and knowledge they freely give to professional researchers. In Truman's (2000: 32) case, however, 'a different set of social relationships were constructed in the research process because the research was seen to be a form of activism'. That is to say, the research had the potential to empower research participants not only through their participation in the research or because it involved the exchange of information between researcher and research participants or because the research might lead to self-understanding, but because it helped HGC as an organisation continue to 'find resources to undertake their innovative approach to promoting safe sex within the gay and bisexual community' (Truman 2000: 33).

In describing some of the ways HGC were able to bring about change and impact broader policy not only locally but also to a certain extent nationally 'by drawing attention to a large gay population outside the environs of London', Truman's (2000: 33) work resonates with that part of the literature concerned to understand the effects and consequences of mobilisation or *how* and *why* social movements matter (Cox 2018; Giugni et al. 1999; Meyer 2021b), including methodological achievements in determining the causal impact of protest on policy change (Bosi and Uba 2009). Her interest in working *with* activists to affect change also chimes with the pioneering methodological innovations of Touraine and his students, which is discussed in the next section.

SOCIOLOGICAL INTERVENTIONS IN COLLECTIVE ACTION

Arguably, the prototypical approach to doing social movement research was devised by French sociologist, Alain Touraine, in the 1970s. Touraine's (1978: 182) method was conceived as *intervention sociologique* or 'sociological intervention', which he defined as, '[t]he action of the sociologist bringing social relationships to light and making these relationships the principal object of analysis'. During the 1970s and 1980s, Touraine and his colleagues conducted a number of interventions, including with French student and labour movements, the anti-nuclear movement, and Solidarity in Poland. Unlike other more conventional methodological techniques, 'sociological intervention does not aim at gathering data; it aims at reconstructing and exploring a struggle to become an actor' (McDonald 2002a: 249). For example, the sociological intervention with Solidarity:

> … pointed to a movement made up of actors involved in struggles for national independence, democracy and labour rights. These dimensions were in tension and at times in conflict, and the success and later fragmentation of Solidarnosc was a story of the construction and deconstruction of the synthesis of these identities. (McDonald 2002a: 249)

The hope is that a sociological intervention will result in researchers being able to assist a social movement 'move from *reliving* its experience to *analysing* its experience' (McDonald 2002a: 255, original emphasis). Although he has criticised this approach for conferring on social researchers a role akin to that of a missionary (Melucci 1995: 58), Italian sociologist, and former student of Touraine, Alberto Melucci, was nevertheless influenced by Touraine in developing his own research methodology (Melucci 1989: 236). As we shall see in Chapter 5, for Melucci, the formation of a collective identity is crucial to contemporary social movements seeking to communicate clear and coherent messages to the broader society. However, more often than not, collective actors will be comprised of a plurality of groups, interests, and orientations that can conflict or be in tension with one another.

In this sense, Melucci's approach is part of what he calls a 'sceptical paradigm', or legacy of work critical of those who have mistakenly attributed 'cohesiveness to what are disparate empirical phenomena' (Melucci 1992: 242), and have thereby regarded collective action as a 'thing' (Melucci 1984: 821, 1985: 792). By treating collective action as a 'unitary empirical datum' (Melucci 1988b: 330) in this way, Melucci argues theorists 'fail to clarify the process of construction of collective identity by means of interactions, negotiations and relationships with

the environment' (Melucci 1989: 37). Indeed, while Touraine's sociology of action attempts to free actors from their submission to the logic of the system, Melucci (1985: 794) believes that is done on a level that is far too abstract, as it takes for granted the *processes* involved in producing unity and constructing a collective identity out of the plurality of meanings and orientations that comprise social movements. In short, Touraine (1985: 751) continues to regard collective identity as a datum, as something that is essential to a social movement, positing, for example, 'social conflicts have in common a reference to "real" – that is, organised – actors'. Agency, however, is central to Melucci's *constructivist approach*, which assigns action itself to the level of analysis, not merely assuming collective phenomena are unified as do analysts who more typically study the *visible* face of movements (e.g. protest events, mobilisations), or the *product* (rather than the underlying processes) of collective action.

Hence, to Melucci (1981: 178), social movements ought not to be thought of in terms that conjure up images of unity, consensus, and homogeneity because 'a real movement is always a complex and heterogeneous historical reality'. Indeed, plurality within movements has implications for mobilisation, which is fragile, 'since it often holds together around general and confused objectives a heterogeneous "base"' (Melucci 1981: 179). Importantly, however, at a movement's *less visible*, submerged level (of everyday life), plurality produces tensions, and there are always potential tensions requiring continual negotiation. Accordingly, Melucci argues we need to study the processes of interaction, negotiation, conflict, and compromise that produce unity and a collective identity in the face of diversity and tension. In this way, 'collective action is seen as a social product, as a set of social relationships, and not as a primary datum or given metaphysical reality' (Melucci 1988a: 247).

In contrast to Touraine's tendency to reify social movements, the merit of Melucci's constructivist approach lies in it not ignoring but exposing the problems inherent in constructing solidarity, and 'by refusing to assume the unity of social movements and treating unity as a specific problem (solidarity in difference)' (Bartholomew and Mayer 1992: 144). It is only by working at the submerged (cultural) level of daily life that researchers can detect and analyse the fragile and conflictual character of contemporary movements and the problems they continually confront when needing to produce unity and solidarity in the face of diversity and tension.

Although Melucci is highly critical of Touraine's (1981) method of *intervention sociologique*, his own research methodology is very much influenced by it (see Melucci 1989: 236) as here, too, researchers are called upon to intervene in the collective action of social movements. Central to Melucci's (1992: 249) approach is a negotiated and contractual relationship between researchers and actors where the interests

of these two distinct parties temporarily meet to create the possibility for exchange: 'that of the researcher to gather information and that of the actors to improve his capacity to act consciously and meaningfully'. Melucci (1992: 247–249) argues this contractual relationship permits 'meta-communication' to occur between the two parties which, in turn, leads to the discovery and solution of conflicts and tensions within the various groups comprising a movement, thereby enhancing possibilities for collective action.

Each group is asked to define itself and the various faces of its identity as they relate to the movement to which it belongs, as well as being encouraged to show an awareness of the relationship between itself, its partners, and its opponents. That is done under 'experimental' conditions by contriving game-playing situations and using video recording play-back sessions. The research design also includes participant observation, though this is only used to supplement experimental situations, which are central. Thus, by studying 'natural groups' at the grassroots level (Melucci 1989: 247), participant observation is used 'to temper the artificiality of the laboratory situation' (Melucci 1989: 242).

To be sure, Melucci's (1989: 236) approach benefits from being more sensitive than that of most social movement theorists to many of the widespread changes that were occurring in the field of qualitative methodology at the time he was writing. For instance, he incorporated a high degree of reflexivity into his research design whereby the researcher-actor relationship is continually monitored by means of 'feedback' sessions, and the degree of 'distortion' that is introduced by the researcher's intervention in action under artificial conditions becomes itself the object of observation and analysis (Melucci 1989: 239, 1992: 247, 1995: l58). Nevertheless, while Cordner et al. (2012: 169) regard what they term, 'reflexive research ethics', as important insofar as that 'involves being attentive to the heterogeneity of interests, needs and demographics within a particular movement, group or community', Melucci's (1989: 251) approach requires researchers intervene in the collective action of social movements, such that they do not merely reveal the existence of plurality, conflict and tension in collective action but play an active part in structuring the gestalt of contemporary movements and their composite groups. To that end, Melucci (1992: 248) believes researchers possess knowledge that renders the processes involved in collective action more transparent to movement actors. Researchers thereby *enable* movement members to construct a collective identity.

Since, as we shall see in Chapter 5, the message of contemporary movements is transmitted to society via their *form* or collective identity, and only those actors with a clearly defined collective identity are regarded capable of realising that goal, researchers

perform some political function by intervening in collective action. Researchers are assigned the task of enabling complex social movements to construct a collective identity, a sense of unity or solidarity, which may or may not have political intentions, though it will likely have 'political' outcomes if Melucci's arguments about the increasing significance of the cultural form of contemporary movements are to be heeded. While prima facie this is like Touraine's method of intervening in collective action, it differs in the sense that Touraine, unlike Melucci, aims to discover *the* central movement of post-industrial society, whereby researchers perform a task analogous to that of a missionary, in that they end up playing the role of *deus ex machina*, as Melucci (1992: 246, 1995: 58) puts it.

As we will see in the next section and during the course of this chapter, the 'political' role of social movement researchers intervening in collective action, as both Touraine and Melucci advocate, is seen as problematic from the vantage point of positivistic models of social scientific research, which strive to produce 'objective', value-neutral data. However, critics of that approach recognise the impossibility and even the undesirability of conducting research that seeks to be detached from rather than embrace the politics of those they study, recognising, too, social movements are themselves knowledge producers that often work in partnership with academic researchers to co-produce knowledge. We have already touched upon these issues, which coalesce in Dawson and Sinwell's (2012: 179) critique of 'participatory action research' (PAR) approaches, including Touraine's sociological intervention, which, they say, 'have created a false binary between knowledge production in the academy and activism in social movements which […] obscures the fact that knowledge is also produced in social movements'. We will discuss social movement research ethics later in the chapter, but for now, it is worth noting how Dawson and Sinwell (2012: 183) regard theirs as an ethical approach to PAR and sociological intervention, since it 'involves acknowledging that movements themselves are the sites of the production of theoretical and sociological knowledge' (see also Varkarolis and King 2017).

Box 2.1 Ethnography in social movement research and practice

Ethnography is a method derived largely from the discipline of anthropology, the primary object of which is the study of 'culture' or 'a particular way of life' (Williams 1976: 81). Ethnographers use principally the technique of 'participant observation', which, say Juris and Khasnabish (2014: 578, original emphasis), when employed in social movement studies '*together with* a group in struggle, would seem to be a logical

and effective way of capturing the emotions, lived experiences, and everyday struggles of activists'. Tending to be the preserve of anthropology and critical geography (Juris and Khasnabish 2014), it has long been observed that ethnography has been underutilised in mainstream social movement studies (Escobar 1992; Lichterman 2023). Nevertheless, ethnographic methods have been usefully employed to study social movement subcultures, new religious movements and social networks, and to examine the ways activists frame their public claims-making (Lichterman 2023).

Juris and Khasnabish (2014) show how there are also plenty more promising research opportunities within social movement studies, including in arguably the most obvious area of 'everyday cultural production'. Hence, with its focus on daily life, or everyday lived experience, ethnography is ideally placed to examine the internal dynamics of movement cultures, which, as we shall see later in the book, has been of interest to social movement theorists since the emergence of identity-oriented movements in the 1960s and the 'cultural turn' that occurred in the social sciences from the 1990s (Lichterman 2023: 2). From this viewpoint, 'ethnography is well-suited to observing particular decision-making practices and organisational forms, while grasping the subtleties of complex internal struggles' (Juris and Khasnabish 2014: 583).

To Lichterman (2023: 1), ethnographic research has two distinctive features: it 'investigates action in the setting of the actor, in the time of the actor'. Accordingly, the ethnographer 'takes extensive descriptive notes on people, places, action, and interactions of one or more "field sites", face-to-face or virtual […] codes those notes systematically, develops new hypotheses and refines initial ones, and continues observing settings in light of those new or refined hypotheses, working towards the goal of addressing puzzles that emerged from the site' (Lichterman 2023: 1). However, ethnographers tend to do so not 'from the statistically based, hypothesis-testing logic familiar throughout social science' (Lichterman 2023: 1), but from the position of 'grounded theory' – or, at least, some version of it (Strauss 1994: 6) – striving to remain faithful to the data rather than forcing data to fit a theory (Glaser and Strauss 1967: 34; see also Mattoni 2014).

Hence, as Juris and Khasnabish (2014: 579) observe, 'ethnography is more than a set of research methods, including participant observation and open-ended, narrative-oriented interviews'; it is also 'a mode of analysis and writing that allows us to capture the subjective mood, tone, and feeling of

social movement events, activities, and encounters' (see also Lichterman 1998). For instance, while ethnography enables researchers to understand what is going on in the hidden grassroots of a movement (Plows 2008: 1524), ethnography is equally able to grasp some of the more visible moments of protest, such as performative protest (see Chapter 6). Here, the embodied encounters of ethnographers allow them to experience up-close and first-hand the symbolic and theatrical aspects of activism, the dynamics of public demonstrations, and the communal life of street protests. Another version of this approach has been termed, 'political ethnography', which 'draws upon close-up observation of politics in action to scrutinise the dispositions, skills, desires, and emotions of a variety of political actors and the meanings that they attach to their practices' (Auyero and Joseph 2007: 2).

As we will see later in the chapter, though, direct participation or immersion in the social setting under investigation throws up a series of dilemmas for researchers and activists alike, including how to behave ethically in what has been variously described as the 'heat of struggle' (Juris and Khasnabish 2014: 587) or 'fog of protest' (Su 2023: 1). Indeed, as we have seen already, a key methodological and ethical issue in social movement research is the extent to which it is desirable for academic researchers to engage politically with the social movements and activists they study. Methodologically, while ethnographic research is such that 'the researcher observes and to some degree participates in action *as the action is happening*' (Lichterman 2023: 1, original emphasis), it is theoretically possible for social researchers conducting fieldwork to take on any of the four following roles: from *complete participant* and *complete observer* at two extremes to *participant-as-observer* and *observer-as-participant* in between (Gold 1958).

For example, in his study of police-protestor interactions in city spaces, Anson Au (2017, quoting Ellis 2003: 47) gained enough trust from protestors to access their thoughts and feelings and the meanings they attributed to them, measuring those meanings 'against the interpretations of an outsider by shuffling between different participation roles to simultaneously construct an auto-ethnographic account of the "different selves" that emerged from my different roles, investigating how my experiences align with propositions generated from ethnography'. Similarly, Alex Plows (2008: 1524) has shown how intersubjective engagement of this sort does not compromise but enhances ethnographic research when she argues that, 'my own autobiography as an activist turned "insider researcher", reflexively undertaking "action

research" has enabled good ethnographic practice in terms of developing trust and access within activist communities and other research participants, and the end result of robust findings and viable analysis'.

Thus, contrary to 'scientific' ways of doing social research that stress objectivity, value-neutrality, and so forth, many researchers in social movement studies regard it important to 'allow oneself to be transformed by the research process', which, in relation to ethnographic research, means participating in social action in ways that are engaged rather than detached and distant; in other words, practicing what Juris (2007) calls 'militant ethnography', which 'fundamentally challenges, even if it does not overcome, the (researching) subject-(researched) object divide' (Juris and Khasnabish 2014: 580).

Although 'there is room for a wide range of positionalities, ranging from casual support to full-scale "observant-participant"' (Juris and Khasnabish 2014: 580, quoting Costa Vargas 2006), the conundrum for engaged ethnographers who have some degree of identification with a movement is how to speak simultaneously to the political concerns of activists *and* the intellectual concerns of academic audiences. One of the crucial ways that can occur is in a domain of everyday cultural production that involves the knowledge-making activities of social movements, which we have discussed already in the chapter. Hence, as Juris and Khasnabish (2014: 584) argue, recognising that 'social movements and activists create their own knowledge forces us to re-evaluate the status of our own ethnographic knowledge production', leading potentially to 'a confluence between practical movement knowledge required for effective mobilisation and the kinds of embedded knowledge generated by militant ethnography'.

In this spirit, it is worth remembering that although participant observation and ethnography have not been methods commonly used in social movement studies, it is precisely because the early theorists of social movements, such as Doug McAdam (2002: 281–282) and William Gamson (1975: 134), were active participants in mobilisations during the 1960s and 1970s that they developed critiques of collective behaviour theories – which, as discussed in Chapter 3, saw a mix of personal pathology and social disorganisation as precipitants of movement emergence – and turned accordingly to innovative work on the organisational and strategic aspects of protest (Balsiger and Lambelet 2014: 144).

ELEMENTS OF AN EXPANDING METHODOLOGICAL REPERTOIRE: PROTEST SURVEYS, INTERVIEWS, BIAS, AND SAMPLING

The general lack of concern for methodological issues within social movements studies identified at the beginning of this chapter was highlighted in an article by Crist and McCarthy (1996) published in the very first issue of *Mobilization*, which compared articles appearing in elite US journals to document changes in research methodologies connected to a shift in the field from individual to organisation perspectives. At several points, they show how theory has largely prevailed over methodology, though importantly, and quite rightly, they note theory and method are 'closely intertwined' (Crist and McCarthy 1996: 100; see also Smeltzer 2012: 267). They observe that nowhere in the social movement literature has 'much attention [been] paid to major changes in research methodology which accompanied the theoretical reorientation' that occurred in social movements studies during the 1960s and 1970s (Crist and McCarthy 1996: 89).

That reorientation consisted of a move away from studying collective behaviour as a psychological state of individuals to a focus on social movement organisations (SMOs). Accompanying that theoretical reorientation was a methodological shift. While survey methods were regarded as a suitable strategy for collecting and analysing data about the psychology and behaviour of individuals during 1960–1965, they were ill-suited to the study of movement organisations or large collective action events that were the focus of subsequent periods. Indeed, the latter period was marked by the use of an increasingly diverse range of available methodologies, which itself reflected a 'rapid change in the methodological repertoire' of the wider discipline of sociology (Crist and McCarthy 1996: 99). Hence, there was increased use of government data sources, more reliance on the archives of non-governmental organisations (NGOs), such as movement organisations, the United Nations and World Bank, as well as drawing on news media sources (mainly the press) as interest piqued in 'event-history' techniques relying on media 'traces' of events (McCarthy et al. 1996).

However, the use of media sources, like newspapers, throws up a distinct set of methodological issues associated with 'selection bias', such that media will tend to home in on stories about protests that editors deem 'newsworthy', such as those that are violent or attract large numbers of participants (Hug and Wisler 1998). That, in turn, means their use should be treated with caution, which is one reason studies such as that of McCarthy et al. (1996: 479) used extra-media data sources – namely the demonstration permit application records of three police agencies in Washington DC in 1982 and 1991 – to

compare 'with reports of Washington demonstrations that appeared in local and national print and electronic media in the same years'. That comparison of official police records and media coverage revealed 'significant variation in how they were covered by the media for these two years, as well as in several of their characteristics' (McCarthy et al. 1996: 494). Additionally, the advent of digital methods and data sources, means 'digital trace data' can be used to address the challenge of analysing ephemeral populations like social movements and protest events, as well as counter the 'elite bias' that is produced using newspaper data and biographies where only movement leaders make it into media stories about protest: 'with social movements communicating online, discourse from rank and file is now available in abundance, helping to redress the issue of elite bias' (Carlsen and Toubøl 2023: 3).

According to Crist and McCarthy (1996: 90), two works stand out as milestones of the type of methodological innovation they see characterising post-1965 research into social movements: first, Tilly et al.'s (1975) study of collective violence in Europe, which 'remains one of the first and most comprehensive models of newspaper-based research on events'; and secondly, McAdam's (1982) study of black American protest events, 1930–1970, also using 'newspapers to measure attributes of collective action over time, while incorporating public opinion surveys, church membership records, SMO archival material, and Supreme Court records', which is therefore 'a very good example of the eclectic use of data sources'. Indeed, it has been observed that protest event analysis 'has become a key method of social movement research over the past decades', where scholars have tended to use 'newspaper articles as their textual sources', though 'the range of sources has expanded over time and covers, amongst other things, police reports and information provided by digital media' (Hutter 2014: 335).

Also highlighting the lack of any systematic appraisal of research methods in the literature on social movements, Walgrave and Verhulst (2011: 207–208, 219) propose a means for overcoming *selection bias* and *response bias* when deploying protest surveys, which is a technique used to gauge activists' attitudes, behaviour, and sociodemographic characteristics while in the act of protesting. Emulating the fieldwork method designed by Favre et al. (1997: 21–25), to mitigate selection bias Walgrave and Verhulst (2011: 212) used a systemic sampling procedure at moving protests rather than static events (sampling at the latter being more complicated and more prone to selection biases) where 'fieldwork supervisors count rows to ensure a fair dispersion of questionnaires over the whole marching column, giving every demonstrator an equal chance to be singled out'. They conducted a series of 22 protest surveys between 1998 and 2006, across a variety of issues and countries that yielded

an average 40 percent response rate, which is a very good response rate considering average response rates for mail-in surveys tend to be 10–20 percent. In only 2 of the 22 cases were response rates below 30 percent where, for example, there was a cultural-linguistic barrier when protestors did not speak any of the two languages in which the questionnaire was drafted.

In part, high response rates can be accounted for by the fact that protestors are a class of people who tend to want to express their dissatisfaction and discontent, though a disadvantage of on the spot interviews at protest events compared to mail-in surveys filled out at home is that they can be 'affected by the "heat of the moment", as well as social pressures from the social environment in which they participate' (Walgrave and Verhulst 2011: 208). Conversely, for addressing specific questions about the emotions people experience when protesting, 'oral interviews on the spot may produce better or more reliable data than mail-in surveys' (Walgrave and Verhulst 2011: 208).

Unlike previous studies employing protest surveys, Walgrave and Verhulst used short face-to-face oral interviews at protest events combined with longer mail-in questionnaires. In so doing, they were able to 'unite the strengths of both approaches: the near-guarantee of a representative sample (oral) and a large amount of evidence (mail-in)' (Walgrave and Verhulst 2011: 212). Accordingly, oral interviews with an almost perfect response rate were used to test for any bias in returned mail-in surveys. With Walgrave and Verhulst (2011: 216) having a response rate for face-to-face interviews at 'close to 100 percent', their focus in respect of those oral interviews was on remedying *selection bias*, whereas their focus in respect of mail-in questionnaires was on overcoming *response bias*. That 'procedure in which the same respondent is briefly interviewed orally and then asked to take a second part of the questionnaire home and send it back', they conclude, 'is noteworthy for yielding convincing results' (Walgrave and Verhulst 2011: 219). In line with other studies, they found female respondents and older people were more likely to collaborate and return mail-in questionnaires. Reflecting broader trends in low political participation rates among young people, Walgrave and Verhulst found young people completed postal surveys less frequently.

Just as Walgrave and Verhulst's (2011) study of selection and response bias in protest surveys broaches several classic methodological issues, including sampling, reliability, and representativeness, so Earl's (2013) comparison of the use of three different sampling designs to study online activism raises issues related to representativeness and generalisability and to some extent bias as well (see also Mosca 2014). First, she considers della Porta and Mosca's (2009) study of the websites of 35 protest organisations associated with the

global justice movement operating across 6 European countries and transnationally. In that study, sampling was *purposive*, in that it relied on the researchers' detailed knowledge of the substantive movement 'in constructing a sampling frame and in executing the sampling itself', given their belief that 'random samples of online materials are impossible to produce' (Earl 2013: 402). In doing so, says Earl (2013: 402), della Porta and Mosca 'implicitly hope that the set of sites they select are not so different from key population characteristics as to make their data idiosyncratic'. However, while this approach has an 'intuitive appeal' it risks a serious sampling error insofar as representativeness of sample and generalisability of data/results – 'often among the most important things for which researchers strive' – are seriously threatened (Earl 2013: 392).

Here, reliance on the expert knowledge of researchers effectively creates a skewed sample (a form of bias), which is a risk ameliorated when a sampling frame is randomised. Random sampling also allows researchers to better generalise results across an identified population. Such was the case in Stein's (2009) study of the online activities of US movement organisations, which drew on the Encyclopedia of Associations (EA) for its sampling frame, whereby '[a]fter identifying an SMO, she searched for its website and coded it', which she said, gave 'her a random sample of movement websites' (Earl 2013: 393). While there are definite advantages to Stein's sampling design, it also has disadvantages based on two assumptions that limit her capacity to generalise findings. First, it assumes the online actions of social movements can be understood comprehensively via SMOs, whereas research demonstrates a good deal of online protest activity occurs outside of SMOs (see Benkler 2006; Earl and Kimport 2011; Shirky 2008). Secondly, while the use of the EA as a sampling frame captures large, well-established SMOs, it does not adequately capture the actions of 'younger organisations or very small or subnational organisations' (Earl 2013: 393). Nevertheless, Stein's 'use of random sampling increases the odds that the sample will at least be representative of SMOs operating across the movements she studied' (Earl 2013: 402).

While Stein's use of the EA generated a random sample that reduced bias and increased representativeness, according to Andrews et al. (2016) reliance on any single source tends to yield bias on theoretically important characteristics of organisations. Hence, they argue, researchers can reduce bias significantly by combining sources to create a 'peak list' compiled from a wide range of sources. Earl (2013: 403) herself offers an alternative approach to resolve the 'sampling dilemma in online activism research'. She contends that even when one has access to the resources of large companies such as Google and Microsoft, it is impossible to catalogue all Internet-based material. However, 'it is possible to identify the set of sites that an

average user could be at risk for finding online without having a direct URL' (Earl 2013: 402). She refers to sites users can find via a search or by using links from known sites as 'reachable sites' and proposes that search engines like Google 'can be used for repetitive and overlapping searches that, when concatenated, produce a population of reachable sites that can be used as a comprehensive sampling frame' (Earl 2013: 402). For scholars interested in covert activity, the assumption of this sampling design does not make sense, though it does provide a strong sampling frame for those interested in public online protest. Moreover, in contrast to the other two organisationally focused studies:

> … the sampling frame focused on reachable websites finds significant levels of social movement activity happening outside of SMOs, lower levels of online support for offline protest, and higher levels of online protest […] This, in turn, suggests that if researchers are interested in generalising to a broader array of protest-relevant actors than SMOs, or want to speak about movements more generally, then they should prefer a method like Earl's reachable population method. (Earl 2013: 403–404)

Speaking of online social movement research, it should be noted what Mosca (2014) has said about the use of online participant observation posing similar dilemmas for 'digital ethnographers' as those raised by offline participant observation. Notwithstanding what we discussed earlier about the futility of thinking about objectivity, value-freedom, and so forth, Mosca (2014: 410) says, 'a full participant is better equipped to describe a certain phenomenon, but she is also at risk of sharing the cultural horizon of the group and dismissing her critical point of view', while 'a full observer is more detached and more able to critically engage with the research object, but she could miss an in-depth understanding of it as well as interactions with members that may help in testing emerging concepts and interpretations'.

Moreover, she says, while online observation or 'lurking' may be a good way for digital ethnographers to facilitate access to the field and familiarise themselves with a social setting, research ethics dictate they will eventually have to reveal their intentions, as well as take care to safeguard the privacy of those they study. In terms of reliability, too, Mosca (2014: 411) shows how online analysis alone risks producing a skewed or distorted representation of social reality, and that to increase reliability both online and offline observation and interaction should be employed. That point is also made by Carlsen and Toubøl (2023: 4) who say 'data-triangulation' involving digital data and methods supplementing traditional data sources like surveys and ethnography can overcome the limitations of online and offline data sources.

Box 2.2 Life history research and social movements

Life histories are part of a wider set of historical methodologies that include archival research and oral history (Bosi and Reiter 2014). As such, they differ from *life stories* which are 'accounts given by an individual about his/her life [that] become *life histories* when they are validated by other sources' (della Porta 2014c: 262, emphasis added). Life histories are therefore 'a particular type of in-depth interview' (della Porta 2014c: 262) that have been characterised as 'accounts of the world from below' (Chewinski and Corrigall-Brown 2023: 4), a central goal of which 'is to locate and identify the interaction of individual narratives and the context that surrounds it' (Chewinski and Corrigall-Brown 2023: 2). This was precisely the approach adopted by Jolly et al. (2012) in a research project spanning three years that recorded life history interviews with 50 key UK activists for the British Library Sound Archive. As they conceive it, the rationale of the life story approach 'is to collect as full an account of a life as possible' (Jolly et al. 2012: 217). Hence, although they only interviewed 'women who were involved at the high point of British activism – between the late 1960s and the mid-1980s – much of each interview is devoted to growing up stories about the 1940s and 1950s, and to reflections on their subsequent careers, campaigns, crises and calms, of the 1990s and 2000s' (Jolly et al. 2012: 217).

This highlights the distinction made by della Porta (2014c: 262) that unlike interviews with key informants, who are selected for their expert knowledge, the aim of life history interviews is 'to reconstruct the individual history', rather than focus on specific aspects of an individual's life. Moreover, Jolly et al.'s project also demonstrates the valuable role *qualitative* techniques like life history interviews can play in assessing change over time, such that they can be used to evaluate the importance of 'social ties and identity in predicting the trajectory of an individual's participation in social movements over their lives', which cannot be captured by *quantitative* data that are limited to assessing 'the general demographic, biographical, and resource factors that predict participation in social movements' (Chewinski and Corrigall-Brown 2023: 3).

From the outset, Jolly et al. (2012: 212) highlight a key limitation of life history methods represented in 'the paradox of studying a movement through a few individual stories'. Indeed, this is captured in the mantra of feminism, 'the personal is political', which itself 'came to reflect tensions in managing collective versus individual needs, now often summarised as the

problems with "identity politics" as they emerged in the late 1970s' (Jolly et al. 2012: 212). So, in order that the sample of activists represent a movement, Jolly et al. (2012: 215) selected their interviewees to 'get deeper into the historical dynamics', thus choosing 'people primarily by their involvement in campaigns'. For Jolly et al. (2012: 215), selection by campaign involvement not only 'reflects a more material concept of history', but it allowed them to research the many UK-wide campaigns and organisations that tend to be under-researched. They also drew on feminist scholarship to justify their focus on the individual's life, positing that in the broadest terms, 'the individual's story is not necessarily individualist' (Jolly et al. 2012: 219). Indeed, they say, that distinction:

> … is so fundamental to understanding the 'private sphere' of domestic and sexual labour that it is almost axiomatic to gender politics, expressed in the concept of the personal political, and the way that consciousness raising, coming out, speaking out and 'autobiography' played in the methods of the movement itself. (Jolly et al. 2012: 219)

Hence, believing that 'a life history approach can also capture a social structure often obscured from public view', Jolly et al. (2012: 219) argue that the personal stories of individuals 'became the grounds for a new conception of power relations'. As Verta Taylor (1998: 365–366) contends, women's 'everyday accounts of gender oppression' have been a key driving force in the feminist movement inasmuch as they offer 'a powerful corrective to top-down theories of social change' (Jolly et al. 2012: 219). What Jolly et al. (2012: 220) term 'the paradox of the general in the particular' is exemplified by the life story of one of their interviewees, Ellen Malos, whose individual story about losing funding for her first degree because of getting married and problems experienced writing her doctorate when caring for two young children 'fits existing analyses of a post-war opening up of opportunities for both working-class people and for women, with the establishment of a welfare state and greater opportunities for higher education', while also demonstrating how 'her opportunities were always cruelly mixed with closed doors' (Jolly et al. 2012: 220). In sum, then, Jolly et al. (2012: 224) say, 'our method is consistent with our selection criteria: highly individualised but one which should open out from superficial categories of identity and experience to get at less choate structures of action, and of feeling as well'.

Apart from being potentially solipsistic, life histories might also be regarded as unreliable due to problems associated with *biographical reconstruction* and *memory recall*. However, these limitations might be addressed by triangulating life history interviews with other research methods or supplementing them with additional data sources (see Ayoub et al. 2014), such as state or social movement archives, newspaper or social media data, or police reporting of protest events, which, as will be remembered from earlier, was a technique employed by McCarthy et el. (1996) when faced with selection bias on media coverage of protest events. In one study, Polletta (2002a: 237) used focus groups comprising two to six people sharing histories in the same organisations, saying that, '[f]ar from diminishing interviewees' candor, the group setting allowed people to jog each other's memories and to push each other to give unvarnished accounts of the internal dynamics of their organisations'. To Chewinski and Corrigall-Brown (2023: 4), the use of mixed methods and additional data sources not only enables researchers to address some of the problems associated with life history methodology, but it also has the capacity to 'transform life stories into life histories'.

SOCIAL MOVEMENT RESEARCH ETHICS

Just as methodological issues are not frequently canvassed by social movement scholars (as discussed earlier in the chapter), so, too, research ethics are not often addressed when methods are discussed. However, as with methodological issues generally, discussion of the ethics of doing social movement research tends also to be critical of positivistic approaches that stress objectivity, value-neutrality, and so on. Nevertheless, there sometimes exists a tension between social movement scholars who are, on the one hand, sympathetic to those they research and the causes they represent and, on the other hand, scholars who strive to carry out research measuring up to the rigours of 'respectable' social scientific methodologies. As we shall see, that tension is sometimes expressed by reference to *ethical dilemmas*. Not infrequently, researchers will resolve ethical dilemmas they face by focusing on social movement success or the outcomes of protest, embracing a kind of 'utilitarian ethics', such that they are 'eager to offer tools for activists "to succeed"' (Su 2023: 6). To Yang Su (2023: 6, citing Yazandi and Murad 2015: 399), however, placing success at the centre of the inquiry in this way serves to reinforce 'a scientific paradigm of data collection and empirical testing, leaving

aside normative issues whose validity are less suitable to empirical adjudication'. And, as we have seen already in this chapter, the scientific ground here is not particularly firm (Su 2023: 6). It is also worth pointing out at this juncture that it is not only social movement researchers who confront ethical issues, since protestors themselves (who may also be academics) do not always behave ethically in the 'fog of protest' when perhaps feeling a degree of anonymity in large numbers that can, for some, give rise to sense of impunity (Su 2023: 1).

In their introduction to a special issue of *Social Movement Studies* on research ethics and activism, Gillan and Pickerill (2012: 135) express a version of the view that is critical of the scientism pervading higher education institutions, when they say the bureaucratic 'checkbox approach to ethics' that characterises the ethical review processes of those institutions places significant limitations on carrying out ethical research. That is because such an approach relies on the assessment of peers who have little or no knowledge of protest and social movements, and are thus unable to account for the complexities of social movement research projects. In contrast to institutionalised ethical review approaches that regard ethics as a 'static consideration', Gillan and Pickerill (2012: 135) highlight the importance of viewing ethics as a *process* that requires researchers to respond to changing conditions, and where ethics consists of 'a dynamic, complex and ongoing dilemma that researchers really face'.

Hence, one of the key issues emerging from the literature on social movement research ethics relates to questions of 'reflexivity', which is a specific focus of Cordner et al. (2012: 163), who define 'reflexive research ethics' as 'the self-conscious, interactive and iterative reflection upon researchers' relationships with research participants, relevant communities, and principles of professional and scientific conduct. Like Gillan and Pickerill, they contrast reflexive research with the static approaches of formalised ethical protocols, pre-conceived standards, or fixed ethics guidelines. Because ethical uncertainty is integral to research that engages with community-based organisations and social movement research, Cordner et al. (2012) stress the need to continually adjust research practice according to relational and reflexive ways of conducting research, which maximise benefit and minimise harm to both individuals and communities.

One means of maximising benefit is to resolve an ethical dilemma associated with 'reciprocity', or lack thereof, which is characteristic of what has been termed 'parachute research' or 'dropping in to collect data without engaging with the community, and then leaving without sharing the data and results' (Cordner et al. 2012: 167; see also Dawson and Sinwell 2012: 181). At other times, even though research might be geared towards bettering peoples' lives, academic researchers might prioritise gathering 'good data', sometimes jeopardising their

own personal safety in the process (Smeltzer 2012: 260, 265). Concern for personal safety and self-care are especially important when researching what Gillan and Pickerill (2012) call 'ugly movements' that are politically and ideologically distinct from left- and liberal-leaning scholars. For example, Creek (2012) describes the emotional labour involved in practicing self-care when researching the ex-gay movement in North America. Moreover, in contrast to scholars not only studying but also aligning themselves to social movements and the struggles they are involved in, researchers of ugly movements, such as white supremacist groups, tend generally to limit their involvement, which in turn has implications for the breadth, depth, and veracity of information that can be gleaned from such studies:

> Researchers of organised racism virtually never participate in or support the groups they study and generally have only limited access to the people and internal workings of these groups. Indeed, scholars of the far-right generally try to avoid producing research that could strengthen the groups they study, and white supremacists are wary of scholars and loath to provide information. (Blee 2017: 3–4)

Danger and risk are not only things that apply to researchers however, as activists' participation in research projects and the dissemination of findings might also be potentially detrimental to their activities and/or pose threats to their personal safety. That is why, Milan (2014) says, it is important throughout a research project to be self-reflexive, continually monitoring one's own role in the setting under investigation, as well as constantly engaging with activists and their needs, including protecting interviewees' identity through anonymisation and collaborating with research participants when determining whether or not certain information that might be sensitive or of strategic importance can be released into the public domain.

That was precisely the approach adopted by Rivetti (2017) when conducting fieldwork on social movements in an authoritarian setting, where the need to establish trust is arguably heightened (Malthaner 2014: 183–185). Hence, engaging with Iranian activists enabled her to build sufficient trust that activists understood when she refused to take part in advocacy activities, as well as when she had to distance herself from the field not only for her own security but that of her informants. To circumvent some of these issues, activist-scholars might adopt an *ethic of immediate reciprocity*, such that 'participation in research has its costs for activists through the time taken and in the personal security risk (which may be perceived as considerable when the researcher is not personally known to

participants beforehand), so, academics must ask, what can we do to return favours due?' (Gillan and Pickerill 2012: 136).

However, a danger here is that if 'reciprocation is practised simply as a way to gain access, rather than as a genuine desire to aid the movement', it can be 'potentially an ethically dishonest approach' (Gillan and Pickerill 2012: 137). Moreover, as Gillan and Pickerill (2012: 136–137) note, the limits of reciprocity are invariably reached when researching 'ugly movements' that have reactionary goals, albeit researchers in these scenarios might also strive to be empathic or show compassion for those who tell traumatic stories (see Creek 2012). Immediate reciprocation, argue Gillan and Pickerill (2012: 137), can be distinguished from the *ethic of general reciprocity*, which fits the call for 'public sociology' (Burawoy 2005) insofar as it focuses on movement impacts and outcomes beyond the academy: 'it may be impossible to "pay back" a research participant for their efforts in any direct way that does not somehow compromise the research, but the utility of the results of research will offer some benefit at a broader, societal level'.

Both ethics of reciprocation (immediate and general) discussed by Gillan and Pickerill are present in Cordner et al.'s (2012) research with community-based organisations focused on environmental health and justice in Massachusetts, California, and Alaska, where researchers confronted several ethical tensions they were able to resolve by employing a reflective approach to the ethical practice of research. For example, the tension of communicating results to communities while also meeting the requirements of academic research was resolved by working collaboratively with SMOs to disseminate findings at public forums organised by community partners, which meant results were revealed to the community before they were published in academic journals or released to the media. Accordingly, this 'timely dissemination of findings demonstrates one way of respecting the community's interest in co-directing the dissemination of study results, while ensuring timely and productive publication for academic partners' (Cordner et al. 2012: 169).

Like others in the field, Cordner et al. (2012: 171) challenge the notion that 'research must be disinterested in order to be done with integrity'. Rather, their view of research integrity is one that regards ethics as fluid, dynamic, value-laden, reflexive, relational, and contextual. In addition, rather than it being a problem, they propose reflexive research ethics can in fact improve rigour, relevance, and the reach of research practice. In terms of rigour, for instance, they show how the partnership they established with Alaska Community Action on Toxics and with environmental health researchers on Indigenous food sources, along with the long-term collaboration they formed with residents on St. Lawrence Island, west of Alaska, 'taught researchers that samples would be most meaningful if



Figure 2.2 Alaska Community Action on Toxics rally for clean water at the State Capitol, 14 March 2023 © Connor Meyers.

collected from hunting grounds, which were located near a decommissioned military base' (Cordner et al. 2012: 170) (see Figure 2.2).

Vital to Cordner et al.'s (2012: 171) approach then is the idea that social movement researchers are engaged in the 'co-production of knowledge' with communities and organisations. This theme is also developed by Graeme Chesters (2012: 145) who is critical of researchers and academics treating social movements as objects of knowledge rather than as 'knowledge-producers in their own right' (see also Cox and Flesher Fominaya 2009). While considering social movements as producers of knowledge is reminiscent of Eyerman and Jamison's (1991) 'cognitive approach' to social movements – i.e. movements are conceived as focused fundamentally on knowledge-producing activities, spreading knowledge interests or diffusing consciousness – Chesters claims to be inspired mainly by Melucci's (1988b: 330) critique of those who consider social movements as a 'unitary empirical datum' and the methodology he employs as a

corrective that seeks to join researchers with movement actors in reconstructing the complexities of collective action, which, as we saw earlier, is itself a methodology derived from Touraine's method of 'sociological intervention'; albeit Melucci is critical of Touraine's proclivity to treat collective action as a datum, object or thing.

Specifically, Chesters (2012: 154) takes aim at mainstream approaches to ethnographic research, such as that of Hammerlsey and Atkinson (1995), which posit researchers ought to maintain a 'critical distance' from research participants. By contrast, rather than thinking that engaging with activists will compromise the 'goal of producing knowledge' (Hammerlsey and Atkinson 1995: 286), as do those in the mainstream, researchers practicing the co-production of knowledge with social movements consider engagement a wholly ethical aspect of the research process. Indeed, Milan (2014: 460) argues research *with* subjects, as opposed to research *about* subjects, not only occupies solidly scientific ground but is also desirable, stating that, '[i]f we cannot deny the existence of a potential contradiction between engagement and academic rigor, the former does not have to come at the expense of evidence-based scientific research'.

For Chesters (2012: 155), this approach is central to critically reflexive and emancipatory research where the 'ethic of co-production' also entails the 'relational obligations of reciprocity', which go beyond academics merely offering resources and/or expertise when social movements encounter the state or corporate opponents. A more radical version of this view is presented by Anne de Jong (2012: 195, 200, 205) who freely admits to 'going native' (a bête noire of ethnographers) when conducting research in the contested space of Israel and the Occupied Palestinian Territories. In her case, she felt it imperative to take a political stance – rather than attempt to maintain any sense of academic neutrality – when faced with grave human rights violations. Under such circumstances, she argues, it would have been unethical *not* to take a stand.

Box 2.3 Ethical epistemologies of activist criminology

In Chapter 10, we will look at criminal justice campaigning, referring among other things to a burgeoning species of critical criminology known as 'activist criminology' (Belknap 2015; Canning et al. 2023a). The epistemological issues canvassed by those writing from that perspective echo those expressed in the literature on social movements and protest politics, including those concerned with research ethics. Accordingly, both activist criminologists and social movement scholars are critical of Western conceptions of science that are grounded in positivistic

notions of objectivity and value-freedom, while simultaneously emphasising the role of activists and social movements as producers of knowledge.

In activist criminology, David Goyes (2016: 505) notes not only the impossibility of neutrality upon which Western practices of science have been predicated but also the fact that the '[p]ursuit of the ideal of a pure and objective science has resulted in many atrocities to humans, non-humans and ecosystems'. Using examples from Latin America relevant to his interest in green criminology, Goyes (2016: 514) proposes a 'green criminology activism' that draws on epistemologies of the South and Southern Theories, and which privileges the voices of those most impacted by environmental harms, such as rural people and Indigenous communities whose perceptions of victimisation 'are taken as valid knowledge'. For Goyes (2016: 514), this approach requires the analysis is not limited nor narrowly focused on what is officially defined by the state as 'crime' but instead is seen from a 'harm perspective', which includes serious situations that often deprive people of their potential and create cultures of silence restricting possibilities for contesting green harms. In this way, his ideas fit the view from 'zemiology' or the study of social harms beyond the confines of crime and criminology, which aims at achieving social justice (Canning and Tombs 2021: 3). Ultimately, the knowledge produced by green activist criminology that is provided by insights from epistemologies of the Global South focuses on attaining 'cognitive justice' – grounded in emotions and values yet also able to produce valid and valuable ways of knowing.

As with others interested in the knowledge-producing qualities of social movements, Goyes' arguments resonate with Eyerman and Jamison's (1991) general theory of the 'cognitive praxis' of social movements that was mentioned earlier (see also Sargin 2023). Goyes' stress on the fallacy of neutrality also chimes with Max Weber's (1949) view of the value-relevance of social science research (also mentioned earlier). Moreover, Goyes' reference to the role of emotions in cognitive justice accords with the literature on 'passionate politics', which has been influenced by James Jasper's (1997: 106) idea that 'moral shocks' generate 'such a sense of outrage in a person that she becomes inclined towards political action' (see Chapter 6).

Reference to awareness-raising in line with Eyerman and Jamison's ideas is also made by Kramer (2016) when he talks of criminologists needing to speak in the 'prophetic voice' when

highlighting harms perpetrated by states and corporations. As we shall see at various points in the book, that is equivalent to the Quaker tradition of 'bearing witness', which is a tactic or practice several groups and organisations engage in to expose and draw attention to state and corporate crimes. Following Cohen (2001), Kramer argues this is especially important given the propensity of states and corporations to deny the crimes they commit. And that is why the interventions of activist criminology are vital insofar as they constitute a form of 'public criminology' akin to what Loader and Sparks (2011: 33–34) call 'social movement theorist/activist' public criminology, which seeks to be autonomous of government agendas in joining with campaigns to end discrimination and promote social justice, as well as help develop alternative visions of delivering justice.

CONCLUSION

In this chapter, we have examined some of the methodological issues and ethical dilemmas of conducting research into social movements and protest politics. We have seen how discussion of research methods within social movement studies has tended to be fragmentary and scattered or has otherwise been confined to particular studies or substantive areas of study. When methods are considered, scholars often show how they have sought to adhere to the methodological conventions of social research around reliability, validity, representativeness, generalisability, and so forth by employing mixed methods as well as triangulating techniques, sometimes combining qualitative and quantitative methods of data collection from varied sources that range from first-hand accounts, news media stories, information from government bodies and other official sources, such as police records or from NGOs. Indeed, as della Porta (2014b: 1) has proposed, social movement research is characterised by 'methodological pluralism', where there is 'a dialogue between different epistemological approaches and frequent triangulation of methods' (see also della Porta and Keating 2008). Moreover, she says, 'while few social movement scholars seem to believe either in the neutrality of science or in its subjection to political aims, the degree of political commitment promoted in scientific work has varied on a continuum, with interesting normative and ethical debates' (della Porta 2014b: 2).

Hence, although it is important to strive to carry out research that is valid and reliable and as free as possible from skews and biases, as

we have noted throughout the chapter it is equally important to acknowledge the impossibility of producing *social* research – i.e. research into human behaviour and action – that is entirely free of bias or is truly objective, value-neutral or impartial. Indeed, as we have seen it is sometimes beneficial for social movement researchers to align themselves with those they study in order, for example, to counter research participants' sense of being exploited by the research experience. Sometimes that may take the form of academics actively involving research participants in the research process so that they are empowered and feel they have a stake in contributing to policy change, as in the case of Carole Truman's (2000) research.

Social movement researchers might also achieve this when they move from treating movements as objects of study to considering them as 'knowledge-producers in their own right' (Chesters 2012: 145). To do that, requires we collapse the 'false binary between knowledge production in the academy and activism in social movements' (Dawson and Sinwell 2012: 179), recognising, too, that academic researchers and activists often *co-produce knowledge*. Accordingly, rather than being detached and distant from research subjects, it is suggested social movement scholars should embrace politics as an intended effect of knowledge production, which, to Santos (2012), is crucial to self-reflexively acknowledging all actors, including researchers, are 'situated subjects'. Indeed, to Santos, that is the ethical thing to do, which echoes Cordner et al.'s (2012) conception of 'reflexive research ethics' which they say also has the added advantage of enhancing rigour, relevance, and the reach of research. In Chapter 10 especially we will see how scholar-activist partnerships and collaborations are playing out in the burgeoning field of 'movement law'. For now, though, we will turn the clock back when in the next chapter we consider some of the earlier perspectives mentioned above (Balsiger and Lambelet 2014; Crist and McCarthy 1996), which saw the origin of 'collective behaviour' being located in a mixture of social disorganisation and individual pathology.

SUGGESTED READINGS

Together, the following edited collections provide an extensive range of contributions on methods of social movement research, as well as demonstrating how the field has evolved over time to include an increasing array of topics and issues:

della Porta, D. (ed.) (2014a) *Methodological Practices in Social Movement Research*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.

Diani, M. and Eyerman, R. (eds) (1992) *Studying Collective Action*. London: Sage.

Klandermans, B. and Staggenborg, S. (eds) (2002) *Methods of Social Movement Research*. Minneapolis, MN: University of Minnesota Press.

Both sources below provide a useful introduction to key themes in social movement research ethics:

Gillan, K. and Pickerill, J. (eds) (2015) *Research Ethics and Social Movements: Scholarship, Activism and Knowledge Production*. London: Routledge.

Milan, S. (2014) 'The ethics of social movement research' in D. della Porta (ed.) *Methodological Practices in Social Movement Research*. Oxford: Oxford University Press, pp. 446–464.

The following journal special issues provide insights into social movement research ethics and qualitative research on social movements:

Qualitative Sociology 21(4) (1998): 'Qualitative Methods and Social Movement Research'.

Social Movement Studies 11(2) (2012): 'The Ethics of Research on Activism'. This is reproduced as Gillan and Pickerill (2015).

CHAPTER 3

Origins of social movement studies

INTRODUCTION

It is an intention of this chapter to provide an introduction to key theories and concepts in early studies of collective behaviour and social movements. The chapter begins by examining the early social psychological theories of crowd behaviour and mass psychosis of Le Bon and Freud. According to both perspectives, collective behaviour is a threat to the normal social order, although updated psychological research into crowd action suggests otherwise. The case of the Nuremberg rallies is used to illustrate the role of propaganda in collective behaviour (Box 3.1). The chapter looks at the sociology of collective behaviour, much of which saw collective behaviour in a positive light. It examines the symbolic interactionist approach of Herbert Blumer, the emergent norm theory of Turner and Killian, and Neil Smelser's structural-functionalist account and value-added model.

The chapter evaluates symbolic interactionist and structuralist perspectives and shows how these early theories of collective action continue to inform key debates and influence a number of areas of social movement studies today, including research into the 'dramaturgy' of social movements, and analyses of the performative role of colour in contemporary social protests. Accordingly, the chapter considers some of the ways in which earlier theories and studies of social movements connect to later theories and studies, which are examined in subsequent chapters.

Hence, towards the end of the chapter rational choice theory is discussed as a precursor to resource mobilisation theory, which is

DOI: 10.4324/9780367821760-3

examined in Chapter 4. And, in the conclusion, material presented in later chapters of the book is anticipated when we consider how older ideas, theories, and concepts remain pertinent today, as evident, for example, in the influence of symbolic interactionism on the study of culture and processes of identity formation in new social movements (Chapter 5), the positive role of emotions in collective action and the performative dimensions of protest (Chapter 6), and connections between religious movements and social movements (Chapter 7).

SOCIAL PSYCHOLOGY OF CROWDS

In 1897, Gustave Le Bon published *The Crowd: A Study of the Popular Mind*. Writing from a social psychological perspective, Le Bon set out to establish the general characteristics of a 'psychological crowd', the most striking feature of which he said was the following:

> Whoever be the individuals that compose it, however like or unlike be their mode of life, their occupations, their character, or their intelligence, the fact that they have been transformed into a crowd puts them in possession of a sort of collective mind which makes them feel, think, and act in a manner quite different from that in which each individual of them would feel, think, and act were he in a state of isolation. (Le Bon, quoted in Evans 1969: 12)

For Le Bon, the individual in a crowd loses their ability to exercise freewill and becomes an automaton; and they lose any sense of civilisation and cultivation, becoming a barbarian guided by instinct. Thus, he concluded, 'the crowd is always intellectually inferior to the isolated individual' (Le Bon, quoted in Evans 1969: 14). However, while for Le Bon a crowd may be criminal, it can also be heroic: 'It is crowds rather than isolated individuals that may be induced to run the risk of death to secure the triumph of a creed or an idea' (Le Bon, quoted in Evans 1969: 14).

Updated accounts of crowd behaviour and collective action in social psychology offer a critical perspective on the older theories of people like Le Bon. For example, Drury and Reicher (2000) critique Le Bon's idea that crowd behaviour is irrational and destructive. In accordance with theorists such as Turner and Killian (1987 [1957]), which are considered below, Drury and Reicher argue crowd action is socially meaningful. They are interested not only in how crowd action reflects social meanings but also in how it creates and develops new meanings. In so doing, they build upon research conducted by themselves and others, which elaborates a social identity model of crowd behaviour, positing that, contrary to Le Bon's theory, and the 'de-individuation' research it precipitated:

> … individuals in crowds do not lose their identity but rather shift from behaving in terms of disparate individual identities to behaving in terms of a contextually specified common social identity; hence, rather than losing control over their behaviour, crowd members judge and act by reference to the understandings which define the relevant social identification. (Drury and Reicher 2000: 581)

Significantly, Drury and Reicher (2000: 580, original emphasis) distinguish their work from much of the sociological research into social movements that forms the bulk of the content of this book, since, according to them, 'the precise role of such intergroup dynamics in bringing about psychological consequences for members of different groups is not examined in these accounts; these are *sociological* accounts which merely note psychological change rather than *psychological* accounts of such change'. Nonetheless, their approach chimes with key themes in the sociology of social movements. They stress the role of freewill and agency, evidenced by, for instance, their preference for the use of the term crowd *action* over collective/crowd *behaviour*. Moreover, they emphasise cognitive processes and the rationality that is exercised by crowd members who have the ability to 'judge and act'. Finally, their use of the phrase 'common social identity' is reminiscent of the notion of 'collective identity', which is used in social movement studies, and especially in new social movement theory (see Chapter 5).

COLLECTIVE BEHAVIOUR THEORY

The work of Le Bon was an important launch pad for future research into collective behaviour. In a period marked by the emergence of fascism in Europe, many social scientists took a dim view of collective behaviour, which was regarded as irrational and pathological. Writing in the 1920s, Sigmund Freud (1945 [1921]) feared that as opposed to when they think and act as individuals, people in crowds behave irrationally and with a mob or herd-like mentality.

While he agreed that people in crowds and spontaneous gatherings think and act differently from individuals, Herbert Blumer (1969: 69) argued collective behaviour could also have productive and emergent qualities, the study of which, he claimed, concerns examining 'the ways in which the social order comes into existence, in the sense of the emergence and solidification of new forms of collective behaviour'. When he originally published his outline of collective behaviour in 1934, Blumer identified four 'elementary collective groupings': (i) the *acting crowd*; (ii) the *expressive crowd*; (iii) the *mass*; and (iv) the *public*.

The *acting crowd* is spontaneous and momentary. It lacks organisation, leadership, identity, and a 'we-consciousness'. However, the distinguishing feature of the acting crowd is that attention is directed towards a common objective or goal. The *expressive crowd*, on the other hand, has no such goal or purpose: 'its impulses and feelings are spent in mere expressive actions, usually unrestrained physical movements, which give release to tension without having any other purpose' (Blumer 1969: 82–83). For Blumer, examples of this kind of expressive collective behaviour include the carnival or the dancing crowds of primitive sects.

The *mass* is comprised of people who participate in mass behaviour, 'such as those who are excited by some national event, those who share in a land boom, those who are interested in a murder trial which is reported in the press, or those who participate in some large migration' (Blumer 1969: 86). Finally, Blumer referred to the *public* as being a group of people who, first, are confronted by an issue, second, are divided in their opinion as to how to address the issue and, third, are engaged in discussion about the issue.[1]

Box 3.1 Propaganda and collective behaviour: The Nuremberg rallies

On considering the role of propaganda in his outline of collective behaviour, Blumer noted the importance of social psychological processes that were apparent during the Nuremberg rallies, which may be observed at other mass gatherings:

> In the area of public discussion and public consideration, propaganda operates to mould opinions and judgments not on the basis of the merits of an issue, but chiefly by playing upon emotional attitudes and feelings. Its aim is to implant an attitude or value which comes to be felt by people as natural, true, and proper, and, therefore, as one which expresses itself spontaneously and without coercion. (Blumer 1969: 94)

The Nuremberg rallies, held in Germany between 1933 and 1935, are a good illustration of how the social psychology of crowds works in ways described by social scientists, as well as highlighting the dangers of mass behaviour. Footage of the rallies was recorded by Leni Riefenstahl whose documentary film, *Triumph of the Will*, depicted the 1934 National Socialist (Nazi) party congress (Figure 3.1).

Throughout Riefenstahl's film, which was used by the Nazis for propaganda, Adolf Hitler is presented as a charismatic

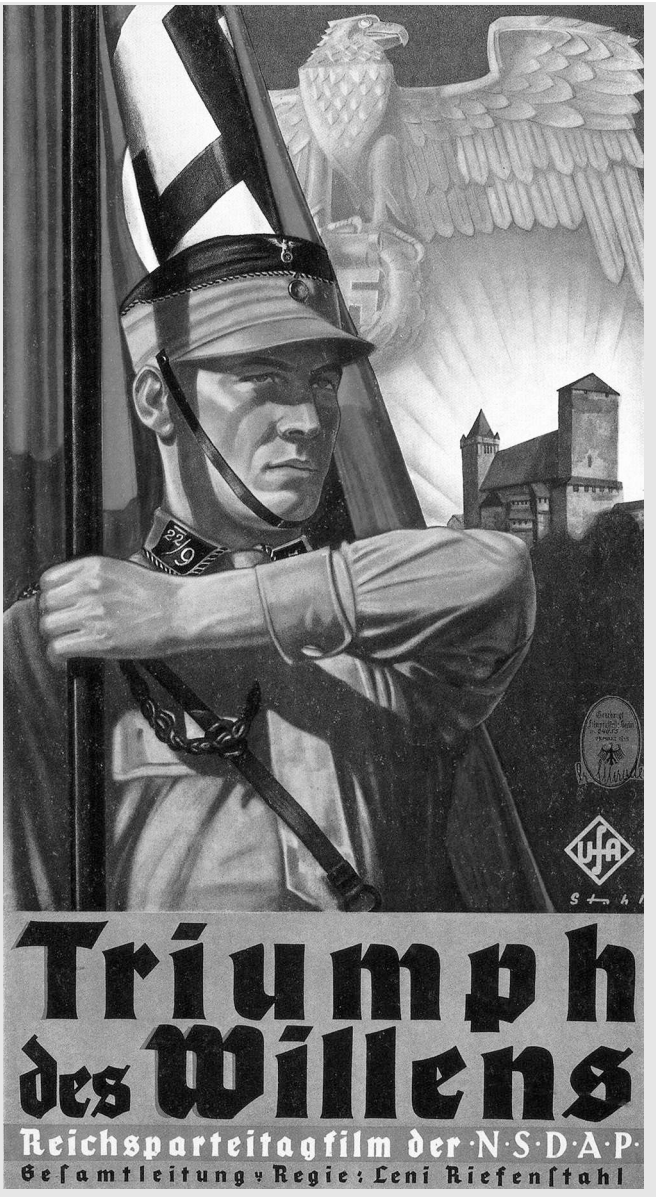


Figure 3.1 Triumph of the Will poster for 1936 film about the 1934 Nuremberg Nazi party rally © Pictorial Press Ltd/Alamy

leader who captures the hearts and minds of his devoted audience by means of his rhetorical speeches. As a similar relationship or connection exists between cult leaders and their followers, it is hardly surprising Nazism has been described as a 'political religion' (Evans 2007). Indeed, like a religious event, propaganda associated with the Nuremberg rallies utilised

iconic symbols and imagery, including images of Hitler, suggesting Nazism was very much a 'cult of personality', i.e. based upon the authority of a charismatic leader, or what Max Weber (1947 [1920]) classified as 'charismatic authority'.

SYMBOLIC INTERACTIONISM: BLUMER'S THEORY OF SOCIAL MOVEMENTS

Alongside his theory of collective behaviour, Blumer (1969: 99) developed a typology of social movements, which he defined as 'collective enterprises seeking to establish a new order of life'. He showed how, in the career of social movements, they typically begin as amorphous and poorly organised, after which they develop a culture and social organisation. Blumer identified three kinds of social movements: (i) *general social movements*; (ii) *specific social movements*; and (iii) *expressive social movements*.

Examples of *general social movements* are the labour movement, the student movement, the women's movement, and the peace movement. These movements have brought about changes in values or 'cultural drifts'; examples of which include 'the increased value of health, the belief in free education, the extension of the franchise, the emancipation of women, the increasing regard for children, and the increasing prestige of science' (Blumer 1969: 100). General social movements operate over a wide range of areas of society and have vague aims, such as the women's movement's general aim to emancipate women. Accordingly, general social movements lack organisation, an established leadership, and a recognised membership.

Importantly, general social movements form the basis for the development of *specific social movements*, which are the 'crystallisation of much of the motivation of dissatisfaction, hope, and desire awakened by the general social movement and the focusing of this motivation on some specific objective' (Blumer 1969: 102). Here, Blumer uses the example of the anti-slavery movement, which was to some extent the individual expression of the broader nineteenth-century humanitarian movement.

Characteristics of specific social movements include a well-defined objective or goal, the development of organisation and structure to achieve that goal, clear leadership, and a membership with a 'we-consciousness'. Blumer described the five ways specific social movements grow and become organised:

1 *Agitation* typically occurs in the early stages of a movement's development. It is a means of exciting people, functioning to stir

them up and awaken in them new ideas and feelings of restlessness and dissatisfaction.

2 *Esprit de corps* is the development of a collective feeling of belonging and an important means of creating a sense of solidarity among members. This is achieved by the following means: the identification of an enemy; informal and communal association (e.g. singing, dancing, joking, and having fun); and ceremonial behaviour and ritual, such as using paraphernalia or sentimental symbols such as slogans, songs, poems, and clothing at meetings, rallies, demonstrations and parades (see Box 3.2).
3 *Morale* is generated out of a set of convictions around the rectitude of the movement's purpose, faith that the movement will attain its goal, and belief in its 'scared mission' (Blumer 1969: 109). For Blumer, the development of morale is quasi-religious: members develop a sectarian attitude akin to a religious faith, movement leaders assume the status of religious idols, and sacred texts are adopted, such as Karl Marx's *Das Kapital* as the 'bible' of the communist movement.
4 *Ideology* consists of 'a body of doctrines, beliefs, and myths' (Blumer 1969: 110). It is the philosophy and psychology of a movement, the purpose of which is to provide a set of values, convictions, criticisms, and defences.
5 *Tactics* play a role in gaining adherents and keeping them, and in reaching objectives.

Box 3.2 Social movement colours: 'Rebel Colours'

Blumer argued that the paraphernalia of rituals is key to the development of a movement's esprit de corps. Although he did not expressly mention the use of colour here, other more recent studies illustrate how significant colour is for some social movements. Using data on the protests against the International Monetary Fund (IMF) and World Bank meetings held in Prague in September 2000, Chesters and Welsh (2004) show how the colours of particular marches reflected different collective identities, political perspectives, and protest repertoires (or tactics). They propose the three 'Rebel Colours', Blue, Pink, and Yellow, act as collective 'sense-making devices' or 'frames' – a concept discussed in more detail in Chapter 4, but for now we can take to mean, 'a collective definition of the situation' (Benford and Hunt 1992: 38) – which enable individuals to orient to movements of which they are members, and events in which they participate (Chesters and Welsh 2004: 318).

During a series of large international meetings, protesters developed the idea that separate marches could use different colours, which eventually became the *modus operandi* for the 'global day of action' that took place on 26 September (S26), when the IMF/Work Bank conference opened. Protestors agreed the coloured marches would reflect political affiliation, ideological position or affective ties (e.g. regional identity, language), or affinity with particular protest repertoires. However, the use of colours was not limited to protest repertoires, but extended, among other things, to politically significant 'playful engagement'. As such, '[i]t was agreed that where possible the colours assigned to the marches should avoid familiar political associations, thereby confusing the authorities and creating ambiguity around what might otherwise become fixed expressions of particular identities' (Chesters and Welsh 2004: 322). In a separate study, Marian Sawer (2007: 40) has shown how people's taken-for-granted emotional identification with political colours along party lines (e.g. red for labour, blue for conservative) has led to *cognitive dissonance* over recent years in the US where conservative Republican states are described as 'red states', and Democrat states are 'blue states'. We will return to Sawer's research in Chapter 6 when we look at emotions and social movements.

As it is for many social movement scholars, Chesters and Welsh are concerned with how the S26 protesters – which formed part of a highly diverse global social movement – were able to coalesce for the duration of the marches. That is to say, how was unity, or what Blumer called a 'we-consciousness', achieved in the face of internal diversity? Their answer is that 'the Rebel Colours provided the framework that enabled diverse social movement groups and disorganisations to act in concert for the duration of the IMF and World Bank protests' (Chesters and Welsh 2004: 332). Moreover, insofar as 'the "Rebel" Colours indicate difference and pragmatism', according to Chesters and Welsh (2004: 331–332), 'they demonstrate an internal dialogue that is strongly opposed to homogenisation of a political perspective, protest repertoire or tactical orientation'. In other words, the Rebel Colours were the means through which:

> … the complex set of orientations towards collective action exhibited by different individuals and groups were assimilated. Diversity of political perspective, preference for protest repertoire, distinctive cultures of resistance and strategic orientation were subsumed using a mechanism that allowed for difference, holding it in tension, both within the respective marches and between them. (Chesters and Welsh 2004: 326)

Chesters and Welsh unpack the various meanings of each colour to show how colour indicated political standpoint and protest repertoire preference, as well as serving as a common denominator between a diversity of people and groups. The Yellow March offered a critique both of the neoliberal approach of the IMF and World Bank and of traditional modes of engaging with political and economic elites. The yellow frame was geared towards direct contact, as well as symbolic critique. Thus, 'Yellow was Ya Basta! [Spanish meaning, "enough is enough"] in their white overalls with their comic provocations of balloons and water pistols facing lines of riot police clad in black and armed with APCs and guns, a classic exploitation of the black/white binarism of good and evil, which was used to maximum effect' (Chesters and Welsh 2004: 327).

The blue frame was direct, confrontational, and without compromise, and although regarded as problematic, violence in defence was deemed acceptable and sometimes regarded as necessary in offence by those identifying with this frame. The Blue March drew upon various symbolic resources of anarchism, and it attracted most of the traditional anarchist groups of central Europe, many of whom were clad in black and wore masks to protect their identity (and offer some protection from tear gas in anticipation of confrontations with the police). Indeed, the blue frame is a familiar and recurrent one, associated with many social movements across both Europe and the United States, providing 'an unapologetic rationale for engagement with few limits, it positively affirms the distinction between violence against property and violence against the person, yet maintains a pragmatic assessment of power which suggests that violence against the person is a likely outcome of "revolutionary activity"' (Chesters and Welsh 2004: 328).

By contrast, the pink frame signified non-violence. Even though the colour pink has long been associated with the gay and lesbian movement, interviewees Chesters and Welsh spoke with argued pink was chosen for its lack of political connotations. The tactics used by those associated with the pink frame derived from the protest repertoires developed in the United Kingdom by Reclaim The Streets and Earth First!, which were involved in organising anti-road protests, impromptu street parties, and ecologically oriented anti-capitalist direct actions (see Martin 2014). Moreover, the pink frame emphasised performative repertoires: playful, ludic, and carnivalesque forms of protest involving dance and theatre and the like. Tactical Frivolity were an influential group during S26 who, instead of wearing protective clothing (like those involved in the Blue

March), developed an implicit critique of the routinised violence (i.e. clashes with police) that occurs at many protest events by, for instance, donning carnival costumes and wielding pink feather dusters.

Unlike specific social movements, *expressive movements* do not seek to affect social change. Rather, they constitute expressive forms of collective behaviour that can have profound effects on individuals and the social order. The two kinds of expressive movements identified by Blumer are religious and fashion movements. The tension and unrest that give rise to the emergence of religious movements are released not in purposive action but in expression. Intense feelings of intimacy, exaltation, ecstasy, and the development of an esprit de corps are prominent features of religious movements, which include both cults and sects.

Fashion movements are expressive because they provide 'an opportunity for the expression of dispositions and tastes' (Blumer 1969: 118). Fashion not only relates to clothing but manners, the arts, literature, and philosophy. Although Blumer says the fashion movement is a genuine expressive movement, it differs significantly from other movements he examines. For instance, it does not develop a 'we-consciousness' and esprit de corps. No morale is built up among participants and there is no ideology, no recognised leadership, and no tactics. The success of fashion simply depends upon the acceptance of a particular style or pattern.

Box 3.3 Emergent norm theory

Building on Blumer's symbolic interactionist perspective, Turner and Killian (1987 [1957]) developed what has become known as 'emergent norm theory'. They argued that most, if not all, social movement activists have an acute sense of what is just and unjust: 'A movement is inconceivable apart from a vital sense that some established practice or mode of thought is wrong and ought to be replaced' (Turner and Killian 1987 [1957]: 242). Gradually, members of a movement develop *new perspectives* by recognising the injustice of prevailing conditions. An example would be the release of a best-selling book that crystallises people's awareness of a particular issue, such as Betty Friedan's publication in 1963 of *The Feminine Mystique*, which 'crystallised the new perspectives on women's roles for the emerging women's movement' (Turner and Killian 1987 [1957]: 244). Another

example mentioned above when we looked at Blumer's category of specific social movements is Marx's tome, *Das Kapital*.

The realisation of a new perspective is often fuelled by *aroused indignation*, which typically occurs within a much shorter timeframe than the development of new perspectives. An example here would be when open conflict or antagonism takes place between activists who question existing conditions and their opponents, as often happens at public protests and demonstrations. In sum, the positive effect of new perspectives combined with the negative effect of aroused indignation enables a movement to develop a revised sense of justice, or what Turner and Killian (1987 [1957]: 245) call, 'the emergent norm', which, they argued, is 'one essential aspect of any social movement'.

SMESLER'S STRUCTURAL-FUNCTIONALISM AND THE VALUE-ADDED MODEL

Like Blumer, Neil Smelser regarded collective behaviour as purposive behaviour whereby people attempt to reconstitute their social environment. They do that in the name of a 'generalised belief', which Smelser (1964: 117) likened to a magical belief, in that 'the world is portrayed in terms of omnipotent forces, conspiracies, and extravagant promises, all of which are imminent'. Smelser sought to explain collective behaviour by employing a 'value-added' approach, which places each determinant of collective behaviour on a scale from *general* to *specific* (see Box 3.4). Smelser regarded each determinant as a necessary but not a sufficient condition for the occurrence of collective behaviour: taken together each constitutes a necessary *and* sufficient condition for the occurrence of an episode of collective behaviour. Hence, for Smelser (1964: 120), the value-added approach 'is a logical patterning of determinants, each seen as contributing its "value" to the explanation of the episode'.

Box 3.4 Determinants of collective behaviour: Example of a financial panic

Smelser used the example of a financial panic to show how each element contributes incrementally to an episode of collective behaviour. The following five determinants (from general to specific) are necessary for collective behaviour to occur:



Figure 3.2 Depositors making a run on a bank during a financial panic in the 1800s © North Wind Picture Archives/Alamy

1 *Structural conduciveness* – this refers to the ability of people to dispose of resources at will. In the case of a financial panic, this might entail the free and rapid disposal of stocks and shares, which would make panic possible. However, that would only make panic *possible*, since structural conduciveness alone does not cause panic, but merely establishes a range of circumstances in which panic can occur, while ruling out others in which panic could not occur.
2 *Strain* – the threat of financial loss is an obvious strain in relation to financial panic. However, as with structural conduciveness, the mere threat of financial loss will not, in and of itself, cause panic. Accordingly, strain operates within the scope of conduciveness.

3 *Growth of a generalised belief* – here the threat is exaggerated and seen as imminent and ominous. In the case of financial panic, this results in a hysterical belief or 'a cognitive restructuring of an uncertain threat into a definite prognostication of disaster'. Moreover, 'precipitating events', such as the closure of a bank, serve to reinforce this belief and provide 'evidence' to support it.
4 *Mobilise people for action* – mobilising in the name of a generalised belief may take the form of a single spontaneous event initiated by a rumour about a 'panic sell' by a leading stockholder, or it may derive from a deliberate and highly organised social movement.
5 *Social control* – in a general sense this refers to 'counterdeterminants' for the conditions of collective behaviour listed above. Counterdeterminants may be preventative (dealing with conduciveness and strain) or they may appear only after an incidence of collective behaviour has occurred. In a financial panic, for example, social control may occur either by spiking rumours or by preventing sellers from selling.

Source: Smelser (1964: 119-120).

In his book, *Theory of Collective Behaviour*, Smelser (1962) gives examples of five basic types of collective behaviour:

1 The *panic* or 'a collective flight based on hysterical belief' (Smelser 1962: 131). People accept a belief about a generalised threat and flee from established patterns of social interaction to preserve life, property, or power that are under threat. In this way, the panic meets all of the criteria for classifying it as an episode of collective behaviour: it is collective, uninstitutionalised, arises out of strain, and is based on a generalised belief. Actual settings where panic occurs include the battlefield, a sinking ship, and burning buildings (see Box 3.4).
2 The *craze* or 'mobilisation for action based on a positive wish-fulfilment belief' (Smelser 1962: 171). Crazes can occur in many spheres of society. In the economic sphere, crazes might arise as speculative booms in securities or miscellaneous items such as tulips or mulberry trees. In the political sphere, crazes might manifest as 'unanticipated bandwagon surges' for candidates at political conventions. In the expressive or cultural sphere, crazes include fad and fashion in clothes, architecture, vehicles, and art. In the religious sphere, sects or religious communes and other forms of revivalism constitute examples of crazes.
3 The *hostile outburst* is defined as 'mobilisation for action under a hostile belief' (Smelser 1962: 226). Participants in an outburst

attack someone who is blamed as responsible for a disturbing set of circumstances. Examples include a mob burning down the home of a local politician who has made an unpopular decision, or rioting strikers angry that 'scabs' (strike-breakers) have been hired by their employer to assume the work roles of striking employees. Given hostility is a key component of social movements, it should be no surprise that hostile outbursts often accompany large-scale social movements, such that normally peaceful protest may erupt into violence and confrontation with the authorities.

4 The *norm-oriented movement* 'is an attempt to restore, protect, modify, or create norms in the name of a generalised belief' (Smelser 1962: 270). Participants in norm-oriented movements might attempt to influence norms *directly*. Here, Smelser gives the example of feminist groups seeking to establish private education for women. Alternatively, norm-oriented movements may try to *induce* an established institution, authority, or body to affect norms. For instance, groups lobbying parliament to change public policy on particular matters. Such movements might try to affect any kind of normative transformation (e.g. economic, educational, political, religious), and can span the political spectrum: from reactionary, conservative, progressive, and radical. A norm-oriented movement may result in a 'normative innovation', such as a new law, custom, association, or political party faction. Smelser (1962: 272) also makes the following important distinction:

> Many norm-oriented movements occur independently of value-oriented movements, which call for more sweeping changes. The agitation for shorter hours of labour (a norm-oriented movement) in the United States, for instance, has been limited to demands for normative change; on the whole it has not been attached to movements which challenge the values of the capitalist system.

Moreover, like Blumer, Smelser (1962: 273) distinguishes between norm-oriented movements and more general social movements, the latter of which 'possess neither sufficiently crystallised beliefs nor a sufficient degree of mobilisation to fall in the category of collective outbursts [but] provide a backdrop from which many specific norm-oriented movements emanate'.

5 The *value-oriented movement* is 'a collective attempt to restore, protect, modify, or create values in the name of a generalised belief' (Smelser 1962: 313). Smelser distinguishes between religious and secular value-oriented beliefs. Examples of religious belief include various sects, such as Seventh-day Adventists, Methodists, Shakers, Mennonites, Christian Scientists, and Bahais. Secular value-oriented

> beliefs, on the other hand, include nationalism, communism, socialism anarchism, and syndicalism (i.e. trade unionism).- Significantly, beliefs frequently involve a mixture of religious and secular elements. An example would be Christian socialism.

For Smesler, each of these types of collective behaviour stands in a hierarchy of complexity and inclusiveness. So, while a norm-oriented movement may contain elements of panic, a panic cannot incorporate elements of a craze unless it becomes a craze. Thus, a higher level of collective behaviour may include a lower level of behaviour but not vice versa.

EVALUATING BLUMER AND SMELSER

The main weakness of Blumer's approach derives from his focus on social psychological factors. He thus ignores structural factors and the contexts within which social movements emerge. This is something addressed by Smesler. However, in many respects, Smelser offers a mere inversion of Blumer's theory: 'He is stronger where Blumer is weak (structure) but weak where Blumer is strong, particularly in the question of agency' (Crossley 2002: 54). Despite the ostensible merit in wedding these two seemingly complementary theories, Crossley warns that Smesler's attempt to transcend Blumer's account tends only to highlight and reinforce the strengths of the latter and the former's weaknesses in two specific ways.

First, Smelser's neglect of agency coupled with his mechanistic and reductionist account of generalised belief formation highlights the need for an approach, like the one developed by Blumer, that focuses on the role of 'reasonable' communication and social interaction in the generation of movements and collective action:

> Human agents collectively make social movements albeit in circumstances that are not of their choosing. Their generalised beliefs arise out of their interactions and discussions, and these same discussions serve to frame and channel their immediate emotional reactions to situations. (Crossley 2002: 54)

Secondly, problems arising from Smelser's sole focus on the external factors that shape social movement formation might be remedied by recourse to Blumer, who emphasised the interactions between social movement participants and the wider outcomes of these interactions, such as the development of an esprit de corps, morale, ideology, and tactics.

THE ENDURING INFLUENCE OF COLLECTIVE BEHAVIOUR THEORIES AND SYMBOLIC INTERACTIONISM

In their introduction to the field of social movement studies, della Porta and Diani (2006: 13) argue that '[t]he sociology of social movements owes many of its insights to students of the collective behaviour school' because, among other things, here 'for the first time, collective movements are defined as meaningful acts, driving often necessary and beneficial social change'. Crossley (2002: 37), too, shows how one of Blumer's main contributions to the study of social movements has been his appreciation of movement cultures and the various functions they perform in creating solidarity and orchestrating mobilisation. He goes on to say, quite rightly, that Blumer's pioneering work in this area is rarely recognised in contemporary social movement research, which only recently has re-established an interest in movement cultures and collective identity (see Chapters 5 and 6). In a rare instance of recognition, however, Johnston et al. (1994: 17) show how contemporary approaches to the study of collective identity 'acknowledge a strong symbolic interactionist influence'; a tradition which 'points to interaction among social movement participants as the locus of research on identity processes' (see also Martin 2002: 85). An example of how both collective behaviour theory and symbolic interactionism has influenced subsequent research into social movements is presented in the next section.

SOCIAL MOVEMENTS AS DRAMAS

As stated earlier, collective behaviour theory emerged largely to counter ideas about collective behaviour as irrational or pathological. Accordingly, much of the material we have looked at so far points to the potentially positive, creative, and productive qualities of collective action. During the 1970s resource mobilisation theory emerged also as a reaction against negative views of collective behaviour. It sought to 'recast movement participants as ultra-rationalistic actors devoid of feeling' (Benford and Hunt 1992: 50). However, as we will see in later parts of the book, resource mobilisation theory has been criticised for overstating the rational aspects of collective action to the detriment of other elements that are regarded by some as equally important, such as social movement cultures and the emotional side of protest.

For example, Benford and Hunt have argued that since its ascendency the pendulum has swung too far in the direction of resource mobilisation theory, which has meant a strict focus on rationality and resources (e.g. people, money, ideas, services) has

caused social movement scholars to neglect the intersubjective and interpretative *processes* by which meanings are developed, sustained, and transformed. In short, by focussing on the objective factors associated with social movement mobilisation, resource mobilisation theorists have failed to look at subjective factors.

To understand the *dynamics* of collective action and thus show *how* collective action is achieved as an ongoing accomplishment, Benford and Hunt have developed a dramaturgical approach. Influenced by the pioneering work of sociologist Erving Goffman, they regard social movements as dramas 'in which protagonists and antagonists compete to affect audiences' interpretations of power relations in a variety of domains, including those pertaining to religious, political, economic, or lifestyle arrangements' (Benford and Hunt 1992: 38). Attempting to understand power from the point of view of movement participants, Benford and Hunt (2991: 38) show 'how they collectively construct their images of power and how they struggle to alter extant power relations'. For them, movement actors define and communicate power by employing four dramatic techniques: (i) *scripting*; (ii) *staging*; (iii) *performing*; and (iv) *interpreting*.

Scripting refers to 'the development of a set of directions that define the scene, identify actors, and outline expected behaviour' (Benford and Hunt 1992: 38). Social movement scripting starts with the development of dramatis personae or a cast of characters, which includes roles for antagonists (e.g. 'capitalist pigs', 'male chauvinists', 'baby killers', 'warmongers'), victims (who feel a sense of injustice), protagonists (e.g. charismatic leaders, like Martin Luther King, Jr.), supporting cast members (i.e. activists), and audiences (who may be recruited as supporting cast members). Benford and Hunt show how, once recruited, the cast's ongoing involvement depends on a 'vocabulary of motives', which provides adherents with compelling reasons for taking action and justifying that action in relation to movement goals. Among other things, this entails the scripting and staging of emotions (see Chapter 6), which dramatises the exercise and/or abuse of power.

Benford and Hunt (1992: 41–42) give the example of a carefully orchestrated disarmament event held in 1985, where members of the audience wept as American air force personnel who dropped nuclear bombs on Hiroshima and Nagasaki at the end of the Second World War broke down and sobbed when reconciled with Japanese survivors. However, social movements cannot survive on emotion alone. To endure, they must have some level of organisation: 'Too little passion with too much organisation fails to inspire participants; but too much passion with too little organisation reduces a potentially powerful group to an undirected crowd' (Benford and Hunt 1992: 42). One of the ways organisation is achieved is via the staging of movement performances.

Staging refers to 'appropriating, managing, and directing materials, audiences, and performing regions' (Benford and Hunt 1992: 43). That involves the maintenance and expansion of a movement organisation's capacity to convey its ideas about power, which also requires it garner and manage money and other resources. From a dramaturgical perspective, staging entails developing and manipulating symbols, and making sure performances are consistent with the script. For instance, it would be inconsistent for peace campaigners to stage an event where some parts of the supporting cast displayed symbols of guns, clenched fists, and the burning of flags, because that would be antithetical to the non-violent script of the peace movement.

As social movement dramas require audiences, it is also important they promote and publicise their activities by, for instance, distributing newsletters, leaflets, posters, and press releases. Lastly, because staging is an interactive process, organisers, and antagonists have to adjust to one another's actions. However, most often antagonists attempt to limit the places where movement performances can be staged by controlling physical spaces (e.g. erecting architectural barriers such as fences and restricting free assembly by issuing 'protest permits'). One reason for this is that antagonists are 'typically involved in managing their own dramas, including preventing counter-performances that might upstage or disrupt their performances' (Benford and Hunt 1992: 44).

Performing refers to 'the demonstration and enactment of power', which 'concretises ideas regarding the struggle between protagonists and antagonists and reveals to audiences ways they can achieve or preserve desirable power relations' (Benford and Hunt 1992: 45). Performing involves 'dramaturgical loyalty' (performers are committed to a movement's definitions of a situation or 'emergent norms'); 'dramaturgical discipline' (espousing the appropriate 'vocabulary of motives', sustaining self-control to maintain a movement's affective line, and avoiding inappropriate behaviour such as disclosing secrets); and 'dramaturgical circumspection' (preparation in advance to adjust and improvise performances as and when unforeseen developments occur).

Box 3.5 Dramaturgical control of the Swedish Plowshares peace movement

Jacobsson and Lindblom (2012) have recently shown how 'dramaturgical control' operates by examining the carefully choreographed actions of the Plowshares peace movement in Sweden. Here, the action scripts are articulated clearly and are learned, rehearsed, and internalised via



Figure 3.3 The Plowshares sculpture was created by Evgeniy Vuchetic and is located on the grounds of the UN Headquarters in New York City. The sculpture was a gift from the Soviet Union in 1959 and features the following verse from the Old Testament book, which acts as an inspiration to peace activists: 'And they shall beat their swords into plowshares' (*Isaiah* 2:4) © Lee W. Nelson, www.iNeTours.com

the use of repetitive role-playing, which prepares activists for collective action with no room for improvisation. Indeed, unpredictability would be dangerous, as other collective actors could become violent if they feel threatened. And, for this reason, argue Jacobsson and Lindblom (2012: 54), 'to be able to adhere to the script no matter what happens during the action, the activists practise poise under pressure'.

Interpreting refers to 'the process of individually or collectively making sense out of symbols, talk, action, and the environment, or, more succinctly, determining what is going on' (Benford and Hunt 1992: 48). Accordingly, '[i]nterpreting is a never-ending social activity that makes movement scripting, staging and performance possible'

(Benford and Hunt 1992: 48). For Benford and Hunt, interpretations are the very object of movement dramas. Performances attempt to affect the ways audiences interpret reality, which is interpretative work that essentially concerns relations of power:

> It identifies who has and who lacks power, portrays how it is wielded, presents an alternative vision of power arrangements and articulates how such transformations might be realised. Movement interpretive work thus stimulates audiences to redefine their situations as unjust and mutable so that existing power structures can be altered. (Benford and Hunt 1992: 48)

Benford and Hunt's work on the dramaturgical aspects of collective action is interesting not only for its substantive content but also because it provides some insight into past and present directions in social movement studies. Hence, their ideas about the dramaturgy of social movements build upon collective behaviour theory, including Turner and Killian's emergent norm theory, and their notion that a sense of injustice is crucial to all social movements. Their work is also grounded in perspectives that continue to inform studies of social movements and protest politics, like the analysis of framing processes, which we will look at in Chapter 4, as well as ongoing interest in the 'dynamics of contention' (McAdam et al. 2001). In addition, Benford and Hunt's work alludes to what are now firmly established areas of research in social movement studies, which are covered in subsequent chapters of this book, such as concerns relating to emotions and 'passionate politics' (Chapter 6), and the social control and policing of protest (Chapters 8 and 10).

Moreover, the influence of symbolic interactionism, evident in Benford and Hunt's focus on the subjective, qualitative, and interpretive aspects of social movements, continues to inform *qualitative research* into social movements (see Chapter 2), such as approaches that see narrative (stories, tales, anecdotes, allegories) as important for social movement framing (Polletta 1998: 420–422); for example, 'how frames are expressed and made concrete […] through the stories that members share, through the collective bundle of narratives that are treated as relevant to the movement ideology' (Fine 1995: 134). However, as we shall see in Chapter 6, even though the framing perspective offers an important corrective to the overly rationalistic and instrumental approach of resource mobilisation theorists, it has been criticised by those interested in the emotional aspects of social movements – which include storytelling and narrative – for over-emphasising cognitive processes in, for example, explaining what motivates people to become involved in collective action.

Benford and Hunt's article should also be seen in the context of the 'cultural turn' that occurred in the human sciences, and which had a

profound effect upon social movement studies (Johnston and Klandermans 1995: vii; Martin 2002: 74). While the cultural turn affected the emergence of the framing perspective, which focuses 'on how organisations use values, beliefs, and general cultural trends to their advantages' (Johnston 2009: 3), most notably it influenced ideas about contemporary 'new' social movements which, it is argued, are concerned principally with culture and lifestyle, as well as processes of collective identity formation; unlike their older counterparts, which were essentially concerned with the strategic mobilisation of resources to achieve political and economic ends. Like Benford and Hunt, new social movement theorists developed a critique of resource mobilisation theory on the basis that it emphasises the objective rather than the (inter)subjective factors involved in collective action. In Chapter 5, we consider new social movement theory, after looking at resource mobilisation theory and allied approaches in Chapter 4. However, before doing so, and considering our present focus on the origins of social movement studies, we will now look at some of the philosophical underpinnings of resource mobilisation theory.

RATIONAL CHOICE THEORY AND THE FREE RIDER PROBLEM

Resource mobilisation theory is grounded in rational choice theory. In 1965, American economist and social scientist Mancur Olson outlined a theory of collective action in his book, *The Logic of Collective Action*. Olson's ideas are based on neoclassical economics, which attempts to explain human action in terms of individual choices and preferences. It assumes individuals act rationally. That is to say, people seek to maximise the benefits and minimise the costs of their actions. Olson reasoned that if these assumptions were correct, collective action would be implausible since rational, self-interested individuals would not act to achieve common interests or public goods. Rather, they would seek only to maximise their own self-interested ends. Far more plausible is the prospect that people will 'free ride', receiving all of the benefits of collective action without incurring any of the costs. Olson presented his basic premise in the introduction to his book as follows:

> Indeed, unless the number of individuals in a group is quite small, or unless there is coercion or some other special device to make individuals act in their common interest, *rational, self-interested individuals will not act to achieve their common or group's interests*. (Olson 1965: 2, original emphasis)

Collective bargaining provides a case in point. Collective agreements between trade unions and employers benefit all members of the

workforce irrespective of union membership. For example, all workers in a particular factory will benefit from a pay award that union officials negotiate with employers. So, what is the benefit to the individual worker in paying fees to join the union when they appear to receive all of the benefits of union activity without incurring the cost of joining? According to Olson's logic, the massive scale of free riding would preclude the possibility of collective action in the first place.

That is why some kind of compulsion is required. This might take the form of coercion such as the formation of a 'closed shop', i.e. where union membership is mandatory. Another approach is to provide positive inducements for membership to offset the resources used by individuals in joining. Olson called these 'selective incentives', which in the case of trade union membership might entail things like offering members preferential prices on bank loans and insurance products, discounts on cinema tickets, or reductions on goods sold at retail shopping outlets.

Besides these 'fringe benefits' union members also stand to benefit from wage claims made by unions. Indeed, in his book about Britain during the mid- to late 1970s, Dominic Sandbrook (2012: 12) says that contrary to the popular belief that trade unionists then were 'bound together by working-class solidarity and a shared dream of a brave new world […] most union members were interested only in their pay packets'. Seemingly, for most people:

> … the point of having a union card was not to gain entry level to some socialist paradise but 'to gain tangible rewards', from a foreign holiday to a new kitchen. Younger workers were accustomed to the fruits of affluence; what they wanted from their union was not so much the New Jerusalem as a new [Ford] Cortina. (Sandbrook 2012: 12)

CRITIQUES OF RATIONAL CHOICE THEORY

Rational choice theory or 'rational actor theory' as it is also known, has been subject to criticism, not least because it is premised on a view of people as self-interested and essentially asocial. However, as Crossley (2002: 66) points out, acting strategically presupposes peoples' inherent sociality: people have 'empathic capacity' to second guess the probable reactions of others, which is a skill acquired from interaction with and imitation of others. Moreover, Crossley (2002: 67) argues, it is important to ask why individuals participate in collective action from which they stand to receive no direct benefit, such as animal rights activists who advocate entirely on behalf of others and, in this case, another species.

To be sure, a good deal of social movement activity operates beyond the peculiarities of problems posed by rational choice theory. For instance, solidarity and collective identity are concerns for a number of social movements, and not just contemporary 'new' movements (discussed in Chapter 5), but older movements, too, including the US civil rights movement, which emphasised black pride and identity, and labour movements, which, both historically and presently, emphasise working-class identity and consciousness (Crossley 2002: 67). Moreover, 'pride' has figured as a central motivating factor not only for black activists, but also for gay and lesbian activists (Gould 2001).

Hence, those scholars who are interested in the passionate and emotional aspects of social movements and protest politics suggest it is ludicrous to postulate that rational calculation provides the impetus for getting involved in collective action. As we shall see in Chapter 6, that view overstates not only rational but also cognitive factors, and thus ignores the notion, recognised by Turner and Killian, that people are often motivated by a sense of injustice, which elicits strong emotional responses, such as anger, indignation, fear or compassion (Polletta and Amenta 2001: 305). In Chapter 4, we will look at this in the context of what have become known as 'injustice frames' (Benford and Snow 2000).

CONCLUSION

The purpose of this chapter has been to provide an introduction to the origins of studies into collective behaviour and social movements. It is also intended that some of the material in the chapter be used as a platform from which to explore themes and perspectives developed in more detail in subsequent chapters. Accordingly, towards the end of the chapter, we looked at rational choice theory because that inspired the development of resource mobilisation theory, which we turn to examine in the next chapter.

Not only has it been the aim of this chapter to pre-empt material presented in later chapters of the book, but it is also intended that in so doing some legacies of earlier theories and approaches might be highlighted. In some cases, later work in the field negates earlier theories of collective behaviour and social movements, while in other cases, as we shall see, older theories continue to be relevant. In Chapter 6, for instance, we will look at how, in contrast to early social psychological and collective behaviour theories, contemporary social movement scholars view as positive the emotions, passion, feelings, and affectivity that are involved in protest and activism. We will also see how festival, carnival, drama, theatre, and performance are key to some forms of collective action, which, as we saw above,

are features Blumer associated with the *expressive crowd* that has no goals or purpose.

Throughout this chapter, we have also seen how religious movements, sects, and cults have been incorporated into early theories and conceptual frameworks, albeit that they are not accorded the status of social movements. For instance, Blumer regarded cults and sects as examples of *expressive social movements*, which, like fashion movements, do not seek social change. Similarly, Smelser saw sects and religious communes as examples of *crazes*, equivalent to fads and fashion in clothes, or otherwise as *value-oriented movements*. In Chapter 7, we return to examine this topic in greater depth by considering, among other things, why social movement scholars have tended to resist including religious movements in their analyses of social movements, as well as exploring connections that have been identified between new religious movements and new social movements.

Finally, it is intended that some of the material presented in this chapter feeds into the discussion of new social movement theory in Chapter 5. As mentioned above, this and other approaches that are concerned with culture and the *process* of collective identity formation owe a debt of gratitude to symbolic interactionism, especially the pioneering work of Blumer. Indeed, in certain respects, symbolic interactionism paved the way for the emergence of the 'cultural turn' in social movement studies. That not only spawned interest in new social movements, but also generated broad interest in the cultural aspects of protest, which we examine in subsequent parts of this book.

Note

1 Blumer's view of the public is comparable to what social philosophers like Hannah Arendt and Jürgen Habermas refer to as the 'public sphere' (Crossley 2002: 28).

SUGGESTED READINGS

Any textbook on social movements will provide coverage of most of the issues examined here. These are some examples:

Buechler, S. M. (2011) *Understanding Social Movements: Theories from the Classical Era to the Present*. Boulder, CO: Paradigm Publishers.

Crossley, N. (2002) *Making Sense of Social Movements*. Buckingham: Open University Press.

della Porta, D. and Diani, M. (2006) *Social Movements: An Introduction* (2nd ed). Oxford: Blackwell.

Johnston, H. (2014) *What Is a Social Movement?* Cambridge: Polity Press.

Staggenborg, S. (2011) *Social Movements*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.

Specifically in relation to collective behaviour theory, the following reference work provides an accessible summary:

Martin, G. (2017c) 'Collective behavior' in B. S. Turner, C. Kyung-Sup, C. F. Epstein, P. Kivisto, J. M. Ryan and W. Outhwaite (eds) *The Wiley-Blackwell Encyclopedia of Social Theory*. Chichester: Wiley-Blackwell, available at: <10.1002/9781118430873.est0437>.

The following is a very useful resource for understanding key concepts considered in this chapter, and throughout the book:

Chesters, G. and Welsh, I. (2011) *Social Movements: Key Concepts*. London: Routledge.

CHAPTER 4

Political opportunity, resource mobilisation, and social movement organisation

INTRODUCTION

This chapter builds upon material presented in the last chapter by first considering how resource mobilisation theory emerged as a critique of collective behaviour theory and rational choice theory. Rather than seeing social movements as irrational or comprised of disaggregated individuals, resource mobilisation theorists view social movements as *rational collective actors*, and focus on the role played by formal organisations in determining *how* social movements effectively mobilise resources to achieve their goals.

The chapter examines the political process model, which itself is critical of classical approaches that considered social movements as psychological phenomena, but is also critical of resource mobilisation theory for being apolitical and presenting a static model of collective action. Key to the political process model is the concept of 'political opportunity structure', which is discussed and evaluated. The cases of New Zealand's anti-nuclear weapons movement and US anti-corporate activism are used to show how the political opportunity structure concept has been extended and modified.

DOI: 10.4324/9780367821760-4

Scholars concerned with *how* movements mobilise have also studied the tactics of social movements, or 'repertoires of contention'. Furthermore, social movement tactics have been linked to 'cycles of protest', which are periods of intense collective action that emerge in response to political opportunities. Insofar as a focus on social movement organisation has implications for social movement outcomes, the chapter considers the ways original movement goals might be compromised by incorporation or co-optation into the formal political establishment, as well as the contribution made to movement outcomes by informal organisations and social networks. It is shown, for example, how black churches provided organisational networks and resources vital to the success of the civil rights movement in America. Moreover, in developing a 'master frame' around the principle of equal rights and opportunity for all, the black movement provided a diverse range of other movements in that protest cycle with a vehicle to articulate their own grievances and challenges.

The chapter ends by considering the impact of the 'cultural turn' on resource mobilisation theory by looking at the analysis of framing processes in social movement studies. The chapter's conclusion anticipates material presented in Chapter 5 by considering briefly the influence of resource mobilisation theory on 'cultural' approaches to understanding social movements, which are interested in 'structuralist' questions as to *why* social movements occur, yet retain a concern for *how* everyday networks and informal organisations contribute to collective mobilisation, and thereby examine the *processes* by which collective identities are formed.

RESOURCE MOBILISATION THEORY

In considering social movements as *rational collective actors*, resource mobilisation theorists articulate a critique of both Olson's rational choice theory, which it deems too individualistic, and collective behaviour theory, which depicts collective behaviour as irrational. Resource mobilisation theory emerged in the US during the 1970s. By way of comparison to collective behaviour theory, theorists attached to this school of thought see social movement activity as part of a normal process to secure political power. Unlike structuralist accounts of social movements, which are concerned with *why* social movements come into being (see Chapter 5), resource mobilisation theory is interested in *how* movements effectively mobilise resources to successfully achieve their organisational goals, where resources are taken to mean, 'anything from material resources – jobs, incomes, savings, and the right to material goods and services – to nonmaterial resources – authority, moral commitment, trust, friendship, skills' (Oberschall 1973: 28).

Although resource mobilisation theorists tend to be critical of Olson's rational choice theory, some have been more influenced by it than others. Crossley (2002: 78) remarks that Anthony Oberschall (1973) is the most explicit in his acceptance of Olson's basic proposition that people are rational and self-interested, as well as his idea of 'selective incentives', which are seen by Oberschall as 'more than sufficient to draw a rational actor into a collective struggle'. Crossley (2002: 86) shows how the influence of Olson is also present in McCarthy and Zald's work and, in particular, the economistic logic that informs Olson's framing of the problem of collective action.

For McCarthy and Zald (1977), social and political problems are analogous to economic problems, which are solved by entrepreneurs prepared to exploit a gap in the market, and which they are able to profit from. Social movement organisations (SMOs) therefore act like other organisations in society inasmuch as they are formal organisations attempting to implement the preferences of a social movement or 'countermovement' (see Box 4.1). McCarthy and Zald (1977: 1219) extend the economic analogy when they say that all SMOs operate as part of a broader social movement industry (SMI), where '[t]he definition of SMI parallels the concept of industry in economics'. Here, SMOs are the equivalent of firms within an industry. However, it is not an unproblematic task to group SMOs into SMIs, as some SMOs might have target goals that are narrowly stated whereas others will have broadly stated goals. For example, we may speak of:

> … the SMI that aims at liberalised alterations in laws, practices, and public opinion concerning abortion. This SMI would include a number of SMOs. But these SMOs may also be considered part of the broader SMI commonly referred to as the 'women's liberation movement', or they could be part of the 'population control movement'. (McCarthy and Zald 1977: 1220)

No matter to which social movement they are attached, all SMIs operate within a society's 'social movement sector' (SMS); a concept derived from the pluralist view of political power in America, which sees politics as 'a matter of competing interest groups, none of which can dominate completely over any of the others since all have access to resources of different kinds' (Nash 2000: 17). Thus, to McCarthy and Zald (1977: 1224), '[i]n any society the SMS must compete with other sectors and industries for the resources of the population'. A measure of the success of SMOs is whether they can compete successfully to achieve their 'target goals', which are defined as 'a set of preferred changes towards which [each SMO] claims to be working' (McCarthy and Zald 1977: 1220).

Individuals and organisations control resources that are vital to a SMO attaining its goals. Any social movement has 'adherents', or

individuals and organisations believing in a movement's goals. Those providing resources for a SMO are described as 'constituents'. The 'bystander public' refers to non-adherents who are indifferent to a social movement or SMO, and merely witness social movement activity. 'Potential beneficiaries' are those who would benefit directly if a SMO achieved its target goal. However, a SMO may attempt to mobilise adherents who are not potential beneficiaries. This category is divided into 'conscience adherents', or individuals and groups that are part of a social movement but do not stand to benefit from the goal accomplishment of a SMO, and 'conscience constituents', or direct supporters of a SMO not standing to benefit directly from its successful goal accomplishment. McCarthy and Zald also distinguish a 'classical SMO' from a 'professional SMOs', where the former refers to a SMO that focuses on beneficiary adherents for resources, while the latter denotes organisations directing resource appeals primarily at conscience adherents, and which use few constituents for organisational labour.

Box 4.1 Defining 'social movement'

McCarthy and Zald (1977: 1217–1218) define a *social movement* as 'a set of opinions and beliefs in a population representing preferences for changing some element of the social structure or reward distribution, or both, of a society'. A *countermovement*, on the other hand, refers to 'a set of opinions and beliefs in a population opposed to a social movement' (McCarthy and Zald 1977: 1218). A simple example here could be the fight by anti-vivisectionists to stop experimentation on animals (a social movement), which is met with resistance from research scientists (a countermovement), claiming that animal vivisection is needed to find cures for human diseases and life-threatening illnesses.

Although McCarthy and Zald (1977: 1218) are careful to provide an 'inclusive' definition of the term social movement, which 'allows the possibility that a social movement will not be represented by any organised groups but also allows for organisations that do not represent social movements at formation', the resource mobilisation perspective has been criticised for focusing on formal organisation, as well as relying on economistic language (e.g. rewards, preferences, resources), which tends to make its analysis of movement mobilisation lack both a spontaneous and a normative element. By contrast, in Chapter 3 we saw how Turner and Killian's (1987 [1957]) 'emergent norm theory' places a sense of injustice at the centre of all social movement activity. Moreover, we saw how activists

frequently respond emotionally, rather than rationally, to injustice. However, McCarthy and Zald's definition does have features in common with other theories of social movements, including a focus on: networks of relations between a plurality of actors; collective identity; and conflictual issues (Diani 1992).

A concern with networks of informal interactions is evident in the 'social movement sector' concept (discussed earlier), as well as McCarthy and Zald's more recent notion of 'micro-mobilisation context', which is defined as 'any small group setting in which processes of collective attribution are combined with rudimentary forms of organisation to produce mobilisation for collective action' (McAdam et al. 1988: 709). Mario Diani (1992: 8) says that although McCarthy and Zald's reference to 'a set of opinion and beliefs' in their definition of a social movement 'does not necessarily imply the presence of shared feelings of belongingness' (i.e. collective identity), their more recent work does 'testify to their growing concern for interactive processes of symbolic mediation which support individuals' commitment'. Finally, even though resource mobilisation theorists see social movements as involved in processes of social change, they nevertheless 'acknowledge that as promoters or opponents of social change social movements become involved in conflictual relations with other actors (institutions, countermovements, etc.)' (Diani 1992: 8).

POLITICAL PROCESS MODEL

Opinion appears to be divided as to which political model has most influenced resource mobilisation theorists. Chesters and Welsh (2011: 148) suggest the theory implies adherence to 'the pluralist system of political expression in the USA', which was explained above (see Nash 2000: 17). In an earlier critique, however, McAdam (1982: 36) argued the resource mobilisation perspective 'implies adherence to the elite model of the American political system', which 'rests on the fundamental assumption that wealth and power are concentrated in America in the hands of a few groups, thus depriving most people of any real influence over the majority decisions that affect their lives'. Social movements are therefore seen 'as rational attempts by excluded groups to mobilise sufficient political leverage to advance collective interests through non-institutionalised means' (McAdam 1982: 37).

Ironically, and notwithstanding these seeming differences of opinion as to the political grounding of resource mobilisation theory, critics have said that a major problem with the theory is its *apolitical*

nature. For example, Dalton et al. (1990: 9–10) argue, '[t]he theory appeared indifferent to the political or ideological content of a social movement; it was applied in an almost mechanistic way to organisations of widely differing political and ideological scope, without incorporating these factors within the workings of the model'. By contrast, European approaches to 'new' social movements (examined in Chapter 5) tend to give more weight to ideological factors – not only asking *how* social movements mobilise, but also asking *why* they do so. Moreover, other approaches place little emphasis on the mechanistic aspects of mobilisation, stressing instead the crucial role emotions play in activism and social protest (see Chapter 6).

In an early critique of existing perspectives on social movements, including resource mobilisation theory, Doug McAdam developed the political process model, which he claimed is more compatible with a Marxist view of power, in that it believes in the latent political power of excluded groups, who with sufficient organisation are capable of realising their own power and goals, without the patronage of elite groups. This view was born of McAdam's empirical work on black insurgency and the civil rights movement in America, which did not require an injection of external resources but largely relied upon pre-existing, indigenous networks and structures (e.g. black churches and community organisations) for its strength.

The term 'political process' captures the essence of McAdam's (1982: 36, original emphasis) approach, namely that 'in contrast to the various classical formulations, a social movement is held to be above all else a *political* rather than a psychological phenomenon' and that 'a movement represents a continuous *process* from generation to decline, rather than a discrete series of developmental stages'. Thus, the political process model stands in sharp contrast to resource mobilisation theory for: (a) emphasising the political dimension of social movements; and (b) stressing 'dynamism, strategic interaction, and response to the political environment' (McAdam et al. 2001: 16).

STRUCTURE OF POLITICAL OPPORTUNITIES

Central to the political process model is the concept of 'political opportunity structure', which refers to the degree of openness or closure of the formal political system (della Porta and Diani 2006: 16). As Meyer (2004) notes, the first explicit reference in the literature to a 'political opportunity' framework was made by Eisinger (1973) who was interested in whether the openness of urban governments to more conventional forms of citizen participation was likely or not to precipitate city riots. Eisinger (1973: 12) argued that 'it would seem reasonable to suspect that the incidence of protest […] is related to the

nature of the opportunity structure', which he defined in terms of the relative openness or closure of municipal governments in US cities. He concluded that '[c]ities with extensive institutional openings pre-empted riots by inviting conventional means of political participation to redress grievances; cities without visible openings for participation repressed or discouraged dissident claimants to foreclose eruptions of protest' (Meyer 2004: 128).

The relative openness or closure of the prevailing political system depends to a great extent upon the willingness of elite groups to include powerless groups in the polity. Ordinarily, excluded groups, or *challengers*, have little power due to their weak bargaining position relative to established polity *members*; although, as McAdam (1982: 40) points out, 'opportunities for a challenger to engage in successful collective action do vary greatly over time'. A good example of how the relative openness of political opportunity structures varies over time and according to the willingness of political elites to include excluded collective voices in the polity is evident in the Australian context. It has been observed that under the administration of Prime Minister John Howard (1996–2007) debate was stifled and dissent silenced (Hamilton and Maddison 2007; Maddison and Martin 2010), whereas soon after his election in 2007, Prime Minister Kevin Rudd (2007–2010, 2013), made a deliberate attempt to consult with a range of people and groups from across the community, holding the 2020 Summit in Canberra, 19–20 April 2008, in an effort to help shape a long-term strategy for the nation's future.

While resource mobilisation theorists depict segments of the elite as willing, and sometimes aggressive sponsors of social insurgency, the political process model is premised on a view 'that political action by established polity members reflects an abiding conservatism', meaning '[t]hey work against admission to the polity of groups whose interests conflict significantly with their own' (McAdam 1982: 38). To generate a social movement – and thus realise its latent potential – it is not sufficient for a powerless group or aggrieved population to be simply presented with a favourable structure of political opportunities. Rather, it 'must be able to "convert" a favourable "structure of political opportunities" into an organised campaign of social protest' (McAdam 1982: 44).

Although for many scholars political opportunity structure remains a useful concept, which has been extended and applied in numerous contexts (e.g. Box 4.2), it has been critiqued too. For example, Meyer (2004: 141) has criticised political opportunity theory for tending to produce research that is 'conceptualised broadly but operationalised narrowly'. Moreover, James Jasper (1997: 35) is critical of the circularity that is often involved in the use of the term political opportunity structure, saying that 'whatever "provides incentives" for collective action seems to be a political opportunity structure'. Jasper

also highlights the catch-all nature of the concept when he states, '[a]nything that, in retrospect, helped a movement mobilise or win a victory tends to be labelled a political opportunity structure' (Jasper 1997: 35). Finally, he argues, '[t]he term *structure* misleadingly implies relatively fixed entities, so that attention is often diverted away from open-ended strategic interplay. If the point is to highlight strategic political opportunities, adding the word *structure* creates an oxymoron' (Jasper 1997: 36, original emphasis).

Box 4.2 Political opportunity and nested institutions: The case of New Zealand's anti-nuclear weapons movement

Given the increasing influence of international factors on nation-states and protest, it is unsurprising social movement scholars have turned attention to the ways that interactions between domestic and international factors impact upon the claims and possible effects of social movements (see also Chapter 11). Using the case of the anti-nuclear weapons movement in New Zealand, David Meyer (2003) examines the relationship between the global and the local by explicitly extending the concept of political opportunity structure. He argues that 'national political opportunity structures are *nested* in a larger international environment that constrains or promotes particular kinds of opportunities for dissidents within the state' (Meyer 2003: 19, original emphasis).

Smaller organisations and social networks may be tightly or loosely nested within larger social and political institutions. Essentially, '[t]he more tightly nested an institution is, the more constrained are its policy options and politics' (Meyer 2003: 24). In the New Zealand case, though, 'the geographic and political distance afforded the state sufficient autonomy such that a social movement could achieve policy changes unthinkable elsewhere' (Meyer 2003: 24). During the 1980s, the Western security alliance, headed by the US, was critical of New Zealand's anti-nuclear policy. However, New Zealand's Labour government was able to capitalise on this loose nesting of the state within wider international politics, which 'created a great deal of slack, and afforded politicians a range of policy options unavailable to allied states facing equally determined peace movements' (Meyer 2003: 30).

New Zealand's nuclear-free stance enabled it to carve out a distinct international identity, as well as a different and less marginal position in the international political arena. And even when the US imposed restrictions on the extent of cooperation and flow of intelligence between the two nations,



Figure 4.1 The Rainbow Warrior in Mardsen Wharf, Auckland Harbour, after the bombing by French secret service agents in 1985 © Greenpeace / John Miller

the New Zealand government was able to work that to its advantage. America's harsh rhetorical response to New Zealand's anti-nuclear policy, coupled with minimal sanctions, helped New Zealanders to see the nuclear issue as a matter of self-determination and national independence: 'A nuclear-free New Zealand became a point of public pride, and not simply an exit from existing security arrangements' (Meyer 2003: 30–31). And, Meyer (2003: 29) says, this sense of nationalist pride was reinforced when the Greenpeace ship, *Rainbow Warrior*, was blown up and sunk by French intelligence agents in Auckland harbour in 1985, killing a crew member in the process (Figure 4.1). The New Zealand anti-nuclear movement was also buoyed by peace movements elsewhere, which was a reciprocal affair insofar as 'activists in the Western alliance attempted to adapt the nuclear-free-zone concept to their own political purposes' (Meyer 2003: 31).

OPPORTUNITY STRUCTURES IN ANTI-CORPORATE ACTIVISM

In her book about anti-corporate activism in the United States, Sarah Soule (2009) shows how in addition to a domestic opportunity structure, there exists a transnational or international political opportunity structure, which affects the operation of social movements. Drawing

on the ideas of Van der Heijden (2006), Soule (2009: 44) shows how at the global level the notion of political opportunity structure 'may be thought of as the set of international governmental associations (e.g. UN, EU, WTO, World Bank), which establish treaties, agreements, and norms'. We will consider these ideas in more detail in Chapter 11, when, among other things, we look at them in the context of the emergence of a 'global civil society'.

In relation to her work on anti-corporate activism, however, Soule argues the international political opportunity structure may be particularly significant for some corporations operating within multinational enterprises, which are governed by international agreements and treaties. In fact, she states, 'multinational enterprises exist within a domestic opportunity structure, the opportunity structure of the host country in which they operate, and the transnational opportunity structure, thus social movements against such corporations and their outcomes are governed by multiple levels of opportunity' (Soule 2009: 44).

Soule (2009: 39–40) also notes some modifications of the 'political opportunity structure' concept, including 'cultural opportunity structure', 'legal opportunity structure', and 'gendered opportunity structure'. However, she argues, only the notion of gendered opportunity structure has helped develop our understanding of social movement *outcomes* (as opposed to social movement mobilisation):

> The gendered opportunity structure includes the characteristics of the political system that might make political actors more or less favourable to claims by women. For example, favourable public opinion about women's roles and women legislators has been used to operationalise this concept. (Soule 2009: 40)

Soule argues that the pressure put on American universities during the 1970s and 1980s to divest in South Africa-related companies in protest at the racist policy of apartheid was helped greatly by the fact that the American public was appalled by what was going on in South Africa. In this way, the beliefs and opinions of the larger society, she contends, 'might be thought of in terms of the broader cultural opportunity structure' (Soule 2009: 91). Moreover, the prodivestment pressures emanating from the US Congress, which passed several pieces of anti-apartheid legislation during the mid-1980s, 'may be thought of as part of the broader political and legal opportunity structure' (Soule 2009: 91).

Soule's study has been applied to the Australian context in relation to Transfield Services – a private company contracted to run Australia's offshore refugee detention centres where human rights abuses have been rife – which was subject to divestment campaigns and a threatened artists boycott of the 2014 Sydney Biennale because Transfield was the sponsor (Martin and Tazreiter 2017). While the latter campaign was successful in precipitating

Transfield's withdrawal as a sponsor, in August 2015 the Australian government extended the company's contract to operate its offshore detention centres on Nauru and Manus Island (Conroy 2015).

Hence, it has been said that unlike the US prodivestment movement the prevailing political opportunity structure in Australia has been relatively closed, and that 'the history of government antagonism toward asylum seekers in Australia indicates we are unlikely to see anything resembling positive legal and humanitarian reform in this area anytime soon' (Martin and Tazreiter 2017: 110). More recently, in an example of what might be thought of as a 'protest-on-protest' episode, Just Stop Oil activists, including queer activists, disrupted London's Pride parade – spraying the road and sitting in front of a Coca-Cola float – in protest at the event accepting sponsorship money from 'high-polluting industries' such as United Airlines, thus opening it up to accusations of 'pinkwashing' (Greig 2023).

REPERTOIRES OF CONTENTION

A concern with *how* social movements mobilise has led some to examine 'repertoires of contention', or 'the tactics groups employ in their struggles with one another' (McAdam 1995: 235). Charles Tilly (1986: 4, original emphasis) developed the concept of repertoire, which he defines as follows: 'With regard to any particular group, we can think of the whole set of means it has for making claims of different kinds on different individuals or groups as its *repertoire* of contention'. Tilly argues that most of the time the forms of social movement claims in any given place bear a strong resemblance to previous forms. This is not to say, however, that repertoires are merely repetitive, since protest tactics are always adapted to context. Indeed, Tilly (2006: 41) notes that movement participants are engaged in 'unceasing small-scale innovation', although this tends to be 'innovation within the script':

> Any population has a limited repertoire of collective action: alternative means of acting together on shared interests. In our time, for example, most people know how to participate in an electoral campaign, join or form a special-interest association, or organise a letter-writing drive, demonstrate, strike, hold a meeting, and build an influence network. (Tilly 1986: 390)

The existing repertoire therefore circumscribes collective action. However, as Rhys Williams (2004: 96) points out, the metaphor of the 'repertoire' not only constrains collective action; for it combines *structure* and *agency* – choices are made but 'within structured options', thus leaving room for agency and strategic decision-

making, while acknowledging the cultural and historical circumstances constraining choice:

> The dictionary definition of 'repertoire' plays on both the structuring and agentic aspect of the term. It defines repertoire as the plays or operas a company is prepared to perform, as a list of skills an individual or group possesses, and as a complete supply of devices or ingredients used in a particular field or practice. Thus it is both the storehouse of available elements, as well as those that actors have the knowledge and capacity to use. (Williams 2004: 96)

Tilly (1986: 390) also makes a musical analogy, saying the repertoire in question will resemble the improvisation of jazz artists: 'people know the general rules or performance more or less well and vary the performance to meet the purpose at hand'. For Tilly, repertoires 'do not descend from abstract philosophy'; they are 'learned cultural creations' emerging from struggle:

> People learn to break windows in protest, attack pilloried prisoners, tear down dishonored houses, stage public marches, petition, hold formal meetings, organise self-interest associations. At any particular point in history, however, they learn only a rather small number of alternative ways to act collectively. (Tilly 1995: 26)

In his historical study of popular action in France, Tilly shows how there was a shift in the repertoire of contention from about the 1850s. The repertoire before that time tended to be *parochial* in scope (i.e. focused at the local level) and relied heavily on *patronage*, that is, 'appealing to immediately available powerholders to convey grievances or settle disputes' (Tilly 1986: 391). Examples included: seizure of grain; field invasions; destruction of tollgates (Box 4.3); and attacks on machines.

Box 4.3 The Rebecca Riots

The Rebecca Riots were a series of protests, taking place between 1839 and 1843, where Welsh tenant farmers and farm workers destroyed turnpikes. Turnpikes were gates built across roads by landowners, which prevented people from passing through unless a toll was paid. Previously, passage was free. Believing the tollgates threatened their livelihood since they would be charged to take their livestock and crops to market, protestors from an already impoverished rural population set about destroying the gates. The protestors comprised men dressed up as women and were named, 'Rebecca's Daughters', reputedly

after a verse in the Biblical book of *Genesis* (24:60): 'And they blessed Rebekah, and said unto her, Thou art our sister, be thou the mother of thousands of millions, and let thy seed possess the gate of those which hate them'.

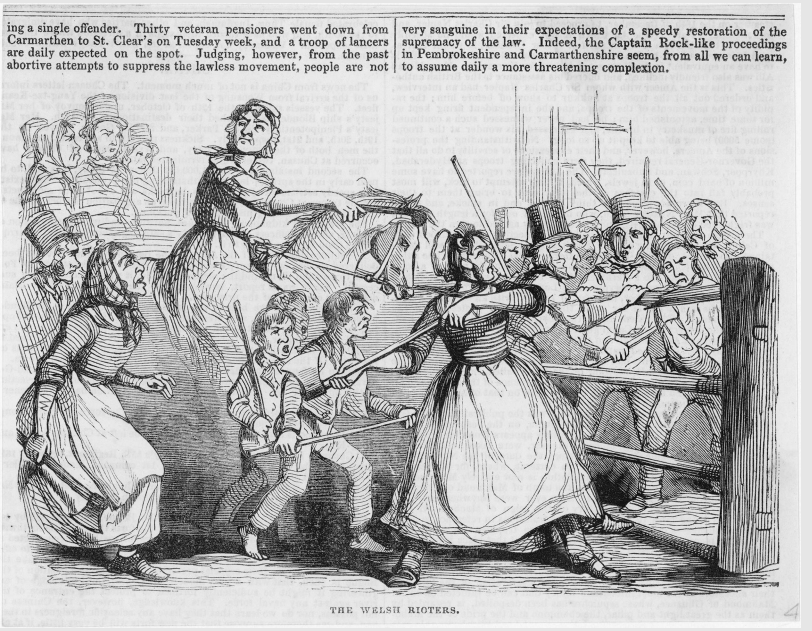


Figure 4.2 During the Rebecca Riots tollgates were attacked in South Wales. Many of the male rioters dressed as women and called themselves 'Rebecca and her daughters' © Illustrated London News Ltd/Mary Evans

The repertoire that emerged in the mid-nineteenth century, on the other hand, was generally *national* in scope and relatively *autonomous*, meaning people instigated their own grievances and demands independently of existing powerholders. The social movement that emerged during the mid-1800s comprised a 'series of challenges', usually against the national authorities, and the new repertoire consisted of 'concrete actions' that combined 'various elements', including 'public meetings, demonstrations, marches, strikes, and so on' (Tilly 1986: 392). Examples of this new repertoire and the operation of social movements were the 'vast linked demonstrations of Languedoc's winegrowers in 1907 [Box 4.4] and the coordinated road-blocking and potato-dumping of Brittany's farmers in 1961' (Tilly 1986: 393). For Tilly, this coordination of complex collective action to produce the appearance of a unified social movement was 'virtually unknown in Western nations until the nineteenth century' (Tilly 1986: 394).

Box 4.4 Revolt of the Languedoc winegrowers

In 1907, winegrowers and vine workers in the Languedoc region of southern France mounted a revolt in protest at a glut in the wine market that had the effect of driving down the price of wine, lowering wages, and threatening jobs. The oversupply of wine was caused by the increasing use of industrial wine making methods and 'fraudulent' wine production techniques (i.e. using sugar, chemicals, and industrial alcohols), which departed from the production of 'natural' wines. Echoing the rhetoric of the union movement, the winegrowers and vine workers demanded a 'right to work' or as the leader of the movement, Marcelin Albert, put it a 'right to live from the vine' (Harvey Smith 1978: 110). The collective organisation of the Languedoc winegrowers and vine workers supports Tilly's (1986) account of repertoires employed by mass movements from the mid-nineteenth century, since the movement engaged successfully with the French government that enacted a law, 'which strictly regulated the use of sugar in wine making, and discouraged other forms of fraud by requiring every grower register the size of his vineyard and his annual wine harvest' (Harvey Smith 1978: 120).



Figure 4.3 French winegrowers revolt led by Marcelin Albert in Narbonne, 1907 © Mr. Sallis-Bouscarle

So why did the repertoires change? Tilly explains the shift from a local repertoire based on patronage to a newer national repertoire based on autonomy according to the process of the concentration of capital and political power that occurred from the mid-nineteenth century:

> As capitalism advanced, as national states became more powerful and centralised, local affairs and nearby patrons mattered less to the fates of ordinary people. Increasingly, holders of large capital and national power made decisions that affected them. As a result seizures of grain, collective invasions of fields, and the like became ineffective, irrelevant, obsolete. In response to the shifts of power and capital, ordinary people invented and adopted new forms of action, creating the electoral campaign, the public meeting, the social movement, and the other elements of the newer repertoire. (Tilly 1986: 395–396)

While marches, boycotts, occupations, and so forth still largely characterise the modern repertoire of collective action, campaigns for global justice signal a changing context, and with it a changing repertoire. Transformations in global capitalism have meant capital is concentrated less in national industries and more in multi-national corporations; the power of nation-states is now checked by that of supranational bodies and organisations such as the United Nations and World Bank; and the harnessing of new technologies like the Internet and social media by social movements means mobilisations tend increasingly to have a transnational rather than national orientation (della Porta and Diani 2006: 170). We will return to look at the effect of digital technologies on the scope of both local and global activism in the contemporary world in Chapters 9 and 11.

CYCLES OF PROTEST

Sidney Tarrow has employed a variant of the political process model to examine what he terms 'cycles of contention' or 'protest cycles', which are intensified periods of collective action. Tarrow (1998: 10) shows how cycles of protest emerge in response to changes in political opportunities and constraints, which people build upon using known repertoires, and are based on dense social networks and consensual, action-oriented 'cultural frames' (which are discussed in more depth later in this chapter). The convergence of all of these factors facilitates sustained conflict with powerful opponents. Only in such cases does a social movement exist; and 'when contention

spreads across an entire society, as it sometimes does, we see a cycle of contention' (Tarrow 1998: 10). An example would be the various social movements that emerged out of the 1960s counterculture, which initially started in the US but eventually spread to other countries.

In one sense, the concept of cycles or waves of protest stands in stark contrast to the notion of repertoires of contention, discussed above, because while the former represent intensified periods of protest the latter change very slowly via long evolutionary processes (Tarrow 1995: 91). Nevertheless, Tarrow proposes a resolution to this apparent paradox, saying:

> … moments of madness do not transform the repertoire of contention all at once and out of whole cloth, but contribute to its evolution through the dynamic evolution of larger cycles of mobilisation in which the innovations in collective action that they produce are diffused, tested, and refined in adumbrated form and eventually become part of the accepted repertoire. It is within these larger cycles that new forms of contention combine with old ones, the expressive encounters the instrumental, traditional actors adopt tactics from new arrivals, and newly invented forms of collective action become what I call 'modular'. Cycles of protest are the crucibles in which moments of madness are tempered into the permanent tools of a society's repertoire of contention. (Tarrow 1995: 91–92)

Donatella della Porta and Mario Diani (2006: 189) show how the idea that mobilisation ebbs and flows, proceeding in waves, has consequences for repertoires of contention. Moreover, they argue, as a protest cycle develops, movements may change tactics, which, in turn, affects changes in the external environment. Thus, they say, disruptive tactics are often used during the initial stages of protest, which may be met with hostility by the authorities, especially where political opportunities are closed. Later in a protest cycle, the authorities might decide that 'instead of calling out the troops or allowing the police to wade into a crowd' it is better to 'infiltrate dissenting groups and separate leaders from followers' (Tarrow 1994: 112). Alternatively, participation may be channelled into organisations, and, in such cases, movement actors might adopt a more political logic, whereby they engage in implicit bargaining with those in authority (Tarrow 1994: 168). However, as we shall see below, that approach might affect positively the efficacy of a social movement, or it may result in the co-optation of a movement into the political system, which could mean it compromises its original values and goals.

Box 4.5 The interplay of spontaneity and pre-existing organisations and networks for mobilisation

Previously, it was stated that of all resource mobilisation theorists, Oberschall is the most explicit in his appropriation of Olson's ideas. However, his work departs from Olson's in an important way. Oberschall (1973: 117) is critical of Olson's 'assumption that the members of a large collectivity are unorganised individual decision-makers similar to the numerous, small, independent producers in the market of the classical economist'. Rather than seeing collective action as a problem analogous to the economic decision-making of atomised individuals, Oberschall proposes a *sociological* theory of mobilisation, which assumes collective action is grounded in pre-existing networks of everyday life, local communities, and small organisations, all of which provide valuable resources for protest movements.

Many accounts of black insurgency and the US civil rights movement have adopted this general approach, arguing that black churches in particular provided organisational networks and resources (such as leadership and supporters) essential to the success of the black protest movement (e.g. McAdam 1982; Morris 1984). However, Aldon Morris (1984: 281) is critical of Oberschall's approach to the civil rights movement for overemphasising the role of outside support from 'Northern white liberals, the federal government, courts, mass media, philanthropic foundations, and white college students'. While Oberschall does acknowledge the black community and especially black churches 'provided an important pre-existing mobilisation and resource base for the movement […] because his approach assigns heavy weight to outside elites and events, it does not reveal the scope or the capacity of the movement's indigenous base' (Morris 1984: 281). In contrast, Morris (1984: 281) states his research, 'demonstrates that the overwhelming majority of local movements were indigenously organised and financed'.

Furthermore, while McAdam and Morris 'firmly established the centrality of pre-existing organisational structures in facilitating mobilisation', Snow and Moss (2014: 1126) have argued those approaches ignored the role spontaneity plays in collection action. In particular, they note Turner and Killian's (1987 [1957]: 294, emphasis added) allusion to the '*interplay* between spontaneity and organisation', which was evident in the 1956 Tallahassee Bus Boycott where, according to Killian (1984: 772, 780), '[t]he precipitating incident was the consequence of

what was clearly a spontaneous action by two students with no record of activism and no organisational connections outside Florida A & M University [but] the importance of pre-existing structures – both organisations and networks – is inescapably evident'.

More recently, Cristina Flesher Fominaya (2015: 142) has argued that far from being spontaneous the mobilisation of the Indignados in 2011 was 'the result of the evolution of an autonomous collective identity predicated on deliberative movement culture in Spain since the early 1980s'. Furthermore, she argues, this case study contributes to Verta Taylor's work highlighting the importance of 'abeyance structures' for social movement continuity (which we will look at in Chapter 5), since it demonstrates the need for historically grounded analyses that pay close attention to the ways collective identities and movement cultures evolve and are maintained during periods of latency (or in periods of abeyance) to better understand the rapid and seemingly spontaneous mobilisation of movement networks in new episodes of contention. Similar observations have been made about the supposed spontaneity of Hong Kong's Umbrella Movement in 2014, which arose instead from antecedent events and extant grassroots activism (Cheng and Chan 2017). Likewise, George Weddington (2021) has argued countless preceding movement organisations were essential to early Black Lives Matter protests (see also Phelps et al. 2021).

Perhaps 'flash mobs' are the most spontaneous of all forms of collective action, where flash mobs are typically understood as 'a group of people who use a communication platform to meet in public or semi-public locations to perform the same short activity and then disperse' (Gyimesi 2021: 417, citing Molnár 2014: 49). However, in a study of contemporary flash mobs linked to Budapest's Urban Playground Movement, Gyimesi (2021) shows how they exhibit both *continuity* and *discontinuity*. Flash mobs show social movement continuity as movement-experienced leaders act as instigators for events derived from existing international conflictual frames around reclaiming public spaces to prefigure more social cities. However, flash mobs exhibit movement discontinuity since participants also have non-ideological, fun-seeking motivation. As we shall see in Chapter 9, similar issues regarding social movement continuity/discontinuity have also been raised in relation to the emergence of the Tea Party movement apparently 'out of nowhere', with some arguing the mobilisation was media manufactured, while others argue the movement emerged from a pre-existing conservative base.

HOW ORGANISED SHOULD A SOCIAL MOVEMENT BE?

From the analysis presented in Box 4.5, regarding the importance of indigenous networks of social relations and local communities for collective mobilisation, flows a key criticism of resource mobilisation theory, namely that it overemphasises the role of formal organisations, and tends to allot little or no significance to informal and less organised social groups (Crossley 2002: 92). However, this also highlights a fundamental dilemma lying at the heart of much collective action, which was identified some time ago by Alberoni (1984) when he argued that 'movement' and 'institution' ought to be considered, theoretically speaking, as two very different social states. In empirical work, this is reflected in a concern for the effects on social movements of processes of co-optation, incorporation, and professionalisation.

As we saw above, for adherents of the political process model, social movement activists must somehow attempt 'to "convert" a favourable "structure of political opportunities" into an *organised* campaign of social protest' (McAdam 1982: 44, emphasis added). In other terms, they must seek to connect their demands to 'institutionally imminent possibilities' (Giddens 1991b: 155). However, for some social movement commentators, incorporation into the political system is regarded undesirable, since it is believed to be effective collective actors must seek to be *autonomous* of established political institutions. For others, such as Tilly, 'integration into the political system [...] may facilitate the realisation of a movement's aims, rather than representing its co-option and neutralisation' (Nash 2000: 131). Indeed, during periods in which it may be hard to mobilise support, formalised social movement organisations may find it easier to maintain themselves as 'they have paid leaders who create stability because they can be relied on to perform ongoing tasks necessary to organisational maintenance' and they 'have structures that ensure that tasks are performed despite a turnover in personnel' (Staggenborg 1988: 599).

A further illustration of the conundrum of organisation and institutionalisation that is faced by many activists is provided in McAdam's work on the black civil rights movement. Crossley (2002: 92) makes the point that, for McAdam, external sponsorship and the formal organisational structure that frequently comes with this, can act as a conservative force in the sense that 'formality breeds accountability and thus deference towards the political establishment, when real change sometimes requires radical actions which offend the sensibilities of the establishment'. On the other hand, a loss of organisation contributed to the eventual demise of the civil rights movement:

> Without the 'conscious planning or centralised direction' needed to link together the growing collection of autonomous protest units, the black movement had, by the decade's end, become a largely impotent political force at the national level. Lacking the strong centralised organisational vehicles required to sustain the disruptive campaigns that earlier had supported federal action, the movement was increasingly confined to limited efforts at local level. (McAdam 1982: 186)

ASSESSING SOCIAL MOVEMENT SUCCESS

Talk of the demise of social movements, begs the question: how might we ascertain whether or not a social movement has been successful? While one might consider this a fundamental line of inquiry in social movement studies, not least because 'one of the raisons d'être of social movements is to bring about changes in some aspects of society', it is however a relatively neglected area of study (Giugni 1999: xv). Nonetheless, there is research that deals with the impact, outcomes, and consequences of social movements.

For example, in their study of social movements as bearers of new ideas, which we mentioned in Chapter 2 and will revisit in Chapter 6, Eyerman and Jamison (1991) consider social movements as transitory phenomena whose success is paradoxical: 'The more successful a movement is in spreading its knowledge interests or diffusing its consciousness, the less successful it is likely to be as a permanent organisation' (Eyerman and Jamison 1991: 3–4). Moreover, the longer a movement exists outside or on the fringes of the political system, the less influential it is likely to be. In the short run, the success or failure of a movement will depend on its ability to mobilise resources or exploit political opportunities to achieve its goals. However, its success, historically speaking, will depend on 'the effective diffusion of its knowledge production; but diffusion depends upon there being sufficient time and space for a movement identity to be articulated' (Eyerman and Jamison 1991: 64). Thus, movements are successes in one way, yet failures in another, which is a point that applies to social movements as bearers of new knowledge as well as movements seeking political inclusion. A similar point has been made by Alan Scott (1990: 10–11) who says if a telos of social movement activity is the normalisation of previously excluded issues and groups, then 'success' is 'quite compatible with, and indeed overlaps, the disappearance of the movement as a movement'.

A discussion about social movement success also has implications for the aforementioned concept of 'political opportunity structure'.

In discussing the effect of social movement activism on public policy, Meyer says that policy changes affect the conditions in which activists mobilise. He states, '[a]s policy makers respond to social movements, the environment in which the movement makes claims – the "structure of political opportunities" in particular – changes, advantaging and foreclosing particular claimants and strategies of influence' (Meyer 2005: 19). Governments may respond to movements in a number of ways. They may do so only by defining narrow policy outputs, they may do so on a rhetorical level, they may officially recognise movement groups or individual activists within the domain of policy, or they may appoint activists to official positions within a bureaucracy:

> Thus, the feminist campaign against rape as the most threatening and egregious element of patriarchy was turned into a public safety effort. From eliminating oppression of women, activists and government established a working relationship, in Matthews's (1994) terms, with the goal of 'managing' the problem of rape. At the same time, government's appropriation of the campaign against rape, using its resources to control the image of the issue and to enlist and employ activists as service workers, made it more difficult for activists to mobilise. (Meyer 2005: 19)

THE 'CULTURAL TURN' IN RESOURCE MOBILISATION THEORY: FRAMING PROCESSES AND COLLECTIVE ACTION

A development in resource mobilisation theory that is a precursor to some of the material presented in the next chapter to do with the emergence of 'new' social movements, concerns what Kate Nash (2000: 123–131) describes as the 'cultural turn' in resource mobilisation theory. Specifically, she is referring to the development of frame analysis in the study of social movements, which we touched upon in Chapter 3.

In an effort to remedy the criticism that resource mobilisation theory proffers an atomistic and overly rationalistic model of the individual, certain scholars have attempted to account for subjectivity and culture in collective mobilisation processes. Influenced by the work of American sociologist, Erving Goffman, and, in particular, his book, *Frame Analysis* (Goffman 1974), social movement scholars have developed a perspective that seeks to link social psychological and resource mobilisation views about movement participation. Accordingly, Snow et al. (1986: 464) talk of 'frame alignment processes', which they take to mean 'the linkage of individual and SMO interpretative orientations, such that some set of individual interests, values, and beliefs and SMO activities, goals, and ideology are

congruent and complementary'. Put more simply, frame alignment entails 'achieving a common definition of a social problem and a common prescription for solving it' (Goodwin et al. 2001b: 6).

Goffman (1974: 21) originally used the term 'frame' to denote 'schemata of interpretation', which enable individuals 'to locate, perceive, identify, and label' occurrences in their life space and the world at large. By helping make events and occurrences meaningful, frames function to organise experience and guide action; both individual and collective action. Therefore, to Snow et al. (1986: 464), 'frame alignment is a necessary condition for movement participation, whatever its nature or intensity'.

Like the frames Goffman refers to, 'collective action frames' perform an interpretive function by simplifying and condensing elements of the 'world out there', though in ways 'intended to mobilise potential adherents and constituents, to garner bystander support, and to demobilise antagonists' (Snow and Benford 1988: 198). Hence, 'collective action frames are action-oriented sets of beliefs and meanings that inspire and legitimate the activities and campaigns of a social movement organisation' (Benford and Snow 2000: 614).

Collective action frames are constituted through a set of 'core framing tasks' whereby 'movement adherents negotiate a shared understanding of some problematic condition or situation they define as in need of change, make attributions regarding who or what is to blame, articulate an alternative set of arrangements, and urge others to act in concert to affect change' (Benford and Snow 2000: 615). Benford and Snow refer to processes of identifying problems and attributing blame as 'diagnostic framing', studies of which tend to focus on 'injustice frames' that 'call attention to the ways in which movements identify the "victims" of a given injustice and amplify their victimisation' (Benford and Snow 2000: 615). It will be recalled from Chapter 3, that Turner and Killian (1987 [1957]) believed a sense of injustice is central to all social movement activity. Likewise, Gamson (1992: 68, original emphasis) has asserted that all 'collective action frames are *injustice* frames'. However, Benford and Snow (2000: 615) reject sweeping generalisations such as this because, they say, '[i]n the case of many religious, self-help, and identity movements, for example, it is questionable whether a well-elaborated collective action frame need include an injustice component'.

Box 4.6 Master frames and cycles of protest

Previously, we saw how Tarrow (1998: 10) argues that in periods of intense mobilisation, or 'protest cycles', people 'draw on consensual and action-oriented cultural frames', where

a cycle of protest is taken to mean the existence of conflict or contention across an entire society. To accommodate the idea that social movements operate within cycles of protest, Snow and Benford (1992) have developed the notion of 'master frames', which perform the same function as movement-specific collective action frames but do so on a larger scale.[1] In short, a master frame 'allows numerous aggrieved groups to tap it and elaborate their grievances in terms of its basic problem-solving schema' (Snow and Benford 1992: 140). They give the example of the US civil rights movement, which developed a master frame that accentuated the generic 'principle of equal rights and opportunities regardless of ascribed characteristics and articulated it with the goal of integration through nonviolent means' (Snow and Benford 1992: 145).

Master frames such as this have widespread appeal, providing a variety of movements within a protest cycle with a vehicle to mobilise their own challenges. In the case of the US civil rights movement, Snow and Benford (1992: 149) argue, 'the flowering of movements such as those associated with women, Chicanos, American Indians, the aged, and the disabled on the heels of the black movement was precipitated in part by the extension of the principle of sexual rights and opportunities from the domain of black America to the situation of the other groups'. However, just as master frames might play a central role in initiating cycles of protest, so, Crossley (2002: 146) observes, it follows that 'cycles may come to an end when a particular master frame loses its appeal'.

CONCLUSION

McAdam et al. (1996b) have attempted to provide an integrated and dynamic model of social movements by looking at the relationships between political opportunities, mobilising structures, and framing processes. However, this has met with criticism from Nash for, among other things, McAdam et al. exaggerate the degree to which movement actors control definitions and opportunities. Citing Tarrow (1992), Nash (2000: 128) argues, 'social movement leaders do not have complete control over how the collective frames of action they propose will be received, nor over how far their supporters will be prepared to follow their leads'. As Tarrow (1992: 191) himself puts it: 'framing is less like a completed symphony than like improvisational jazz: composers provide the initial "head" for a

jam session, but the improvisations depend on a group of players over whom they have little control'.

Moreover, Nash (2000: 128) contends, McAdam et al.'s approach reveals a wider problem associated with the cultural turn of resource mobilisation theory, namely that '[t]he understanding of actors' motivations for collective action as socially constructed cannot simply be grafted on to the resource mobilisation theory approach, as if its premises in rational choice theory were irrelevant'. Furthermore, resource mobilisation theorists 'tend to see culture simply as a resource, to be manipulated by an actor who is somehow outside it, using it rationally as the best means to reach a given end' (Nash 2000: 128). To Nash, this avoids addressing the fundamental question the cultural turn intends to address; that is, to provide an explanation as to how it is people become involved in collective action in the first place.

Indeed, while there are some similarities between the framing approach and culturalist perspectives in social movement studies, as we shall see in the following two chapters, there are also significant differences. Hence, Benford and Snow's (2000) concern with the role of beliefs and meanings in inspiring individuals to get involved in collective action, as well as their interest in the processual aspects of protest whereby activists negotiate a shared understanding of a problematic situation or condition, is reminiscent of Alberto Melucci's approach to social movements which, he says, consist of a plurality meanings and orientations that must be reconciled if a coherent collective identity is to be formed. Moreover, as we will see in Chapter 6, since it is an offshoot of resource mobilisation theory, the framing perspective may be criticised not only for treating some of the cultural aspects of social movements (e.g. songs and music) as mere resources to build solidarity, but also for overstating rationality and cognition and understating the role of emotions in motivating people to become involved in collective action. As we have already established, often it is a sense of injustice that spurs people to act collectively, and it is usually emotions (e.g. anger, indignation, fear, or compassion) that underpin this response rather than rational or cognitive processes.

In the next chapter, we will examine cultural approaches to the study of social movements that have been developed largely in Europe, some of which combine resource mobilisation theory's concern with *how* movements mobilise resources to achieve their goals and 'structuralist' accounts of *why* social movements emerge. Apparent in this work is the influence of Oberschall's notion that pre-existing networks in everyday life form the basis of much collective action, which is an idea that now informs a whole body of research into social movements and networks, and involves the empirical study of a range of social protest – from local grassroots activism to global social movements.

Note

1 This is similar to the distinction Herbert Blumer (1969) makes between general and specific social movements, which we considered in Chapter 3.

SUGGESTED READINGS

The following two texts provide detailed explorations of some of the key ideas presented in this chapter to do with movement dynamics, political opportunities, and framing approaches:

McAdam, D., McCarthy, J. D. and Zald, M. N. (eds) (1996a) *Comparative Perspectives on Social Movements: Political Opportunities, Mobilizing Structures, and Cultural Framings*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

The two books below provide detailed accounts of the US civil rights movement. McAdam's book is particularly significant as it contains some early ideas on structures of political opportunity and the political process model.

McAdam, D. (1982) *Political Process and the Development of Black Insurgency 1930–1970*. Chicago, IL: The University of Chicago Press.

McAdam, D., Tarrow, S. and Tilly, C. (2001) *Dynamics of Contention*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

Morris, A. (1984) *The Origins of the Civil Rights Movement: Black Communities Organizing for Change*. New York, NY: Free Press.

In this article, Mario Diani develops a synthetic definition of 'social movement', which he derives from a variety of social movement theories, including some considered in this chapter as well as in Chapter 5:

Diani, M. (1992) 'The concept of social movement' *The Sociological Review* 40(1): 1–25.

These two articles provide useful overviews of the framing and political opportunity perspectives:

Benford, R. D. and Snow, D. A. (2000) 'Framing processes and social movements: An overview and assessment' *Annual Review of Sociology* 26: 611–639.

Meyer, D. S. (2004) 'Protest and political opportunities' *Annual Review of Sociology* 30: 125–145.

McCarthy and Zald's article constitutes a classic pronouncement on resource mobilisation theory. Meanwhile, in a relatively early critique, Steven Buechler draws on his own research into the US women's movement to identify several emerging theoretical trends,

which, he says, pose challenges to the resource mobilisation framework. These include some of the ideas and issues discussed in the next chapter and the one after that, such as collective identity, movement diversity, and processes of cultural construction.

McCarthy, J. D. and Zald, M. N. (1977) 'Resource mobilization and social movements: A partial theory' *American Journal of Sociology* 82(6): 1212–1241.

Buechler, S. M. (1993) 'Beyond resource mobilization? Emerging trends in social movement theory' *The Sociological Quarterly* 34(2): 217–235.

CHAPTER 5

Social movements, old and new

INTRODUCTION

From the 1960s, people began to talk about the emergence of 'new social movements'. These movements are referred to as 'new' for several reasons, which we will explore in this chapter, but the main reason they have been described as such is because they raise issues and make demands about identity, lifestyle, and *difference* that are quite distinct from the class-based, socio-economic claims and demands of the labour movement. However, as we shall see, the novelty of these movements has been the subject of much debate and contention, which is one of the reasons why the word *new* is sometimes placed in inverted commas in this chapter.

Throughout the chapter, we consider key ideas and concepts underpinning perspectives on new social movements, including the notions of 'post-materialism' and 'recognition'. We also look at important critiques of new social movement theory and consider key concepts associated with those analyses, such as 'post-Fordism'. During the course of the chapter, we look at a number of case studies and examples to illustrate points that are made about new social movement theory and its critics. Similar to what we did towards the end of the last chapter, we finish this chapter by looking at proposals to synthesise European and North American approaches to social movements, which, in an effort to reconcile divergent perspectives, attempt to show *how* social movements form collective (cultural) identities and achieve (political) goals, as

DOI: 10.4324/9780367821760-5

well as addressing structural concerns as to *why* movements arise in the first place.

NEW SOCIAL MOVEMENTS IN PROGRAMMED SOCIETY

Alain Touraine was among the first to refer to the emergence of a new social movement. Writing from a neo-Marxist perspective, Touraine's views are premised on a particular theory of society, which he sees as dominated by a central class conflict. Thus, just as industrial society was defined by the conflict between capital and labour, so, Touraine believes, 'post-industrial society' will be defined by a social conflict between two opposing classes.

For Touraine (1985: 778), the central conflict in society consists of a struggle for the control of 'historicity', which he defines as 'the capacity to produce historical experience through cultural patterns'. In any given society, it is the ruling class that controls historicity, or the main cultural patterns (i.e. knowledge, investment, and ethics), which they impose upon the subordinate class who fight to define their own cultural patterns. For Touraine, then, historicity and class conflict are inextricably linked, which is reflected in his definition of a social movement as: 'the collective organised action through which a class actor battles for the social control of historicity in a given and identifiable historical context' (Touraine 1981: 31–32).

Touraine sees social movements as a central force in society; they are not marginal or exceptional events. He regards both powerful and powerless adversaries as social actors capable of being 'identified with the central cultural values and norms' (Touraine 1985: 774–775). However, neither class is able to exercise complete, 'hegemonic' domination over the other since the struggle between them is inexorable.

Like Karl Marx, Touraine argues a new 'societal type' evolves within the womb of the former society. Accordingly, there are aspects of post-industrial society evolving within industrial society, which have not disappeared altogether. Moreover, although the labour movement is in decline, industrial conflicts still exist. However, whereas industrial society was organised around work and the relations of production, class domination in the new post-industrial societal type or 'programmed society' takes the form of technocratic management and control of data and information processing.[1] Accordingly, while social justice was key to the workers' struggles in industrial society, the new social movement of programmed society seeks 'self-management' against the growing hold technocratic control has over more and more areas of social life.

SOCIAL MOVEMENTS AND SOCIAL CLASS

In Box 5.1 we see how the concerns of new social movements reflect the post-material values of the new middle classes. Frank Parkin (1968) provided an early explanation of why the Campaign for Nuclear Disarmament in Britain was composed largely of young and educated middle-class radicals. Subsequent analyses have drawn on Pierre Bourdieu's (1984) foundational ideas to argue that 'cultural competence' explains why the educated middle classes tend to be more involved than people from other class locations not only in new social movements and other types of 'identity movements', but in politics and protest more generally (Crossley 2002: 173–177; Husu 2013; see also Eder 1993; Maheu 1995). According to this line of argument, the savoir-faire of middle-class activists derives from their possession of *capital* (e.g. economic forms of capital, such as money and ownership, and cultural capital, evident in taste and lifestyle, for example), and a certain *habitus* (i.e. internalised dispositions, patterned ways of understanding and acting in the world, arising from a particular structural position). Given the emphasis on the cognitive and social psychological aspects of activist involvement in social movements, it has been observed that Bourdieu's ideas share significant similarities with the framing perspective (Husu 2013: 272), as well as some elements of resource mobilisation theory (Crossley 2002: 174–177) (see Chapter 4).

Interestingly, although Offe is frequently cited to support propositions connecting middle-class activism and new social movements, he in fact regarded the social bases of those movements as more diverse. For him, the social base of new movements corresponds to three segments of the social structure: the new middle class; elements of the old middle class; and peripheral or 'decommodified' groups, such as unemployed workers, students, housewives, and retired persons (Offe 1985: 831–832). This view, then, would seem to chime with those scholars, considered below, who criticise new social movement theory for looking only at movements founded on the post-material values of the new middle classes.

Box 5.1 Post-materialism

The concept of 'post-materialism' is a cornerstone of new social movement theory. It derives from Ronald Inglehart's (1977) famous study of changing values and political styles among Western publics. Using mass surveys, Inglehart proposed a shift in 'value priorities' was taking place in Western societies as they moved into a post-industrial phase of development. According to Inglehart, less emphasis is placed on material wellbeing and

security and more emphasis is placed on the meaning and quality of life. Moreover, Inglehart's data suggested value priorities correspond to generations or age cohorts. Drawing on the work of Abraham Maslow, Inglehart (1971: 991) argued that the age cohorts that had experience of wars and scarcity in the period preceding the 'economic miracles' that occurred in Western Europe would give a relatively high priority to economic security and what Maslow called 'safety needs'. For the younger cohorts, on the other hand, 'a set of "post-bourgeois" values, relating to the need for belonging and to aesthetic and intellectual needs, would be more likely to take top priorities' (Inglehart 1971: 991–992).

As is evident from the above, Inglehart's ideas were premised on the work of Maslow (1943) and, in particular, his notion that there is a 'hierarchy of human needs'. According to Maslow, human beings are motivated to meet the following basic needs: physiological; safety; love; esteem; and self-actualisation. These needs are organised hierarchically whereby 'the appearance of one need usually rests on the prior satisfaction of another' (Maslow 1943: 370). The requirement to satisfy physiological needs is the most fundamental human drive: 'A person who is lacking food, safety, love, and esteem would most probably hunger for food more strongly than for anything else' (Maslow 1943: 373). Maslow argued that the need for self-actualisation rests upon the prior satisfaction of the physiological, safety, love, and esteem needs. However, he said, often even if all of those needs are met:

> … a new discontent and restlessness will soon develop, unless the individual is doing what he is fitted for. A musician must make music, an artist must paint, a poet must write, if he is to be ultimately happy. What a man *can* be, he *must* be. This need we may call self-actualisation. (Maslow 1943: 382, original emphasis)

The need for self-actualisation and its connection to quality of life is central to thinking about the emergence of new social movements. The idea here is that the establishment across Europe after the Second World War of various forms of social security and, in particular, the welfare state – partly an accomplishment of the 'old' labour movement – created conditions of relative prosperity and affluence (Martin 2017e). Under these circumstances, where basic material needs are largely met, people seek to satisfy post-material needs.

As stated above, Inglehart argued there is a generational dimension to this process. Thus, many of the social movements

that emerged during the 1960s were driven by young people who had been born in the post-war 'baby boom', and had been raised in a period of unparalleled economic security and prosperity, which was a far cry from the 'age of austerity' in which their parents had grown up between the First and Second World Wars (Martin and Roberts 2021). Consequently, new forms of politics emerged during the 1960s that moved beyond struggles traditionally associated with working-class concerns over material security, reflecting the post-material values of an emergent and aspiring new middle class as the chief constituents of new social movements.

SOCIAL MOVEMENTS AS 'NOMADS OF THE PRESENT'

Insofar as the transformations identified by Inglehart in Box 5.1 correspond to the decline of industrialism (in the West at least) and the emergence of 'post-industrial society', Alan Scott (1990: 70) has argued Inglehart's thesis 'is essentially an empirical rendering of Touraine's theoretical analysis'. To be sure, Touraine's work has been criticised for operating at a high level of abstraction, which does not consider the meanings activists themselves assign to their collective action, and does not reflect the reality of contemporary movements as heterogeneous and not fixed on a core class conflict (Martin 2004: 34).

Although the works of Melucci and Touraine share several themes in common (which is unsurprising given Melucci was a onetime student of Touraine), unlike Touraine, Melucci is not concerned with identifying *the* central social movement of post-industrial society. In fact, he is critical of approaches that reify social movements and portray them as epic figures moving on the historical stage. That is because, as we saw in Chapter 2, Melucci sees collective action as the *outcome* of a series of processes; it is a social product and thus should be treated as a set of social relationships, rather than as a definite datum, metaphysical reality, or a 'thing' with a 'real' essence (Melucci 1988: 247, 1996: 76–77).

To Melucci, social movements are complex collective phenomena consisting of a plurality of meanings and orientations, which must be reconciled if social actors are to develop a *collective identity*. Collective identity then 'is as much an analytical tool as an object to be studied' (Melucci 1996: 72). So, like resource mobilisation theorists, Melucci is interested in *how* social movements construct a collective identity out of the diversity, tension, and conflict that characterises social movement activity as a collective, human enterprise. But observers of 'new' social movements are also interested in discovering

why the formation of collective identities is so important for activists in contemporary societies. In short, they are concerned with the structural determinants of collective action, which, for Melucci as for Touraine, are explained by recourse to a theory of society.

Both Touraine and Melucci ground their theories of social movements on the idea that there has been a fundamental shift from industrial to post-industrial society. However, whereas Touraine's ideas are premised on the notion of the emergence of a programmed society, Melucci's ideas are premised on the view that we now live in what he calls a 'complex society'. While industrial society was defined by material production, complex societies produce signs, symbols, and social relations. And, in such societies, social movements are themselves complex, fragile, and heterogeneous (Bartholomew and Mayer 1992: 142). Moreover, unlike 'old' social movements of the industrial period, 'new' movements are not focused on issues relating to socio-economic class but are instead focused on culture and are identity-based. Hence, the emergence of 'identity politics' or what Giddens (1991a) refers to as 'life politics', which he regards as the antithesis of 'emancipatory politics' that defined social conflict in the industrial era.

Similar to Touraine's idea that the new social movement of a programmed society seeks to resist technocratic control over social life via self-management is Habermas' (1981: 36) notion that (new) social movements 'arise at the seam between system and life-world' to resist or stave off what he sees as the 'colonisation' of the latter by the former. Habermas extends Max Weber's thesis that the modern world is increasingly subject to processes of rationalisation, which are evident in the growth of reason and the application of scientific knowledge to modern technology, as well as the growing influence of bureaucratic organisation in modern society.

Rationalisation and the concomitant process of 'internal colonisation' are perhaps most clearly apparent in relations between citizens and the state. Hence, while the welfare state provides citizens with great benefits, it also exercises surveillance, regulation, and control over more areas of social life. For Habermas, new social movements arise to resist such intervention by the state into the lives of ordinary citizens: they are not concerned with issues of resource allocation and material (re)distribution, which preoccupied the 'old' labour movement, but with post-materialist concerns 'to do with the grammar of forms of life' (Habermas 1987: 392). Hence, he distinguishes the 'old politics', which, among other things, addresses economic and redistributive problems of modern capitalism, from a 'new politics' which relates to new problems of late capitalism that 'have to do with quality of life, equal rights, individual self-realisation, participation, and human rights' (Habermas 1987: 392).

Melucci's (1989: 175) ideas are similar to those of Touraine and Habermas insofar as he proposes contemporary social movements

act as 'revealers' by exposing power that is increasingly hidden or masked by operational codes, formal rules, and bureaucratic procedures and decision-making processes. As such, they pose 'symbolic challenges' to the system – which attempts to homogenise complexity – by claiming the right to be recognised as *different*. That is why collective identity is so important, for it is through their culture or organisational form that these social movements communicate their message of difference to the wider society. And building a collective identity enables them to communicate a *coherent* message.

For these reasons, Melucci is critical of past analyses that have tended to focus on the public face of social movements, equating collective action with mass mobilisations and demonstrations. Not only do these approaches suffer a 'myopia of the visible' (Melucci 1989: 44), but they also limit social movement activity to interactions with the state, and other political actors, institutions, and movement organisations. Adopting a more expansive view of power, similar to Foucault's notion of the dispersal of power beyond politics and the state (Bartholomew and Mayer 1992: 147), Melucci considers as significant the cultural face of movements or the 'prepolitical' dimension of collective action, which resides in everyday life, social networks and civil society.

Like Anthony Oberschall (1973) and Aldon Morris (1984), whose work was discussed in Chapter 4, this perspective recognises the importance for collective action of cultural networks and community organisation. Moreover, as we shall see later in the chapter when we discuss social movement continuity in relation to what Verta Taylor (1989) terms 'abeyance structures', movement cultures and networks are sometimes crucial for sustaining social movements in dormant periods of relative inactivity. Indeed, Morris (1984: 39) himself thinks of this process in terms of protest groups and organisations acting as 'movement halfway houses' that enable them to survive between periods of mass mobilisation. Significantly, to go beyond the tendency of movement scholars to contrast culture/identity and strategy (see Cohen 1985), Francesca Polletta (2010: 641) proposes this sustenance function constitutes a key *instrumental* benefit of movement culture.

Box 5.2 Women's self-help movements

Among other things, Melucci (1992: 53) acknowledges the influence in his work of 'the "feminine" perception of the world', which is no coincidence given the women's movement is regarded one of the key 'new' social movements. Indeed, some feminist scholars, and most notably, Verta Taylor, have criticised resource mobilisation theory and political process

approaches for emphasising male-oriented, rational collective action in the public domain, and ignoring the efficacy of social movements with a 'feminine logic' that are less instrumental than they are 'internally oriented […] following an identity logic of action' (Taylor 1999: 10). Moreover, it has been observed that the women's movement demonstrates generally how formal, bureaucratic organisation is not necessary for a social movement to operate effectively (Charles 2000: 49–50); although it has also been argued that collectivist forms of organisation based on substantive or value rationality (as opposed to instrumental or formal rationality) is actually a common feature of *all* social movements (Rothschild-Whitt 1979). Of course, and as we shall see in Chapter 6, instrumental and expressive elements will often coalesce in any one social movement.

According to Taylor (1999: 18), the locus of women's self-help is in submerged networks and social movement communities and, as such, these movements are 'heavily cultural and revolve around disputed meanings and contested identities' (Taylor and Van Willigen 1996: 128). Accordingly, the formation of a collective identity is a vital aspect of 'prefigurative politics', for '[b]y building a collective identity, self-help groups are able to connect women's personal experiences to the general problem of gender subordination' (Martin 2001: 378). Postpartum support and breast cancer movements and the self-help communities they form provide examples because they 'strive to exemplify a better way of organising society by constructing a distinctive women's culture of caring in which participants can find emotional support as well as receive practical information to understand and overcome their problems' (Taylor and Van Willigen 1996: 135).

In Chapter 4, we saw how some commentators believe that to be successful social movements must develop an organisational structure and have strategies that enable them to connect their demands to 'institutionally imminent possibilities' (Giddens 1991b: 155). By contrast, Melucci and other observers of 'new' social movements place a premium on social movement *autonomy*, i.e. independence from the state and established political actors. Melucci says that the demands of contemporary social movements 'exist beyond political mediation and independently of its results' (Melucci 1996: 216). What he calls the 'democratisation of everyday life' is signalled by the recognition and acceptance of *difference*, which occurs through the establishment of autonomous social movements:

> A new political space is designed beyond the traditional distinction between state and 'civil society': an intermediate *public space*, whose function is not to institutionalise the movements nor to transform them into parties, but to make society hear their messages and translate these messages into political decision making, while the movements maintain their autonomy. (Melucci 1985: 815, original emphasis)

For Melucci, social conflicts in complex societies are played out in the present and are transitory. Unlike traditional forms of collective action, contemporary actors have no programme, no future, and 'are not guided by a universal plan of history; rather, they resemble "nomads who dwell within the present"' (Melucci 1989: 55). Moreover, rather than 'measuring' collective action in terms of its 'effectiveness', as resource mobilisation theory tends to do, Melucci (1989: 56) is concerned to show how contemporary collective actors set out to challenge or reverse dominant cultural codes, which attempt to standardise experience in differentiated, complex societies via the establishment of mass markets, as well as 'call into question the implementation of goals which have been decided by an anonymous impersonal power'.

Since power lies increasingly in codes regulating information flow, the organisational form and solidarity of collective actors become an important means by which a message of difference is transmitted to the wider society. To Melucci (1989: 56), the women's movement is a good example of a movement that 'involves more than the affirmation of new rights and the demand for equality. It also claims the importance of difference and the need for alternative codes which demand recognition. Women raise the question of difference for the whole society and urge that everyone be recognised as different'.

Melucci's ideas differ significantly from those of resource mobilisation theorists who regard social movements as rational (i.e. means-ends oriented) collective enterprises. For him, collective identity formation is not merely a vehicle used to achieve certain ends, but is a goal in itself: 'Since the action is focused on cultural codes, the *form* of the movement is a message, a symbolic challenge to the dominant patterns […] The medium, the movement itself is a new medium, is the message' (Melucci 1984: 830, original emphasis). In other terms, 'movements are not qualified by what they do but what they are' (Melucci 1985: 809). It is for these reasons that Melucci stresses the importance of *social movement cultures*, and is critical of approaches prone to what he calls, 'political reductionism'. Again, the women's movement provides a case in point:

> … there was the creation of a women's culture, which was submerged and woven into the fabric of daily life, and which

> sustained and nourished women's mobilisations. But this conflict has moved away from strictly political spheres, in which it intervenes occasionally on single issues, and operates instead predominantly in the sphere of symbolic codes. In this way, the women's movement supplies alternative definitions of otherness and communication, and transmits to the rest of society the message of possible difference. (Melucci 1989: 95)

CRITICISMS OF NEW SOCIAL MOVEMENT THEORY

Unsurprisingly, theories of new social movements have been subject to criticism. Melucci (1996: 5) himself has said he 'watched with dismay as the category has been progressively reified', and that all of the critics 'commit the same epistemological mistake: they consider contemporary collective phenomena to constitute unitary empirical objects, seeking then on this basis to define the substance of their newness or to deny or dispute it'. However, for Melucci (1995: 110), rather than treating contemporary actors as personages or epic characters moving on the stage of history, they should be seen as comprising a variety of components, or as 'socially constructed collective realities'.

Steinmetz (1994: 179) has identified what he refers to as a small academic cottage industry that has grown up around attempts to prove new social movements are not really new. Essentially, critics of new social movement theory occupy two camps. First, there are those who employ historical analyses to demonstrate new movements share features in common with past movements. So, for example, Kenneth Tucker (1991) shows how the formation of a collective identity and a sense of autonomy were central features of French syndicalism in the nineteenth century. Similarly, D'Anieri et al. (1990) argue the values of new social movements are not unlike those of the nineteenth-century Charists, the Oneida community of the same period, and West German peace movements of the 1950s, 1970s, and 1980s. Moreover, Craig Calhoun (1994: 22) accuses new social movement theory of being 'historically myopic' for not recognising that supposedly novel features of contemporary movements were formerly present in movements of the past. Identity politics, for instance, is nothing new:

> In the early nineteenth century, labour movements were engaged in identity politics, presenting the case that the 'worker' was an identity deserving of legitimacy, calling for solidarity among those sharing the identity, demanding their inclusion in the polity, and so forth. (Calhoun 1994: 22)

Thus, for Calhoun (1994: 23), identity politics is not novel, nor is it limited to post-materialist ideologies but 'has been part and parcel of modern politics and social life for hundreds of years'. Indeed, while it is often seen as one of the most significant 'new' social movements of the late twentieth century, Calhoun (1994: 23) argues the women's movement 'has roots at least 200 years old'. Furthermore, he says, the nineteenth- and early twentieth-century working-class movement was more multi-dimensional, and less univocal, than new social movement theorists seem to recognise; it was concerned not only with mobilisation around wages, 'but also over women and children working, community life, the status of immigrants, education, access to public services, and so forth' (Calhoun 1995: 179). Finally, Calhoun (1995: 174) argues, while some movements eventually undergo institutionalisation, incorporation, and co-optation, all have radical grassroots organisation and eschew conventional politics to begin with. Thus, the supposed novel organisational features of new social movements are, in fact, features of *all* social movements in their nascent stage of development.

Other critics of new social movement theory argue that a variety of contemporary social struggles appear more old than new. Instead of being concerned with post-material issues and quality of life, these movements articulate more 'traditional' concerns and demands to do with material wellbeing, political opposition, and citizenship rights. As shown in Box 5.3, the disability movement is one such movement arguably less concerned with post-material values than with liberation, continuing inequality, and access to political and economic power (Martin 2001: 367).

Box 5.3 Disabled people's fight for equal rights and anti-discrimination laws

As we will see throughout this book (though especially in Chapter 10), legal change is an important outcome of social movement activity. Indeed, in Chapter 4 we saw how the US civil rights movement developed a 'master frame' around equal rights and opportunity for all, which also became a central motif for other social movements. Importantly, formal equality for black people in the US was achieved and became enshrined in laws banning racial discrimination, including the outlawing of discriminatory voting practices under the Voting Rights Act of 1965.

In the UK, civil rights have been demanded by a variety of groups, including women, lesbian, gay, bisexual, and transgendered people, black and disabled social movements (Annetts et al. 2009: 191). Although discrimination has not necessarily



Figure 5.1 Disabled rights protesters at Parliament, Westminster, England (1999) © Marion Bull/Alamy

ended in practice, many of these movements have successfully achieved equal rights, in a formal sense, at least, by putting pressure on the British government to enact anti-discrimination legislation. Hence, the *Disability Discrimination Act 1995* (UK), for example, makes it unlawful to discriminate against disabled persons in employment, and in the provision of goods and services, education, and transport; although employers and businesses only have to make 'reasonable adjustments' to accommodate the needs of disabled employees (Annetts et al. 2009: 192).

While the disability movement has sought to establish equality and end discrimination via the more traditional means of political inclusion and legislative reform, it has also made claims that resemble those of a new social movement. Thus, disability studies scholars have shown how the movement combines a concern for material deprivation and social disadvantage with newer concerns around autonomy and independent living (see Martin 2001: 370–371). The disability movement, therefore, is an example of a social movement that contains a mix of 'new' and 'old' elements, which is a point we take up below when we look at the coexistence of struggles for recognition and struggles for (re)distribution in 'social welfare movements'.

While some social movements are concerned with *continuing* inequality, other movements raise issues about new (and negative) forms of exclusion and discrimination in contemporary society. Thus, a variety of new movements have emerged as a reaction to 'post-Fordist' restructuring processes (see Box 5.4), which in many Western democracies elicited a 'neoliberal' response from governments (discussed below and in Box 5.8). On this view, a 'crisis of Fordism' occurred in the latter part of the twentieth century. Formerly, under 'Fordism', the state intervened to ameliorate some of the worst effects of capitalism, which were most frequently suffered by the working-class citizenry. Hence, after the Second World War, several governments introduced some version of a welfare state, which acted as a form of compensation (and safety net) for the working-class by providing such things as social security, free health care, and education. Accordingly, a Keynesian form of the state became 'a necessary counterpart of the Fordist form of intensive accumulation' (Hirsch 1988: 48).

Importantly, many of the concessions granted during the post-war 'golden age' of the welfare state were the ultimate outcome of hard-fought-for historical struggles over civil rights and social justice (Annetts et al. 2009). In this respect, Barker and Lavalette (2014) argue welfare changes occur 'discontinuously', meaning they may be achieved incrementally or during a particularly strong protest wave where whole welfare systems can be transformed; although they also caution that welfare changes are rarely permanent and often subject to clawbacks, such as those witnessed under neoliberalism, which started to take root during the 1970s.

Indeed, from the mid-1970s, globalisation, intensifying international competition, and fiscal crises, among other things, meant governments could no longer foot the bill for an extensive (and expensive) welfare state. Accordingly, from that time, neoliberal and monetarist policies were introduced to 'streamline' the welfare state, which effectively reversed many of the labour movement's past accomplishments (Turner 1986: 104–105). Perversely, much of the dismantling of welfare and state service provision, in key areas such as education and health care, has been carried out by the 'baby boomer' generation, which benefitted the most from the free provision of those very services in the post-war era of prosperity and certainty that enabled them to participate in the (post-material) counterculture movements of the 1960s (Roszak 1970; see also Martin and Roberts 2021).[2]

As a result of post-Fordist restructuring, a growing number of marginalised groups could not be 'socially incorporated in the traditional (i.e. welfare state) ways' (Mayer 1991: 109). While the new social movements of the 1960s and 1970s were able to build upon the economic and political achievements of past movements to express

post-material concerns, from the 1980s onwards a growing number of social movements emerged 'for whom the quality of life [had] to do not with traffic congestion but with structural unemployment, drugs, crime, and struggles for affordable housing' (Mayer 1991: 120). Under post-Fordist conditions, then, 'old' issues resurfaced, including issues linked to increasing flexibility, casualisation, and polarisation in the workforce, which are some of the issues raised by the precarity movement (discussed later in the chapter).

Box 5.4 From Fordism to post-Fordism

Ash Amin (1994: 5) has argued that 'the post-Fordist debate is a confrontation of diverse viewpoints, a heterogeneity of positions which draw on different concepts to say different things about past, present and future'. Given such a position, it would be futile to provide a definitive account of post-Fordism, or Fordism, for that matter. Nevertheless, it is possible to discern some key features of each.

Fordism is so-called for its association with Henry Ford's system of automobile production, which characteristically divided labour into discrete tasks in an automated assembly line. However, according to David Harvey (1990: 125–126), what was most distinctive about Ford 'was his vision, his explicit recognition that mass production meant mass consumption'. Hence, in 1914, he introduced a five-dollar, eight-hour day, not only to 'secure worker compliance with the discipline required to work the highly productive assembly-line system', but also 'to provide workers with sufficient income and leisure time to consume the mass produced products the corporations were about to turn out in ever vaster quantities' (Harvey 1990: 126).

Under Fordism, the state assumed the role of resolving conflicts between capital and labour – such as conflict over wages – and established the necessary social conditions for capitalist production. Hence, the emergence soon after the Second World War of the Keynesian state, with its central tenet of universal welfare provision, which was essentially a concession to the working-class, whose labour capitalists exploited and profited from. However, it must be remembered that '[t]he tense but nevertheless firm balance of power between organised labour, large corporate capital, and the nation state, and which formed the power basis for the postwar boom, was not arrived at by accident', but 'was the outcome of years of struggle' (Harvey 1990: 133).

According to Harvey (1990: 140), the Fordist-Keynesian system started to break up in 1973 when a sharp recession 'shattered that framework' and 'a process of rapid [...] transition in the regime of accumulation began'. Although it played out differently in different countries, the structural crisis of Fordism was a consequence of a number of factors, including: declining productivity due to workers being resistant to rigid forms of Fordist work organisation; globalised mass production which made national economic management difficult; and increasing consumer demand for variegated products that could not be produced in standardised, mass produced ways (Nielsen 1991: 24).

Whereas Fordism was driven by 'intensive accumulation', the driving force of post-Fordism is 'flexible accumulation'. The rise of flexibility is clearly apparent in work regimes and labour contracts where there has been a 'move away from regular employment towards increasing reliance upon part-time, temporary or sub-contracted work arrangements' (Harvey 1990: 150). To Richard Sennett (1998: 51–52), '[f]lexible specialisation is the antithesis of the system of production embodied in Fordism' because, for example, 'in the making of cars and trucks today, the old mile-long assembly line [...] has been replaced by islands of specialised production'. Just as work in post-Fordism becomes increasingly flexible or, more appropriately, 'precarious', so the power of organised labour is undermined; hence, we observe 'the rolling back of trade union power' (Harvey 1990: 150), which is a key component of neoliberalism, as the political expression of post-Fordism (see later).

Although he is careful to stress we are living in a period of historical *transition*, which may never be entirely complete, Harvey (1990: 124) says 'the contrasts between present political-economic practices and those of the postwar boom period are sufficiently strong to make the hypothesis of a shift from Fordism to what might be called a "flexible" regime of accumulation'. Characteristics of this new epoch include, 'new systems of production and marketing, characterised by more flexible labour processes and markets, of geographical mobility and rapid shifts in consumption practices' and 'the revival of entrepreneurialism and of neo-conservatism, coupled with the cultural turn to postmodernism' (Harvey 1990: 124). Indeed, if protests against precarity and austerity measures in Europe (discussed shortly) are anything to go by, the post-Fordist project would seem ever nearer completion.

Bartholomew and Mayer (1992) are particularly critical of Melucci's conception of 'complex society', which, they say, cannot explain these post-Fordist transformations, and the movements that emerge in their wake, because Melucci does not conceive of complex societies as organised hierarchically. Hence, his theory is unable to account for and include movements that arise on society's margins; that is, movements for civil rights, which have redistributive goals and react to negative forms of economic and social restructuring:

> Especially this sector, characterised by a newly flexibilised, unprotected workforce and out-of-workforce, seems hidden in his conception of complex society and, consequently, there is no direct attention paid to movements which reflect and develop their collective identity around unemployment, homelessness or similar newly relevant survival issues. (Bartholomew and Mayer 1992: 150)

Bartholomew and Mayer also argue that in his effort to avoid politically reductionist approaches, Melucci falls prey to 'cultural reductionism', which 'causes him to miss what is "old" or traditional in contemporary "new" social movements, such as struggles for citizenship rights and the continued existence and relevance of material issues' (Martin 2004: 38). This is a version of the idea, mentioned above, that social movements must connect their demands to 'institutionally imminent possibilities' (Giddens 1991b: 155), which itself reflects a more widely held view that the telos of social movements is the political inclusion of previously excluded groups and issues (Scott 1990: 10).

Accordingly, it is believed serious problems flow from the denial of politics in new social movement discourse, evident in its use of apolitical concepts such as autonomy and identity, its placement of movements beyond issues of equality and welfare, and in its rigid distinction between cultural and political-economic issues (Plotke 1990: 100). Similar sentiments are expressed by Mooers and Sears (1992: 64) who are critical of Melucci's overemphasis on the symbolic aspects of social life in complex societies wherein material production is replaced by the production of signs and social relations; they ask, rather sardonically, 'one wonders what people might eat in such societies […] Of course, they eat signs'.

Although they might more appropriately be referred to as a 'scene' rather than a social movement (Leach and Haunss 2009), this kind of argument has been applied to New Age Travellers, which Martin (1998) has observed were differentiated by generation. On the one hand, the older generation of travellers adopted a travelling way of life out of *choice* and expressed post-material values tied to new social movements, such as the green and peace movements, as well as new age spirituality (see Chapter 7). On the other hand, the younger generation was *forced* to move onto the road having suffered

homelessness and unemployment, which were just some of the negative social effects of neoliberal and neoconservative policies, introduced in a post-Fordist context and embraced by Thatcherite governments in Britain during the 1980s and 1990s.

Melucci has responded to his post-Fordist critics, arguing that although their analyses contribute to knowledge about new forms of domination, they are nonetheless imprisoned by old categories and outdated thought, and their obstinate adherence to 'post' notions. This prevents them from developing new understandings, which Melucci (1996: 90) says he has tried to do via 'the working notions of "complex society" and "information society"'.

SOCIAL WELFARE MOVEMENTS: RECOGNITION OR REDISTRIBUTION, OR BOTH?

Critiques of new social movement theory, like that of Mooers and Sears (1992), who have wondered what people might eat in Melucci's complex societies, indicate struggles for material improvement, or what Annetts et al. (2009: 7) call quaintly, the 'politics of the belly', have not disappeared but persist in contemporary societies. Indeed, in their book about British social welfare movements, Annetts et al. offer accounts of both older welfare movements and 'new welfare movements'. The former were organised around what the 1942 Beveridge Report considered the 'five evils' of disease, want, squalor, ignorance, and idleness. Accordingly, Annetts et al. examine movements of the unemployed, the women's health movement, urban social movements, and social movements focussed on the making of modern education.

Whereas these older welfare movements were instrumental in building the modern welfare state, new welfare movements 'operate in and around an already established welfare state system to preserve, extend, deepen and improve service delivery' (Annetts et al. 2009: 10). Included here are lesbian, gay, bisexual and transgendered activism, anti-racist movements, and eco-welfare movements, which, in Britain, have involved, respectively, the fight to secure civil partnership legislation, race riots in the North of England, and anti-road protests and the 'greening' of social welfare policy. Annetts et al. also consider movements for global social justice to be new welfare movements. Indeed, they argue, these movements could be regarded new social welfare movements par excellence, because 'when neoliberal antipathy to state welfare has been central to government social policy making, these movements have mobilised to defend the very principle of social welfare itself' (Annetts et al. 2009: 10–11).

Social movement resistance to neoliberalism is a topic to which we turn towards the end of this chapter, and the response of activists to globalisation is considered in more depth in Chapter 11. For now,

however, it is worth considering the argument that *all* contemporary social movements, to some degree or other, raise issues about the recognition of identity, culture, and difference *as well as* material inequality, redistribution, and exploitation. This relates to what, in a seminal essay, Nancy Fraser (1995: 69, original emphasis), terms the redistribution-recognition dilemma, which she resolves by proposing 'justice today requires *both* redistribution *and* recognition'. Accordingly, she talks of 'bivalent collectivities', which are 'hybrid modes' of collective action 'located in the middle of the conceptual extremes' that combine 'injustices that are traceable to both political economy and culture simultaneously'; in sum, bivalent collectivities 'may suffer both socioeconomic maldistribution and cultural misrecognition' (Fraser 1995: 78).

This idea has, in turn, been applied to contemporary welfare movements, which, not unlike new social movements, build upon the material-welfare accomplishments of past movements, but do so from the perspective of different lifestyles and identities. An example here would be the aforementioned women's self-help and postpartum depression movements studied by Taylor and Van Willigen (1996), which combine redistribution and recognition since they 'pose challenges to symbolic codes and institutional practices that may transform social policy' (Martin 2001: 376). Thus, through 'speak-outs', for instance, 'the movement brings postpartum illness into the public eye and challenges images of femininity that tie women to the private realm of the home and to motherhood' (Martin 2001: 377). Furthermore, by encouraging the partners of women suffering postpartum depression to participate in housework and childcare, and provide support and understanding, the movement challenges gendered views of care in society (Taylor and Van Willigen 1996: 136).

PROTESTING PRECARITY: NEW WINE IN OLD BOTTLES?

As we have seen, a number of critics of new social movement theory cite issues of precariousness, or precarity, associated with post-Fordist restructuring to highlight the fact that not all social movements in contemporary societies are concerned with post-material values. In this section, we consider in more detail how precarity has become an important site of protest, in ways that are reminiscent of the socio-economic and material struggles most often associated with the 'old' labour movement. Indeed, as we shall see, it is debatable whether precarity itself is an entirely novel phenomenon.

In order to understand the precarity movement, it is essential first to grasp what is meant by the term 'precarity' and consider its contemporary significance. Classically, precarity has been seen as a feature of forms of employment that emerged from the mid-1970s, when jobs

became increasingly temporary, casualised, and 'flexible'. By contrast, under the Fordist-Keynesian model (see Box 5.4) workers could reasonably expect to have stable jobs or 'a job for life', union representation, and a social safety net in the shape of the welfare state. Precarious workers suffer a double whammy: not only has job security disappeared but under neoliberal post-Fordist regimes the welfare state has been dismantled, and the power of trade unions diminished. Indeed, while the destruction of unions has been part of the political project of neoliberalism, the demise of unionism is also connected to the changing nature of work in post-industrial societies.

At one time, people in the industrial West tended to work together en masse in large factories geared to the mass production of goods. People also tended to live in the communities where they worked. These conditions were conducive to the establishment of trade unions and collective mobilisation around improving working conditions. Precarious and flexible forms of work, on the other hand, militate against this kind of collective organisation: many people now work from home, work part-time or on short-term contracts, or they work in virtual or networked environments. Therefore, more people have less contact with their co-workers. As the workforce has become fragmented in this way, the possibilities for collective action have dwindled. However, this has not stopped alliances and networks forming between a diversity of groups to protest against precarious work.

Who then are precarious workers, or the 'precariat' (Standing 2011), as they have come to be known? The people adversely affected by negative forms of flexibilisation tend largely to be young people, migrants, and women. Examples include high-tech and new media workers in the United States (Brophy 2006), and cultural workers in France's film and television industries (Bodnar 2006). And, in these sectors, it is not only temporary workers who are affected by precarity. Brophy shows how in the information technology (IT) business the advent of offshore outsourcing has impacted upon upper-tier full-time permanent staff; who are now threatened by the same conditions that once affected only their 'permatemp' co-workers, e.g. endless short-term contracts punctuated by periods of unemployment. Hence, according to Ross (2008: 43), as 'offshore outsourcing has climbed into white-collar sectors and is taking its toll on the professions, the plight of garment workers, onshore and offshore, can no longer be viewed as a remote example of job degradation, unlikely to affect the highly skilled', such that we witness the emergence of a global 'anti-sweatshop movement', which is 'an agile, international coalition to confront the power of large corporations' and push for labour rights.

A note of caution should be sounded here, though, since some researchers have pointed out that precarious work is not solely connected to what Hardt and Negri (2000) call 'immaterial labour', that is, workers who produce commodities that are not material but

immaterial, such as information, knowledge, and communications. While the precarity movement in Europe has tended to be composed of young middle-class professionals (De Sario 2007: 27–28; Neilson and Rossiter 2008: 57), precarity itself is not limited to this class of people, and, indeed, it extends beyond the realm of employment. Precarious workers include Latino immigrant cleaners in the US as well as highly skilled migrant IT workers on temporary work visas (Neilson and Rossiter 2008: 60–61). It also encompasses the Sans-papiers (discussed in Chapter 8) and other non-citizen migrants who are employed in precarious jobs. To Neilson and Rossiter (2006: 11), then, precarity 'does not have its model worker. Neither artist nor migrant, nor hacker nor housewife […] Rather, precarity strays across a number of labour practices […] it traverses a spectrum of labour markets and positions within them'.

Because precarity equals instability and uncertainty it affects areas of peoples' lives beyond work. For instance, being employed on a short-term contract has an impact upon housing, in that it affects one's prospects of securing a mortgage. Precarity also influences relationships, family life, and even fertility; for instance, women may delay having children until (if ever) either they or their partner attain stable employment. It is for these kinds of reasons that scholars have argued precarity is rapidly becoming common to all: a generalised condition of living in post-industrial societies in the twenty-first century (De Sario 2007: 28, 36).

However, Neilson and Rossiter (2008) question whether precarity is new at all. They propose Fordism was actually an exceptional blip in capitalist development, which for a short period only provided people with certainty, stability, and security. Before and after this phase of capitalism, precarity has tended to define people's lives: 'If we look at capitalism in a wider historical and geographical scope, it is precarity that is the norm and not Fordist economic organisation' (Neilson and Rossiter 2008: 54).

Notwithstanding the fact that precarity affects people's lives beyond employment, most protest has revolved around precarious work. Indeed, since precarious employment touches people 'in a multitude of different sectors' (Bodnar 2006: 688), the Meluccian challenge for activists is how to articulate their demands and convey their messages in a clear and coherent collective voice. In the beginning, the precarity protests that took place across Europe from 2001 fed off the wider anti-globalisation movement and campaigns against the Iraq war (see Bodnar 2006: 685; De Sario 2007: 25, 26; Neilson and Rossiter 2008: 57). In this sense, the precarity movement was a 'spin off' movement, drawing its impetus and inspiration from an 'initiator' movement (McAdam 1995).

The movement then came to be associated with the EuroMayDay events. Scholars have documented the repertoires used by the European

precarity movement, which include what Chesters and Welsh (2004: 328) call 'carnivalesque forms of protest' (discussed in Chapter 6), although Rucht (2005) has argued that since its beginnings in 1890, Mayday has mostly been both a 'day of struggle' *and* a 'day of festivities'. Thus, tactics include the use of performance, street parades and festivals, visual images and counter images on posters, and the adoption of the colour pink to express affinity with queer politics and global justice protests (De Sario 2007; Mattoni and Doerr 2007) (see Box 5.5).

Box 5.5 Symbols of precarity protests

Linked to increasing interest in the visual aspects of movement performances (Doerr and Teune 2023; Doerr et al. 2014; Doerr and Milman 2014) and, more broadly, the art of social



Figure 5.2 Mayday poster – liberazione © Creative commons by chainworkers crew (dame license)

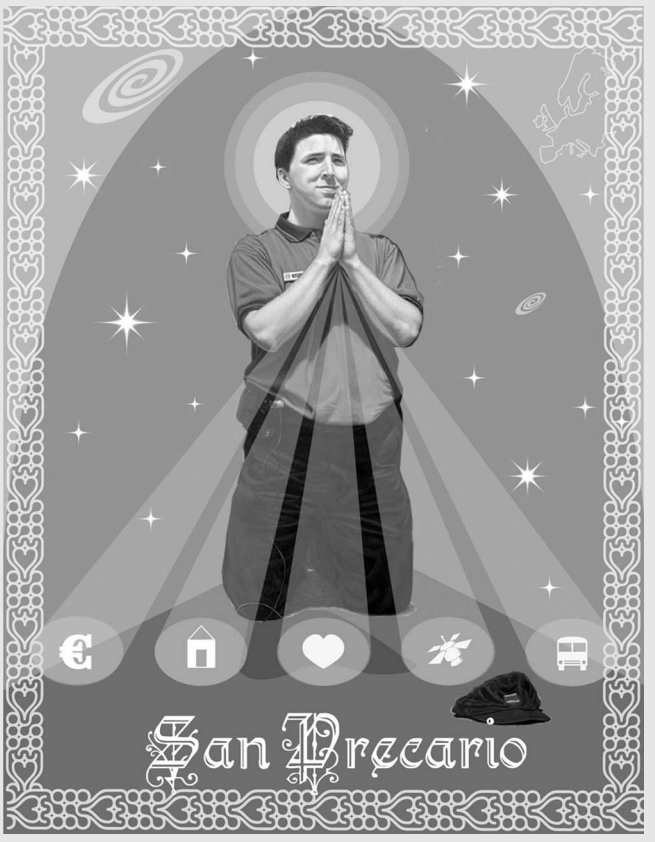


Figure 5.3 San Precario (santino) – patron saint of precarious workers © Designed by Chainworkers.org CreW and inspired by the work of the artist Chris Woods

movements (Eyerman 2014), which is discussed further in Chapter 6, Nicole Doerr (2010) has analysed the visual images used by the European precarity movement, including the example of a poster that appeared in the Italian city of Milan in 2008, which stresses connections between precarity and migration (Figure 5.2).

To protect precarious workers everywhere, the precarity movement has even invented its own saint, San Precario (Figure 5.3), whose 'image appeared for the first time during a direct action organised in a Milanese supermarket on 29 February 2004, a date that lacked a saint in the official calendar of the Italian Catholic Church' (Mattoni and Doerr 2007: 131).

The precarity movement has also shown signs of developing collective identities (à la Melucci), despite the diversity of groups adversely affected by precarity. For example, Bodnar (2006: 688) shows how rather than defining themselves by their sector or industry, workers in France have organised under the generic category of 'intermittent and precarious' workers. In the process, alliances have been forged between cultural workers and precarious workers in fast food chains, supermarkets, and retail stores. Similarly, Brophy (2006: 622) shows how the rise of precarity provides an opportunity for mobilisation by creating 'powerful affinities between figures as diverse as the software tester, the call centre worker, and the undocumented nanny'. In an interview conducted by Doerr (2010), one European precarity protestor shows how a collective identity has emerged around migration and precarity. For them, migrants are the most precarious of all workers. And although the situations of all precarious workers are diverse, they say:

> … we are united in the need to find new ways to counter the ever increasing capitalist claims on our lives […] we ask for unconditional basic income stability, a European living wage, full legalisation for migrants, self-organising and unionising rights freed from repression, access to culture, knowledge, and skills, the right to cheap housing. (Doerr 2010)

According to Andrew Ross (2008), however, people should not be overly optimistic about the power of the precariat. First, he doubts 'there is enough commonality to forge a political coalition of interests against the class polarisation associated with economic liberalisation' (Ross 2008: 41). For instance, the imbalance in social capital enjoyed by the range of constituents makes it likely those occupations with most cachet would expect to play a central role while sidelining the others. Secondly, although many precarious workers do indeed desire the security of full-time, permanent employment, for others intermittent and part-time work can be used to one's advantage by, for instance, helping to 'finance other interests, like acting, writing, travel or recreation' (Ross 2008: 42). Therefore, because precarity is 'unevenly experienced', precarity in and of itself 'cannot be thought of as a common target, but rather as a zone of contestation between competing versions of flexibility in labour markets' (Ross 2008: 42).

Similarly, Neilson and Rossiter (2008: 65) argue precarity does not furnish 'a pre-given cause for contemporary labour struggles'. They provide the example of a strike that was mounted by Indian taxi drivers in the Australian city of Melbourne following the fatal stabbing of a fellow taxi driver in a racist attack. The taxi drivers, who demanded better safety and working conditions, were also

international university students whose visas allowed them to work only 20 hours per week. In this and similar 'organised networks', suggest Neilson and Rossiter (2008: 67), the common cause defies 'any straightforward transposition into state politics and cannot be confined within a single channel of political communication'. And, in this way, it resembles very much the heterogeneity of social movements discussed by Melucci:

> It is not a matter of building lasting alliances between, say, taxi drivers, university students and migrants […] That participants in the blockade were simultaneously workers, students and migrants does not mean that these three groups, when constituted separately, share interests, social outlooks or experiences of precarity. (Neilson and Rossiter 2008: 67)

For Ross, there is also a gulf between the individualistic outlook of creative and knowledge workers and the enthusiasm shown by other precarious groups (e.g. migrants) for traditional trade union ways of organising. Indeed, 'microserfs' working in the IT sector have been reluctant to enlist the support of trade unions partly because unions are seen as archaic and undemocratic (Brophy 2006: 631), and partly because IT workers identify as 'professionals' and associate trade unions with manufacturing or craft labourers (Brophy 2006: 628). Likewise, the activities of intermittent workers in the French film and television industries 'increasingly took place outside the realm of union activities – and sometimes in direct opposition to union activities' (Bodnar 2006: 687). However, despite that reticence, in 1998, IT workers in the US formed the WashTech union – an affiliate of the Communication Workers of America – and did so 'in the teeth of industrial cultures that promote an individualistic professional ethos' (Ross 2008: 42: see also Brophy 2006).

Thus, while immigrant campaigns such as the Service Employees International Union's Justice for Janitors, 'has played a large, ongoing role in renovating the trade union movement' (Ross 2008: 42), the collective organisation of workers in the IT sector is seen as an instance of the formation of 'new labour associations' (Brophy 2006: 624). Similarly, Bodnar (2006) argues the actions of cultural workers in France have been the basis for a 'new labour movement', and De Sario (2007: 27) claims the EuroMayDay precarity actions constitute a strange kind of 'neo-trade unionism'.

All of this begs the question whether the precarity movement is a 'new' social movement or a reincarnation of the 'old' labour or union movement. Research into social welfare movements discussed above (Annetts et al. 2009), including the contentious politics of unemployment in Europe (Giugni 2009), certainly indicates precarity born of being out of work is nothing new. Moreover, if we

accept Neilson and Rossiter's (2008) argument that Fordism was a momentary phase of capitalist development, and precarity is the norm, it is not hard to draw parallels between the past and present. Indeed, echoing Tucker's (1991) critique of new social movement theory (discussed above), Bodnar (2006: 691) concludes, 'the precariat may well be the contemporary equivalent to industrial syndicalism movements of the past century'.

Nor is the diversity of the precarity movement fundamentally novel, for, as we have seen, the historical labour movement was multidimensional and only provisionally and partially unified (Calhoun 1994: 179). On balance, then, it would seem the precarity movement represents the re-emergence of older struggles organised around work, albeit that its grievances and demands are made in new times, which is a point made by Andretta and della Porta (2015: 49) regarding the spread of anti-austerity protests in Europe (see Box 5.8) that 'has brought about a renewed attention of the structural socio-economic transformations producing different grievances and collection action'.

Box 5.6 The Great Resignation: Resistance to work and overwork

Over recent years a series of movements of largely young people has arisen to resist contemporary forms of precarity and austerity produced globally by neoliberal capitalism (della Porta 2015: 51–52; Lunghi and Wheeler 2012). However, while those young protestors have tended to be unemployed or underemployed, during the COVID-19 pandemic protest around work-related issues assumed a form more reminiscent of 'lifestyle movements' (cp. Haenfler et al. 2012), as young people sought to resist overwork or work itself.

In Western societies, that was expressed as the Great Resignation (or the Big Quit or Great Reshuffle), with people quitting their jobs ('quiet quitting') after the pandemic caused them to revaluate their work goals and life priorities (Tharoor 2021). In China, a similar phenomenon called the Tǎng Píng (躺平) or 'lying flat' movement saw mainly young people reject the rat race and societal pressures to overwork (with ever diminishing returns) as embodied in China's 996 working hour system, i.e. 72 hour working week (9:00 am to 9:00 p.m., six days a week) (Kaplan 2021; Siqi et al. 2021).

Like the counterculture of the 1960s and other new social movements, these movements seem to be founded on post-material values, such that only a small section of the population can quite literally afford the luxury of not working. However,

another interpretation might be that young people are protesting at the stripping away of their work rights and being subject to more extreme forms of precarity, casualisation, and low pay in the 'gig economy' (e.g. most resignations have occurred in retail and hospitality sectors), while in some areas at least subject also to increasing levels of performance management (see Morgan and Nelligan 2018). Indeed, one commentator has alluded to what are essentially the post-Fordist preconditions for the emergence of these movements:

> The 'Great Resignation' in the United States was preceded by a far greater – decades-long, arguably – stagnation in worker wages and benefits. In lower-end jobs, earnings have not matched the pace of inflation, while work grew more informal and precarious. (Tharoor 2021)

ABEYANCE STRUCTURES

On one reading, contemporary movements against work and overwork, such as those discussed in Box 5.6, represent a renewal of 'old' economic issues about secure employment and rights at work. We will look further at the question of novelty when we consider the various protests that have sprung up, particularly in Europe, as a response to austerity measures introduced by governments after the 2008 GFC (Box 5.8). Before doing so, we turn to consider how what appear to be novel issues can actually be the re-emergence of older issues, albeit in a new context, as well as how social movements sustain themselves over time during periods of relative inactivity, when they seem to have disappeared, having, for instance, been confronted by a hostile political environment.

Previously, we have seen how new social movement theory has been criticised for falsely claiming to be novel features of contemporary movements that were present in movements of the past. One way of explaining 'movement continuity' over time is via Verta Taylor's (1989: 761) concept of 'abeyance', which 'depicts a holding process by which movements sustain themselves in nonreceptive political environments and provide continuity from one stage of mobilisation to another'.

Taylor (1989: 772) sets out to challenge the 'immaculate conception' interpretation of social movements, highlighting the 'sources of continuity between cycles of movement activity'. She questions the view held by most researchers that the American women's rights movement emerged out of the US civil rights movement, which reputedly provided a 'master frame' for it and other social movements

(see Chapter 4). Instead, she argues, like Calhoun (1994: 23), that the women's movement of the 1960s had its 'roots in an earlier cycle of feminist activism that presumably ended when suffrage was won' (Taylor 1989: 761). When in 1920 the vote was finally won, the women's movement split into two branches: militant and moderate suffragists. In a sense, the success of the suffragettes was also their undoing, as feminists were left with no unifying goal.[3] And even though feminist activism continued during the 1920s and 1930s, cooperation between the two camps of suffragists was minimal and limited.

In the years after the Second World War (1945–1960) the women's movement faced an inhospitable social and political environment and, consequently, entered a period of relative hiatus. The 1950s are often portrayed as a period of calm after the turbulence of the War. An aspect of this was manifest culturally in ideas about a return to traditional family life, which, among other things, sought to affirm women's role as homemakers. Taylor (1989: 765) shows how women who deviated from this norm were regarded as sick, immoral, and neurotic; a view that was reinforced by the media, which 'denounced feminism, discredited women who continued to advocate equality, and thus thwarted the mobilisation of discontented women'. Perhaps

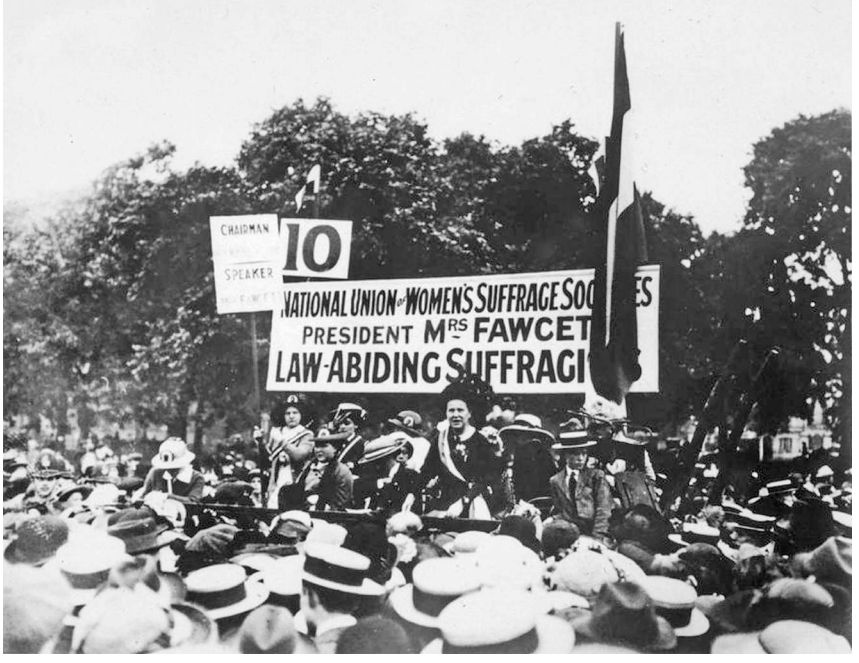


Figure 5.4 English suffragist, Millicent Fawcett (1847–1929) addresses a rally at Hyde Park, London in 1913 © Pictorial Press Ltd/Alamy

not surprisingly the lifestyle and demographic characteristics of the militant suffragette members of the National Women's Party (NWP) did not match up to the normative cultural ideal. Many were educated, employed in middle-class professional and semi-professional jobs, and unmarried. However, although the hostile political and social environment meant members of the NWP were alienated, marginalised, and isolated, the NWP nevertheless 'provided a structure and status capable of absorbing these intensely committed feminists and thus functioned as an abeyance organisation' (Taylor 1989: 765).

Taylor argues that despite being in the doldrums from 1945 to the mid-1960s, the NWP did have an impact upon a revitalised movement for gender equality in the late 1960s, thereby contesting the view the women's movement had its roots in the sixties civil rights movement. In particular, she considers the role members of the NWP played in founding the National Organisation for Women (NOW) in 1966 and considers three ways in which the NWP shaped later feminist activism by providing: (i) preexisting activist networks; (ii) an existing repertoire of goals and tactics; and (iii) a collective identity.

Taylor's arguments demonstrate her eclectic use of social movement theory in two significant ways. First, she relies heavily upon a central premise of resource mobilisation theory (discussed in Chapter 4), namely that 'political opportunities and an indigenous organisational base are major factors in the rise and decline of movements' (Taylor 1989: 761). In examining the significance of preexisting links and organisations for women's collective action, Taylor shows how many women who participated in struggles for women's rights throughout the 1940s and 1950s became active in the resurgent women's movement of the 1960s. The NWP, in particular, provided an underground feminist network and resources vital to the formation of NOW.

The NWP movement also influenced the goals and tactical choices of the resurgent movement. Applying Tilly's (1979) concept of 'repertories of contention' (see Chapter 4), Taylor (1989: 771) suggests 'the array of collective actions that a movement develops to sustain itself should influence the goals and tactics adopted by the same movement in subsequent mass mobilisations'. The NWP abandoned many of its more radical strategies after suffrage was won, but it retained constitutional amendment as a key goal. And largely because of NWP pressure, NOW voted in 1967 to endorse the Equal Rights Amendment to the US Constitution (proposed to guarantee non-discrimination on account of sex), 'which became the most unifying goal of the movement by the 1970s' (Taylor 1989: 771). NOW also aped many of the NWP's institutionalised tactics, e.g. lobbying, letter writing, and pressurising political parties.

Second, in accordance with theorists of 'new' social movements, and Melucci in particular, Taylor shows how the NWP affected the development of group identity and consciousness in the American women's rights movement. The NWP provided the 1960s women's movement with a sense of being connected to the past, which, Taylor argues, is crucial to forming a collective identity. Because of its ties to suffrage, the NWP stood as a powerful symbol of women's long history of oppression and resistance.

In summary, what is impressive about Taylor's account of abeyance structures and social movement continuity is that it draws upon several perspectives, discussed here and in Chapter 4. First, it is influenced by the political process model and resource mobilisation theory, demonstrating the importance of political opportunities, and pre-existing organisations and networks for movement mobilisation. Secondly, it helps explain the rise and decline of movement mobilisation, or what Sidney Tarrow (1998) calls 'cycles of protest'. Thirdly, Tilly's concept of 'repertoires of contention' is used to show how some of the tactics and goals of earlier activism are adopted in subsequent campaigns. Fourthly, Taylor's work gives the lie to the idea of 'new' social movements by proposing that contemporary movements are always, to some extent or other, manifestations of deep-seated historical processes.

Box 5.7 Abeyance structures and social welfare: The infant welfare movement

Infant mortality or infant death was a problem in the early part of the twentieth century in places like Britain, since in a period of intensifying international economic, military, and imperial competition it meant the number of potential workers and soldiers would dwindle (Dwork 1987). The infant welfare movement sought to reduce infant and child mortality by educating mothers about basic food hygiene and proper sanitation. The movement was made up of medical professionals (doctors and nurses), voluntary workers, and philanthropists. In schools and welfare centres, young mothers were taught autonomy and self-help, and instilled with a sense of individual maternal responsibility, which was supported by a relatively conservative 'ideology of motherhood rooted in the nineteenth-century doctrine of spheres, which made women's proper place in the home' (Lewis 1980: 476–477). The movement also provided many women with 'information, companionship and a measure of assurance' (Lewis 1980: 485). Interestingly, the infant welfare movement provides an example of the operation of abeyance structures, as described by Verta Taylor (1989).

Farmer and Boushel (1999: 86–88) argue that the strength of the movement during the nineteenth century might be explained by the relative weakness of the feminist movement during that period. Their argument is that, at times, women have played a vital role in various campaigns to force the state to be more active in the protection of children. For instance, when the feminist movement has been strong it has been able to draw attention to the physical and sexual violence of men within the home. However, when the feminist movement has been less active, society has concerned itself with issues of 'neglect', which is usually taken to mean poor mothering. The implication, here, is that during these periods, women's activism has tended to be more 'defensive' and hidden or submerged in communities and everyday networks, i.e. abeyance structures. These arguments suggest that far from being a 'new' social movement, the 1960s women's movement was but the latest manifestation of long-term feminist activism; hence the reason why '[s]ome trace the movement further back than the current century, citing parallel activities in connection with sexuality, prostitution, child sexual abuse, marriage, education, employment and health in the 1850s' (Pascall 1998: 202).

SOCIAL MOVEMENTS SURVIVING NEOLIBERALISM

As discussed earlier, the 'crisis in Fordism' elicited a neoliberal response from numerous governments, mainly in the West. In many respects, neoliberalism might be regarded as the political counterpart of the post-Fordist regime of 'flexible accumulation'. Since each regime of accumulation requires a corresponding mode of social and political regulation, neoliberalism is to post-Fordism what Keynesianism was to Fordism. While much has been written about the role of working-class movements in establishing the welfare state, the new movements that built upon that achievement, and social struggles against the negative effects of post-Fordist restructuring, few have considered the effects of neoliberalism on social movements and the ways social movements have responded to neoliberalism. Moreover, while Annetts et al. (2009: 232–233) show how 'neoliberal globalisation' has been the target of global social justice campaigns (discussed in Chapter 11), there is scant research exploring how the relationship of neoliberalism to social movements has played out in particular places.

However, Maddison and Martin (2010: 104) do show how this happened in Australia, from 1996–2007, when progressive social movements were greatly restrained by the government of Prime Minister,

John Howard, which combined neoliberalism and neoconservatism 'in an appeal to nationalism, moral righteousness, family values and antagonism to new social movements'. Contributing to scholarship on both political opportunity *and* movement continuity, Maddison and Martin show how Australian social movements persisted in a hostile political climate bereft of opportunities via a number of *survival strategies*, which were complex and sometimes contradictory. For example, parts of the Australian environment movement embraced neoliberalism. In the face of the Howard government's anti-green sentiment and scepticism towards claims about the human origins of climate change and global warming, environmental groups, such as Earthshare, sought to combat government funding reductions by working 'within and without the business community' (Doyle 2010: 166). They did so by 'approaching big business corporations to participate in a payroll deduction scheme as a means of raising funds for its activities' (Maddison and Martin 2010: 114).

By contrast, a resurgent labour movement opposed legislation intended to deregulate the labour market and erode worker rights in a campaign that in no small part led to the ultimate downfall of John Howard and his government (Muir and Peetz 2010). However, during the years of the Howard government, the labour movement sometimes worked with and sometimes appeared to work against social movements in Australia. On the one hand, the Australian Council of Trade Unions withdrew its support for 'sheltered workshops' (employing disabled people) to be registered through the national industrial relations regulatory body (Soldatic and Chapman 2010: 146). On the other hand, the union movement worked with advocates for refugee rights 'in refusing to refuel planes that were to deport asylum seekers, allowing sufficient time for legal injunctions to stop the deportations' (Tazreiter 2010: 211).

Box 5.8 Austerity and protest

Following the GFC that occurred in 2008, a number of Western governments introduced 'austerity measures', which were public spending cuts (e.g. cuts in education, health, housing) designed to tackle the accumulation of national debt and compensate for the huge public cost of bailing out the banks. Given the banks were responsible for precipitating the GFC, many groups emerged to protest against austerity measures. In Britain, for example, UK Uncut contested the proclamation of Prime Minister, David Cameron, that, 'we are all in this together', highlighting the fundamental contradiction in that statement: 'Ordinary people must accept savage public spending cuts, whilst rich corporations

can avoid paying billions and billions in tax' (www.ukuncut.org.uk).

Groups protesting against austerity were not only outraged by the fact that bankers continued to reward themselves with excessive bonuses while politicians stood idly by, since that was seen as just one example of the injustices that are endemic in capitalism. Hence, the emergence globally of the Occupy movement, which, to many, 'was the moment when resistance to the inequalities of capitalism finally emerged: a tipping point in which the unfairness of bank bailouts juxtaposed against rising personal poverty triggered a moment of clarity of the absurdity of the current economic and political system' (Pickerill and Krinsky 2012: 279). More localised reactions to austerity also occurred across Europe (Flesher Fominaya and Cox 2013), including the protests that emerged on 15 May 2011 in Spain of the 15 M/Indignados (the outraged) who have mobilised against some of the adverse consequences of austerity politics, such as home evictions (Hughes 2011; Romanos 2014); although it has been argued the Indignados are a direct precedent and inspiration for the Occupy Wall Street movement in the US (Castañeda 2012), which itself became a movement with an international reach (Pickerill and Krinsky 2012: 284). However, both Occupy and the Indignados have had fraught relationships with labour unions, which, it has been argued, are relationships that need to be revitalised if those movements are to make progress (Barker and Lavalette 2014: 724).

The origins of the GFC lay in the deregulation of financial markets, which has been a key tenet of neoliberalism. Given the project of neoliberalism is 'to re-establish the conditions for capital accumulation and to restore the power of economic elites' (Harvey 2005: 19), it is apt to consider austerity as the end game of neoliberalism. As stated above, neoliberalism is the political expression of post-Fordism. So, while the negative consequences of post-Fordist restructuring processes (discussed earlier in the chapter) may indeed give rise to 'newly relevant survival issues' (Bartholomew and Mayer 1992: 150), these issues, and the movements about which they revolve, are not new in themselves. Rather, what is new is the *context* within which these issues emerge and movements operate. As such, many ostensibly novel issues and new movements are simply the latest manifestations of older issues raised by movements of the past, including issues to do with precarity, unemployment, inequality, and injustice.

SYNTHESISING APPROACHES

In the introduction to this book, we saw how the field of social movement studies is sometimes seen as being split between American and European approaches (although that division has become less rigid over time). Indeed, some of the earlier attempts to reconcile US and European approaches made explicit reference to the geographic origins of those perspectives (Klandermans 1991; Klandermans and Tarrow 1988; Tarrow 1991). Broadly speaking, North American approaches, such as resource mobilisation theory, have tended to focus on strategy and the political effects of social movement activity, while European approaches, such as new social movement theory, have focused on identity and institutional change within civil society (Cohen 1985). Furthermore, while the former perspective views social movements as offensive attempts at 'inclusion within and expansion of political society', the latter tends to see them as seeking to defend and democratise civil society (Foweraker 1995: 21).

Foweraker (1995: 21) agrees with Cohen (1985) that it is possible to synthesise these two seemingly divergent approaches to treat social movements as both *expressive* and *instrumental*, which is recognised by other social movement scholars, as we shall see in the next chapter. Cohen's argument is that instrumental-strategic activity and collective identity formation can coexist in a single movement. Therefore, movements may involve struggles for political inclusion *and* struggles for the democratisation of civil society. Social movements then have a dualistic character. For example, 'the civil rights movement (in the United States) sought both civil rights and the removal of traditional norms of social control, while the feminist movement aspires to change patriarchal institutions as well as winning economic and political power' (Foweraker 1995: 21).

Although this argument is reminiscent of those who are critical of new social movement theory for ignoring the role of identity and culture in historical movements (see above), Cohen is critical of analysts, like Craig Calhoun, who appear to believe social movements develop in linear stages, 'with the first stage creating identity and the second focusing on strategic action' (Foweraker 1995: 22). Rather, says Foweraker (1995: 22), 'identity cannot simply be conceived as a precondition of strategic action, because the processes of organisation and strategic choice contribute crucially to construct and shape this identity'.

The notion that social movements are simultaneously cultural and political resembles very much Fraser's (1995) arguments (discussed earlier) about 'bivalent collectivities', which combine injustices to do

with political economy, or material *redistribution*, and cultural *recognition*. Moreover, these ideas invoke the discussion we had towards the end of Chapter 4 about the 'cultural turn' in resource mobilisation theory, or the attempt by McAdam et al. (1996b) to include a role for social constructivist framing processes in studies of social movements. It will be recalled that this model was criticised for relegating culture to the status of a resource (Nash 2000: 128). Steven Buechler (2011: 189) has expressed a similar view, arguing McAdam et al.'s (1996b) synthesis is essentially 'a "makeover" of the political process approach'. Likewise, Goodwin and Jasper (1999: 42) regard the synthesis as an updated version of McAdam's (1982) political process model, which 'only recognises strategic framing, reducing it to yet another "resource"' (Buechler 2011: 191). For Buechler:

> The proposal thus anoints a hierarchy rather than producing a genuine synthesis. Resource mobilisation and political process theory provide the core ideas. Framing is included as a junior partner. New social movement theory and cultural questions in general are marginalised despite nods in their direction. (Buechler 2011: 190)

The various attempts to produce a synthetic approach to the study of social movements demonstrate it is no easy task, and that a key problem is the forced fit of essentially incompatible ideas, which leads to '"conceptual stretching" that dilutes the clear and specific meanings of terms for the sake of incorporating other elements' (Buechler 2011: 191; see also Goodwin and Jasper 1999: 52). In contrast to these synthetic models are the more organic approaches of people like Alberto Melucci and Verta Taylor. We saw above how Taylor's account of feminist activism and abeyance structures has drawn eclectically on a range of social movement theories and perspectives, from resource mobilisation theory to ideas about the significance of culture, which is central to thinking about 'new' social movements.

Similarly, the work of Melucci (1989: 21–22, original emphasis) goes beyond the dualism of, on the one hand, structural theories that 'explain *why* but not *how* a movement is established and survives', and, on the other hand, resource mobilisation models which 'regard such action as mere data and fail to examine its meaning and orientation'. Thus, Melucci argues, to understand contemporary social movements we must examine both the *how* and the *why* of collective action. By looking at the *how*, 'we discover the plurality of perspectives, meanings, and relationships which crystallise in any given collective action' (Melucci 1989: 25). Looking at the *why* allows us to understand that 'contemporary

movements, more than others in the past, have shifted towards a non-political terrain: the need for self-realisation in everyday life' whereby they 'challenge the logic of complex systems on cultural grounds' (Melucci 1989: 23).

Indeed, in his own effort to reconcile US and European approaches, Sidney Tarrow (1991: 396) has recognised that '[o]f the European scholars associated with the new social movement approach, only Alberto Melucci and his collaborators have tried to devise methodologies fitted to the task of studying collective identity formation between the overly structural European approach and the highly individualistic American one'. A similar approach has been adopted by Melucci's former student, Mario Diani (1992: 13), who stresses the role of social networks, cultural conflicts, and processes of meaning and collective identity construction to arrive at a synthetic definition of the concept of social movement, which he regards as 'a network of informal interactions between a plurality of individuals, groups and/or organisations, engaged in a political or cultural conflict, on the basis of a shared collective identity'.

CONCLUSION

In Chapter 4, we looked mostly at those theories, perspectives, and concepts that fall within the *strategy* paradigm identified by Cohen (1985), which concentrates on the mobilisation of resources and political processes. In that chapter, we also looked briefly at some of the ways culture has been incorporated into resource mobilisation theory and the political process model via framing approaches. By contrast, this chapter has focused on ideas falling broadly within the *identity* paradigm (Cohen 1985), which is concerned, among other things, with social movement cultures, transformations of civil society, and the democratisation of everyday life. Using historical and contemporary examples we have examined some important critiques of theories about 'new' social movements and, like in Chapter 4, have ended by looking at how social movement scholars have attempted to reconcile these divergent approaches to produce a synthesis.

The next chapter builds on this one by providing an extended analysis of the cultural dimensions of social movements and protest politics. It includes a look at the study of emotions and 'passionate politics', the role of narrative and storytelling in social movements, and the significance of music and other performative aspects of social protest, some of which we have considered here in this chapter when we looked, for instance, at the role of carnivalesque protest, festivity, and colour in the European Mayday events.

Notes

1 'Technocracy' refers to an elite of technical experts who use scientific methods to govern or control a society or industry.
2 Research published by Prudential Insurance in 2009 suggests 1948 was the 'luckiest' year in the twentieth century to be born, 'providing a generation with both a growing public sector to mitigate risks and unprecedented house-price inflation for those who bought property in the 1970s' (Davies 2011). Given that statistic, and the fact that the baby boomer generation has been instrumental in abolishing the free provision of education and other services they themselves benefitted from, it is unsurprising that many young people feel alienated and aggrieved at having had their futures stolen by the baby boomers (Beckett 2010; Willetts 2010), and that commentators have predicted a civil war between the generations (Howker and Malik 2010). Hence, some of the most prominent contemporary protests concerned with inequality and exclusion are composed of young people and students (Ibrahim 2011; Salter and Boyce Kay 2011).
3 Similarly, Staggenborg (2011: 42–43) notes that positive political outcomes may not be good for subsequent mobilisations, as activists can feel movement goals have already been achieved.

SUGGESTED READINGS

The following two books are classics in the field of new social movement theory:

Melucci, A. (1989) *Nomads of the Present: Social Movements and Individual Needs in Contemporary Society*. London: Hutchinson Radius.

Touraine, A. (1981) *The Voice and the Eye*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

Although now a little dated, Alan Scott's book remains a useful introduction to the study of new social movements. It also looks at perspectives considered elsewhere in the book (e.g. collective behaviour theory), provides a detailed account of the ecology movement, and explores the perennial problems associated with social movements becoming political parties.

Scott, A. (1990) *Ideology and the New Social Movements*. London: Unwin Hyman.

These articles provide useful reviews and evaluations of the new social movement paradigm:

Buechler, S. M. (1995) 'New social movement theories' *The Sociological Quarterly* 36(3): 441–464.

Pichardo, N. A. (1997) 'New social movements: A critical review' *Annual Review of Sociology* 23: 411–430.

Cohen and Diani both provide overviews of the field, as well as synthetic approaches to conceiving of social movements.

Cohen, J. L. (1985) 'Strategy or identity: New theoretical paradigms and contemporary social movements' *Social Research* 52(4): 663–716.

Diani, M. (1992) 'The concept of social movement' *The Sociological Review* 40(1): 1–25.

The following special issue explore anti-austerity protests following the Global Financial Crisis of 2008:

Social Movement Studies 16(1) (2017): 'Resisting Austerity: Collective Action in Europe in the Wake of the Global Financial Crisis'.

CHAPTER 6

Protest and culture

INTRODUCTION

Interest in the cultural aspects of protest and collective action is not limited to the study of new social movements, which we looked at in the last chapter. The methods and perspectives of cultural analysis have also been adopted in other areas of social movement studies, such as in the book, *Social Movements and Culture*, which the editors considered part of 'the general turn toward cultural analysis in the social sciences' (Johnston and Klandermans 1995: vii). Since the publication of that collection of essays, Hank Johnston (2009: 3) has edited another volume entitled, *Culture, Social Movements and Protest*, which, he says, considers some of the 'important additions to the cultural canon'. That book seeks to build on the earlier volume, which, according to Johnston (2009: 3), 'brought together US and European perspectives to present several new analytical approaches from various social science fields: rhetorical analysis, sociology of culture, narrative analysis, social psychology, and cognitive sciences'. The stated intention of the later book is 'to move our understanding yet another step ahead, extending the scope of how a cultural perspective can inform protest analysis' (Johnston 2009: 3).

In his introduction, Johnston (2009: 3) notes how 'the framing perspective has been the primary vehicle of culture in protest studies'. Having looked in some detail at the framing approach in Chapter 4, in this chapter we will consider what, using a cultural lens, some consider the major limitations of that approach. In short, critics argue that while the framing perspective attempts to overcome the rational and instrumental bias of political process and resource mobilisation theories, it still ends up focusing on the rational and cognitive aspects of protest to the neglect of the affective or

DOI: 10.4324/9780367821760-6

emotional dimensions of collective action. To that end, one of the key areas we look at in this chapter is the study of the emotional life of social movements and activists. But we also look at a counter example of animal rights activists who eschew emotion in favour of adopting more rational-instrumental strategies to achieve their goals. Moreover, we see how emotions can play out in social movement organisations, which, like other bureaucratic forms, have tended to be equated with hierarchical structures and instrumental rationality that exclude emotionality. We also look at other aspects of the cultural life of social movements, including narratives, cultures of resistance (such as oppositional subcultures), performance, and the place of music and song, art and crafts, ritual, and theatre. While Johnston (2009: 4) says these are among the less explored avenues for cultural analysis in social movement studies, they are nevertheless of interest to a growing number of researchers working in the field.

PASSIONATE POLITICS

A key aspect of the cultural turn in social movement studies has been a recognition of 'the value of "bringing emotions back into" social movement research' (Goodwin and Pfaff 2001: 301). The notion of *bringing back* emotions is important here not only because it recognises impliedly the role of emotions in collective action, which has, until recently, been neglected, but also because it acknowledges the fact that emotions were previously considered important by social movement scholars, and by collective behaviour theorists in particular (see Goodwin et al. 2000). As we saw in Chapter 3, collective behaviour theory has tended to view the role played by emotions in crowds, for example, in quite negative terms. Goodwin et al. (2001b: 2) trace this line of thought back to the sociological theory of Max Weber (1978 [1921]), who famously juxtaposed rationality (or reason) and emotions, seeing the latter as essentially irrational or, at best, non-rational.

In Chapter 3, we saw how theories of collective behaviour and the social psychology of crowds were used to explain the behaviour of people in mass gatherings like the Nuremberg Rallies, which that took place in Nazi Germany during the 1930s. In such cases, it was argued, the collective will subordinates the individual will, which may be influenced by the authority of a charismatic leader, as supposedly happens in some new religious movements, cults, or sects where impressionable converts are 'brainwashed'. Fear of fascism and communism, then, led many early students of collective behaviour to regard it negatively (Eyerman and Jamison 1991: 10–12; Goodwin et al. 2001b: 3).

But the study of emotions in social movement research has been neglected not only because of its association with negative and dangerous forms of collective behaviour, but because from the late 1960s social movement studies were dominated by resource mobilisation theory, which, as we saw in Chapter 4, treats social movements as *rational* collective actors, and hence sees no role for (irrational) emotions in the analysis of collective action. Similarly, with its focus on political strategy, the political process model is also unable to accommodate emotional analysis.

To critics of the resource mobilisation and political process schools of thought, social movements depend 'neither on political opportunities nor on prior networks' (Polletta and Amenta 2001: 306). Rather, 'moral shocks' are believed to generate 'such a sense of outrage in a person that she becomes inclined towards political action, with or without the network or personal contacts emphasised in mobilisation and process theories' (Jasper 1997: 106). Accordingly, emotions enable people to be optimistic and believe with confidence that opportunities for effective insurgency are there. This relates to what McAdam (1982: 34) calls 'cognitive liberation' whereby people mobilise 'on the basis of some optimistic assessment of the prospects for successful insurgency weighted against the risks involved in each action'. But even here cognitive liberation is seen in instrumental terms (i.e. weighing upon the risks and benefits); hence, it is devoid of any emotional input or the 'emotional liberation' that enables individuals to take a dissenting stand (Flam 2014: 265). As Goodwin et al. (2001b: 7) put it: '"Liberation" implies heady emotions that "cognitive" then denies'.

This criticism has also been levelled at the framing perspective, which was developed by political process theorists responding to the observation that 'collective actors are best understood as normative and communicative challengers seeking to influence social institutions by means other than instrumental politics' (Young 2001: 104). As we saw in Chapter 4, framing approaches are premised on the view that 'frame alignment' occurs when movement entrepreneurs successfully transform cultural schemas in pre-existing social networks into mobilising structures. However, as Young (2001: 104) points out, framing processes are unfortunately 'almost always treated as cognitive processes'. And, as Kemper (2001: 69) has also noted, this is what caused James Jasper (1998) to argue the frame alignment approach 'must be more than simply cognitive, but also emotional to evoke social movement participation'.

Therefore, scholars concerned with the role of emotions in social movements have attempted to go beyond the false dichotomies created by past analyses that have juxtaposed rationality and emotion, instrumentality, and expression. They argue that ostensibly instrumental movements also have emotional and expressive dimensions,

and thus emotions and cognition often co-mingle (Goodwin et al. 2001b: 15). To be sure, there may be times when a social movement is more emotionally driven, and other times when it is more instrumentally focused. Nevertheless, argue Polletta and Amenta (2001: 305), emotions frequently *precede* collective action: 'people are often motivated by anger, indignation, fear, compassion, or a sense of obligation, not optimism about the possibilities of securing political concessions through extra-institutional protest'. Such is the case with 'new emotional movements', whose novelty, in part at least, reflects a broader societal acceptance of the public expression of emotions (Walgrave and Verhulst 2006: 277). A key characteristic of these movements is that while they may be sparked initially by the emotion of fear, this eventually gives way to rational-instrumental protest, with political and policy goals (Walgrave and Verhulst 2006: 280).

There are many examples of collective action involving emotions. So, we will look briefly here at one we examined earlier in the book when, in Chapter 5, we looked at the case of the precarity movement. De Sario's (2007: 34) analysis of the collective actions of the precarity movement in the Italian city of Turin illustrates the significant role of the 'emotional setting' during each phase or constellation of the movement; that is, 'the fusion of common emotions that gives the opportunity for possible connections, and even before that provides the emotional basis for trust and mutual help between groups and people who previously did not know each other'. Another example of the role of emotions in framing collective action is provided in Box 6.1.

Box 6.1 Dispassionate politics? Non-emotional framing in animal rights activism

Goodwin et al. (2001b: 15) observe it is not only social movement scholars who have tended to devalue and been suspicious of 'emotionality', as protestors, too, are often reluctant to admit their emotions, which, they argue, reflects wider efforts in modern societies to 'frame emotions in pejorative ways'. Similarly, McAllister Groves' (2001) study of animal rights activism shows how activists have normative assumptions about gender, feeling, and rationality.

Despite the fact that the animal rights movement is comprised mainly of women, the activists McAllister Groves interviewed in one grassroots organisation in the southeastern United States tended to shun emotionalism in the movement in favour of what they considered to be rational arguments regarding the philosophy of their organisation. Most of the interviewees were professional women who, according to McAllister Groves,

were trying to 'gain legitimacy for their cause in a patriarchal community that trivialises issues that have been traditionally associated with women' (McAllister Groves 2001: 213). They embraced emotional neutrality, science, and masculine ways of looking at the world. Moreover, they used the term 'emotional' in a political way to describe those individuals whose approach to animal protection they saw as lacking legitimacy. Accordingly, they did not frame themselves as animal lovers, but emphasised instead the rational, scientific, and intellectual arguments against animal cruelty, believing these to look more professional and hence less amateurish or feminine. In this way, McAllister Groves' study provides a counter example to research on social movements that sees them as positively embracing emotion, since it shows how, for some animal rights activists at least, *dispassionate politics* can be a strategic or rational choice.

Despite this 'non-emotional framing', activists talked of 'acceptable anger', which, McAllister Groves argues, acts as a means of legitimating violent forms of protest by alleged terrorists, such as the Animal Liberation Front, from within the animal rights movement. This enables a more militant wing of the movement to coexist with its more rational, professional, and scientific constituency. Interestingly, the example provided by McAllister Groves is of a social movement organisation, which, although not feminist in orientation, is heavily populated by women who apparently do not have the distinctively gendered 'emotion culture' of feminist organisations, which typically 'conform to a feminine logic by treating emotional expressiveness and caring nurturant personal relationships as primary' (Taylor and Rupp 2002: 142).

THE ROLE OF POLITICAL COLOURS IN THE EMOTIONAL LIFE OF SOCIAL MOVEMENTS

In Chapter 3, we saw that Chesters and Welsh (2004) explain how during the S26 protests in Prague in 2000, marchers used colour to reflect their different collective identities, political perspectives, and protest tactics or repertoires. Similarly, Sawer (2007) is interested in looking at how *political colours* figure in the repertoires of contention of social movements. Her focus is on how these colours serve as a visual identification of 'the cause' of a social movement or political party, how they act as an outward display of values, and how they are important for sustaining a movement's sense of community. In particular, Sawer (2007: 46) is concerned with showing how, as well

as performing more instrumental or rational purposes, colours and related symbols elicit emotional responses from activists: 'The wearing of political colours is a significant statement of identity and/or values. Such public displays help engender emotional unity and can be an important resource in building social movements and other campaigns'.

Moreover, the colours may be chosen because they have existing political meanings, although they can 'also develop new meanings as they become part of the vocabulary of collective action and cross oceans and time zones' (Sawer 2007: 46). The colour red, for instance, has long been associated with the international socialist movement. It was a symbol of radicalism during the French Revolution, where once the red flag signalled martial rule by the state, but was then appropriated by demonstrators, 'who inscribed their flag "Martial law of the people against the revolt of the court"' (Sawer 2007: 41). In Australia, the red flag became such an emotive symbol that its display was banned under War Precautions legislation in 1918. Social democrats the world over have adopted the 'The Red Flag' as an anthem sung by delegates at party conferences. In 1986, the British Labour Party replaced the radical fist with the red rose, which has been interpreted by some 'as an attempt to move away from the masculine imagery in the context of the increasing role of women in the left' (Sawer 2007: 41).

The colour black and black flags were emotive signifiers for early anarchist demonstrations and, more recently, 'black has been worn and black flags carried by anarchist and autonomist contingents involved in anti-globalisation protests both in Northern Europe and in the USA' (Sawer 2007: 42). Moreover, it has been argued the anarchist symbol of a circle surrounding the letter 'A' is one of the most recognised political symbols (Peterson 1987: 4).

The historical association between anarchism and socialism has resulted in flags combining black and red, such as in the case of the anarcho-syndicalist movement in Spain before the First World War. However, black has also been appropriated by the fascist movement, which effectively subverts the political meaning of that colour in ways similar to those identified by Chesters and Welsh (2004) in Chapter 3 (see Box 3.2). Examples here include Mussolini's Blackshirts who marched on Rome in 1922, and the British Union of Fascists who followed Mussolini in adopting black shirts, which led to 'the banning of the wearing of political uniforms under the Public Order Act of 1936' (Sawer 2007: 43).

Sawer shows how the colour green has a diversity of meanings, including being a colour of Islam and Islamic political parties, Irish nationalism, the Chartists in nineteenth-century Britain, and the twentieth-century environmental movement. Indigenous movements have also used colours in their campaigns. For instance, the Rastafarian



Figure 6.1 Knitted 'yarn bomb' of the Aboriginal flag, Sydney, Australia © Greg Martin

colours of red, gold, and green have come to signify black pride and, in Australia, the colours of red, black, and yellow, which form the Aboriginal flag (see Figure 6.1), unite all Indigenous people regardless of whether they come from urban or traditional community environments. The pink triangle was once used by the Nazis to identify homosexuals, but like other symbols mentioned here, the colour pink was 'appropriated by the oppressed as part of the new politics of pride', and 'became a signifier of gay identity' (Sawer 2007: 45).

Coloured ribbons have always been used by political parties, as they have by a variety of movement activists. For example, in the nineteenth century, white ribbons were worn by suffragettes in the Women's Christian Temperance Movement in Australia, Canada, and New Zealand. Nowadays the white ribbon is worn on the International Day for the Elimination of Violence against Women. Red ribbons are worn in support of those living with and affected by HIV/AIDS.

NARRATIVE AND STORYTELLING

Along with a focus on the role of emotions in social movements, another key aspect of the 'cultural turn' in social movement studies has been the development of an appreciation for the role of narrative and storytelling, which is itself part of a broader 'narrative turn' that has occurred in a variety of fields of human inquiry (Davis 2002b: 3). Indeed, narrative and stories are often seen as an important feature not only of the cultural life of social movements but also the emotional lives of movements and their participants (Goodwin et al. 2000: 76). Because they contain rhetorical devices and storylines, which link a particular experience or occurrence to others, narratives can orchestrate and amplify both the emotional experience and meaning of collective protest events (Eyerman 2005: 46).

For example, Kane (2001) uses the case of the Irish Land War of the late nineteenth century to show how political alliances were forged between diverse groups via the narrative construction of meaning. She describes how, in the early years of the movement, 'narratives of oppression were recounted', and how central to these were metaphors of humiliation, shame, and sorrow (Kane 2001: 257). Latterly, oppression narratives – pertaining to the wretchedness of the landlord system and British rule in Ireland – gave way to 'narratives of indignation', which were founded on 'an emotion emerging from anger and humiliation' (Kane 2001: 259).

Conceiving of social movements as 'bundles of narratives', Fine (1995: 135) identifies three classes of stories – horror stories; war stories; happy endings – each of which 'plays upon the emotions of participants'. To Fine (1995: 128), narrative is a technique that functions to cement social bonds within a movement, as well as strengthen members' commitment to shared organisational goals and a collective identity. Indeed, to the question, 'why do activists tell stories?', Francesca Polletta (2002b: 48) answers, '[t]hey probably do so to sustain and strengthen members' commitment'. However, along with performing an internal function, storytelling also has external effects. For instance, Meyer shows how 'stories of influence' can be considered a social movement outcome in the same way a specific

policy or legal outcome can. As such, stories of influence constitute a 'spillover effect' of movement activity (Meyer and Whittier 1994). An example of the wider influence of movements beyond specific policy outcomes is evident in the fact that while the Equal Rights Amendment was defeated in the 1970s, there was a dramatic transformation in cultural values and attitudes about women in politics and in the workforce during the same period (Meyer 2009: 59).

Likewise, in their recently edited special issue of *Mobilization* exploring the 'cultural impacts' of movements, Polletta and Amenta (2022) say one way movements have *cultural impact* is by influencing the practices of institutions other than the ones targeted directly by activists. That is not to say, however, that policy impact, engagement with formal politics, and cultural change are mutually exclusive, as 'movements targeting non-political institutions […] have sometimes identified analogs to political opportunities' (Polletta and Amenta 2022: 384). For example:

> After George Floyd's murder by a Minneapolis police officer in 2020, protesters worldwide targeted the state, demanding policies against police chokeholds, no-knock warrants, and qualified immunity. At the same time, major corporations like Nordstrom's pledged to increase the ranks of Black and Latino managers, media institutions promised to bring more Black journalists on staff, Johnson and Johnson agreed to stop selling skin-lightening products, CBS required that at least fifty percent of the cast on its reality shows be people of color, and the Grammy Music Awards renamed the 'Urban' category of music – code for 'Black' – 'Progressive R&B'. (Polletta and Amenta 2022: 384)

Another case involves the emotional responses of women during the campaign to elect Rosalie Wahl who was the state of Minnesota's first female Supreme Court justice in 1977. To her surprise, Kenney (2010) discovered that women involved in the campaign were less motivated by narrow instrumental legal goals (e.g. rape shield laws, custody determined by the best interests of the child, equal pay) than by a sense of *pride* – an emotion important in other movements, e.g. black pride, gay pride – at being part of a wider collective movement. Kenney (2010: 144) shows how Wahl was a symbol of all women and that her campaign and appointment invoked an emotionally intense response, which cannot be explained in terms of policy objectives: it 'touched a chord with women across the political spectrum and generated grassroots mobilisation to hold her seat, sparking an emotional response that energised heretofore politically inactive women'.

Although, as we saw in Chapter 5, some movements are self-referential and internally oriented, most exist in some form of antagonistic relation to larger structures and values, which they set

out to challenge and/or change. They do that partly by means of 'counternarratives', which are oppositional or alternative stories 'at odds with or precluded by pre-existing and dominant social narratives' (Davis 2002b: 25). For many, this is a crucial function of storytelling in social movements, just as it is for other oppositional groups and deviant subcultures.

Thus, Fine's description of a 'war story' (i.e. 'collective experiences within the movement [...] that speak to the value of community') has been applied in Britain to New Age Travellers (Martin 1998: 740–741), some of whom would recount their experiences of the Battle of the Beanfield (Box 6.2) – when they clashed violently

Box 6.2 Battle of the Beanfield: A war story

In Chapter 5, we saw how Martin (1998) explained generational differences between older and younger groups of New Age Travellers in terms of the post-material values of new social movements adopted by the former and the impact of post-Fordism upon the latter. However, this is only one way travellers were differentiated by generation. The older travellers, who had experienced the Battle of the Beanfield (mentioned above), regarded that event as mythic and constructed a sacred narrative around it. This narrative of the past was fundamental to the collective identity of the older generation of travellers, who were 'bound together by nostalgia' (Martin 1998: 741). However, while younger travellers knew of and were able to retell the story of the Battle of the Beanfield, most had not experienced it. Because of that, the older generation believed, many younger travellers were indifferent about travellers' negative public image, which was seen by older travellers as a mark of disrespect, since it violated the sacred narrative of travellers suffering injustice as victims of police brutality during the Battle of the Beanfield.

In this way, the younger travellers 'violated fundamental movement norms' (Benford 2002: 66). Largely as a result of the anti-social behaviour of the younger generation of travellers, the older generation believed the British government introduced legislation in the 1990s to effectively criminalise their way of life. Hence, older travellers were apt to recount the story of the Battle of the Beanfield and other mythic tales of struggle against the authorities with intense emotion, frustrated at their inability to exercise what Benford (2002: 68) calls, 'frame control', whereby participants 'censor' a movement's public image by controlling its framing activities.

with police in 1985 at Stonehenge – '[l]ike soldiers after a battle' (Fine 1995: 136). On the one hand, collective memories and accounts of such 'iconic events' (Lofland 1995: 203) may serve a strategic function, such as to galvanise collective action while, on the other hand, they may become incorporated into the culture of a movement, thus serving to promote cohesion and the formation of a collective identity.

Stories from the past can perform other cultural functions. For instance, Polletta connects Verta Taylor's ideas about how social movements are able to sustain themselves over time via 'abeyance structures' (discussed in Chapter 5) to stories that are told about past movements. Hence, insofar as storytelling evokes emotions, narratives of the past can help sustain movements in less active periods (Goodwin et al. 2001b: 21). Like Taylor (1989: 772), Polletta (2002b: 49) is sceptical of the 'immaculate conception' view of social movements, arguing that stories of past movements help us trace the longer-term *cultural impact* of movements, which is more difficult to capture than legislative or policy outcomes, albeit they may be as or more important than those formal outcomes (see also Polletta and Amenta 2022 cited above). Narratives of the past also provide new activists with a readymade script for contemporary collective action, as well as a means of understanding current political challenges (Polletta 1998).

Along with fostering solidarity and commitment between activists, according to Benford (2002), narrative and storytelling can act as means of social control in social movements. While nearly all social movement scholarship about social control relates to the effects of external influences on social movement outcomes – such as the role of the police, media, the state, counter-movements – Benford's (2002: 55, original emphasis) focus is on, 'attempts to control the course of social movements from *within*'. For Benford (2002: 57), myths or sacred narratives of the past have the capacity 'to inspire action and constrain individual and collective behaviour'.

Collective identities are also socially constructed through storytelling (Benford 2002: 71). So, if individuals are to become socialised as movement adherents they must learn to be conversant in the proper movement myths and narratives. If they do not, they risk disrupting a movement's framing activities, which may, in turn, damage its public image. Moreover, if a participant's individual narrative contradicts a movement myth or narrative, conflict may ensue between those participants and adherents who seek to preserve the 'official' movement rendition of past events. This is precisely what happened in the case of New Age Travellers, as discussed in Box 6.2.

THE CONTRIBUTION OF NARRATIVE ANALYSIS TO THE CULTURAL CANON OF SOCIAL MOVEMENT STUDIES

As stated in the introduction to this chapter, the framing perspective, which was discussed in some detail in Chapter 4, has been a key influence in the study of culture and social movements. However, we also said the framing approach has been subject to criticism, not least by those interested in narrative analysis, which is itself an aspect of the cultural turn in social movement studies (Davis 2002b: 3–4; Fine 2002: 230). For Davis (2002b: 9), a fundamental problem of the framing perspective is that it tends 'to overemphasise cognitive factors'. Thus, the concepts of framing and frame alignment (see Chapter 4) give undue stress to logical persuasion and consensus of belief:

> In matters of recruitment, for instance, the framing perspective draws attention to the inherently moral claims of movements, but focuses on cognitive dynamics and provides little illumination of how specific moral responses are aroused. The perspective intimates the importance of emotions that mobilise and demobilise, yet concentrates on congruent and logical beliefs as organising experience, building a sense of personal efficacy, and guiding action. (Davis 2002b: 9)

By contrast, narrative analysis 'illuminates persuasion and shared vision at more subtle, imaginative, and pre-prepositional levels' (Davis 2002b: 24). In short, activists must do more than simply agree upon a set of clearly articulated and coherent reasons to act collectively; 'they must be *moved* to act, to take risks, to get involved' (Davis 2002b: 24, original emphasis). And that entails not only acting rationally and instrumentally, but also imaginatively, intuitively, and emotionally. Narrative and storytelling are key aspects of these processes. It should also be remembered from what was said previously in this chapter that passion and emotion are not antithetical to political strategising and rational action:

> Narratives' dual character – both strategically deployed and constitutive of people's understanding of strategy, interest, and identity – is evident in their relationship to emotions. Stories are used strategically by activists to elicit emotions, say, the righteous indignation that propels someone into a march, or the anguish that generates financial contributions. At the same time, people make sense of their experience, and respond to it emotionally, based on familiar narratives. (Polletta 2002b: 48)

Just as the framing perspective has been influential in the study of social movements and culture, so too has new social movement theory. However, like the framing perspective, it has certain weaknesses and limits that some assert can be remedied by narrative analysis. Just as framing scholars' use of the concept of frame alignment stresses external threats to alignment while paying 'minimal attention to internal movement processes and the situated and negotiated nature of participant engagement and solidarity', so, for Davis (2002b: 9), a key problem of new social movement theory is its tendency 'to skirt the problem of meaning-making'. Thus, while new social movement theorists 'have emphasised the constructed nature of collective identity, they have not typically shown *how* activists themselves fashion their identities and interests' (Davis 2002: 9b, emphasis added). Narrative analysis, by contrast, illuminates internal movement processes, highlighting 'the power of stories to both create and strengthen movement community and collective identity', and, as Benford (2002) shows, it also demonstrates the ability of narratives to formulate and control models of appropriate behaviour *within* social movements (Davis 2002b: 25).

A focus on narrative is also relevant for contemporary movements 'in which the goal of self-transformation as much as political reform may see personal storytelling *as* activism' (Polletta 2002b: 48, original emphasis). In this way, narrative analysis is a valuable addition to the cultural canon in social movement studies, which complements new social movement theory *and* the framing perspective:

> It too draws attention to mobilising beliefs, ideas, and identities, and the interactive and negotiated nature of movement meaning-making and solidarity. It too focuses attention on internal movement dynamics and draws attention to diffuse expressions of social activism. It too provides a language for analysing the social construction of collective action, a language that both overlaps and goes beyond the conceptual frameworks of these other theories. (Davis 2002b: 24)

Accordingly, it is important to recognise, as Fine (2002: 230) does, that understanding social movements through the storytelling of activists does not represent a totalistic attempt to explain all aspects of collective action and substitute pre-existing approaches with the study of 'group narrative'. Nevertheless, for Davis, the study of narrative not only provides a means of overcoming some of the aforementioned weaknesses of the framing perspective and new social movement theory, but also provides a window to some of the neglected cultural dimensions of social movements:

Indeed, it seems fair to say that all cultural elements, all symbolic expressive aspects of movements, can be related to narrative and illuminated by its study. Culture is more than stories, of course; and not all cultural features of movements necessarily involve narratives. But, and this is my point, these features *might* involve narratives – be it vocabularies of meanings, expressive symbols, music, film, rules, rituals, histories, sacred places, or so on. Attending to stories is *one* way – but not the only way – to bring these crucial features of movements into the foreground and explore their context and explanatory significance. (Davis 2002b: 10, original emphasis)

Box 6.3 David and Goliath: The McLibel trial

In Chapter 4, we touched upon Soule's (2009) research into anti-corporate activism, including her analysis of anti-apartheid student activism on American university campuses during the 1970s and 1980s. At that time, students were involved in various acts of civil disobedience to protest at universities who invested in companies with South African ties. In his research, Benford (2002: 58) shows how movements using civil disobedience and other forms of nonviolent direct action often make use of 'tales regarding the effectiveness of nonviolent direct action campaigns of other movements'. According to Benford, these mythical tales typically take the form of David and Goliath narratives where ordinary people are depicted obtaining peace and justice against all odds. While frequently linked to wider social movements, like civil rights or anti-corporate protest, such tales invariably involve individuals pitted against larger forces. The now legendary McLibel trial is a case in point (Figure 6.2).

In 1985, six activists from a small anarchist group named London Greenpeace (no relation to the larger environmental organisation) gathered outside a McDonald's restaurant in London's Strand where they distributed leaflets criticising the fast food giant for such things as being complicit in Third World starvation, destruction of rainforests, selling unhealthy food, exploiting children with advertising, exploiting workers and banning trade unions, and torturing and murdering animals. Subsequently, McDonald's consulted the Special Branch of London's Metropolitan Police (usually responsible for matters of national security and counterterrorism) and engaged the services of two private-eye agencies to infiltrate the group and

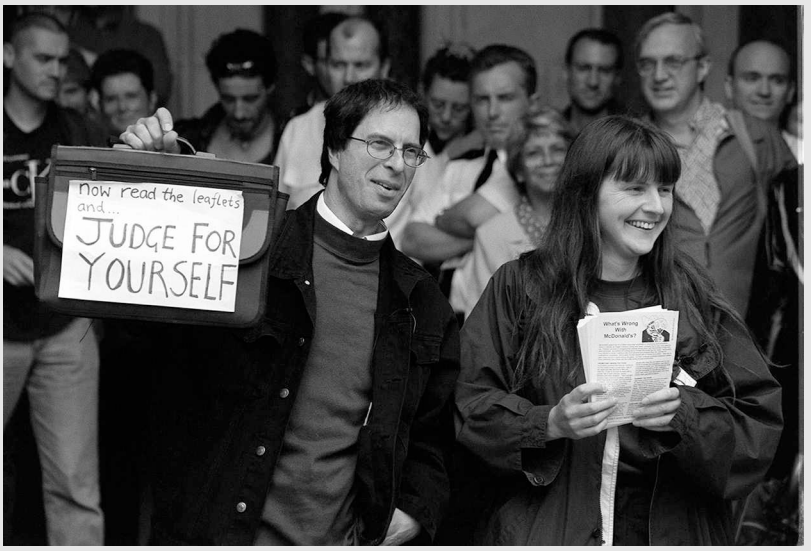


Figure 6.2 The McLibel two, Dave Morris and Helen Steel, at the High Court in London, after fast food giant McDonald's was awarded £60,000 for winning its record-breaking libel action against the pair, over a leaflet which attacked McDonald's reputation © Matthew Fearn/PA Images/Alamy

gather information before finally serving writs for libel on five of its members (Vidal 1997: 193).

Three out of the five apologised to McDonald's after it became apparent any trial would be time-consuming and costly. Two members of the group, Dave Morris and Helen Steel, refused to apologise and represented themselves without legal aid, which is excluded in defamation cases in England in order to prevent 'frivolous petty suits' (Nicholson 2000: 9). The trial commenced in 1994. In a matter that arguably ended up being about censorship by big corporations, Morris and Steel claimed McDonald's had taken advantage of Britain's libel laws to silence (by threatening to sue) its critics, including 'the BBC, Channel 4, *The Guardian*, Today and many other vegetarian, green and labour movements' (Lloyd 1999: 342).

Eventually, Steel and Morris were found to have libelled McDonald's regarding 'rainforest destruction, packaging, food poisoning, starvation in the third world, heart disease and cancer, and bad working conditions' (Lloyd 1999: 341). However, in a partial victory for the defendants the trial judge said they had proved that 'McDonald's advertising exploits children, falsely advertise their food as nutritious, risk the health of their long-term regular customers, are "culpably responsible"

for cruelty to animals reared for their products, are "strongly apathetic to unions", and that they pay their workers low wages' (Lloyd 1999: 341). McDonald's was awarded damages of £60,000. An appeal by Steel and Morris failed, although the Court of Appeal did hold that 'the allegations relating to pay and conditions were [fair] comment', and 'it was true to allege that, if one eats enough McDonald's food, one's diet may well become high in fat, etc., with the very real risk of heart disease' (Hudson 2005: 305). Accordingly, damages were reduced to £40,000.

After their application seeking leave to appeal to the House of Lords was refused, Steel and Morris took their case to the European Court of Human Rights, claiming their right to a fair trial had been violated because they had been denied legal aid. On 15 February 2005, some 20 years after the original leaflet campaign, the European Court found in their favour, ruling that the original case had breached Article 6 (right to a fair trial) and Article 10 (right to freedom of expression) of the European Convention on Human Rights. The British Government was ordered to pay the pair £57,000 in compensation.

This belated win for Steel and Morris demonstrates consumer activism, or 'citizen actions directed toward business entities to explicitly influence the distribution of social goods or social values' – including 'indirect' boycotts aimed at changing the behaviour of actors other than the offending party (Colli 2020) – can act to hold corporate power in check, even though, as Caroline Heldman (2017: 216) contends, 'political activism in the marketplace is akin to David throwing stones at Goliath'. Moreover, says Heldman (2017: 217), although consumer power has yet to be fully realised, citizens now 'are more likely than ever to hold corporations politically accountable using consumer activism'. Somewhat ironically, the power of ordinary citizens to influence corporate decision-making is a function of the rise of consumer culture combined with a general decline in political participation, which is particularly pronounced among the young.

The emergence of new communication technologies has also 'altered the balance of power between citizens and corporations because everyday people can now press their political claims through blogs, Facebook, Twitter, and other social network platforms' (Heldman 2017: 218). The upshot is that young people using social media 'are far more likely than older Americans to engage in consumer activism, with half boycotting at least once a year' (Heldman 2017: 218). That confirms the view of Ruth Milkman (2017: 2, original emphasis) who sees

millennials as a 'new *political generation*' of 'digital natives' with more progressive values and attitudes than older generations, and who despite having had their political aspirations frustrated by precarious work and polarised labour markets may still possess the potential to unlock digital forms of democratic participation to their advantage – including when it comes to matters of intergenerational justice aimed at the baby boomers (Martin and Roberts 2021: 738).

EMOTION AND INSTRUMENTALITY IN STORIES OF PROTEST

In Chapter 4, we saw how the American civil rights movement depended for its success upon the support of black churches. Student sit-ins were a key repertoire used by civil rights activists in 1960. However, like the broader civil rights movement, Morris (1984: 200) has argued, the 'sit-ins were largely organised at the movement churches rather than on the campuses'. In her research, on the other hand, Polletta shows how *spontaneity* figured in many stories told by students about the sit-ins. However, spontaneity did not mean unplanned, but 'denoted independence from adult leadership, urgency, local initiative, and action by moral imperative rather than bureaucratic planning' (Polletta 1998: 138).

Importantly, Polletta distinguishes 'narrative' from collective action 'frames'. According to framing theorists, frames are crucial recruiting devices because they provide: clearly articulated explanations of a problem needing a remedy; a means of solving a problem; and a justification for action. In other words, '[f]rames motivate participation by persuasively distinguishing insurgents ("us") from antagonists and irrelevant others ("them"), and by clearly representing the possibility, necessity, and efficacy of collective action by deliberate actors' (Polletta 1998: 140). By contrast, because it relies on emplotment rather than explanation, narrative 'engages potential activists precisely by its *ambiguity* about the causes of collective action' (Polletta 1998: 139, original emphasis).

That is not to say, however, that narrative plays any less of a role in collective action. For instance, students' stories and characterisations of the 1960 sit-ins as spontaneous indicated, 'a break with adult gradualism, a moral rather than political strategy, a joy in action' (conveying a sense of fun), and 'motivated students to engage in time-consuming and dangerous activism' (Polletta 2002b: 42). In this way, students were 'constituting an action-compelling collective identity as they narrated it' (Polletta 2002b: 32); thus providing some insight into 'the interpretative processes […] occurring *during*

initial episodes of collective action' (Polletta 1998: 138, original emphasis).

Therefore, Polletta (2002b: 32, emphasis added) argues, narrative analysis exposes a gap in framing theories of social movements, that is, 'their neglect of the discursive processes that occur *before* formal movement organisations with clear recruitment objectives have been established'. It also demonstrates their neglect of emotions in social protest (Polletta 2002b: 32), including the idea that the stories told publicly by activists constitute 'emotional performances' (Polletta and Chen 2012: 498). However, during the student sit-ins, spontaneity also became an 'organisational commitment' that both animated and constrained strategic action (Polletta 2002b: 43). Hence, Polletta (2002b: 37) argues, narrative analysis of the student sit-in shows how spontaneity was instrumental *and* expressive; thus challenging the 'widespread assumption that passion and rationality are opposed', which 'is a cultural belief that activists have to work with and around'. It will be recalled that, in Chapter 5, similar issues about the potential coexistence of instrumental and expression elements within a single movement were raised in respect of the organisational form of women's movements (see Box 5.2).

More recently, Sujatha Fernandes (2017: 2) has charted the 'contemporary boom of instrumental storytelling', or what she calls 'curated stories', that has 'extended deep into contemporary social life and political culture and institutions'. Importantly, *curated stories* reflect a broader shift to neoliberalism, markets and reconfigured subjectivities, giving rise to a 'political economy of storytelling' that has produced 'subjects who are guided by […] principles of upward mobility, entrepreneurship, and self-reliance' (Fernandes 2017: 11). Accordingly, the neoliberal capture of storytelling and attendant 'boom of storytelling in legislative campaigns, cultural diplomacy, and advocacy has involved a shift in emphasis away from the collective and political modes of narration toward the personal mode' (Fernandes 2017: 6). That, in turn, has meant '[c]urated personal stories shift the focus away from structurally defined axes of oppression and help to defuse the confrontational politics of social movements' (Fernandes 2017: 3). A similar phenomenon has been observed by Polletta et al. (2021) who explore the use of expert discourse around personal storytelling as a popular strategy employed by professionalised social movements for fundraising, policy advocacy and building public support, where consultants in public affairs, management and lobbying instruct activists to avoid victim storytelling about abuse and emotional pain and instead tell stories of hope and resilience.

In contrast, Gerbaudo (2022) shows how social media 'personal testimony campaigns' have become a distinctive genre, and how contrary to thinking about them as merely individual and fleeting,

the gathering of personal experiences can form the basis for constructing collective identities. As with life history approaches that we considered in Chapter 2, which can be used to situate individual experience within wider social structures (Chewinski and Corrigall-Brown 2023), personal testimonies around shared hashtags can provide a means to construct and/or transform a collective identity and raise awareness about structural problems and common grievances of activists:

> … while each of the stories they collect is unique, what matters to their public mobilisation is the way their coming together highlights the *repetition* of similar conditions and situations; and this in turn serves to signal the structural, rather than merely personal, character of the problem raised, thus providing a rationale for social and political responses. (Gerbaudo 2022: 3, original emphasis)

Box 6.4 Emotions in social movement organisations

It is worth noting that while the 'emotional turn' in social movement studies emerged partly as a reaction against the overly rationalistic approach of resource mobilisation theory, emotions are nonetheless evident in 'social movement organisations', which, as discussed in Chapter 4, is a key concept of resource mobilisation theory. For instance, Rodgers (2010) has shown how paid activists at the human rights organisation, Amnesty International, struggle with the emotional components of their work, and that this has implications not only for the quality of their working lives but also for the stability of such organisations, as well as the maintenance of social movements generally.

An ethos of selflessness is engrained in the organisational culture of human rights organisations like Amnesty. Although this motivates potential recruits to become involved in activism, it also tends to foster a culture of overwork, where employees feel morally obliged to put the needs of victims above their own. According to Rodgers, this high expenditure of emotional energy is unsustainable in the long-run. Thus, it has implications for professional social movement organisations such as Amnesty, in that professionally trained and skilled activists leave after finding better-paid work in less stressful environments.[1] By contrast, in her study of militant street AIDS activists, Gould (2002) shows how the 'emotion work' of social movements is vital to both their development and persistence over time.

MUSIC AND PROTEST

Music and social movements have long been associated with one another, as is perhaps best encapsulated in the notion of the 'protest song' performed by the likes of Woody Guthrie, Bob Dylan, Joni Mitchell, and Billy Bragg (Paretskaya 2015: 639). The political function of music and song variously calling for social justice or acting as a form of resistance is evident in genres ranging from folk music, blues, punk, rap, and hip-hop (e.g. Hamm and Ferrell 1994; Hebdige 1979; Peters 2019; Roy 2002; Steinmetz and Henderson 2016; Tunnell and Hamm 2009). In social movement studies, music is regarded a key feature of the emotional and hence cultural life of social movements, which involves 'rituals, songs, folktales, heroes, denunciation of enemies, and so on' (Goodwin et al. 2001b: 18). Notwithstanding that, Goodwin et al. argue most discussion of solidarity building in social movement studies has focused on the role of shared rhetoric and beliefs, neglecting the emotions that accompany these. Collective emotions, they say, are linked to the *pleasures of protest*, the most obvious of which are the pleasures associated with being among like-minded people; pleasures, that is, arising 'from the joys of collective activities, such as losing oneself in collective motion or song' (Goodwin et al. 2001b: 20). This point is reiterated by Johnston (2009: 17), who says it would be a mistake to see music as *only* a social movement artefact, or *just* (another) resource to build solidarity. Following Eyerman and Jamison's (1998: 162) view on the subject, Johnston says:

> … music not only can function as a resource to build collective identity, or to pass information, or preserve a tradition, but can also be integral in the unfolding performance of the movement itself, constituting it by the way songs bring people to participation, by the meaning the songs come to assume, and by the meaning the opponents come to attribute it. (Johnston 2009: 17)

Much in the same way as we saw above how past narratives impact upon future collective action, and can perform an abeyance function, Eyerman and Jamison (1998: 2) argue music in social movements may act as a means of 'mobilising traditions', which create in participants feelings of connectivity to historic movements, since they 'are made and remade, and after the movements fade away as political forces, the music remains as a memory and as a potential way to inspire new waves of mobilisation'. For example, traditional Negro spirituals and slave songs served as cultural resources during the 1960s struggle for civil rights (Eyerman and Jamison 1998: 45). They did so in part by evoking collective memory born of direct experience, which Eyerman (2002: 452) has shown contrasts with

'white power music' that 'seeks to invent tradition through linking itself with an imagined glorious past'.

The role of ritual is also important here. In particular, music 'embodies tradition through the ritual of performance. It can empower, help create a collective identity and a sense of movement in an emotional and almost physical sense' (Eyerman and Jamison 1998: 35). Collective singing rituals, whether that be singing a song like 'We Shall Overcome' at a mass demonstration or the 'International' at a union gathering, not only remind participants of their place in the long-standing traditions of the movement, but they 'can also capture, in a brief, transient moment, a glimpse of, and a feeling for, a spiritual bonding which is both rational and emotive at one and the same time' (Eyerman and Jamison 1998: 36).

From the above, it should be apparent that, to Eyerman and Jamison, the study of music and social movements is inextricably linked to some of the other features we have identified in this chapter as being key components of social movements and culture, and, in particular, the parts played by emotions and narrative or storytelling in collective action. In their earlier work, Eyerman and Jamison (1991) conceive of social movements as being involved in 'cognitive praxis', namely that as bearers of new ideas involved in knowledge-producing activities, they might, among other things, affect scientific research programmes, professional intellectual identities, and technological development trajectories. In this way, the measure of a successful movement can be observed by looking at how influential it is 'in spreading its knowledge interests or diffusing its consciousness' (Eyerman and Jamison 1991: 3–4). Accordingly, as shown earlier in the chapter, social movement outcomes can be assessed in terms other than concrete policy achievements. We also looked at something similar in Chapter 5, when we discussed how social welfare movements can be concerned with the twin goals of redistribution *and* recognition (Martin 2001).

Eyerman and Jamison (1998: 7) apply their cognitive approach to social movements 'to consider musical expression in social movements as a kind of cognitive praxis'. Therefore, like others who argue social movement activity should not be reduced to politics (see Chapter 5), Eyerman and Jamison (1998: 24) show how, as cognitive praxis, 'music and other forms of cultural activity contribute to the ideas that movements offer and create in opposition to the existing social and cultural order'. For instance, social movements can impact significantly on musical taste and popular culture, as happened during the 1960s when 'American-inspired rock music became a major source of knowledge about the world and their place in it for millions of youth around the globe' (Eyerman and Jamison 1998: 24; see also Friedman 2013).

Here, African influences and African-American experiences of the enduring legacies of slavery and European colonialism have often

been defining features of protest songs and music genres across the Americas from the 1960s to the present day. Reggae, the musical expression of the Caribbean Rastafara movement, provides a case in point, given it 'emerged as a response to British colonialism and drew inspiration and guidance from the pan-Africanist visions of the Jamaican pan-Africanist Marcus Garvey' (Kaltmeier and Raussert 2019: 1). Indeed, it has been argued that, as in the past, black music and black musicians should play key roles in contemporary struggles for criminal justice and civil rights in the face of police and vigilante violence, as highlighted by the Black Lives Matter movement. For example, Dennis (2016) proposes hip-hop or rap artists might perform that role given they have long engaged in protest through lyrical expression calling for an end to police brutality. To do so however the music and musicians must be 'free from the censorship of the dominant culture' (Dennis 2016: 35, quoting Eyerman 2002: 447).

This, in turn, relates to Danaher's (2010) arguments about the importance of 'free spaces' in developing and nurturing collective identity via the use of music. Here, the notion of free space refers to 'an opening within the framework of society where people are allowed to criticise the dominant culture within acceptable limits' (Danaher 2010: 814). Accordingly, free spaces comprise highly creative arenas in which emotionally charged ritual events can take place, including those involving music, song, and dance. Previously, southern churches provided free physical spaces allowing the civil rights movement to flourish, whereas more recently rap artists have been able to openly criticise society 'from the unintended free space afforded by living in violent, segregated neighbourhoods of large US cities' (Danaher 2010: 815).

Similar observations are made in Piotrowski's (2015) study of the alterglobalist movement in Central and Eastern Europe. Emphasising the role of 'prefigurative politics', or social activism as living out alternative lifestyles, Piotrowski shows how youth subcultures, such as punk and hardcore music scenes, help disseminate the movement's ideals, as well as sustain the movement between spikes in activism by providing social spaces 'where members of different groups can meet and exchange information or plan something together' (Piotrowski 2015: 417). Scholars in cultural sociology and subculture studies have likewise explored music's interplay with taste and identity via the notion of 'music scenes' (Bennett 2008).

In social movement studies, Piotrowski's research chimes with Verta Taylor's (1989) notion of grassroots communities and networks facilitating movement continuity through dormant periods of activism. It also echoes Haenfler et al.'s (2012: 2) concept of 'lifestyle movements', which, as we will see in Chapter 7, are seen as fostering social change by the conscious and active promotion of a lifestyle or

way of life. We will revisit the concept of 'lifestyle movements' and the notion of 'free spaces' in Chapter 7 when we look at the role both play in religious experimentation. For now, though, it is worth stating, as we do in that chapter, the similarities that exist between the idea of free space and Melucci's (1985: 815, 1989: 60) observations about contemporary movements acting as 'cultural laboratories' in a public space that is autonomous of the state and civil society.

Box 6.5 Pussy Riot and the successful diffusion of feminist ideas

The case of Russian feminist punk band, Pussy Riot, provides a recent example of the operation of cognitive praxis in music and protest. After performing a 'punk prayer' in the Cathedral of Christ the Saviour in Moscow in February 2012, three members of the band were convicted for 'hooliganism motivated by religious hatred' and sentenced to two years in a Russian penal colony (Seal 2013: 293). Pussy Riot's members are expressly feminist protestors who frame Vladimir Putin's authoritarianism in terms of patriarchal oppression. Their songs include, 'Death to Prison, Freedom to Protest', which invites 'LGBT, feminists, defend the nation!', and 'Kropotkin-Vodka' that demands 'The fucking end to sexist Putinists!'.



Figure 6.3 Russia's punk band, Pussy Riot, conducting an anti-Putin action in front of the Kremlin in central Moscow, 20 January 2012 © ZUMA Press, Inc./Alamy

Lizzie Seal uses the example of Pussy Riot to confound Alison Young's (1990) prediction that feminist political dissent will always be undermined and represented negatively in the news media. Young examined press discourses of women peace protestors at Greenham Common in the 1980s to show how their visibly public and apparently unruly actions and 'disrupted femininity' led to portrayals of them as wild and deviant, and thus in violation of dominant norms about womanhood as passive and private. By contrast, Seal shows how media coverage on news websites about Pussy Riot has, on balance, been positive and supportive.

She says this largely has to do with the post-Cold War context within which Pussy Riot's dissent has taken place. Hence, their feminism has gained acceptance as it chimes with a post-Cold War narrative about the progressive nature of Western values such as freedom of speech and freedom of expression, as well as a human rights discourse, which are counterposed to the old-fashioned repression and authoritarianism of Russia. While she acknowledges women in the West do continue to be stereotyped and represented negatively in terms of their femininity, Seal (2013: 298) says this endorsement of Pussy Riot's feminism 'can perhaps be explained by the incorporation of elements of feminism and post-feminism into the discourse of the Western news media in the two decades since Young published her study'. This argument then supports Eyerman and Jamison's (1991) cognitive approach to social movements, as it appears to indicate that since Young's study, the women's movement has succeeded in diffusing its consciousness, ideas, and knowledge interests.

PERFORMING PROTEST

As well as providing an example of the cognitive praxis of feminism and the women's movement, the case of Pussy Riot (Box 6.5) highlights the role of performance, art, and theatre, which are also aspects of the cultural dimension of protest and social movements (Johnston 2009: 4). The centrality of cultural (and subcultural) activities in definitions of social movements is also noted by Karpantschof (2015: 37) whose study of the Copenhagen squatter movement, 1981–2011, highlights the role of performance in the squatter milieu, including 'symbolic signalling by signs, badges, slogans, choreography of marches, and other theatrical aspects of protest'. Seal (2013: 295), too, shows how Pussy Riot's use of style,

imagery, and symbolic meaning – young women evoking the Virgin Mary, in church, to save Russia from Putin – 'intentionally mobilised religious, political, and gender-based meanings to challenge social and political boundaries'. Accordingly, she states, their protest can be seen as 'carnivalesque',[2] in that it turns the world upside down: 'young women occupying sacred space that is symbolic of patriarchal religious power and authority' (Seal 2013: 295).

Following these analyses, the material presented in this section of the chapter examines performative approaches to the cultural life of social movements (Johnston 2009: 8; Juris 2014), some of which we have already considered in earlier parts of the book. In Chapter 3, for instance, we saw how Benford and Hunt (1992) have developed a 'dramaturgical' perspective to make sense of collective actors employing various dramatic techniques (i.e. scripting, staging, performing, interpreting) to define, communicate and challenge existing power relations. And, in Chapter 5, we saw how the European precarity movement's use of performance, street parades, festivals, visual images, and counter images on posters, along with its use of the colour pink to express affinity with queer politics and global justice protests, have been explained in terms of a frame emphasising 'playful, ludic and carnivalesque forms of protest [which] valorises the creative and expressive over the instrumental and rational, and utilises a variety of performative repertoires' (Chesters and Welch 2004: 328; see also Roberts 2008).

Like precarity protests and the anti-austerity movements that emerged during the so-called Great Recession following the 2008 GFC, the Gilets Jaunes (yellow vests) protests that took place in France from November 2018 can be 'understood as being part of an ongoing wave of anti-capitalist protests that have emerged since the terminal phase of the Cold War and the rise of neoliberalism' (Wilkin 2020: 89) (Figure 6.4). In this way, some have argued the Gilets Jaunes resemble Occupy not only their opposition to neoliberal ideology but due to their tactic of occupying public spaces, as well as their rejection of leadership and of hierarchical forms of organisation (Lobera 2020; Shultziner and Kornblit 2020; Wilkin 2020). However, of particular relevance to the discussion of emotions in this part of the book is the idea that the indignation of yellow vest protestors has acted as a moment of 'affective transformation' triggering mobilisation (Knops and Petit 2022) (Figure 6.4).

In addition, it has been noted that female Gilets Jaunes, who comprised 45 percent of participants – many of whom were protesting for the first time ever on account of women bearing the brunt of neoliberal cuts to public spending on things like care and family support – felt overjoyed and empowered at 'being in the street and the centre of a protest where they could sing, dance, and mock the



Figure 6.4 Wearing their characteristic hi-vis vests, Gilets Jaunes walk along the Champs Elysees during anti-government demonstrations in Paris, France, 8 December 2018 © ZUMA Press, Inc./Alamy

heavily armed police militias in a playful manner' (Wilkin 2020: 84). Seeming to show no fear of the state, 'the atmosphere was one of joy, defiance, and celebration, with many Gilets Jaunes taking photos of themselves and each other in apparent amazement at the fact that they were actually there at all' (Wilkin 2020: 84).

Box 6.6 Photography, art, and craftivism

As the case of female Gilets Jaunes taking selfies in the throes of protest illustrates (see above), photography has often had a close relationship to social movements, symbolising struggles against injustice that have sometimes transcended the historical and geographical particularities of those struggles (Memou 2013). Indeed, this book is itself replete with images and photographs related to social movements and protest politics. As we discussed briefly in Chapter 5 when we looked at the precarity movement in Europe, interest in the imagery and visual aspects of movement performances can be linked to research on art and social movements (Eyerman 2014), which is, in turn, connected more broadly to the study of culture and social movements.

Like protest songs in music, 'political art' is nothing new, though research into art and social movements has increasingly piqued scholarly interest. As some of the visual illustrations in

this book highlight, street art or graffiti is often a medium used in 'art-activism', which can function to elicit emotional responses from viewers as well as bring to the fore imminent possibilities (Ryan 2015). As with music and art, the contemporary practice of 'craftivism' or craft activism using knitting, embroidery, quilting, and crochet to highlight issues of social, political, and environmental concern is rooted in centuries of radical craft work, where especially women and marginalised peoples have used crafts to protest, take a stand, or raise awareness (McGovern and Fitzpatrick 2023).

Often the preserve of cultural criminologists studying prototypically male pursuits, such as 'the cultural practices of "boy racers", paint graffiti artists, and dumpster divers', Alyce McGovern (2019: 115) is interested in craftivist practices that are mostly 'female pursuits'. For instance, as part of the wider craftivism movement, the contemporary practice of 'yarn bombing' (also known as 'yarn storming', 'knit graffiti', and 'guerrilla knitting') can be understood as a type of graffiti or street art employing colourful displays of knitting or crochet, which are stealthily attached to street fixtures or parts of the urban landscape with the intent to 'occupy' and/or subvert public space. Yarn bombs or knit bombs are designed to generate discussion and be eye-catching, whether they are small and discreet installations on a bench handle or railing or are large and audacious pieces that wrap a tree trunk or cover a bus (see Figure 6.1). They may last for years, though they are considered non-permanent, and, unlike conventional graffiti using paint, they can be easily removed (McGovern 2019: 61–63).

Graham St John (2008: 168) has talked of similar events in terms of 'protestival', which is a polyvalent tactic involving the festal, mobilised by the alter-globalisation movement; 'a creative response to the traditional political rituals of the left', building upon the meta-political tactic of new social movements by rendering power visible and posing symbolic challenges. St John argues that while new social movement theory has recognised the significance of cultural politics, new approaches are needed to understand the festal and carnivalesque character of contemporary activism and especially transnational activism. Although St John proposes no way to fill the lacuna he identifies, elsewhere it has been suggested one fruitful line of inquiry would be to look at the carnivalesque protest tactics adopted by the European precarity movement (Martin 2014: 93).

Another case could be the public demonstrations in 2010 by Thailand's Red Shirts who emerged out of support for deposed Thai Prime Minister, Thaksin Shinawatra, and stood in opposition to the Yellow Shirts, who, being loyal to the King, wore the colour yellow because it is the colour used to celebrate the King's birthday. The Red Shirts also wore the colour red to distinguish themselves from the Yellow Shirts, 'and to hint at their relatively poor support' (Forsyth 2010: 464). Their protests were full of imagery and symbolism too. Along with the vivid colours of their red shirts, protestors donated blood, which they then poured under the gates of Parliament House; an act portraying them as powerless peasants pitted against an entrenched Bangkok elite.

Women's grassroots activism in Peru is another example of the performance of protest, whereby women from Peru's shantytowns participated in street parades (*pasacalle*) and creative demonstrations in opposition to the repressive regime of President Fujimori, who in 1990 introduced a severe structural adjustment programme – including reduced state spending – which led to new forms of poverty. For Moser (2003: 181), the most fundamental aspect of the impact of these theatrical performances was 'the symbolic potency of making one's voice heard in a public space'. The opportunity for women to participate in the public sphere and voice their opinions was especially significant given the marginal status of women in public debate and the machismo culture of Peruvian society (Moser 2003: 182). For instance, one participant said, '[b]eing in the *pasacalle* was one of the only times I have walked through the town' (Moser 2003: 184).

The happiness and positivity generated during the theatrical protest performances stood in stark contrast to mainstream protests in Peru, which are characterised by marching, angry chants, and sometimes an aggressive police response (Moser 2003: 185). The creative protests provided safety in numbers whereby 'acting and the use of puppets effectively creates a shield from what is said, deflecting responsibility away from the individual' (Moser 2003: 185). Importantly, however, carnivalesque inversion was evident within the *pasacalle* performance, which contained a potent role reversal:

> Women actors take on the role of 'the oppressors' […] and portray them as evil suit-wearers. The fact that they do so from the dominating and exaggerated height of stilts is also symbolic. Even more importantly, they depict them as fighting with the women, clutching their pots and babies, and *losing* the battle against them. (Moser 2003: 184, original emphasis)

While Moser (2003: 188) says the performative protest of women from Peru's shantytowns did not bring about the downfall of the

Fujimori administration, it did make 'a contribution to the public dissent of civil society'. In his examination of Steve Biko's role as a defence witness in an apartheid-era political trial of leaders of the Black Consciousness Movement in May 1976, Marcus Morgan (2018: 469) shows how, although 'Biko was forbidden from speaking or writing for a public audience, the courtroom provided a rare platform both to verbally expound the principles of Black Consciousness philosophy and to performatively act them out'. Like Moser, Morgan considers how, in a context of severe repression and legally enshrined racism, performance was not only a medium of resistance within the courtroom but also opened up opportunities for the expression of discontent more generally. For instance, while the broader political determinants and specific role played by Black Consciousness in inspiring events are much debated, the Soweto uprising led by black school children in June 1976 erupted only a month after Biko's widely reported testimony and as the trial was still underway.

These examples raise the issue of the efficacy of performance in protest. Is it enough, as 'new' social movement theorists believe, to pose symbolic challenges to the established order, or does 'real' change entail transformation of that order or, at least, the insertion of movement demands into political agendas and government policy? As we saw earlier in the chapter, social movement outcomes can include 'cultural effects', such as the impact of influential stories (Meyer 2009), and are, therefore, not limited to specific policy outcomes. Indeed, as we have seen in the book so far, the issue of outcomes – including the unintended consequences of collective action – pervades social movement studies and is one that, in many ways, lies at the heart of protest and activism. It is also an issue we will revisit shortly when we look briefly at subcultures and social movements.

For the time being, it is worth noting that while examples of the performative nature of contemporary collective action repertoires show there is a growing tendency for social movements and protest events to incorporate music, dance, theatre, play, puppetry, and other festive, creative and expressive elements into their repertoires of contention (Sharpe 2008: 228); equally festivals themselves also involve radical and/or political elements, albeit that many nowadays have become commercialised (Anderton 2008; Cummings 2008) (e.g. see Box 6.7). Indeed, cultural sociologists distinguish commercial festivals from their more radical-political counterparts on the basis that the latter '*enact* (rather than *embed*) their politics by prefiguring a desired society and way of life, as opposed to merely critiquing existing social and political relations and institutions' (Martin 2014: 87, original emphasis).[3]

Box 6.7 Sydney Mardi Gras: GAYTMs

Each year, the Australian city of Sydney is home to the Gay and Lesbian Mardi Gras, which is a month-long festival culminating in a street party (see: http://www.mardigras.org.au/). The photo in Figure 6.5 was taken during the 2014 Mardi Gras when the ANZ bank was the event's 'principal partner'. On the one hand, the expressive and creative 'queering' of automated teller machines (or ATMs) could be read as playful, ludic, and carnivalesque. On the other hand, it could be seen as an example of the commercialisation or corporatisation of protestivals, which itself has been the subject of protest as we saw in Chapter 4 when we looked at artists threatened boycott of the 2014 Sydney Biennale sponsored by Transfield, and Just Stop Oil's disruption of London's Pride parade on 1 July 2023 because that event received corporate sponsorship from high-polluting industries.



Figure 6.5 GAYTMs: Sydney Mardi Gras © Greg Martin

The Hillside Festival in Ontario, Canada, is an example of a festival that rather than simply opposing and critiquing existing social and political relations and institutions, *enacts* its politics by prefiguring a desired society and way of life, thus inspiring attendees to

adopt alternative practices that lead to personal transformation (Sharpe 2008). This is very much a post-material conception of festivals similar to Melucci's (1989: 60) view of social movements as networks submerged in everyday life, or as 'cultural laboratories' involved in the formation of new collective identities (see Chapter 5). Likewise, Purdue et al. (1997: 647) consider festivals part of 'do-it-yourself' (DIY) culture, which they define as self-organising networks with overlapping memberships and values that challenge the symbolic codes of mainstream society. A similar argument is put forward by Eleftheriadis (2015) who shows how a DIY ethos is a key element in the prefigurative politics of queer festivals in Europe, where DIY also intersects with the horizontal organisation of festivals where there are no bosses, nobody comes just to consume, and everyone contributes to setting up and running festivals and to cleaning up afterwards.

SUBCULTURES AND SOCIAL MOVEMENTS

Returning a last time to the example of Pussy Riot, Seal (2013: 295) argues that unlike subcultures, which are the traditional object of study for some cultural criminologists, Pussy Riot 'actively sought to be categorised as criminal by staging a challenging political protest, and their style was deliberately politicised as feminist and in opposition to the government'. Moreover, their use of symbolic meaning, style, imagery, and carnivalesque inversion poses a challenge to established social and political boundaries. This raises an important point to do with the intersection of culture and politics.

We have already considered one of the pertinent issues here when we looked previously at the commerciality versus radicalism of festivals. For Eyerman and Jamison (1998: 166), punk – which would include bands like Pussy Riot – cannot be equated with the social and political challenges posed by protest movements because 'punk music was from the very beginning commercial and the punk "style" began as a fashion'. However, Moore and Roberts (2009: 288) argue 'punk was never entirely commercial nor simply a style or fashion'. Punk politics consisted of a largely defensive and reactive mobilisation in a political context when the Right had gone on the offensive against the accomplishments of the civil rights, peace, and women's movements. In this context, the formation of Rock Against Racism in 1976, for instance, provided a platform to communicate anti-racist ideals to a mass audience.

Synthesising social movement theory and cultural studies also raises questions to do with the efficacy of cultural forms of politics (Martin 2002, 2009, 2023b, 2023c). This notion was central to the research of Birmingham's Centre for Contemporary Cultural Studies during the

1970s. They saw working-class youth subcultures as offering symbolic solutions to concrete problems associated with transformations adversely affecting the cohesion of working-class culture and communities in post-war Britain, such as reconstruction and rehousing/resettlement projects. However, rather than offering 'real' solutions to these specific problems, as well as the general problem of being in a subordinate structural location, working-class youth subcultures offered only symbolic solutions, which were apparent in their 'style': 'The mod style, for example, was an attempt to realise, although in an imaginary way, the conditions of existence of socially mobile white collar workers; the dress and music of mods reflected hedonistic images of the affluent consumer' (Martin 2023c: 2).

Not only did working-class youth subcultures lack concrete solutions to real problems, such as unemployment, low pay, loss of skill, and educational disadvantage, they actually tended to 'reproduce the gaps and discrepancies between real negotiations and symbolically displaced "resolutions"' (Clarke et al. 1976: 47). Moreover, while working-class subcultures (and middle-class countercultures) lived out important critiques of capitalism and modern institutions, those were only symbolic and confined to the level of culture.

In his classic study of motorbike boys and the hippies, Paul Willis showed how these two groups were unable to enter the arena of 'proper politics', nor challenge the larger world of political and social institutions that constituted 'the material base for their experience of the classes from which they came' (Willis 1978: 176). To Willis, that signalled the 'tragic limit' of these cultures, which raised more generally 'the whole question of the status and viability of cultural politics and of a struggle waged exclusively at the level of lifestyle' (Willis 1978: 175). In fact, Willis argued, the motorbike boys and hippies were premature post-revolutionary cultural responses to pre-revolutionary conditions:

> It is almost that the cultures, in their silent way, lived as if the basic structures were changed – enjoying that in imagination while making no attempt to bring it about in reality. It is this prolepsis which is often the motor for cultural politics – and also its final tragic limit. (Willis 1978: 177)

In many respects, this analysis of subcultures echoes Melucci's view of social movements as posing 'symbolic challenges' to dominant cultural codes (see Chapter 5). However, Melucci would regard Willis' analysis as politically reductivist because it appears to measure efficacy solely by reference to impact upon the political system. It therefore denies the messages social movements and oppositional subcultures are able to communicate to the rest of society, which, as we have seen throughout this chapter, they can do by challenging

and changing culturally engrained values, ideas, attitudes, knowledge, and so on, which are just as much markers of movement success as the attainment of concrete political, legal or policy goals.

CONCLUSION

The material covered in this chapter augments some of the work around social movements and culture that we encountered in Chapter 5. Following the 'cultural turn' in social movement studies, scholars have become increasingly interested in an array of cultural activity associated with social protest, including, as we have seen, the role of passion and emotions, stories and narrative, art and craftivism, music and song, and other forms of performativity in collective action. Much of this work has developed out of a critique of the political process and resource mobilisation perspectives, which, it is argued, offer overly rationalistic and instrumental approaches to understanding social movements and protest. Moreover, while the framing perspective has attempted to incorporate a concern for cultural processes in studies of protest, it too has been criticised for emphasising rationality and cognition to the neglect of affect and emotion. In the next chapter, we continue to explore some of the issues discussed in this chapter as well as in the book so far, when we turn to look at the relationship between social movements and religious movements, which is something that has tended to be of only passing interest to social movement scholars or incidental to other areas of concern.

Notes

1 Although Rodgers' (2010) study forms part of the wider backlash against rationalistic approaches to studying social movements, it is also reminiscent of work in the sociology of organisations and critical management studies, which takes issue with the conception of organisations as hierarchically ordered, rational bureaucracies. It has been argued that such a view forgets that informal structures, emotions, and symbolism are important aspects of organisational cultures (Albrow 1992; Parker 2000).

2 The notion of 'carnivalesque' is adapted from Mikhail Bakhtin's (1968) conception of the medieval carnival as representing a topsy-turvy world. It was a time and place where the dominant authority structures could be challenged, reversed, or overturned. But, importantly, the carnivalesque constituted a kind of *sanctioned deviance* where acts of transgression were temporarily permitted by the ruling class. Accordingly, 'the medieval carnival can be regarded as a kind of societal "safety valve": the peasantry was permitted to let loose for a limited period of time, allowing tensions and contradictions in society to be raised and released, while the status quo remained protected' (Anderton 2008: 41).

3 The commercialisation of festivals is a process paralleling the cooptation of social movements by actors in the political system (mentioned in Chapter 4), which can result in the dilution or compromise of a movement's original (radical) goals. Similarly, the hijacking of festivals by corporate entities and commercial interests is regarded as a betrayal of their originally intended spirit.

SUGGESTED READINGS

The following texts can be used to explore some of the issues raised in this chapter regarding the culture of social movements and protest politics:

Baumgarten, B., Daphi, P. and Ullrich, P. (eds) (2014) *Conceptualizing Culture in Social Movement Research*. Houndmills: Palgrave Macmillan.

Danaher, W. F. (2010) 'Music and social movements.' *Sociology Compass* 4(9): 811–823.

Davis, J. E. (ed.) (2002a) *Stories of Change: Narrative and Social Movements*. Albany, NY: State University of New York Press.

Eyerman, R. (2002) 'Music in movement: Cultural politics and old and new social movements' *Qualitative Sociology* 25(3): 443–458.

Eyerman, R. and Jamison, A. (1998) *Music and Social Movements: Mobilizing Traditions in the Twentieth Century*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

Hart, S. (1996) 'The cultural dimension of social movements: A theoretical reassessment and literature review.' *Sociology of Religion* 57(1): 87–100.

Goodwin, J., Jasper, J. M. and Polletta, F. (eds) (2001a) *Passionate Politics: Emotions and Social Movements*. Chicago, IL: University of Chicago Press.

Jasper, J. M. (2014) *Protest: A Cultural Introduction to Social Movements*. Cambridge: Polity Press.

Johnston, H. (ed.) (2009) *Culture, Social Movements and Protest*. Farnham: Ashgate.

Johnston, H. and Klandermans, B. (eds) (1995) *Social Movements and Culture*. London: UCL Press.

Polletta, F. (2010) 'Movement cultures' in J. R. Hall, L. Grindstaff and M. E. Lo (eds) *Handbook of Cultural Sociology*. London: Routledge, pp. 639–648.

Polletta, F. and Chen, P. C. B. (2012) 'Narrative and social movements' in J. C. Alexander, R. N. Jacobs and P. Smith (eds) *The Oxford Handbook of Cultural Sociology*. Oxford: Oxford University Press, pp. 487–506.

Williams, R. H. (2004) 'The cultural contexts of collective action: Constraints, opportunities, and the symbolic life of social movements' in D. A. Snow, S. A. Soule and H. Kriesi (eds) *The Blackwell Companion to Social Movements*. Oxford: Blackwell Publishing, pp. 91–115.

As mentioned in the chapter, the following special issue explores the 'Cultural Impacts of Social Movements': *Mobilization* 27(4) (2022).

The article below was a forerunner to the publication of the 2001 book, *Passionate Politics: Emotions and Social Movements*, by the same authors. It provides a useful survey of the various ways emotions have been treated over time, including theories of collective behaviour, resource mobilisation, political process, framing, and new social movements. Another helpful resource is the special issue of *Mobilization* 7(2) (2002) dedicated to 'Emotions and Contentious Politics'.

Goodwin, J., Jasper, J. M. and Polletta, F. (2000) 'The return of the repressed: The fall and rise of emotions in social movement theory.' *Mobilization* 5(1): 65–83.

CHAPTER 7

Religious movements and social movements

INTRODUCTION

In various parts of the book so far we have seen how religion has figured in studies of social movements. In Chapter 3, we saw how early theorists of collective behaviour included religious movements in their taxonomies and conceptual frameworks, although they tended to regard these movements as *expressive* or *value-oriented*, and hence less significant than social movements striving for purposive social change. Also in Chapter 3, we considered briefly how Nazism has been described as a 'political religion' (Evans 2007), which, we might add, could be equivalent to 'civil religion' (Bellah 1970), in that it performs the same social function as religion (i.e. promoting social cohesion), albeit with secular content. And, in Chapter 5, we saw how the precarity movement has utilised religious imagery, even inventing its own saint, San Precario, to protect all precarious workers.

While discussion of religious movements has been largely tangential up to now, the main focus of this chapter is on the relationship between social movements and religious movements. The chapter begins by considering why there has been relatively little cross-fertilisation of ideas between the two fields of study, noting that most resistance has come from Marxist-influenced quarters of social movement theory, which view religion as regressive, reactionary and conservative, and, accordingly, see religious movements as retreatist or inward-looking, rather than progressive or emancipatory.

DOI: 10.4324/9780367821760-7

More recently, however, and especially with the advent of new social movement theory, which we looked at in Chapter 5, scholars have tried to reconcile the two fields, treating religious movements *as* social movements, or else acknowledging the religious qualities of some social movements. Indeed, if we accept the functionalist argument underpinning the idea that secular forms of civic religion bind people together in ways similar to traditional religion, we ought not be surprised by observations pointing to the quasi-religious nature of contemporary new social movements, which, like new religious movements, are searching for meaning, spirituality and alternative conceptions of the sacred. Thus, some of the material contained in this chapter relates to developments associated with what we have previously identified as the 'cultural turn' in social movement research, which, as noted below, has engendered interest not only in culture and identity, but also in spirituality and the sacred, as well as other religious-like qualities of social movements.

RELIGIOUS MOVEMENTS AND SOCIAL MOVEMENTS: NEVER THE TWAIN SHALL MEET?

There has been a long-time estrangement between the sociology of religion and the study of social movements. Historical factors for this estrangement, which we considered in Chapter 3, have included the equation of religious sentiments with intolerance and fanaticism (Le Bon 1960 [1895]), as well as rigid conceptual distinctions between religious movements and political movements evident, for example, in the work of Blumer (1951: 216), for whom 'the latter sought to effect a political revolution as well as a change in ideology while the former were "expressive movements" whose members were unable to release their tension in the direction of some actual change' (Hannigan 1991: 313). When social movement theorists have included religious movements in their texts, it has usually been as illustrations of charismatic leadership, deviant systems of belief, relative deprivation, or conversion processes (Hannigan 1991: 314).

More recently, social movement scholars have disregarded religion and religious movements because just as they have been inclined to reduce collective action to organised (state) politics (see Chapter 5), so they tend to reduce religion to organised religion or 'religious organisations' (see, for example, Diani 1992: 13–14). In this way, they have ignored the multiple definitions of religion and meanings of religious practice beyond church-oriented religion, such as the various contemporary forms of 'believing without belonging', which provide a counterpoint to the secularisation thesis, where secularisation is

measured strictly by declining church attendance (Davie 1994). Having said that, some social movement research does acknowledge the important part religion and religious organisations can play in successful mobilisations, with Zald and McCarthy (1987: 12) acknowledging for instance that 'the study of social movements from a resource mobilisation perspective and the study of transformation of and within religion have much to offer each other'. The most prominent example here is the role of black churches in the US civil rights movement, which was discussed in Chapter 4. It will be recalled that, according to McAdam (1982), the relative success of the civil rights movement depended upon the prevailing 'political opportunity structure', that is, the constraints of the political, legal, and economic context, and the opportunities afforded the movement within that context, including the presence of pre-existing networks, such as those provided by the black churches. However, as this political process model is founded on the assumptions of resource mobilisation theory, religion is seen as having no inherent value; rather, 'it is conceptualised as but another movement "resource"' (Hannigan 1991: 315).

Nonetheless, the idea that religious movements might be affected by political opportunities has been applied to a variety of religiously motivated protests in the former Soviet Union and Latin America, to the Falun Gong movement in China, and Islamist movements in the Middle East and North Africa (Beckford 2003: 174). Moreover, sociologists of religion have used a similar logic to the political process approach, proposing that 'religious movements are expected to flourish in circumstances where formerly, actual or would-be monopoly religions are weak and where political and legal constraints on religious activity are also weak' (Beckford 2003: 167).

Another reason social movement theorists have tended to ignore religion and not taken religious movements seriously is born of an ideological bias based in Marxism, which, to quote Marx himself, regards religion as 'the opium of the people' (Hannigan 1991: 317). This, in turn, has caused social movement thinkers to regard religion as a dogmatic, conservative, and reactionary social institution rather than as a potentially progressive force for change in society (Beckford 1989: 143–162). Moreover, even when religion offers radical alternatives, it is ultimately seen to do so in a manner and form that is retreatist, inward-looking, or 'world-rejecting' (Wallis 1984). On this view, religion has little or no emancipatory function (beyond individual salvation or enlightenment, that is).

However, Hannigan (1991: 318) says that, generally speaking, the ideological critique of religious movements 'does not hold up very well', for, '[w]hile religious experience and political action can both be interpreted as differential responses to situations of economic and social discontent, there is little empirical evidence to show that choosing one form necessarily precludes choosing the other'. Hence,

expressive religious belief and radical social action are not necessarily incompatible. Indeed, for some members of religious movements, 'inner transformation is compatible with a more responsible participation in social life' (Diani 1993: 125). For instance, the radical personal transformation of 'born again' Christians can translate into radical social action on ostensibly non-religious issues, although this can assume a conservative expression, as in pro-life activism against abortion. Regardless of the radical/progressive or conservative/reactionary nature of the activism, it remains the case that 'religious ideologies can be powerful vehicles for articulating "injustice frames" that diagnose social problems' (Williams 2000: 85).

Accordingly, religion and religious movements can have a significant role in public life and can contribute to the vitality of civil society, which in itself is nothing new, since religious communities and organisations have historically been seed beds for movements aimed at political reform and social justice, including mobilisation around abolitionism, temperance, and disarmament (Williams 2000: 2–3; McCammon and Campbell 2002). It has been observed that in contemporary China, for example, so significant is the effect of religious belief and practice on peoples' protest participation that it helps explain the Chinese government's wariness about organised religion and its tight control of unauthorised religious groups (Yi et al. 2020). Indeed, some religious movements can be politically revolutionary, as demonstrated by Shi'ite Muslim fundamentalism in Iran (Hannigan 1991: 318; Kurzman 1998: 36–39), which provided the impetus for the Iranian Revolution of 1977–1979, wherein the 'mosque network' constituted a key resource (Kurzman 1994), equivalent to the role played by black churches in the US civil rights movement (see Chapter 4). The Iranian Revolution is but one example of 'Islamic activism' or 'the mobilisation of contention to support Muslim causes' (Wiktorowicz 2004: 2). Indeed, Wiktorowicz (2004: 4–5) argues that '[g]iven the variety of collective actors that operate in the name of "Islam" (prayer groups, terrorists, propagation movements, study circles, political parties, nongovernmental organisations, cultural societies, etc.), one might even make a strong claim that Islamic activism is one of the most common examples of activism in the world'.

Box 7.1 Religious protest repertoires

One way social movements can resemble religious movements is via their adoption of what we might term, 'religious protest repertoires'. This is a variant of the concept, 'repertoires of contention', which, as we saw in Chapter 4, refers to 'the tactics groups employ in their struggles with one another' (McAdam 1995: 235). An example here would be Greenpeace's early direct

actions that were rooted in the Quaker idea of 'bearing witness', which 'is supposed to change the observer and increase their level of activism, compassion, anger, whatever it is' (Dale 1996: 17). In this way, it has been argued sometimes very private and personal emotions underpinning collective action not only act as a 'moral shock' (Jasper 1997) in triggering mobilisation but can also function to sustain long-term activism (Flam 2014).

Although the act of bearing witness does not necessarily intend to affect directly any political or policy change, it can constitute a 'symbolic challenge' (Melucci 1984, 1985). Hence, in Chapter 6 we saw how the creative protest of women's grassroots groups in Peru contributed to dissent in civil society about the corrupt and repressive regime of Prime Minister Fujimori. While the radical street performance of the women did not lead to Fujimori's demise, Moser (2003: 187) says that was not the point; what they actually did was 'bear witness' to the government's corruption and, as such, their protests posed a symbolic challenge to the incumbent regime.

As an act of bearing witness, the performative protest of Peru's women 'creates a connection between knowledge and responsibility for the audience: their awareness of the issue means that they may choose to act or not, but that they cannot turn away in ignorance' (Moser 2003: 188). Moser (2003: 188) goes on to note that while bearing witness is rooted in the Quaker tradition, 'it also has an established presence in the political context of Latin America'. The paradigmatic example, here, being the Madres de la Plaza de Mayo, who are the group of mothers of the disappeared that since the late 1970s have successfully reframed the collective memory of Argentina's last military regime (1976–1983) (Iturriaga 2019), taking 'over the main public square in Argentina every Thursday afternoon, to walk slowly around the perimeter, dressed in white headscarves and holding pictures of their missing relatives in a courageous act of defiance which they explicitly regard as "bearing witness" to state oppression' (Moser 2003: 188) (Figure 7.1).

As a variant of bearing witness, 'prison witness' has been employed as a strategy of Plowshares and other anti-nuclear activists who draw on their religious faith to resist the violent militarism of the state. These anti-war activists also use their privilege as white, well-educated, citizens as a source of power, participating in non-violent resistance that has resulted in some going to jail as prisoners of conscience. Privilege is key to how prison witness works 'because the people going to jail are not those who usually go to jail' (Stanger 2019: 540). As we saw



Figure 7.1 Madres de la Plaza de Mayo during Thursday demonstrations, Plaza de Mayo, Buenos Aires, Argentina © imageBROKER/Alamy

in Chapter 3, Plowshares' direct action in Sweden has been carefully choreographed (Jacobsson and Lindblom 2012), and so it is in the US where Catholic priests like Father Luis Barrios deploy the symbols of their privilege intentionally to increase the efficacy of their activism, such as wearing their collars when they know they will be arrested (Stanger 2019: 541). Such is the case each November when hundreds of activists risk imprisonment by participating in a solemn ceremony known as 'crossing the line', crossing onto the US military base at Fort Benning, Georgia, home to the School of the Americas, which 'teaches young foreign soldiers how to commit nefarious crimes, then sends them back home to put into practice what has been taught on American soil by American teachers' (Hamm et al. 2010: 227).

The concept of repertoire of contention has also been applied to Islamic activism (mentioned earlier) and, in particular, the various protest events that emerged in opposition to the US-led invasion of Afghanistan following the terror attacks of 11 September 2001. Along with marches and rallies, protestors used other 'tools of dissent', including petitions directed at US representatives as well as Muslim governments, the unveiling of banners in both indigenous languages (to capture local audiences) and English (to capture global audiences), and symbolic props and actions, especially religious idioms and the burning American flags and effigies of US President, George W. Bush (Wiktorowicz 2004: 2). As we will see in Chapter 9, the use of

social media during the Arab Spring can be seen to have added to the protest repertoire of Islamic activism; although new media digital technologies were also central to earlier anti-war protests post-9/11 (Carty and Onyett 2006; Gillan et al. 2008).

David Snow (2004: 18) has pointed out that scholars have tended to ignore the social movement activity of religious movements because 'they typically are only indirectly and secondarily politically-oriented, and therefore do not fit neatly under the contentious politics umbrella'. A case in point is Aseem Hasnain's (2016) study of the Korku, an oppressed Indigenous community in central India, which highlights the limits of McAdam's (1982) notion of 'cognitive liberation'. On the one hand, the Korku exhibit aspects of cognitive liberation, having a strong collective identity, expressing serious grievances at their mistreatment, and being aware of local political opportunities, such as elected village councils. On the other hand, aspects of cognitive liberation do not line up with Korku adherence to Hinduism, which involves political fatalism and the pursuit of a religious strategy of communal improvement rather than seeking redress for grievances via collective action. To compensate for the shortfall he identifies, Snow (2004: 19) says, 'we need to broaden our conceptualisation of movements to include collective challenges to systems and structures of authority beyond the government and state', including movements that challenge authorities indirectly 'by exiting the system and thus the bailiwick of the authority, as in the case of communal movements and other-worldly religious "cults"'.

Noting the gap that has existed between the sociology of religion and sociology of social movements, Lindekilde and Kühle (2014) propose integrating the fields through an examination of religious revivalism since the 1980s. Drawing on Hirschman's (1970) well-known distinction between *exit* and *voice*, they show how religious revivalism in the form of 'voice' that mobilises 'to raise demands of recognition and fulfilment of needs *external* to the religious community' has received the most attention in social movement studies largely because this type of action repertoire tends to 'render it comparable to non-religious movements and place it firmly within standard definitions of social movement actions' (Lindekilde and Kühle 2014: 177, emphasis added).

By contrast, religious revivalism as 'exit' has caught more attention in the sociological study of religion than in social movement research, largely because it is focused on less visible, more internally oriented revivalism, and 'strategies of *internal* need fulfilment and more indirect challenges of the established authorities through prefigurative organisation and transformation' (Lindekilde and Kühle

2014: 177, emphasis added). While religious revivalism as the source of voice and exit are analytically distinct, in practice say Lindekilde and Kühle (2014: 178), 'strategies of voice and exit will often mix or follow each other in time, for example so that exit functions as a precursor for voice'.

These ideas relate to what Beckford (2003: 175) says about religious movements illustrating 'some of the interesting complexities and ambiguities concerning the mapping of public and private spheres of social life in modernity'. Paradoxically, he states, they 'press for the extension or defence of free, public space *and*, in some cases, make use of it in order to create inward-looking communities that appear to isolate their members from public life' (Beckford 2003: 175, original emphasis). However, the more outward-looking they are, the more likely religious movements contribute to strengthening civil society:

> … movements such as Scientology, the Unificationists and some of the New Religions of Japan have repeatedly offered to serve the interests of wider society by providing drug rehabilitation programs, schemes to reduce levels of crime and environmental pollution, and support for human rights campaigns. (Beckford 2003: 175)

Just as it is for social movements, establishing and retaining autonomy is an ongoing dilemma for religious movements and organisations. Fitzgerald (2009) has explored some consequences of 'cooperative collective action' by looking at the impact of government funding on religious identity and autonomy in faith-based community development organisations in the United States. He shows how while partnering with government agencies in the creation of community development and social services provision is key to revitalising some neighourhoods, it also has its dangers. For instance, like all not-for-profit organisations, faith-based organisations run the risk of becoming dependent on state resources, which may have negative organisational consequences. In one instance, Fitzgerald (2009: 194) found the organisation 'was encouraged to grow at a faster rate than initially planned after receiving a government contract', and '[w]hen the contract was not renewed, the organisation was forced to downsize rapidly and lay off nearly half of its staff'.

Ricardo Blaug (2002: 112–113) notes a similar process in the context of British politics, which, he says, has become wholly undemocratic, as it has moved away from deliberative participation towards 'engineered democracy' whereby grassroots and self-help groups are subject to a process of colonisation, being offered resources with strings attached and threatened constantly by cooptation. One consequence of this development is that organisations with once radical, non-hierarchical structures become institutionalised and instrumental forms subject to bureaucratic procedures. On the other hand, Verhoeven and

Duyvendak (2017: 565) have theorised about what they call 'governmental activism', which they define as 'politicians, civil servants and governmental players engaging with citizens, SMOs/NGOs and sometimes businesses in contentious claim-making to alter or redress policies proposed by other governmental players'. Another study by Vilaça (2020) similarly considers how bureaucrats become activists, showing how 'bureaucratic activism' can be a more effective means of securing movement outcomes than street demonstrations.

Another tension can arise between partnering with the state *and* exercising a prophetic voice against injustice, making 'it is difficult (and perhaps unwise) to publicly challenge or criticise the state when the state is your partner' (Fitzgerald 2009: 194). Arguably, it is easier to challenge the state or government from a position of power and authority, which raises interesting questions about the relationship between religion, church, and state. We will look at some of those issues below when we consider the Catholic Church's espousal of liberation theology in Latin America, the Church of England's political interventions during the Thatcher era in Britain and, more recently, its support for the Occupy movement and criticism of UK government policy on asylum seekers.

RECONCILING NEW RELIGIOUS MOVEMENTS AND NEW SOCIAL MOVEMENTS

Studies that recognise 'the disruptive, defiant and unruly face of religion' (Smith 1996: 1) suggest it is not sufficient to treat religious movements as clearly retreatist or purely cultural (Hannigan 1991: 318). Furthermore, researchers who have explored the similarities and differences between new religious movements and new social movements argue that even though the former, like the latter, may not strive to achieve any political or policy objectives, they nevertheless can offer important and meaningful contributions to transforming social institutions and cultural values. These arguments relate to the efficacy of cultural politics and symbolic challenges to dominant codes that are posed by some forms of contemporary protest, including new social movements, which was discussed in Chapters 5 and 6.

Regardless of the apparent similarities that exist between social and religious movements, there has been an impasse between social movements studies and the study of religious movements, which, with a few exceptions, has prohibited the transference of ideas between the two fields. In America, that has largely been a result of sociologists of religion choosing to 'embrace the homegrown "resource mobilisation" paradigm' (Hannigan 1993: 3; see also Hannigan 1990: 255). Given this perspective regards social movements as 'rational, strategically

calculating, politically instrumental phenomena', it is hardly surprising, says Smith (1996: 3), that 'in the move to sweep irrationality and emotion out of social movement theory, religion – bearing all of those associations – was also swept away with the classical theories'.

On the other hand, European social movement theorists have displayed the kind of ideological opposition to religion that was discussed above, whereby religion is seen to reflect dominant class interests, and is therefore conservative and reactionary, 'and religious movements are regarded as withdrawals from rather than encounters with social change' (Hannigan 1993: 3). However, with the advent of new social movements and new religious movements, a constructive conversation did begin to take place between scholars in their respective fields.

In the sociology of religion, Barbara Hargrove (1998: 45) applied Wallace's (1956) conception of 'revitalisation movements' to what she termed 'new mazeways' that could give rise to a 'larger vision of global responsibility and economic thinking'. These included 'the Indigenous spirituality of Native Americans, the "recovery by women's groups of ancient understandings of human relations to one another and to the earth", liberation theology, and the world view of the ecology movement "where concerned persons are fighting for the preservation of a balance of nature that the rush towards development has upset"' (Hannigan 1991: 321, quoting Hargrove 1988: 45–46). Like new social movements (Hannigan 1990: 252), these new religious formations contained high concentrations of the 'new middle classes' (managers, professionals, etc.), thus gainsaying another ideological bias in the study of religious movements, which sees them as the religion of the oppressed and lower orders (Hanngian 1991: 318, 321).

Box 7.2 Liberation theology

At a conference in Medellín, Colombia in 1968, Latin American Catholic bishops declared the right of the poor to seek justice and challenge unjust military regimes. Soon after, the popular church began to articulate beliefs that effectively reversed traditional biblical teachings. These biblical beliefs of the poor became known as 'liberation theology', the central tenets of which constituted a radical challenge to established beliefs insofar as they assigned different meanings to orthodox Christian teachings. First, liberation theology was premised on the view that rather than being time-neutral and culturally-neutral, theology must be contextual: it 'must be culturally relevant and cannot be separated from its socio-economic and political contexts' (Erickson Nepstad 1996: 110).

Secondly, while God loves both rich and poor, God has a preference for the poor. Moreover, sin is not understood in terms of personal and individual wrongdoing, but is equated with capitalism and the exploitation of the poor by the rich, who have also used religion as an ideological means of justifying the status quo (see Box 7.4). Thirdly, in a reversal of the traditional view of salvation as a personal reward given a Christian in the afterlife, liberation theology maintains God's kingdom is 'an ambition for a just society in this lifetime' (Erickson Nepstad 1996: 111).[1] This utopian vision aims to reverse social inequality and injustice in the present, where, it is believed, God's kingdom can be established with the abolition of classes, private property, and ruling elites. Accordingly:

> … the salvation message is changed to mean a human liberation in the present, instigated by popular church adherents. This transformed understanding of salvation means that the Christian mission no longer consists only of proselytising souls, but also of establishing social justice. (Erickson Nepstad 1996: 111)

In a development paralleling the key role of black churches in the US civil rights movement (Chapter 4), the popular Central American church has provided the necessary resources and organisational structure to enable the expression of people's aspirations for revolutionary change (Erickson Nepstad 1996: 110; see also Kurzman 1998). Moreover, the strong political language and abiding concern for a just social order voiced by liberationists has resonated at the highest levels of Church governance, which Hewitt (1993: 75) sees as 'an important development, given that it is precisely here that the resources and the power of the Church can be most effectively marshalled to effect real change'. This has been most evident in Brazil 'where the Church has developed a reputation as one of the most progressive within world Catholicism in implementing the "preferential option for the poor"' (Hewitt 1993: 74).

Similarly, the Canadian Church has long spoken out against social injustice and been a defender of the downtrodden. As in Brazil, the Church in Canada has institutionalised its social justice concerns, at one time identifying the following three programs or priority areas: (i) faith and justice; (ii) regional inequality, native people, and urban poverty; and (iii) justice in the Third World, including issues of human rights, world peace and environmental protection (Hewitt 1993: 83–84). Furthermore, as in Brazil, there has been an emphasis in Canada on grassroots organisations or

'base ecclesial communities', such as parish and local community groups, which 'are seen as playing a vital role in the fight for social transformation by denouncing injustices' (Hewitt 1993: 84).

By contrast, the Church in the United States has been a less vociferous critic of social injustice and defender of the poor. Although, like Canada, the United States differs from Brazil since it is a developed country and major industrial power, that is not say the US Church operates in a society without social problems. Nonetheless, rather than addressing the structural causes of social ills, it has been observed that the response of the Church in the US has been 'a mere reflection of the dominant liberal tradition in America insofar as it advocates a piecemeal or individualistic approach to the solution of social problems' (Hewitt 1993: 80). Accordingly, bishops there 'have directed their pastoral on the economy to those in authority in America, not to the grassroots in the first instance, as the "option for the poor" would seem to dictate' (Hewitt 1993: 80–81). Moreover, in its concrete undertakings, US bishops have adopted a similarly circumscribed approach, focusing on education, 'with little or no emphasis on organising active opposition to particular forms of injustice' (Hewitt 1993: 81).

Hannigan (1990, 1991, 1993) has attempted to reconcile the study of new social movements and new religious movement by proposing a synthetic approach to religious movements and change, which applies the framework of new social movement theory to the sociology of religion. For instance, he recommends eliminating the analytical distinction between religious movements and social movements. If we accept Turner and Killian's (1987 [1957]: 237) argument that every social movement is ultimately a 'moral crusade' (cp. Eder 1985), and the classical view of Emile Durkheim (1965 [1912]) that religion and morality are different sides of the same coin, we can set aside any ideological opposition to the study of religion and religious movements, recognising that 'religious and nonreligious social movements are thus potentially cut from the same cloth' (Hannigan 1991: 327). According to Hannigan (1991: 326), this provides 'a deeper rationale for treating religious and social movements in the same terms beyond simply observing that segments of the new social movements appear to have spiritual or theological themes'.

Documenting the religious or spiritual dimensions of new social movements is precisely what James Beckford (1989, 2003) has done. Beginning his analysis with a critique of those European scholars (i.e. Habermas, Offe, and Touraine) who have taken ideological exception to religion and religious movements, Beckford draws attention

to the religious quality of new social movements. As suggested above, many of the problems flowing from this ideological opposition to religious movements derive from the fact that, like some sociologists of religion (Hannigan 1990: 255), social movement scholars tend to have a limited conception of religion, which they equate with formal religious organisation, such as churchgoing. Significantly, there are echoes here of new social movement theorists' critique of resource mobilisation theory for focusing exclusively on social movement organisations, which, as discussed in Chapter 5, Melucci (1989: 44) sees as symptomatic of a 'myopia of the visible' prevalent in studies of collective action and mass mobilisation.

Notwithstanding the fact many quasi-Marxist theorists of new social movements are ideologically opposed to religion (see above), Beckford shows how, interestingly, there are religion-like elements in their work (Beckford 2003: 161–165). For instance, Habermas (1987: 393) differentiates the 'emancipatory potentials' of anti-nuclear movements, feminism, and peace movements, among others, from 'potentials for resistance and withdrawal' evident in some youth sects and in religious fundamentalism. Because they are capable of 'conquering new territory', Habermas (1987: 393) classifies the former as 'offensive movements', while the latter 'have a more defensive character'. Nevertheless, Beckford (1989: 151–152) shows how Habermas has some 'guarded support for a humanistic kind of religion which might have emancipatory effects […] if it served as a vehicle of critical self-reflection and if, as a result of the process of secularisation, it became separated from dominant interests'.

By highlighting the themes and values of new social movements as 'autonomy and identity […] and opposition to manipulation, control, dependence, bureaucratisation, regulation, etc.' (Offe 1985: 829), Beckford (1989: 156) shows how Claus Offe impliedly points to the religious quality of new social movements, 'insofar as they have to do with the values that are considered ultimately important for human life and which transcend particular social arrangements'. Touraine also 'appears to touch indirectly on matters of religion' (Beckford 1989: 157). Indeed, as we saw in Chapter 5, it could be described as Touraine's 'mission' to discover *the* social movement of post-industrial society. To Beckford, this project chimes with the general objectives of many religious movements:

> … some broad religious movements exhibit precisely the kind of traits which, for Touraine, constitute *the* social movement: a strong sense of distinctive identity for participants, a clear idea of their opponents and a sharp awareness of what is at stake in the movement's struggle against its opponents. (Beckford 1989: 160–161, original emphasis)

Furthermore, for Beckford (1989: 161), 'in view of their all-encompassing diagnoses of problems and prescriptions for remedies', some religious movements could be exemplars of Touraine's notion of social movement. In fact, he states, 'it seems almost perverse and arbitrary for Touraine to deny that such movements as Christian evangelicalism, liberation theology, or Islamic fundamentalism could qualify as social movements' (Beckford 1989: 161). Presumably, however, they do not qualify as social movements because they are not self-directing and therefore, in Touraine's opinion, '[e]ven if they intend to create a new form of society, it would not amount to a truly autonomous creation' (Beckford 1989: 161).

Elsewhere in this chapter, the social movement-like qualities of both liberation theology and conservative forms of Christianity are considered. For now, we will note one study of 'Islamic activism' (Wiktorowicz 2004) that does indeed attempt to show how some of the central features of new social movements (e.g. autonomy, loose network of associations, adherence to post-material values) characterise both moderate and radical Islamic movements (Sutton and Vertigans 2006). On the other hand, it has been suggested the international growth of Islamic terrorism after the terror attacks of 11 September 2001 has given rise to a global 'anti-movement', which is defined as 'a distorted, inverse image of a social movement' (Wieviorka 2005: 15).

Although Beckford can see some religious-like qualities in the new social movement theories of Habermas, Offe, and Touraine, for him the strongest case for the view that new social movements have a religious quality is presented by Alberto Melucci. For example, Melucci (1985: 801) proposes contemporary new social movements have a *prophetic* function, since '[t]hey practice in the present the change they are struggling for'. In this way, as we saw in Chapter 5, contemporary collective actors resemble nomads dwelling in the present (Melucci 1989: 55). In Chapter 2, we discussed something similar when we saw how Kramer (2016) believes criminologists ought to speak in the 'prophetic voice' when highlighting harms perpetrated by states and corporations, which we also compared to the Quaker tradition of 'bearing witness' that is a tactic employed by numerous groups and organisations cited in this book. Returning to Beckford's (2003: 162) assessment of Melucci, he says unlike collective behaviour theorists of the past, Melucci does not categorically distinguish new religious movements and new social movements since he 'accepts the sacred can serve as the basis for an appeal to a different, alternative social order'. Indeed, a similar point is made by Hannigan (1990: 255) who says that the 'holistic' ethics and imagery of both contemporary new religious movements and new social movements 'constitutes a new and distinctive conceptualisation of the sacred'.

The religious quality of new social movements is particularly evident in environmentalism and feminism. Mario Diani (1993: 125) has shown how both adherents of neo-oriental religious groups and ecological activists in Italy articulate similar critiques of modern society (which we will see below is also something common to religious fundamentalist movements) that are based on a 'version of individual freedom which is not indifferent to social problems but rather aims at a balanced growth of both the private and the public sphere'. Similarly, Hannigan (1990: 253) shows how the holistic worldview of 'New Age' spirituality is evident in segments of new social movements (see also Box 7.3). For instance, 'deep ecology', which 'is an ecophilosophy that stresses the fundamental interrelatedness and value of all living things' (Hannigan 1993: 14), suggests 'a kind of mystic religiosity based on nature worship' (Hannigan 1990: 253).

Box 7.3 Religious 'lifestyle movements'

Kemp (2001: 37) has argued that a Christian form of New Age spirituality, dubbed 'Christaquarianism', should be referred to as a 'new socio-religious movement […] to emphasise the wider cultural base and similarity to the new social movements'. On the other hand, Shimazono (1999) has said it is more apt to refer to what is commonly called the New Age Movement as the 'New Spirituality Movements and Culture'. The fact that many adherents have individualistic inclinations and are reluctant to take part in collective action suggests classification as a 'culture' rather than a 'movement', where 'culture' means, 'aspects of the production or consumption of culture, rather than active individual practices' (Shimazono 1999: 125). Another way of viewing Shimazono's observations about New Age adherents is through the lens of what Haenfler et al. (2012: 14) call, 'lifestyle movements', which because they 'encourage adherents to take action in their daily lives […] the vast majority of people will never engage in civil disobedience or even symbolic demonstration'.

Lifestyle movements 'consciously and actively promote a lifestyle, or way of life, as their primary means to foster social change' (Haenfler et al. 2012: 2). While some established social movements have lifestyle 'wings', such as the green living segment of the environmental movement, lifestyle movements differ significantly from overtly political movements, since they are: (i) relatively individualised and private; (ii) ongoing rather than episodic; and (iii) aimed at changing cultural and economic practices rather than targeting the state (Haenfler et al. 2012: 6). Examples include the voluntary simplicity movement, which 'advocates reducing overall material consumption by

fixing broken items, reusing old items, and "doing without" in order to reduce environmental burdens', and the social responsibility movement, which 'encourages participants to "vote" with their dollars, buying from socially responsible companies (and boycotting others), supporting locally owned businesses, purchasing "fair trade" products, and making socially responsible investments' (Haenfler et al. 2012: 6).

Whereas green living, voluntary simplicity, and social responsibility form part of the environmental and social justice movements, other lifestyle movements include religious movements or sects. Examples here are Promise Keepers (men committed to 'changing the world' by being spiritual leaders of their families), virginity pledgers (sexual abstinence aimed at both personal spiritual fulfilment and challenging 'hookup' and 'pornographic' culture), and Quiverfull (a pronatalist movement that 'trust the Lord' to determine family size), which are considered lifestyle 'wings' of the broader conservative Christian Right movement (Haenfler et al. 2012: 5, 12). Indeed, in accordance with Beckford's (2003: 165–167) treatment of religious movements *as* social movements, religious and secular movements can be seen to intersect – both now and historically – to produce hybrid movements, which focus on both contentious politics and lifestyle action (Haenfler et al. 2012: 12). For instance, Hancock's (2018, 2020) research into Islamic organisations considers the ways Muslim activists regard environmental action as a religious duty, and how religious and political knowledge and practices are synthesised by activists. Similarly, Soule (2009: 12) shows how, in the US at least, responsible investment has its roots in Colonial America 'when certain religious groups (e.g. Quakers and Methodists) refused to invest in enterprises that benefitted the slave trade'.

Significantly, de Moor et al.'s (2017) in-depth study of a Belgian environmental lifestyle movement organisation reveals how some activists combine lifestyle politics with state-oriented actions, especially when they perceive political opportunity structures to be more open. Indeed, Haenfler et al. (2012: 13) argue lifestyle movements 'may also serve as refuges in times of unfavourable political opportunity, acting as abeyance structures until opportunities improve' (see also Taylor 1989, discussed in Chapter 5). Moreover, while lifestyle movements bear a strong resemblance to new social movements, not least because they reflect the post-material values of post-industrial societies, they 'are in a sense *newer* than typically studied new social movements, that is, lifestyle movements are more individualised and more deeply infused with *personal* identity work' (Haenfler et al.

2012: 15, original emphasis). Haenfler et al. see this as symptomatic of broader trends in contemporary societies that are individualistic and consumer-oriented in nature, and which stress the importance of lifestyle in identity construction:

> … encouraging people to individualise the self by altering daily habits (especially consumption). Just as people 'shop' for and attempt to personalise their style, hobbies, and religious/spiritual identities, so too do they customise their involvement in social change. (Haenfler et al. 2012: 15)

Feminism also has a religious side. For instance, 'spiritual feminism' emphasises 'holistic thought' and 'interconnectedness' (Hannigan 1990: 253), as does 'ecofeminism', which 'equates the suppression and domination of nature with the domination of women and encourages a more spiritual approach to the natural world' (Hannigan 1993: 6). Both deep ecology and ecofeminism draw sustenance from what Albanese (1990) calls, 'nature religion', which acknowledges that 'the beliefs and traditions of North American Indigenous peoples are important ingredients in the ideologies of radical environmentalists' (Hannigan 1993: 7).

Given the multiple examples provided above, and notwithstanding the ideological bias of many European new social movements theorists, it is something of a surprise that religion has been a neglected area of social movement studies. Indeed, as Beckford (2003: 165, 171) notes, pace Calhoun (1999: 237), this is even more surprising given the 'cultural turn' seemed to foster greater interest not only in culture and identity but also in the spiritual, sacred and other religious-like aspects of social movements (see also Hart 1996; Williams 2004: 106–108, 2006: 84–85). Arguably the most likely and possibly most fruitful area for synthetic research in this area relates to the struggle of religious movements for 'free space' and 'identity spaces' (Beckford 2003: 172), which can be regarded as similar to the struggle of new social movements for autonomy.

FREE SPACE AND AUTONOMY

In Chapter 5, we saw how Melucci (1985: 815) argues contemporary social movements seek to establish an intermediate public space, between state and civil society, in which they strive to maintain their autonomy. Similarly, Touraine proposes *the* new social movement of a programmed society will seek 'self-management' against technocratic encroachment into more and more areas of social life. Likewise,

for Habermas (1987: 395), '[t]he new conflicts arise along the seam between system and life-world', to resist the 'colonisation' of the latter by the former. Religious movements similarly 'are contending for the possibilities of creating and exploiting free space' (Beckford 2003: 175), which they use for religious experimentation.

There are clear similarities here between Melucci's characterisation of the submerged networks of contemporary movements that act as 'cultural laboratories' (Melucci 1989: 60), experimenting in alternative forms of socialisation (Melucci 1984: 829, 1985: 789) and cultural innovation, and which enable individuals to experience new cultural models and codes (Melucci 1984: 829, 1989: 60), and Beckford's (2003: 172) depiction of religious movements as 'quasi-laboratories in which profound social and cultural experiments can be relatively easily observed […] whereby religious movements construct distinctive codes of meaning and modify them over time, often in conflict with the rest of society'. Yet, Beckford (2003: 172) goes on, 'religious movements are rarely free to construct their cultural codes in complete independence from existing codes and social structural constraints'.

Indeed, the availability of free space for religious experimentation often depends upon wider structures of opportunity, including political opportunities, which, in turn, affect the varying degrees of success of religious movements (Beckford 2003: 172–173). That means religious movements 'often develop a form of intense, inward-looking solidarity that is articulated and celebrated through controversies and conflicts with external agencies' (Beckford 2003: 172), sometimes with lethal consequences. Examples here include the cases of the People's Temple of the Disciples of Christ, which involved the mass suicide and killing of 920 people in Guyana in 1978, and the Branch Davidians, whose 51-day siege of their property, the Mount Carmel Center, in Waco, Texas, in 1993, ended in the death of 83 Branch members and four federal law enforcement agents.

The *relative autonomy* of religious movements then leads to a paradoxical situation whereby they press for the extension or defence of free, public space, while simultaneously forming insular, inward-looking communities isolated from public life (Beckford 2003: 175). Hence, their contribution to civil society is likely to be minimal, although one may expect that to differ if they were to adopt a 'world-affirming' or 'world-accommodating' orientation (Wallis 1984). Indeed, as we saw in Chapter 5, a similar criticism has been levelled at the autonomy seeking new social movements, which do not have political, legal, or policy objectives, and thus do not connect their demands to 'institutionally imminent possibilities' (Giddens 1991b: 155). Equally, however, as we saw above when we looked at Fitzgerald's (2009) study of US faith-based community development organisations, being too closely connected to the state and government agencies can comprise movement goals and values.

Nevertheless, research into labour struggles in the US during the early twentieth century indicates some of the ways in which autonomous religious institutions can foster activism.

Accordingly, Billings (1990) shows how religion had a significant influence on strikes that occurred in Appalachian coal mining towns between 1928 and 1931. Since coal operators built and supported local churches and encouraged ministers to denounce unions as an atheistic menace, Billings notes how during the strikes most ministers aligned themselves with management. However, most Appalachian coal miners did not heed the conservative teachings of their pastors. In fact, many openly denounced the ministers for siding with management, and up to 90 percent stopped attending company-supported churches. Instead, miners held their own alternative church services, and some militant miners even emerged as lay preachers:

> These 'miner-ministers' used this free space to promote a religious culture of resistance that fostered an insurgent mindset and a willingness to strike for union recognition. Moreover, these alternative religious services provided a context where biblical teachings were given new meaning, granting religious legitimacy to labour struggles. For instance, miners altered lyrics of traditional hymns to link faith with union activism. (Erickson Nepstad and Williams 2007: 425)

Billings argues that the oppositional religious culture fostered by the miners' services functioned as a *free space* that aided labour activism in three important ways:

> First, it provided a context where an oppositional religious culture and critical consciousness was cultivated. Second, the pro-union rituals and music in these alternative services helped sustain this insurgent mindset and reinforce union commitment among the miners [...] Finally, these autonomous religious groups provided a context for the emergence of indigenous leaders who were known and trusted by their co-workers. (Erickson Nepstad and Williams 2007: 425–426)

Box 7.4 Religion: Ideology or opposition?

In Chapter 6, we saw how music and song can play important roles in social movement activism. Similarly, Billings (1990) shows how, during their labour struggles, Appalachian coal miners altered the lyrics of traditional hymns to link faith with unionism, which included changing the words of the following hymn as follows: 'When you hear of a thing that's called union/ You know that they're happy and free/For Christ has a union

in heaven/How beautiful a union must be' (Corbin 1981: 164). Previously in the chapter, however, it was noted that some social movement scholars aligning themselves with the conventional Marxist view of religion as an opiate of the masses, contest the idea of religion as opposition, seeing it instead as an instrument of domination used by the ruling class to justify the status quo.

Indeed, the notion that class division is somehow preordained was clearly evident in the text of the now oft-omitted verse from the famous Anglican hymn, *All Things Bright and Beautiful*, written in England in 1848 by Cecil F. Alexander, which reads: 'The rich man in his castle/The poor man at his gate/God made them, high or lowly/And order'd their estate'. From a Marxist perspective, then, this provides a stark illustration of the use of religion as ideology, which functions to create a 'false consciousness' among the subordinate classes, who, by being promised emancipation (or salvation) in the afterlife are encouraged to be satisfied with their lot, or resigned to their fate on earth, and are therefore less likely to revolt or question and challenge the existing order. This example also highlights the way music and song can carry coded political meanings (see Chapter 6), though in this case the message contrasts with the message of hope and redemption contained in much African-American music (Danaher 2010: 815; Eyerman 2002: 446–447).

Despite the fact that from a Marxist perspective religion is regarded as a conservative social institution, Marxist analyses have nevertheless formed the bases for religious radicalism. For instance, a Marxist analysis was key to the thinking in Latin America of liberation theologians who, as we saw earlier, aim to establish God's kingdom in this lifetime by reversing social inequities and injustices on earth that stem from social class divisions and private property ownership. However, as revolutionary ideologies waned throughout the world in the 1970s, liberation theology downplayed its radical Marxist rhetoric. And although after his investiture in 1978, Pope John Paul II committed the Catholic Church to adopt a strong stance on alleviating poverty and inequality, the Vatican simultaneously attacked liberation theology's uncritical use of Marxism (McGovern 1989: 51), which it saw as incompatible with Christian conceptions of humanity and society (Kurzman 1998: 35).

The Church's critique of brutal regimes that 'were legitimated with the rhetoric of a perverted Marxism' (Barker 1986: 58) was particularly evident in Poland where, it has been argued, both the Catholic Church and Pope John Paul II were

> influential in giving birth to the Solidarity movement against communism in the early 1980s. Hence, the moral leadership of the Pope – who was himself Polish – as well as the Church's instruction on issues of human rights from the 1960s onwards, had the effect of encouraging the working-class to challenge the vanguard claims of Marxist-Leninism by shifting their attention from economic issues to a higher plane concerned with human rights and political participation (Osa 1996: 69).

STORIES, NARRATIVE AND EMOTION IN RELIGIOUS SOCIAL MOVEMENTS

As we saw earlier when we looked at the study of Billings (1990), pro-union rituals and music performed in alternative church services proved very significant in the labour struggles of Appalachian coal miners during the early twentieth century. This example not only shows how religion might serve some wider political and potentially emancipatory purpose, but also highlights the important role culture can play in the lives of both social and religious movements. And just as the cultural life of social movements is not limited to music – but also includes, as we saw in Chapter 6, stories, narrative and emotion – this no less the case with religious movements, nor indeed social movements with religious dimensions, or what we might call 'religious social movements'.

An example of how emotion and religion can intersect is provided by Erickson Nepstad and Smith (2001), who show how, during the 1980s, moral outrage was a driving force in the Central American peace movement, which was responding to civil wars in Nicaragua, El Salvador, and Guatemala. Thousands of North Americans protested at US political and military involvement in these countries, and to stand in solidarity with the poor of Central America in their struggle for social justice. And religion was a key factor contributing to the generation of moral outrage.

Erickson Nepstad and Smith (2001: 166) show how US Christians and Jews were particularly 'subjectively engageable' on account of the fact that, first, 'many embraced social teachings that emphasise peace, justice, and political engagement as essential expressions of religious commitment', and, second, 'their common collective identity as people of faith took greater precedence over their identity as Americans'. Moreover, church connections and a sense of having a shared identity also transcended national differences, which, for instance, 'enabled Nicaraguans to feel solidarity and empathy with US Christians, when they might have otherwise felt anger or enmity since the US was the source of much of their suffering' (Erickson Nepstad and Smith 2001:

168). Crucial to the development of a transnational Christian identity was the direct interpersonal encounters North American people of faith had with Central American refugees and asylum seekers whose 'stories moved North Americans both emotionally and politically' (Erickson Nepstad and Smith 2001: 162).

Similarly, a narrative approach has been used to develop a general theory of fundamentalism to show how despite their differences, religious fundamentalist movements all share a common story of how history has gone awry, which constitutes what Yates and Hunter (2002) term a 'world-historical narrative' of fundamentalism at odds with the progression of modernity. Examining briefly specific fundamentalist 'movement narratives' (Benford 2002) from a variety of the world's major religions (i.e. Protestant-Christian, Jewish, Islamic, and Hindu), they show how the world-historical narrative unfolds in three steps:

> It begins with the deep and worrisome belief that history has gone awry, demonstrates that what 'went wrong' with history is modernity in its various guises, and leads to the inescapable conclusion that the calling of the fundamentalist is to make history 'right' again. (Yates and Hunter 2002: 130)

In the narrative of Islamic fundamentalism, for example, history began to go awry when during the eighteenth century European powers established direct economic, political and military control over Islamic countries, which subjugated Islamic culture and ideals to Western rationalism, secularism, and pluralism. Moreover, when colonial rule ended, 'many postcolonial governments were transitioned to a Westernised Muslim administration that continued to embrace modern European modes of thought and rule and promised increased economic and social prosperity' (Yates and Hunter 2002: 135). For fundamentalists, however, the accommodation of modern Western values resulted in moral and political decay.

Modernity in the form of Westernisation, or 'Westoxification' as it has been called, heralded a crisis for many Islamic fundamentalists, some of whom characterise 'the unique destructive force of modernity as an unstoppable monstrous "machine"' (Yates and Hunter 2002: 136). The solution of Islamic fundamentalists:

> … to the insidiousness of modernity […] is to return to strict adherence to Islam in every sphere of life […] Like the earliest (protofundamentalists) reactions against the internal 'deterioration' of Islam in the eighteenth and nineteenth centuries, twentieth-century fundamentalist movements all share the common passion to recover the classical experience of Islam, 'a history without deviation', and the original meaning of the Islamic message, 'a faith without distortion'. The fundamentalist solution demands nothing

> less than the establishment of a totally Islamic social and political order. (Yates and Hunter 2002: 136)

The first step towards establishing the new Islamic order is internal reform, which requires that, among other things, fundamentalists rid themselves of 'compromised' elites who embrace secular attitudes and values, having been educated in the West. Beyond internal reform, 'the establishment of a new Islamic order also requires active resistance to the external influence of pagan societies' (Yates and Hunter 2002: 138). Nowhere has this shift from passive to active faith been more pronounced than in contemporary Iran, where the traditional religious scholars, or *ulama*, weaved together selective moments in Persian history into a 'militant theocratic and messianic movement narrative', which 'created the religious legitimation for a revolutionary resistance in what was the most modernising society in the Middle East' (Yates and Hunter 2002: 138). Against that background, and using highly emotive rhetoric, the Ayatollah Khomeini condemned all foreign powers, but especially Western powers, as inherently Satanic, corrupt and evil, which accordingly need to be fought, rooted out and, ultimately, overthrown (Khomeini 1980: 5).

Rhetoric and emotion are also used by Christian fundamentalists, who frequently see themselves as involved in a Manichean battle, or 'culture war', against liberal, secularising forces in contemporary society. In her study of battles over the issue of homosexuality that occurred in numerous small communities in the US state of Oregon during the 1990s, Arlene Stein (2001: 117) depicts the Oregon Citizens Alliance (OCA) as being part of the conservative Christian Right in the US, which, she says, is itself a 'moral movement'. Drawing on interviews she conducted with Christian conservative activists, Stein (2001: 118) describes how the OCA is a movement with 'profound emotional dimensions'. She shows how the 'emotion of shame' figured prominently in the narratives of the religious conservatives she interviewed (Stein 2001: 118), whereby, for instance, shame is linked to sexual desires, which call up emotions (Stein 2001: 128). Moreover, 'shameful emotions' (Stein 2001: 119) are mobilised for political ends, confirming Jasper's (1998: 215) view that social movements combine strategic purpose and emotion. However, Stein (2001: 127) argues, the OCA campaigns to amend local charters in rural parts of Oregon 'were largely symbolic', since 'the vast majority of these localities had never considered passing any such gay rights ordinances, or if they had done so they would have a negligible effect'. To Stein (2001: 127), then, '[t]hese campaigns were much more about consolidating a religious right collective identity than about affecting public policy'.

RELIGION AND POLITICS

Previously, we have seen how social movement scholars have largely avoided looking at religious movements because, it is believed, they tend to be retreatist, reactionary, or conservative. According to this view, religious movements have little or no emancipatory potential, nor are they capable of contributing positively to social change. Indeed, Stein's (2001) study underscores that very point, as do the examples of religious movements, discussed earlier, which are lifestyle 'wings' of the wider conservative Christian movement, such as groups like Quiverfall and Promise Keepers (Haenfler et al. 2012).

However, just as religious movements can be conservative or reactionary, so too can social movements (see Chapter 1). This sometimes assumes the form of countermovement opposition to social movements, such as in the case of pro-life (anti-abortion) activism against the pro-choice (abortion-rights) movement, although this example also highlights the fact that, as we have seen throughout this chapter, social movements (and countermovements) may contain religious elements or have religious qualities. Hence, the pro-life movement in the US began as an almost entirely Catholic movement, but it took on a new dimension with the rise of right-wing movements like the Moral Majority and Christian Coalition, which drew strength from white Southern evangelicals (Kniss and Burns 2004: 703). Something similar occurred in Nicaragua when evangelical churches, initially eschewing political activism for being outside their spiritual mandate, decided to engage with the Catholic Church and pro-life politics – thereby transforming the pro-life movement's influence in state politics – after pro-life activists strategically targeted the Church with their recruitment efforts (Heumann and Duyvendak 2015).

For these reasons, it has been suggested that far from being a single unified movement, the US Christian Right is best conceived 'as a coalition of related movements – a pro-life movement, a homeschooling movement, an antigay rights movement, and a movement supporting traditional gender roles' (Wilcox and Fortelny 2009: 271). Things get even more complicated when we consider the prospect that some conservative religious movements might have progressive outlooks too. For example, in her research Andrea Smith (2008) uncovered some 'unlikely alliances' between Christian Right activists and progressive groups, including coalitions to do with prison reform, and potential alignments on abortion and Native American women. In a variant of that, the Radical Animal Liberation Movement (RALM) has also sought solidarity with Indigenous movements where RALM activists 'find similarities in the exploitation and colonisation of Indigenous people and animals, and contrast abusive forms of animal use with the respectful, traditional and sustainable practices of many

Indigenous peoples who take part in symbiotic spiritual relations with other animals' (Johnston and Johnston 2017: 742).[2]

These examples not only confound the narrow view of religion as having limited, if any, progressive or emancipatory potential, but they also raise important questions about the relationship between religion and politics, which is a key dynamic lying at the heart of many issues considered in this chapter. Indeed, in Box 7.2 above, we saw how the Catholic Church in the United States has been less inclined to engage in liberationist projects than its counterparts in Brazil and Canada. If for no other reason, this is interesting given the formal separation of church and state in the US under the First Amendment to the Constitution, which, in theory at least, gives religious organisations carte blanche to criticise governments and politicians. Alternatively, it may be that the church-state separation is the cause of the Church's relative inaction. That is, the Church does not feel the need to intervene in matters beyond its religious remit.

Nevertheless, the fact remains that the nature of the US church-state relationship guarantees American churches a great deal of autonomy, which, according to Kniss and Burns (2004: 710), also 'may help explain the apparent paradox that religious affiliation does not predict political affiliations well'. Thus, they say, 'while most American social movements have had a strong religious component, most religious adherents in the US typically do not connect their religion with political causes and, even when they do, they may find that the right-wing version of religion they favour is opposed by a leftist sitting in the next pew' (Kniss and Burns 2004: 704). However, although church autonomy is particularly strong in the American context, and has led to significant political interventions, such as the involvement of US churches in the Central America peace movement of the 1980s (discussed earlier), churches have also played a key role in opposing repressive regimes as well as advocating for human rights in other parts of the world, including, as we have seen, in Poland and Latin America.

In Britain, unlike in the US, church and state are to some degree constitutionally entwined. The Church of England is the officially established Christian church in England, for instance. And, even though it is not expressed in terms of liberation theology, the Church of England has on occasion been a vocal opponent of British governments and their policies. A prominent example was the Archbishop of Canterbury's Commission on Urban Priority Areas, which was established in 1983 and yielded the report, *Faith in the City*, published in 1985 (Davie 1994: 151–154). Among other things, the report contained a devastating critique of Thatcherite policies, which it saw as the cause of growing spiritual and economic poverty in Britain's inner cities. Unsurprisingly, the report was not well-received by Thatcher herself not only because it criticised her government's policies but because it did not accord with her belief in social improvement through self-help and individual

betterment (Weiss 2011: 26), which precluded church interference in affairs of state, as summed up in a speech she gave in 1978 where she said, 'the truth of the matter is this: the Bible as well as the tradition of the Church tell us very little directly about political systems or social programmes. The nearest we get is Christ telling his disciples to render unto Caesar that which is Caesar's, and unto God that which is God's' (Thatcher 1978). A more recent and more ecumenical example of organised religion's involvement in social justice initiatives is the Jubilee

Box 7.5 Jubilee 2000

The Great Jubilee of 2000 was a major celebration in the Roman Catholic Church, involving several events, held between 24 December 1999 (Christmas Eve) and 6 January 2001 (Epiphany). It was commemorated with the building of numerous memorials, including the one depicted in Figure 7.2.

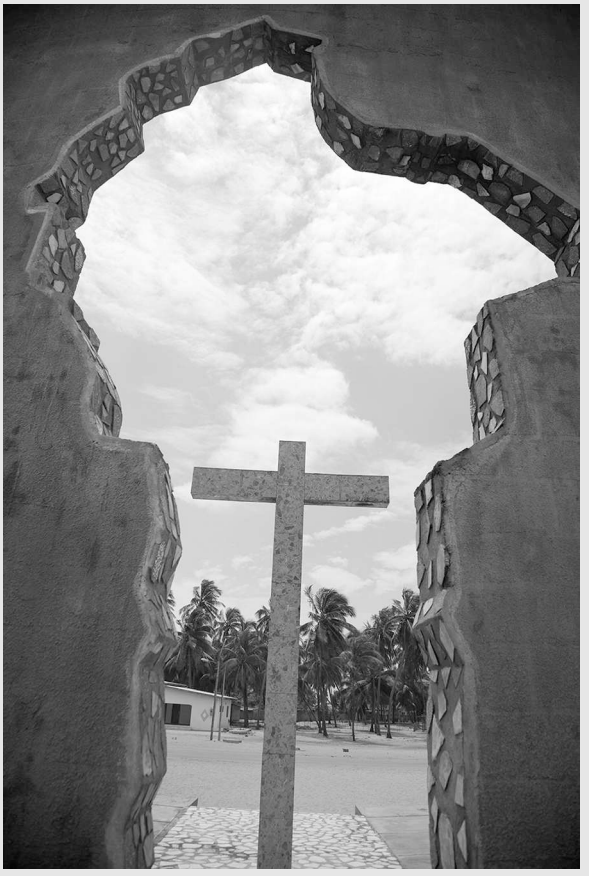


Figure 7.2 The Memorial of the Great Jubilee of 2000 is one of several monuments on the beach of Ouidah, Benin, West Africa © Irene Abdou/Alamy

Beyond the Catholic Church, activists took the opportunity provided by the Great Jubilee celebrations to shed light on various social issues. With particular reference to the forgiveness of debts that Biblical Jubilees entail, activists, including high-profile figures, such as Bono, Bob Geldof, and Muhammad Ali, supported the Jubilee 2000 campaign that aimed to highlight the struggle of developing nations faced with insurmountable foreign debt. Pope John Paul II gave his blessing to the campaign, which called for governments and international banks to cancel Third World debts in the year 2000.

2000 campaign for the cancellation of Third World debt (Staggenborg 2011: 160), which is the subject of Box 7.5.

Perhaps, unlike churches and other religious organisations in the US, where church and state are formally separated, the established Church in Britain feels that *because of* its inextricable link to the state, it is incumbent upon it to speak out and act when it perceives injustices promulgated by government policies. In such circumstances, the Church may become the state's conscience and society's moral compass. More recently, and particularly in the wake of the austerity packages that were introduced across Europe from 2008, religious leaders on both sides of the Atlantic and across denominational divides have spoken out forcefully in condemnation at growing social inequality and the rampant greed of consumerism. For instance, Pope Francis has not only shown 'intense empathy for the poor, unemployed and struggling migrants', but has also set out 'to cleanse his Church of luxury', making him, according to one commentator, 'truly the Austerity Pope for this new age of austerity' (Kneale 2013: 23). Around the same time:

> Rowan Williams, the Archbishop of Canterbury, in a sermon commemorating the Golden Jubilee in the United Kingdom, criticised the culture of greed, hostility to strangers and lack of responsibility to society. There has also been support for Occupy Wall Street from the Churches, which have also criticised the irresponsibility of a greedy society. (Turner 2013: 148–149)

Even more recently, the current Archbishop of Canterbury, Justin Welby, made a rare intervention in the House of Lords, criticising as 'morally unacceptable' legislation proposed by the British government to criminalise, detain and remove refugees arriving in the UK in small boats (Syal 2023). To Bryan Turner (2013: 80, 149), the fact that church leaders feel the need to intervene in matters of human

rights and social justice in these ways suggests there is a significant 'legitimacy deficit' in modern societies.

While these developments have, in part, given rise to waves of protest against social inequality, injustice, and exploitation, they have also been seen as a cause of modern populism, as displayed for instance by the Tea Party movement, which shares mobilising structures with centre-right predecessor movements, including the Christian Right, but is distinct from the Christian Right, which focuses on social issues, while the Tea Party movement's focus is fiscal. It has also been observed that the Tea Party movement 'does not share the Christian Right's built-in hindrance to growth because it does not proffer theological tenets that anti-tax, anti-government folks might find off-putting' (Boykoff and Laschever 2011: 344).

CONCLUSION

Towards the beginning of this chapter, we saw how an impasse has existed between the study of religious movements, and social movement studies that has tended generally to preclude crossover between the two fields. Broadly speaking, it has been social movement scholars who have resisted studying religious movements, which, as we have seen, is an attitude based in the Marxist view of religion as the opium of the masses. And, in this respect, religion has been regarded as negative – or otherwise ancillary to the purposive action of social movements – in much the same way as emotions were viewed as negative in the early theories of social movements and collective behaviour, discussed in Chapter 3.

However, what our explorations in this chapter have revealed is that religion, religious movements, and religious organisations are not always necessarily conservative, reactionary, and inward-looking, but, on the contrary, they may actually provide valuable insights and contribute positively to civil society, public debate, and politics. In this way, then, there is an argument for *bringing religion back into* social movement research, which parallels the argument of those who, as discussed in Chapter 6, posit the value of bringing emotions back into social movement studies.

Notes

1 In this way, liberation theology resembles the Social Gospel movement of the early twentieth century, which sought to put into practice the sentiment, expressed in the Lord's Prayer: 'Thy kingdom come/Thy will be done/on earth, as it is in heaven'. The Social Gospel also influenced activists in the US civil rights movement of the 1960s, has inspired Christian socialists, and can be regarded part of the ecumenical movement insofar as it has parallels in Catholicism and Judaism (White et al. 1976).

2 The formation of coalitions and alliances both within and between social movements is a process vital to understanding movement mobilisation, which is considered at various points in the book, including in Chapter 5, for instance, when looking at Melucci's ideas about the resolution of conflicts within movements to build a collective identity. Sometimes strange or unlikely alliances emerge while at other times alliances consist of the usual suspects.

In a recent study of Indivisible groups founded after the 2017 Women's March in ten US cities to protest at the Trump administration and its policies, Catherine Corrigall-Brown (2021) found coalitions to be a very effective strategy for social movement groups in terms of hosting a high number of events and surviving over time. Moreover, in cities with long histories of activism, groups tended to engage in more coalitions and a particular type of deep coalition work she calls 'supercoalitions', which 'work to strategically coordinate groups in a city and accumulate and channel resources to pre-existing organisations' (Catherine Corrigall-Brown 2021: 160).

For further information on this topic, readers can explore the special issue of *Social Movement Studies* (2022, vol. 21, nos 1–2) dedicated to the 'politics of alliances', which, in their introduction to the issue, Zajak and Haunss (2022: 2) say they understand 'as a process in which decisions about friends and foes are made and where increased attachment towards one's group helps to consolidate the constituency and create a feeling of belonging, but by doing so it also accentuates antagonism and conflict structures in society, crystallising interests into opposite fractions'.

SUGGESTED READINGS

In both these books, James Beckford engages with issues to do with the relationship between religious movements and social movements. The books are also useful studies in the sociology of religion.

Beckford, J. A. (1989) *Religion and Advanced Industrial Society*. London: Unwin Hyman.

Beckford, J. A. (2003) *Social Theory and Religion*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

The intention of Christian Smith's edited volume is to fill the void left by scholars' neglect of the important role religion often plays in social movement activism. Accordingly, it provides a useful collection of case studies considering the disruptive potential of religion and religious movements.

Smith, C. (ed.) (1996) *Disruptive Religion: The Force of Faith in Social Movement Activism*. New York, NY: Routledge.

The following volume is an interesting collection of early essays that explore new research agendas for the sociology of religion in contemporary society:

Swatos, W. H. (ed.) (1993) *A Future for Religion? New Paradigms for Analysis*. Newbury Park, CA: Sage.

Each of these articles considers the relationship between social and religious movements, with a particular emphasis on theoretical and conceptual issues:

Diani, M. (1993) 'Themes of modernity in new religious movements and new social movements' *Social Science Information* 32(1): 111–131.

Hannigan, J. A. (1990) 'Apples and oranges or varieties of the same fruit? The new religious movements and the new social movements compared' *Review of Religious Research* 31(3): 246–258.

Hannigan, J. A. (1991) 'Social movement theory and the sociology of religion: Towards a new synthesis' *Sociological Analysis* 52(4): 311–331.

These following chapters further explore connections between religion, protest politics and social movements:

Lindekilde, L. and Kühle, L. (2014) 'Religious revivalism and social movements' in D. della Porta and M. Diani (eds) *The Oxford Handbook of Social Movements*. Oxford: Oxford University Press, pp. 173–184.

Wilcox, C. and Fortelny, G. (2009) 'Religion and social movements' in C. Smidt, L. Kellstedt and J. L. Guth (eds) *The Oxford Handbook of Religion and American Politics*. Oxford: Oxford University Press, pp. 266–298.

CHAPTER 8

Struggles over space

INTRODUCTION

In Chapter 5, a principal concern of ours related to questions about the novelty of contemporary 'new' social movements, where the focus was on temporal issues and historical context. In this chapter, we will look at a rather more neglected area of social movement studies that is concerned with spatial issues and geographic context. In previous parts of the book, we have seen how various 'turns' (i.e. cultural, emotional, narrative) have influenced social movement studies. In this chapter, we consider the influence of the 'spatial' or 'geographic' turn. A fundamental premise of the chapter is that space is socially produced and infused with power relations. Space is also conceived broadly as both physical and non-physical space, where the latter includes (geo)political space, social space, and cultural or identity space. Indeed, it has been observed that space is a part of culture, a product of social processes influencing emotions and collective meaning-making (Daphi 2014). In this chapter, we will also see how the study of geography and social movements requires an exploration of the related concepts of place and scale.

As well as examining some of the key theoretical and conceptual concerns relating to geography, space, and social movements, a series of case studies and examples is presented, including forms of resistance and retreat from urban life, immigrant struggles for recognition and citizenship rights, and Indigenous peoples' struggles for land rights, spaces of autonomy and self-government under neoliberalism. Although they raise very different (almost diametrically opposed) substantive issues, the Tea Party and Occupy are both considered social movements with spatial and geographic implications. Also considered are studies that explore the relative effectiveness of local

DOI: 10.4324/9780367821760-8

social movements by reference to their geographically broad framing of issues. The final part of the chapter considers some of the ways states respond to social movements, which, particularly at large-scale protest events, involves the policing of space.

SPACE: THE FINAL FRONTIER?

In previous chapters, we have looked at various 'turns' (e.g. cultural, emotional, narrative) that have occurred in the human, social, and political sciences, which have had a variety of effects on social movement studies, including the expansion and enhancement of research into social movements and protest politics. In this chapter, we examine another turn, variously referred to as the 'spatial turn' (Martin and Miller 2003: 143) or 'geographic turn' (Miller 2000: xii, 6, 36). As with some of the other areas we have examined, scholars working at the intersection of geography and social movements have argued that, until recently, the geographic structuring of social movements has largely been ignored. While there has been some cross-fertilisation of ideas between geography and sociology, it is mostly geographers who have shown interest in social movements, and in particular radical, activist geographers concerned with issues of social justice, 'committed to challenging relations of power and oppression in order to construct more socially and environmentally just ways of being and living' (Routledge 2017: 4; see also Routledge 2014: 390–391). By contrast, social movement scholars have tended to show limited interest in the spatial aspects of collective action, which, with some exceptions, has resulted in a 'dearth of geographic analysis in the social movements literature' (Miller 2000: 7), and, consequently, 'the aspatiality of most social movement research' (Miller 2000: 5). Martin and Miller (2003: 145) argue that to further our understanding of the geographic analysis of social movements, we must look at the key concepts of *space*, *place*, and *scale*, which they relate to Henri Lefebvre's (1991 [1974]) idea of space as socially produced.

To Miller (2001: 935), the absence of geography from the social movements literature in sociology and political science can be accounted for largely by the fact that social movement scholars have attempted to understand movements and protest 'almost exclusively in historical terms'. Indeed, the debate about the novelty of new social movements, discussed in Chapter 5, indicates that within social movement studies there has been a recognition of the need to pay attention to context, albeit that has been limited to historical context (Miller 2000: 4). However, just as time is important, so too is space (Martin and Miller 2003: 145). Lefebvre's ideas about the production of space are fundamental to the social theory of geography. Lefebvre (1979: 241) distinguishes between *abstract space* and *social space*, where the

former refers to 'the externalisation of economic and political practices originating with the capitalist class and the state', and the latter (also called *concrete space*) relates to 'the space of use values produced by the complex interaction of all classes in the pursuit of everyday life'.

It has been observed that this distinction has strong parallels to Habermas' differentiation of system and lifeworld (see Chapter 5). However, while Habermas neglects space, and is generally insensitive to spatial differentiation, Lefebvre 'provides a nuanced account of spatial practices affecting "the colonisation of everyday life [through] the superimposition and hyperextension of abstract space"' (Miller 2000: 13, quoting Gregory 1994: 403). Moreover, as David Harvey (1989: 218) observes, spatial, and temporal practices 'are so closely implicated in processes of reproduction and transformation of social relations' that, '[t]he history of social change is in part captured by the history of the conceptions of space and time, and the ideological uses to which those conceptions might be put'. While Lefebvre's notions of space help clarify relationships between social life and spatiality, Martin and Miller (2003: 147) contend it is nonetheless useful to supplement them with the two additional concepts of *place* and *scale*. For them:

> Understanding the dynamics of 'place' is crucial to the analysis of social movement mobilisation, not only because it directs us to geographically specific social relations, but because place can be a powerful basis for collective identity construction – a crucial component of virtually all forms of collective action. (Miller 2000: 14)

We will look in more detail at the significance of place, and the related experiential concept, 'sense of place', shortly, when we consider some of the ways geographic research might help further our understanding of movement mobilisation and theories of social movements. Like space and place, scale is not given but socially constructed. One of the most common conceptions of geographical scale 'is as jurisdictional hierarchy such as the nested relationships of city, country, state, national, and transnational governance' (Martin and Miller 2003: 148). Conceiving of scale as jurisdictional territory in this way has implications for contentious politics:

> Scale issues are clearly inherent in the strategies of social movements. Scale variations in political opportunity structures, for instance, may cause movements to emphasise decentralised struggle within local states or to focus on the central state. Likewise, contested framings of the appropriate geographic scale at which to address particular social issues may dramatically affect the legitimacy of a movement. (Miller 2000: 18)

Miller (2001: 938) points out that the history of much social change in the US has been of 'localised, decentralised mobilisation that shifts to the national stage once public opinion has been mobilised and central state political opportunities open up'. For instance, the American civil rights movements mobilised effectively via local campaigns, after which it 'jumped scales in the mid-1960s just as political opportunities emerged at the central state' (Miller 2001: 938). However, as Nicholls (2007: 612–613) argues, state power and economic systems like capitalism operate in spatially uneven ways. This was true of the US civil rights movement, which benefitted from concentrations of organisational resources (churches, people, money, talent, social networks) in a handful of urban centres of the American South. While this spatial concentration of people and resources can strengthen movement networks and the pooling of collective resources, a territorial shift upwards to the national level may result in the diffusion of resources and weakening of social networks and, ultimately, the dispersal and demise of social movements (Auyero 2005).

Similarly, shifting mobilisation to a transnational scale can pose challenges for social movements as a function of the 'uneven scaling of political opportunities' when movements and political elites seek to outmanoeuvre one another using geographical strategies (Nicholls 2007: 614). Lumped together under the heading, 'scale-jumping' (Nicholls 2007: 614), or what Tarrow and McAdam (2005) call processes of 'scale shift', movements will deploy 'multiscalar strategies' that 'utilise political opportunities at one scale to create opportunities at other scales' (Routledge 2014: 387). For instance, Kathryn Sikkink (2005: 162) has shown how activists seeking to bring former Chilean dictator Pinochet to justice for past human rights violations opened up a political opportunity structure found in an international treaty against torture, which was interpreted by domestic courts as providing universal jurisdiction in respect of torture, leading to Pinochet's arrest in Britain in 1988 and subsequent extradition to Spain to stand trial.

According to Tarrow and McAdam (2005), scale shift can involve a trade-off as a consequence of what they call 'relational diffusion', which is a process not dissimilar to the weakening of social movement networks described earlier in relation to the territorial shift upwards of US civil rights mobilisation. While the relational diffusion of pre-existing relational ties based on trust and shared identities facilitates the spatial extension of movements, it also reduces their social and geographical reach and impact precisely because the scale shift depends on *existing* relational ties that are necessarily localised. This is one reason researchers have argued that although 'social movements may be increasingly made up of extensive and pluralistic relational

flows, a number of factors continue to require their territorialisation' (Nicholls 2007: 618). By contrast, Featherstone (2003: 405) argues that to understand transnational movements we must 'transcend a tendency in political geography to counterpose local and global, of space and place'. He shows how the dynamic political activity of counter-globalisation movements has produced 'multiple spacialities', thereby making redundant 'attempts to counterpose the local and global, place and space on either political or intellectual terms' (Featherstone 2003: 417).

Questions of scale will become a focus of our attention again in Chapter 11, when we look at global and transnational activism. It is worth noting, however, that we have previously considered issues of scale when, in Chapter 4, we looked at David Meyer's (2003) exploration of relations between the global and the local, in which he used the example of the New Zealand anti-nuclear movement to extend the geographical reach of the 'political opportunity structure' concept. It will be recalled that, for Meyer (2003: 19, original emphasis), 'national political opportunity structures are *nested* in a larger international environment that constrains or promotes particular kinds of opportunities for dissidents within the state'. In that chapter, too, we saw how the concept of political opportunity structure itself originated in Eisinger's (1973) geographically specific research into city riots. In the next section, we consider these ideas in greater depth, when we look at some of the ways geographic approaches might be brought to bear on major theories of social movements.

Box 8.1 Freegan anti-consumerism: Spaces of urban resistance

Since its inception, the discipline of sociology has been concerned with the various ways urban-industrial capitalism has impacted, positively and negatively, on both society and the individual. One response to the perceived ills of urban living is exit or escape, often to rural settings, as evident in formation of communal groups that might also comprise insular, retreatist, or other-worldly religious movements and sects (Hall 1978; Schehr 1997). Another response is to create spaces of resistance *within* urban society – a classic example here being squatter movements (see Holzner 2004; Montagna 2006; Owens 2008), of which Occupy (discussed below) is conceivably a recent manifestation. This type of internal resistance is also evident in the concerns of the 'voluntary simplicity movement', which we considered in Chapter 7. It will be recalled that the voluntary simplicity movement advocates for reducing material consumption by fixing broken items, reusing old items, and 'doing without' in

order to reduce environmental burdens (Haenfler et al. 2012: 6). Allied to this movement is the freegan movement, which:

> … mixes urban scrounging with an oppositional politics of cultural transformation. Emerging out of an underground culture of do-it-yourself anarchist, anticapitalist, and animal rights activism that today animates many outside the American political mainstream, freegans take the do-no-harm ethics of a vegan diet into the realm of consumption and waste. As they point out, 'Freegan is a play on the word vegan. Freegans go farther than vegans by choosing to monetarily consume nothing so as to give no economic power to the capitalist consumer machine'. Rather than shopping, and labouring to earn the money to shop, freegans 'live off the massive waste of modern capitalist society', Dumpster diving vegetables, fruit, and other necessities. In this way, they quite consciously withdraw from a global economy founded on the twin demands of alienated work and ongoing consumption, and try to invent an everyday politics of survival that can undermine these foundations one Dumpster at a time. (Ferrell 2006: 170)

Freegans have been depicted as 'modern day foragers' who are resistant to capitalist foodways (Gross 2009), and freeganism itself has been described as 'an anti-consumerist movement' with 'an alternative consumption strategy which involves taking goods that appear abandoned, without paying for them' (Thomas 2010: 98). That includes the controversial practice of 'dumpster diving', which is scavenging for food and non-food items 'for a blend of economic, political and environmental reasons' (Edwards and Mercer 2007: 282). Accordingly, freegans tend to 'know where the best dumpsters are located in cities' (Gross 2009: 68). However, it is questionable whether, given their anti-consumerist orientation, freegans can be regarded as a 'lifestyle movement' in the same was as the voluntary simplicity movement, because, for lifestyle movements, identity 'shopping' is seen as part and parcel of consumer societies (Haenfler et al. 2012: 15).

GEOGRAPHY AND SOCIAL MOVEMENT THEORY

In considering some of the ways that spatial analysis might inform social movement studies, Byron Miller argues it may be helpful, first, to consider the geographical dimensions of issues lying at the heart

of resource mobilisation theory. For instance, place-based communities can, in place-specific ways, affect the monitoring of individual behaviour, which, in turn, can affect the formulation of collective action strategies. Moreover, place-based identities may be formed in geographically specific ways. Miller (2000: 21) draws on Rebecca Smith's work (1984, 1985), which looks at the role of 'place identity' in neighbourhood activism in Minneapolis. Smith argues that instead of being tied to high levels of home ownership, education, and income, participation in a neighbourhood organisation is tied to having a strong *sense of place*, which, she says, can be measured by boundary recognition and use of a neighbourhood name.

Miller (2000: 21) goes on to argue that, in spite of the fact that resource mobilisation theory 'has been concerned with the networks, groups, and structures through which social movements recruit members, accounts of how differing geographies of recruitment affect resource mobilisation are relatively rare'. However, the 'geography of movement support' (Miller 2000: 21) has been considered by Harvey (1985), for instance, in his analysis of the politics of class and gender in Paris from 1850 to 1870, in which his discussions of 'the city's geography and maps of public meeting places and electoral patterns provides a clear sense of the geography of recruitment and support for the workers' movement' (Miller 2000: 21). Miller (2000: 22) also shows how in his pioneering book, *The City and the Grassroots*, Manuel Castells (1983) offers another example of place-specific recruitment, when he considers 'the role of gay bars, social gathering places, businesses, stores, and professional offices in the construction of the San Francisco gay community'. Moreover, Kriesi's (1988) study of the local mobilising efforts of the Dutch peace movement demonstrates how 'pre-existing countercultural network structures vary among six different places, and how those place-specific differences alter recruitment' (Miller 2000: 22).

Box 8.2 L'affaire des Sans-papiers

Given Lefebvre's (1991 [1974]) notion that space is socially constituted, it should be apparent that geographical issues relating to social movements are not limited to physical space, but also concern non-physical space, including (geo)political, cultural, and symbolic space. As we have seen, and will throughout this chapter, physical and non-physical space frequently entwine, and struggles relating to social identity, for instance, are often played out in physical spatial environments. Moreover, and as Miller (2000:14) shows, place can be a powerful basis for the formation of collective identities. The movement of undocumented immigrants in France provides a poignant example of how social

struggles are played out in physical spaces, as well as how collective identity is constructed on the basis of place or, as with undocumented migrants, having no place to go nor call home.

In 1993, the French Interior Minister, Charles Pasqua, introduced legislation designed to curb immigration. The 'Pasqua laws', as they became known, prevented foreign graduates from applying for jobs with French employees, increased from one to two years the time for family reunification, and denied residency permits to foreign spouses who had been living in France illegally before getting married. The legislation also enhanced the powers of the police to enforce the deportation of foreigners, and made it harder for asylum seekers to challenge decisions to deny them visas. Importantly, these laws operated retrospectively, thus rendering illegal formerly legal non-citizens (Freedman and Tarr 2000: 37; Gueye 2006: 232).

It was against this background that the movement of the Sans-papiers (undocumented immigrants; meaning literally, 'without papers') was born in Paris. On 18 March 1996, 300 Sans-papiers occupied the Church of St Ambroise in the eleventh arrondissement of Paris. On 22 March, they were evicted by police and thereafter forced to move from place to place, residing in a gymnasium, a theatre, and then in a disused warehouse, which was owned by the Société Nationale des Chemins de Fer (the national rail workers' trade union, CFDT). Finally, on 28 June, they found temporary shelter at the Saint-Bernard Church in Paris' eighteenth arrondissement. While at Saint-Bernard, ten of the Sans-papiers started a hunger strike to draw attention to their cause. In the early morning of 26 August, more than 1,000 police officers converged on the area, surrounding Saint-Bernard, intending to forcibly remove the Sans-papiers. Television footage showed police 'breaking down the doors of a church with axes, terrifying children, separating men and women, blacks and whites, and forcing everyone into buses' (Rosello 1998: 145).

The principal demand of the San-papiers was papers for everyone. That is, the right for all undocumented immigrants to regularisation in France, or 'the quest to be incorporated officially as members of French society' (Gueye 2006: 229). It is important to remember that for many years the Sans-papiers had been living, working, and paying taxes in France (Cissé 1997: 44). Typically, however, '[i]rregular migrants are policed as outsiders even though they are economically incorporated into political communities through informal neoliberal labour markets' (McNevin 2006: 136). In this sense, they are 'immanent outsiders' who in spite of the hostile political rhetoric



Figure 8.1 A demonstration by the Sans-papiers movement in Rue Danielle Casanova, central Paris, 19 September 2012, campaigning for mass legalisation of undocumented migrants living in France © David Firn/Alamy

levelled against them are tacitly accepted because they fulfil a vital economic function in neoliberal economies, which have a demand for cheap, flexible, and complaint labour (McNevin 2006: 140). Indeed, suffering the adverse effects of deregulated (neoliberal) labour markets is something the Sans-papiers, along with other undocumented migrants, have in common with other members of what Guy Standing (2011) calls the 'precariat', which we discussed in Chapter 5.

Unsurprisingly, then, the struggle of the Sans-papiers went beyond the single issue of papers for all, to question the status of fundamental human rights and democratic liberties in France (Cissé 1997: 40). Indeed, the populist move by the government against 'illegal immigrants' ultimately backfired, as the Sans-papiers movement gained sympathy from a large portion of the French public, especially when 'references were made to the fate of Jews at the hands of French police during the Vichy regime' (Rosello 1998: 149). Ultimately, while failing to secure papers for everyone (there were deportations), and despite not being able to vote, the Sans-papiers movement did make some political gains by helping to increase the number of regularisations, and changing the atmosphere in which immigration legislation was debated in the French parliament, although the Pasqua laws themselves were not repealed (Rosello 1998: 150; see also Freedman and Tarr 2000: 37).

The Sans-papiers movement was also a statement against neo-colonialism, which, as we will see below, is a key grievance of Indigenous peoples' movements too. The Sans-papiers were largely of African origin but all were from former French colonies, which meant it was only natural they would migrate to France to work and live. As one migrant stated, 'It's the country we know, the one whose language we have learned, whose culture we have integrated a little' (Cissé 1997: 38). According to Sans-papiers activist and writer, Madjiguène Cissé, former French colonies have never been truly independent and continue to be subject to 'subtle forms of domination and exploitation' (Cissé 1997: 39). In particular, poor African countries suffered the adverse consequences of 'structural adjustment programs' where they are loaned money on condition the state withdraws from managing the economy, and neoliberal or free market economic policies are pursued. Consequently, developing countries amass debts they cannot realistically hope to pay back, and often money is diverted from aid and development schemes by corrupt officials who may collude with their French advisors to hold on to power (Cissé 1997: 39). Moreover, in countries such as Mali and Senegal, where many Sans-papiers originate, the rural peasant population suffer because they no longer receive government subsidies to purchase seeds, fertilisers and arable land (Gueye 2006: 233). Thus, for Cissé (1997: 43), the fight against structural adjustment programs and the struggle of the Sans-papiers are one and the same:

> According to Cissé, France undermines African development and creates conditions that compel African immigrants to remain outside of Africa. The struggle of the Sans-papiers to remain in France is legitimised on the basis of France's own actions that deprive the African of the material conditions necessary for a life of dignity in Africa. (Gueye 2006: 236)

From a social movement perspective, the Sans-papiers are significant in a number of ways. Abdoulaye Gueye (2006: 226) says social movement scholars have neglected to study the collective action of African immigrants because, in France at least, they are not regarded as political actors. However, that is to underestimate the effects of their mobilisation, as well as to misconceive of it as political in the conventional sense. One of the demands of the Sans-papiers was essentially for the recognition of *difference*, which, as we saw in Chapter 5, is a central goal of contemporary 'new' social movements, according to thinkers like Melucci. Hence, in a plural society,

argues Cissé (1997: 45), a balance needs to be struck between French society and immigrants: 'a minimum of will to integrate, a minimum of respect for our cultures of origin'. Moreover, the quest for *autonomy* (another key concept in new social movement theory) is something that is identified as important by Gueye (2006: 229), for whom collective action by African immigrants in postcolonial France, including the Sans-papiers, 'is largely a process by which they strive to earn a relative degree of self-government in their own existence'.

Resource mobilisation theory is also relevant to the Sans-papiers movement. Of particular significance, here, is the role of pre-existing networks for movement mobilisation. In the case of the Sans-papiers, a crucial role was played by the more established anti-racist organisation, SOS-Racisme, 'which initially had a coordinating role among the groups of protesting immigrants [but] left the leadership of the movement to representatives of the Sans-papiers themselves' (Ruggiero 2001: 85). Furthermore, according to Cissé (1997: 43), the support of trade unions was fundamental to the struggle of the Sans-papiers, not least because this association reinforced their identity as workers.

Recognising that 'the geography of recruitment activity' is not alone in determining the resources and membership of social movement organisations, Miller (2000: 22–23) also considers the importance of framing approaches, which stress 'the ways in which issues are framed and how these frames resonate with various populations; to this there is also a geography', he argues. For instance, Cresswell's (1996) analysis of the Greenham Common women's peace camp shows how meaning is constructed and interpreted at the level of everyday life, and how that has implications for the resonance of social movement frames. As we saw in Chapter 6, when we looked at Alison Young's (1990) study of the Greenham protests, news media representations of female peace activists were overwhelmingly negative (i.e. female protestors were depicted as wild and unruly), which, Young argued, was because their publicly visible dissent 'disrupted femininity' by violating dominant norms about womanhood as passive and private. Providing a geographical perspective on the female activists' protest, Miller (2000: 24) says that, for Cresswell, it 'attracted a great deal of attention in substantial measure because the women transgressed place-specific norms of appropriate behaviour'.

Not surprisingly, Cresswell (1996: 124–125) draws on the idea of 'symbolic inversion' that is central to carnival/carnivalesque forms of protest – which we also used in Chapter 6 to apply to the spatial transgression of Russian feminist punk band, Pussy Riot – to show

how the behaviour of female peace activists at Greenham Common was 'out of place' (literally and metaphorically), since it 'denaturalised the dominant order [and] showed people that what seemed natural, could, in fact, be otherwise'. Hence, not only did the collective action of female peace protestors offend dominant gender norms, but, according to Miller (2000: 24), activists also 'deliberately framed their message to challenge the dominant norms of "proper" place-based behaviour'. Similarly, Paul Routledge has talked about the protests of the Madres de le Plaza de Mayo, which we encountered in Chapter 7, as an example of transgressive politics that is 'out of place' because it challenges everyday understandings of certain places:

> Motivated by anger, sadness and a clear sense of injustice, the protests took place in public spaces such as public squares and streets. The traditional understanding of such spaces in Argentina was that they were non-political (since proper politics was meant to take place in government buildings) and masculine (since public space was more associated with male activity – such as working or commuting to work – while women's activity occurred in more private spaces such as the home). These traditional understandings of space were challenged when the movement mobilised in public squares across the country. (Routledge 2017: 6)

While the women's movement has challenged the spatial order of gender relations in numerous ways by, for example, contesting the private sphere/public sphere divide, transgressing the socio-spatial norms of appropriate place-based behaviour is central to many social movements, including those relating to racial identity (see Box 8.2), which is itself spatialised when associated with terms like, 'the ghetto' (Miller 2000: 35). Similarly, Marston has shown how when the exclusion of gay and lesbian groups from New York's St Patrick's Day parade was upheld by the US Supreme Court in 1995, those groups used pre-parade street protests to contest discrimination. Here, then, 'space […] sits at the centre of the conflict over who gets to be Irish on St Patrick's Day in the United States' (Marston 2003: 230; see also Marston 2001).

Miller's (2000: 26) critique of the political process model is that it focuses on historical context, and when it 'does address geographic variations in political opportunity, it does so almost exclusively at national level'. However, to Miller (2000: 25), 'political opportunities are as much geographic as they are historic'. Accordingly, the widely accepted four dimensions of political opportunity clearly exhibit geographic variation:

> Political systems are more open in particular places and at particular scales; elite alignments are rarely stable everywhere;

> the presence or absence of elite allies varies from place to place; the state's capacity and propensity for repression vary not only among states but also among regions and highly localised geographic areas within states. (Miller 2000: 25)

Miller (2000: 4) illustrates the aspatiality of political process approaches by reference to Tarrow's concept of 'cycles of protest' (see Chapter 4), which calls attention to historical fluctuations in movement mobilisation, understood in light of complex interactions between external political opportunity structure and internal resource mobilisation. However, while Tarrow (1983) conceives of these interactions as building upon on another over time, 'there is no parallel attention to "spaces of protest" or "places of protest" that would direct the social movements scholar to look at geographic variations in resources, political opportunities, place-specific characteristics, and spatial interactions affecting social movement mobilisation' (Miller 2000: 4).

When considering the possible implications of geographic analysis for new social movement theory, Miller notes that most conceptualisations are based broadly on Habermas' approach. As noted above, however, while there are parallels between Habermas' distinction between *system* and *lifeworld* and Lefebvre's differentiation of *abstract space* and *social space*, Habermas tends to be insensitive to spatiality. And because he largely ignores socio-spatial relations, he 'thus underestimates spatial differentiation and many of the attendant dilemmas it poses for building a consensual basis of emancipatory politics' (Miller 2000: 32). However:

> The geographic constitution of systems and lifeworlds – or abstract spaces and social spaces, to use Lefebvre's spatial terminology – is manifest in a variety of ways. The territories that some collectivities build and defend are not just metaphorical but also real places, such as neighbourhoods, residential developments, schools, community centres, places of worship, and parks. The abstract spaces of the economy and state include workplaces, transportation facilities, day care centres, hospitals, clinics, and other formal institutions with tangible geographic manifestations in people's lives. (Miller 2000: 32–33)

For Miller (2000: 33), Melucci (1994: 114) is one of very few new social movement theorists who explicitly acknowledges the importance of the spatiotemporal framing of collective identity construction. Indeed, as we saw above, the need to consider the spatial aspects of (collective) identity formation is also something that, according to Miller (2000: 21), resource mobilisation theorists ought to consider since, he observes, '[g]eographically specific constructions of collective

identity – whether place-based or not – have implications for the bases on which particular social movement organisations are built, including possible avenues for and barriers to alliance formation'.

Notwithstanding Melucci's work, it appears few new social movement theorists have explored the concrete implications of identity formation and collective mobilisation by developing geographically sensitive empirical research agendas (Miller 2000: 33). However, when spatial processes have been linked to questions of identity in the geographical literature, that has demonstrated 'how common identities, experiences, understandings, and power relations are constructed in and through spaces and places of interaction' (Miller 2000: 34). In fact, according to Miller (2000: 34), there are 'innumerable examples of the ways in which sexual, gender, "racial", class, and ethnic identities are constructed through, and obtain their meaning in, space'.

Perhaps one of the most obvious ways that identity can be linked to issues of space is via the concept of autonomy, which, as we saw in Chapter 5, is crucial not only to Melucci but also other new social movement theorists, including Habermas and Touraine. It will be recalled that Touraine (1981) wants to discover the new social movement of programmed society, which seeks 'self-management' against technocratic control. Similarly, Habermas (1981: 36) argues new social movements arise at the seam between system and life-world to resist 'internal colonisation'. Likewise, Melucci (1985: 815) observes that contemporary social movements strive to reside in a new political space – an intermediate public space – that exists beyond the state and civil society, in which movements are able to maintain their autonomy. Indeed, it has been argued that autonomy is not the sole preserve of new movements (e.g. Plotke 1990), but is something many movements seek, lest cooptation, institutionalisation, or incorporation compromises their original, radical goals. And, in Chapter 7, we also saw how autonomy is important in the struggle of religious movements for 'free space' and 'identity spaces' (Beckford 2003: 172). In the following section, we will consider how, among other things, autonomy is a central theme of Indigenous peoples' movements.

INDIGENOUS PEOPLES' STRUGGLES FOR IDENTITY SPACE AND AUTONOMY

We have already seen some of the ways Indigenous peoples are connected to a variety of social movements. In Chapter 7, we saw how the Catholic Church's fight for social justice, according to the teachings of liberation theology, has, in the cases of Brazil and

Canada at least, included a search for justice for native people. Also in that chapter, we considered the impact of the spirituality of North American Indigenous peoples on the emergence of environmental activism, deep ecology, and ecofeminism. In many ways, these examples alert us to the fact that Indigenous peoples are involved in a variety of social movements, as well as the notion that Indigenous peoples themselves are concerned with a diversity of issues, and are not solely focused on issues we might typically associate with them, such as struggles for land rights, cultural recognition, and self-determination. Indeed, in Chapter 7, we saw how Native American women have forged 'unlikely alliances' with Christian Right groups on matters relating to abortion (Smith 2008). Some of these ideas will recur in this part of the chapter (see also Box 8.3), which is focused on exploring intersections between space, identity, and autonomy by reference to Indigenous peoples' movements.

In an early effort to fuse the fields of social movement studies and critical geography, Alice Feldman (2002: 42) demonstrates the ways in which the international Indigenous peoples' movement has carved out a space for itself globally. Like Miller (2000), she observes that the spatial dynamics and dimensions of social movements have largely been overlooked in the literature. Accordingly, she premises her arguments on perspectives in critical geography and geopolitics that see space as 'both a critical process and product in itself' (Feldman 2002: 43). Insofar as the incorporation of critical geography perspectives into social movement studies draws attention to the 'relationships between space, power and social transformation' (Feldman 2002: 32), it recognises that power relations are infused in the social geographies of marginalisation, which is central to many Indigenous peoples' struggles. Feldman (2002: 33) illustrates this point via the work of critical geographers who see space as 'the message and medium of domination' (Keith and Pile 1993: 37), believing people 'must occupy space and have an identity that commands a recognition of that occupation' (Shapiro 1999: 161) and, consequently, regard the 'Other' spaces in which identity politics is enacted as 'strategically spacialised' (Soja and Hopper 1993: 189). Such spaces, Feldman (2002: 33) argues, 'are especially critical for those who have been silenced or marginalised', such as Indigenous peoples, 'for they mark one's existence or non-existence, visibility or invisibility; one's "place", and all that springs from it'. Moreover, she shows how these perspectives are very similar to Melucci's idea, discussed above (and in Chapter 5), about contemporary social movements striving for the recognition of difference and formation of alternative cultural codes in autonomous public space (Feldman 2002: 33, 41–42).

During the 1970s, for instance, regional and world conferences not only provided the context for solidarity building, information

sharing, and agenda setting, but they also generated formal declarations as the basis for the international Indigenous peoples' movement's political and legal platform. Hence, Feldman (2002: 36) argues, '[t]he framing of claims and grievances in the languages of colonial subjugation and self-determination provided a language of possibility, linked to international law and steeped in a counter-colonial critique that would challenge the very foundations of colonial rule, along with the institutions and formations that have perpetuated their oppression'. Importantly, organising processes associated with the regional and world conferences had the effect of creating a new constituency of more than 300 million people and a new world map; 'a new space of existence, *the Fourth World*' (Feldman 2002: 36, original emphasis). Accordingly, there emerged a constituency of Indigenous peoples, who, in spite of their differences, were united by a common experience of centuries of colonial subjugation, and who created a significant imaginative space – an emotional, psychological, and intellectual space of freedom – within which: 'Indigenous peoples could nurture the seeds of their empowerment through self-identification and self-legitimation, regardless of the lack of official, state- or public-based recognition and in defiance of the material conditions of their oppression' (Feldman 2002: 36).

Subsequent developments included the 1993 International Year of the World's Indigenous Peoples, 'established to strengthen awareness of the problems Indigenous peoples experience and the need for greater international co-operation towards their solution' (Feldman 2002: 38), and the 1994 Universal Declaration of the Rights of Indigenous Peoples, which 'addresses three central areas of rights: cultural, land and resources, and self-determination' (Feldman 2002: 37). However, the recognition, adoption and elaboration of international standards relating to Indigenous peoples were also taken up by non-governmental organisations and human rights groups, which linked them to larger global issues and civil society mobilisations, 'from nuclear disarmament and environmental racism, to biopiracy and intellectual property rights' (Feldman 2002: 39). Moreover, Feldman (2002: 42) argues that in contrast to top-down approaches portraying social movements as reactive to globalising pressures, the international Indigenous peoples' movement has played a very active role in what 'ultimately amounts to centuries of Indigenous peoples' efforts to shape and force open international institutions and fields of mobilisation'.

At a more localised level, too, Indigenous peoples extend the reach of their concerns beyond claims traditionally associated with Indigenous rights. While issues of identity, self-determination, resource, and land

rights are frequently seen as key to Indigenous peoples' struggles, Luis Angosto Ferrández (2017: 185) shows how, in Venezuela, 'the Indigenous population has shown sustained support for the ongoing socio-economic and political enfranchisement as a priority over certain notions of free determination (such as territorial and political autonomy)'. Among other things, 'enfranchisement through the materialisation of socio-economic rights' requires Indigenous peoples interact with the state and its agencies (Angosto Ferrández 2017: 185). That, in turn, has given birth to a state-sponsored Indigenous movement, which is 'strongly based on an appeal to Indigenous identities, but its members also build their self-identification resorting to notions of socialism and anti-imperialism' (Angosto Ferrández 2017: 195). Hence, the 'state-sponsored' social movement Angosto Ferrández speaks of is quite distinct from the autonomous movements envisaged by Melucci (whereby movements occupy a space between state and civil society), although as we shall see, it is not uncommon for Indigenous peoples' movements to couch their claims and grievances in terms of wider issues relating to imperialism, colonialism, and capitalism. Indeed, the contention of this movement is not directed at the Venezuelan state, which it identifies as an ally. Instead, it is directed:

> … against imperialism, capitalism and supranational institutions that the movement members associate with such categories. The repertoire of activities of this type of collective action, including political rallies and workshops, partly runs outside conventional channels for political participation, yet it is oiled by a state agency. (Angosto Ferrández 2017: 196)

Given the ubiquity of neoliberal capitalism, it should be no surprise that, like other social movements, movements of Indigenous peoples (and movements including Indigenous peoples) have sought to resist neoliberalism (Maddison and Martin 2010). In Australia, for example, Aboriginal people have resisted neoliberal reforms that have resulted in the abolition of their national representative body, as well as amendments to legislation extinguishing 'native title' land rights (Walter 2010). However, the classic example of Indigenous peoples opposing neoliberal capitalism is the Zapatistas in the Chiapas region of Mexico, who aim to fulfil the dream of land redistribution that was envisioned originally by Emiliano Zapata during the 1910 Mexican revolution.

Comprising a 'seemingly ramshackle group of students, intellectuals, radicals, and Indigenous peasant rebels, the Zapatistas emerged from the jungle of the Chiapas region in 1994 within hours of the signing of the NAFTA agreement, hounding the Mexican federal forces from the region' (Tormey 2013: 130). Signed towards the end

of 1993, the North American Free Trade Agreement (NAFTA) united the economies of Mexico, Canada, and the United States in a single trading bloc. As a neoliberal reform, the NAFTA had a deleterious effect on the majority of peasants and their organisations in the countryside, consisting as it did of the 'dismantling of government agencies, reduction of credit, the removal of guaranteed crop prices, and the opening up of cheaper imports' (Harvey 1998: 170). Functioning as a direct challenge to the NAFTA, an autonomous zone emerged in the Chiapas region, comprising some forty villages that are to this day essentially self-governing and beyond federal rule; 'an autonomous area governed by an entirely different set of principles and norms, indeed a different philosophy, to the rest of the country' (Tormey 2013: 131). This autonomous area created by the Zapatistas operates via new participatory spaces called autonomous rebel Zapatista municipalities (MAREZ) and good governance councils (JBG), both focused 'on developing health, education and justice systems, achieving the sustainable management of the territory and creating an alternative form of citizenship' (Cortez Ruiz 2010: 167).

Described by Routledge (2017: 91, original emphasis) as perhaps the most important outcome of the Zapatistas' struggle, these municipalities 'articulate an alternative to *indigenismo* – the politics of assimilation of Indigenous peoples into the fabric of the Mexican state – by advocating the politics of *indianismo*, which articulates the Indigenous world view and promotes Indian political autonomy'. In contrast to the successes of the Zapatistas, Díaz-Parra and Roca (2017: 274) point to the limits of the 15M /Indignados' quest for spatial autonomy based on squatter tactics of occupying abandoned buildings, since it was founded on 'community fetishism' that ignored state agency or at least treated it as 'something artificially separated from society'. While they are equally sceptical of 'state fetishism' – which is akin to Melucci's idea of 'political reductionism' that was canvassed in Chapter 5 – they conclude: 'You cannot reconfigure space by ignoring the State, neither on a big scale nor over a long period' (Díaz-Parra and Roca 2017: 274).

Seen by many as the leader of the Zapatistas, the iconic figure of Subcomandante Insurgente Marcos (Figure 8.2) has been pivotal in orchestrating communications with the outside world, and translating the pragmatic set of principles known as 'Zapatismo', which is a mixture of poetry, philosophy, and rebel folklore. Importantly, however, Marcos sees himself as a spokesperson, among other spokespeople, rather than a leader, and does not regard himself a representative of the poor and oppressed, but as a 'mirror' for oppression across the world, including the oppression of Indigenous peoples. In this way, 'he is a key figure not only in the local politics of the struggles in Mexico, but in global activism generally' (Tormey 2006: 149). Hence, although the Zapatista insurgency was informed

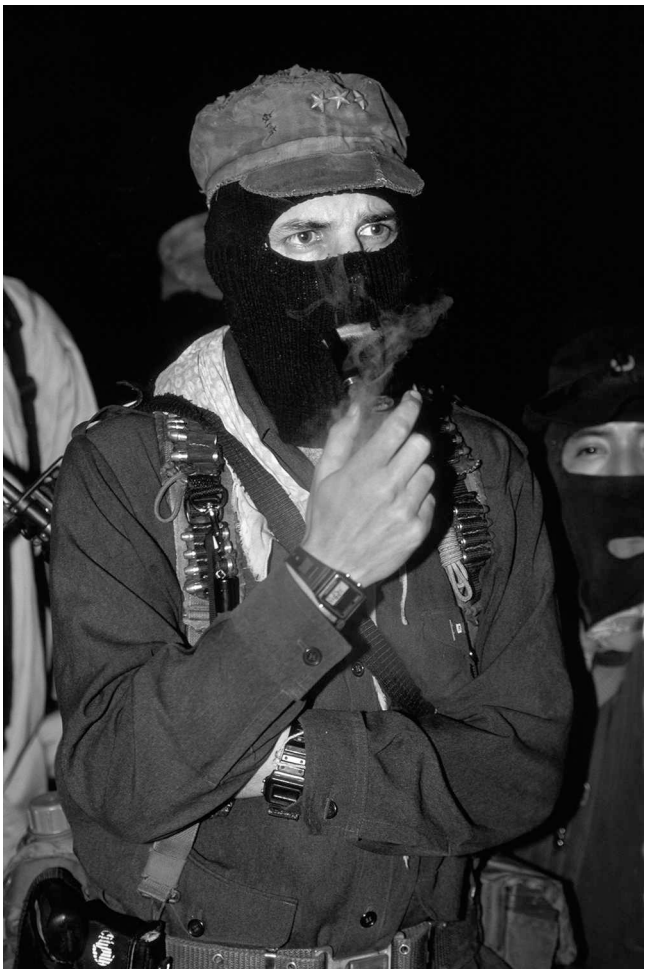


Figure 8.2 Subcomandante Marcos, leader of the Zapatista Army of National Liberation (EZLN), Chiapas, Mexico © Gianni Muratore/Alamy

by the place-specific political and cultural economy of Indigenous Mayan people in Chiapas, when, in 1996, 'Subcommandante Marcos called for an international network of resistance against neoliberalism, alter-globalisation mobilisations began to emerge around the world, inspired by the Zapatista call' (Routledge 2017: 91).

In demanding cultural recognition (for Indians in Mexico), it has been observed the Zapatistas, and the global movements they inspired, resemble new social movements, where likewise 'the cultural input is distinctly high' (Wieviorka 2005: 10). Indeed, what Simon Tormey sees as arguably novel and unique about the Zapatistas is not their opposition to neoliberalism but their desire to be free of ideology per se, which is, in a sense, wrapped up in their quest for autonomy (à la Melucci):

To return to Marco's tale, what becomes obvious is that he saw that what the Indigenous people wanted was not a new ideology, but release *from* an ideology, namely neoliberalism. The Zapatista revolt was in this sense a revolt *against* neoliberalism in the form of the NAFTA agreement, which would make the life of Mexico's poor even more miserable than it already was. Yet more than this, he began to see that the issue was not just about neoliberal ideology, but ideology more generally, even revolutionary ideology. What struck him was that the peoples of the Chiapas *already knew* how they would like to live. They simply wanted to run their own affairs rather than being pushed around by outsiders. (Tormey 2013: 132, original emphasis)

Box 8.3 Bolivia's water war

As the 'neoliberal turn' has been a region-wide phenomenon in Latin America (Sieder 2005), it is unsurprising opposition to it has not been limited to Indigenous peoples' struggles and has involved an array of different groups. Indeed, this is exemplified by the Zapatistas, who it has been said, 'have developed a strong Indigenous identity that leaves behind the old stereotypical identity of closed communities or separate ethnic groups, and instead solidifies a political identity unifying several ethnic and *mestizo* groups under an autonomous development project and their opposition to the government and neoliberalism' (Reygadas et al. 2009: 237, original emphasis).

The example of Bolivia's 'water war' provides another case in point. Fighting neoliberalism was central to protests against deregulation of the water supply in Bolivia's third largest city, Cochabamba, from 1999–2000, which also involved Indigenous peoples, among others. It also relates to a theme of this chapter insofar as it entailed a spatial strategy 'involving the blocking or enhancing of access to resources [and] markets' (Martin and Miller 2003: 150). Moreover, Bolivia's water war can be seen as following in a tradition of anti-corporate activism, which we have looked at in other parts of the book.

The Coordinadora por la Defensa del Agua y la Vida (Coordination for the Defense of Water and Life) was the principal social actor in the Bolivian water war. The movement was led by Oscar Olivera, a shoe factory worker and trade unionist, whose own rationale for acting, contained in the following quotation, inspired many followers: 'From my mother, the factory, the irrigators and ordinary working people, I learned that we must all be like water – transparent and in movement (Olivera 2004: 1).

Environmental factors such as the degradation of agricultural land and droughts combined with rapid population growth (due to rural-urban migration) meant water was a scarce resource in Cochabamba. The state agency (SEMAPA) responsible for the city's water and sewerage services only provided short-term solutions to this problem, such as drilling more wells. And it was against this background that the Bolivian Government sought to privatise the supply of water in the city.

In February 1999, it announced it would make investment conditions more 'flexible' for interested parties wishing to bid for the MISICUNI project; a multipurpose project to supply Cochabamba with water, and surrounding agricultural areas with irrigation. The only enterprise to show any interest in the project was Aguas del Tunari, a consortium that included multinational corporations Bechtel and Abengoa. After signing a contract in June 1999, Aguas del Tunari moved into the SEMAPA offices on 1 November, pledging to improve the water supply in Cochabamba and implement the MISICUNI project. Consortium manager, Geoffrey Thorpe, soon announced water rate increases of approximately 35 percent for December 1999 (to be paid the following month).

Meanwhile, on 29 November the Bolivian Government enacted Law 2029, introducing 'a regime of concessions and licences for the supply of portable water' (Assies 2003: 17); conditions which clearly favoured large enterprises, and granted concessionaires, such as Aguas del Tunari, exclusive rights over concession areas, including Cochabamba. A loose coalition of different groups with little formal organisation, the Coordination for the Defense of Water and Life (the Coordinadora) emerged to resist what amounted to the privatisation of water.

This was a new form of organisation in the history of Bolivian popular protest, which had a network-like structure and consisted of both rural and urban elements, including peasant and Indigenous peoples' cooperatives, urban territorial organisations, such as water committees and neighbourhood associations, workers' collectives and trade unions (albeit the latter played a marginal role), middle class professionals, and environmental groups. Predicting a far higher hike in water rates than Aguas del Tunari anticipated, the Coordinadora first marched into the Plaza 14 de Septiembre on 28 December 1999.

Early in January 2000, Cochabambinos began receiving water bills, some of which had increased by 150 percent. This precipitated a series of protests and battles with the authorities in the coming months: protestors marched and staged public demonstrations; threw stones and Molotov cocktails at municipal

offices; organised the ceremonial burning of water bills; used roadblocks; and threatened to call a general strike. At one stage, the Coordinadora held a referendum at short notice using 150 ballots to canvass the opinion of roughly 10 percent of population of the city: 99 percent objected to the water rate increase; 96 percent believed Aguas del Tunari's contract should be annulled; and 97 percent disagreed with the privatisation of water under Law 2029 (Assies 2003: 27). Police responded to the protesters by dousing them with tear gas and, in one incident, the military cut the power supply to an area of Cochabamba where numerous radio and television stations were located, presumably to prevent the media from provoking further social unrest.

On 7 April 2000, 'an unprecedented crowd gathered in the plaza to demand a break with Aguas del Tunari and revision of Law 2029, and it was decided to continue the blockades until the demands were met' (Assies 2003: 29). Protestors expected the army to arrive, and on 8 April a 'state of siege' was declared in the city. On 9 April, the government announced the withdrawal of Aguas del Tunari. On 10 April, Oscar Olivera claimed victory before a crowd in the Plaza 14 de Septiembre after the Coordinadora signed an agreement with government officials confirming SEMAPA would resume responsibility for the water supply in Cochabamba. On 11 April, a modified law was passed by parliament and, on 20 April, the state of siege was lifted.

Bolivia's water war is significant for a number of reasons that relate not only to our specific concerns in this chapter but also to some of our interests in other parts of the book. As mentioned above, it is an example of protest against neoliberalism and anti-corporate activism, which also contained a constituent of Indigenous peoples who, along with other poor populations, often suffer disproportionately the negative effects of neoliberal government policies and corporate activity. Among other things, that is because they are less able to bear the financial costs attached to the private provision of goods and services, or because they live in areas in which corporations can accommodate their externalities: for instance, the flooding of Indigenous peoples' land to make way for a hydroelectric power station; an example of 'environmental racism' experienced by Indigenous peoples (Feldman 2002: 39). Indeed, the Bolivian water war also demonstrates the persistence of settler colonialism, which, as will be discussed later in the chapter, is a grievance of many Indigenous peoples (Barker 2012), albeit this form of colonisation is perpetrated not by nation-states, but by transnational corporations (with state complicity) operating under conditions of global neoliberalism.

Police dousing protestors with tear gas, and the sabotaging by the military of the power supply in an area of Cochabamba with a high concentration of news media organisations, provide examples of the police control and state repression of social movements, which we explore below when we look at the policing of space at public protest events, as well as in Chapter 9 when we will look at media and movements, and in Chapter 10 when we consider protest policing during the COVID-19 pandemic. Finally, while the modification of legislation was a key goal of the Bolivian protestors, the Coordinadora's significance and influence extended beyond that. Despite being a single-issue movement that arose at a specific point in time, innovations in its 'repertoire of contention' (see Chapter 4), such as town meetings and the referendum, promoted direct democracy by encouraging debate and participation. Consequently, other issues were taken up in the wake of the water war, including 'the revision of electricity rates and the recovery of privatised state enterprises, and an initiative was taken to organise an international conference to protest globalisation' (Assies 2003: 34).

TEA PARTY, SOCIO-SPATIAL STRUCTURES AND THE GEOGRAPHY OF COLLECTIVE ACTION

Towards the end of Chapter 7 we saw how church leaders have criticised the irresponsibility of greedy consumerism and condemned growing inequality in society, and how that led to church support for the Occupy movement, which, in the case of the protest camp set up outside St Paul's Cathedral in London culminated in the resignation of Canon Chancellor Dr Giles Fraser, who was apparently critical of police handling of the camp and refused to sanction the use of force to remove protestors (Shackle 2011) (Figure 8.3). However, we also saw how these developments have produced populist responses, evident in the emergence of the Tea Party movement.

The point of convergence for the rise of Occupy and Tea Party was the GFC of 2008 that was sparked by the recklessness of banks' predatory lending of subprime mortgages to high-risk borrowers (touched upon in Chapter 5 in the context of austerity and protest). Hence, for many, Occupy arose at 'the moment when resistance to the inequalities of capitalism finally emerged: a tipping point in which the unfairness of the bank bailouts juxtaposed against rising personal poverty' (Pickerill and Krinsky 2012: 279). At the same time, Tea Partiers saw 'their jobs vanish in front of their eyes as Wall



Figure 8.3 Protesters camped out on the piazza of St Paul's Cathedral in the Occupy London Stock Exchange demonstration, 21 October 2011 © Alan Gallery/Alamy

Street [got] trillions' (Berlet 2010a). Significantly, given the focus of this chapter, it has been observed that notwithstanding the very different substantive issues they raise, analyses of both Occupy and the Tea Party movement provide useful insights into the relationship between space and social movements. Accordingly, in the next two sections of the chapter, we will consider not only the grievances of the Tea Party and Occupy but also the spatial and geographic relevance of each movement.

The Tea Party movement emerged in the United States in 2009 'as a response to economic stagnation and crisis, secular challenges to traditional religious identities and the election of an African-American president' (Langman 2012: 469). As a form of right-wing populism, the movement follows a long tradition of anti-establishment mobilisation 'in which the "good, decent little people", the so-called "innocent victims", who distrust government, defend themselves against corrupt and evil forces from above whose policies are responsible for their

pain and suffering' (Langman 2012: 470). Moreover, in contrast to Indigenous peoples, discussed previously, Tea Party people 'tend to be reactionary, nativist, nationalist, and xenophobic' (Langman 2012: 470, citing Berlet 2010b). Hence, their ire is directed at:

> … liberal elites, big money interests, a government that served the 'big guys', and fearful that 'Obama the revolutionary' was moving their country towards socialism. They were anxious, angry and resentful, raging against federal bureaucracy, liberal government programs and policies including health care, immigration reform and labour laws, abortion, and gay marriage. (Berlet 2010b)

Tea Party activism, then, is the result of 'a complex mix of reactionary populism, anti-government rhetoric, and anger at the recent Great Recession, all focused into a sharp point by directing anger at President Obama' (Fasenfest 2012: 464). To Ashbee (2011: 157), the 'intense personal and political antipathy towards President Obama, his administration and Congressional Democrats' is largely 'inchoate in character', demonstrated by the fact nearly 'a third (30 percent) of Tea Party supporters believed that President Obama was not born in the United States'. Moreover, 'when asked what they liked least about Obama, some pointed to his backing for healthcare reform and economic policy, a significant proportion either said that they "don't like him" in general terms or turned to a generalised claim that he was "turning (the) US into (a) socialist country"' (Ashbee 2011: 157). Other examples of the movement's contradictory orientations include the anger of Tea Partiers at 'government largesse going to the undeserved – even as they refuse to identify their own feeding at the government trough as partaking of government support', which has been observable in 'signs exhorting the government to keep its hand off Medicare, one of the biggest government programs' (Fasenfest 2012: 464) (see Figure 8.4).

It is perhaps important to note, too, that the original Tea Party protests of 1773 constituted some of the first anti-corporate events in American history, where anger was directed at the East India Company's use of its power as a monopoly to influence the government's introduction of the Tea Act of 1773, 'which increased taxes paid by colonists on tea, while simultaneously lowering taxes levied on the Company so it could offer its tea at far lower prices than smaller companies, thereby driving smaller companies out of business' (Soule 2009: 1).

Turning to the spatial relevance of Tea Party activism, Michael Thompson (2012) has attempted to explain the emergence of conservative movements like Tea Party by reference to the socio-spatial contexts in which individuals are socialised. In particular, he wants to understand why it is that the non-urban spaces from which the



Figure 8.4 Concerned citizens rally at a Tea Party political event at Farran Park in Eustis, Florida, 15 April 2009 © Ron S Buskirk/Alamy

Tea Party and other grassroots conservative movements emerge seem to make individuals susceptible to certain ways of thinking that leads to a more conservative ideological outlook. He argues that the characteristic spatial structure of non-urban forms of life affects a kind of 'constrained socialisation', which has a strong influence on social relations and individuals' 'moral cognition', and hence forms the basis for the development of the 'conservative personality'. For Thompson (2012: 513), this 'emphasis on personality is important because', he contends, 'we need to see that there are certain social-environmental conditions that can affect the ways that individuals cognise and feel about certain moral and political themes'.

Thompson (2012: 513) calls upon social scientists interested in the genesis of conservative politics to turn their attention to the 'geographic dispersion of ideologies'. In a sense, he is trying to provide a back story to the well-established empirical data that indicates 'a strong association between national voting patterns and the urban/suburban/exurban divide, suggesting that the less "urban" an area is, the more its residents choose conservative political candidates' (Thompson 2012: 513). However, he argues 'not that voters of a particular persuasion simply move to non-urban areas, but that non-urban spaces play an active, indeed causal, role in the production and maintenance of such values' (Thompson 2012: 514). To be sure, Thompson (2012: 516) wishes to escape the crude city-suburb dichotomy, providing instead that the 'focus ought to be placed on the nature of socio-spatial form

and the ways these formations can affect levels of association and degrees of homogeneity'.

For Thompson, the reason there are high concentrations of conservative voters in non-urban areas is because in those areas (which includes many American suburbs) *closed* socio-spatial structures predominate. In contrast to *open* socio-spatial structures, which promote centripetal patterns of social interaction and heterogeneity of interaction, closed structures are defined by their centrifugal force, which disperses people and discourages interaction and dialogue, as well as by homogenous forms of interaction, which 'encourage a more limited sense of self and world thereby promoting more limited forms of moral cognition' (Thompson 2012: 518). The socio-spatial distinction between open and closed structures also corresponds, respectively, to *fluid* and *dogmatic* styles of moral cognition. In the fluid form of moral cognition:

> … an individual is able to tolerate differing understandings and interpretations of the world. He is able to see issues from differing perspectives, is willing to depart from and critically examine his own internalised value-orientations, and is also able to consider revising his own worldviews in light of new evidence and better reasons. (Thompson 2012: 523–524)

On the other hand, an individual approaching the world with a dogmatic style of moral cognition:

> … is less likely to consider the ideas of others and more likely to need to assert what he believes to be true, to insist on it being taken as correct, and to see the norms that he has been socialised into as being intrinsically correct. (Thompson 2012: 524)

Thompson suggests the new grassroots conservative movements like Tea Party are an expression of dogmatic styles of moral cognition, which, he argues, is largely the product of closed socio-spatial structures predominant in non-urban American life. And Tea Partiers exhibit many of the characteristics of people with a dogmatic moral cognition style, including support for the principles of economic conservatism, which forms a dimension of what they consider to be the social status quo, as well as expressing a certain kind of authoritarianism 'that "rightfully" punishes groups that do not work hard or contribute "properly" to society' (Thompson 2012: 524). Moreover, economic conservatism intersects with moral conservatism, which manifests in a defensiveness about traditional forms of community and family life. This, in turn, 'activates strong expressions of anti-intellectualism' (Thompson 2012: 524), which consists of an amalgam of various traits born of the dogmatism

caused by closed socio-spatial structures, including conflict avoidance, an inability to partake in critical debate, lack of reflexive consciousness, and the need to ensure social conformity, which can lead to fear of those perceived as a threat because they are 'different'.

Many of these anxieties are personified in figure of the US President, Barak Obama, who is feared not only for his 'Otherness' – including 'his race, his foreign father, and his background as a college professor and community organiser' (Skocpol and Williamson 2012: 79) – but also because he is 'a symbol of many other things that Tea Partiers hate, including, in their view, over-educated, arrogant liberals who try to impose their views on the rest of the country through their control of the "liberal" media, government, and universities' (Dreier 2012: 760). Accordingly, 'the conservative mind will tend towards control, order, and simplicity in order to compensate for the disorienting world of change it experiences' (Thompson 2012: 524). And with its emphasis on 'the need for smaller government, support for radical tax cuts, for 'free' markets, and so on' the Tea Party, as with other grassroots conservative groups, is an expression of 'rage against the changing social order where white, working, middle, and upper-middle class segments of the population are feeling a decay in their standards of living and a renewed air of economic insecurity' (Thompson 2012: 524). For Thompson (2012: 523), then, '[c]onservatism and non-urbanism become not so much causally necessary or inevitable as much as a likely outcome'.

References to anger, fear, anxiety, hate, and rage, among others, indicate clearly the significance of emotionality in Tea Party activism, which evokes some of the material we considered in Chapter 6, when we looked at how passion and emotion are important features of many social movements. Indeed, in that chapter we also saw how collective action can combine emotion and expression with strategy and cognition (Goodwin et al. 2001b: 15; Kemper 2001: 69), while in Chapter 7 we referred to Jasper's (1998: 215) view of social movements comprising both strategic purpose and emotion. Similarly, Cho et al. (2012: 105, 111) argue the Tea Party movement has been simultaneously expressive and strategic, where strategy is defined in terms of success in the 2010 US election. Adopting a geographic perspective, they say that in their study they expected 'emotion to rival obvious electorally strategic considerations', hypothesising that Tea Party activism might be strongest in areas suffering most economic hardship, and especially in those places with highest unemployment and mortgage foreclosure rates (Cho et al. 2012: 111). That hypothesis was partially borne out by the 'remarkably higher Tea Party activity in "housing bubble" states such as Nevada, Florida, Arizona, and California' (Cho et al. 2012: 126). Accordingly, analysis of Tea Party events:

> … demonstrates that activity is highly correlated with expressive factors. First and foremost, it is expressive of economic restlessness, especially in areas where home foreclosures were running high from 2008 onwards. This helps explain the especially high rates of Tea Party activism in locations such as Florida, California, Nevada and Arizona. (Cho et al. 2012: 130)

Conversely, Cho et al. (2012: 131) conclude, 'the geographic patterns of Tea Party activities do not reveal much evidence of strategic direction in 2010'. Locations where the Republican percentage of the vote in presidential elections is traditionally high did not show particularly high levels of Tea Party activity. In fact, 'Republican districts saw *less* activism' (Cho et al. 2012: 126, original emphasis). Moreover, grassroots energy and enthusiasm for Tea Party grievances 'was commonly found in areas where it was of little electoral benefit, e.g. in the districts of safe incumbents' (Cho et al. 2012: 131), which suggests, in this case, political activity is an expression of identity, i.e. 'that they are Republicans who identity with the small government, anti-debt, anti-regulatory message of the Tea Party' (Cho et al. 2012: 110).

While Cho et al. (2012: 130) 'are convinced that elites of some stripe were critical in helping to organise events', they say, 'it is very difficult to see the hand of traditional, political elites in the Tea Party patterns', which, interestingly, is a finding at odds with DiMaggio's (2011) view that the Tea Party is not a genuine grassroots social movement, but is a proxy for a Republican elite, backed by the right-wing US media. On the role of business elites (including billionaire reactionaries) and the conservative media (such as Fox News) Skocpol and Williamson (2012) agree with DiMaggio. However, they diverge from him, in their disputation of the notion the Tea Party came 'out of nowhere', since, they argue, many Tea Partiers already had deep ties to extant local conservative groups and Republican organisations.

Supporting that view, Ehrhardt (2020) provides data from a six-year ethnographic comparison of Tea Party chapters in Western North Carolina. While most studies have attempted to explain Tea Party's origins and meanings by recourse to larger cultural-structural forces, Ehrhardt focuses on micro-processes of local citizen activism, showing how chapter leaders (the missing element in most analyses of the Tea Party movement) play a key role in controlling the flow of messaging from national organisations to members and in pursuing idiosyncratic local agendas. We shall return to look at the dispute over whether the Tea Party was media manufactured or is a genuine grassroots movement in the next chapter. For the time being, we will look at the importance of geography and space for the Occupy movement.

Box 8.4 NIMBYs, NIABYs or YIMBYs?

A familiar example of geographically specific social movements is local NIMBY (Not In My BackYard) groups (see Figure 8.5). Not unlike the Tea Party movement, one might expect the grievances and goals of such groups to be 'exclusively narrow, single-issue, or reactive' (Shemtov 1999: 91). However, in some ways, these groups are more like Indigenous peoples' movements, which, as we have seen, are often inclusive of a wide



Figure 8.5 Protest of local residents in a suburb of Sydney, Australia, against the building of an aquatic centre in their neighbourhood © Greg Martin

range of issues, not limited to those typically associated with the struggles of native peoples, such as fighting for land rights, cultural recognition and self-determination.

Indeed, in his study of local environmental (anti-incinerator) NIMBY groups, Shemtov (1999) shows how many of these social movement organisations expand their goals to become proactive and future-oriented, broadening their geographical scope, as well as offering solutions to pollution problems and prognoses about environmental threats. Hence, many activists reject the NIMBY label as parochial and stigmatising (Shemtov 1999: 99). Key here is what Shemtov (1999: 92) observes as activists taking ownership of the problem, which affects a kind of 'cognitive liberation' (McAdam 1982: 34) that we encountered in Chapter 6. Thus, '[b]y motivating NIMBY actors to cognitively break free from reliance on the "expertise" of elected officials, ownership frames empower local activists to develop an independent diagnosis and prognosis that helps them broaden their initial, collective agenda' (Shemtov 1999: 101).

Framing issues broadly has also been identified as an important factor in determining the relative success of small, local social movements. In his study of groups opposed to the siting of Wal-Mart superstores in their communities, Halebsky (2006: 453) found that 'broad framings were more successful than narrow framings'. Two particular types of broad framings were key to social movement success in anti-Wal-Mart disputes: (i) geographically broad framing; and (ii) those emphasising the harmful effects of the superstore on the *entire* community (as opposed to insular campaigns that failed to elicit widespread support since they spoke only to a small section of the community).

A major factor in the success of these groups was their influence over local government agencies – and especially the local city council – which shape political opportunity structures (Halebsky 2006: 444). Providing tangible evidence of widespread support for the movement's goals acts particularly upon politicians, 'who have a keen interest in being re-elected, by motivating them to bring their actions in line with their constituents' (Halebsky 2006: 455). In sum, Halebsky (2006: 456, original emphasis) says 'broad framing influences politicians by indicating that the issue is of concern to *many* of their constituents, while it influences the public-at-large by compelling them to see the issue as a problem for *them* and not just for somebody else, and thus shifts the debate from NIMBY (Not In My BackYard) to NIABY (Not In Anyone's BackYard)'.

Likewise, in a study of land-use conflicts in Finland, Veikko Eranti (2017) draws on Gibson's (2005) notion that NIMBY can relate to broader ideas of civic participation rather than is often the case, framing NIMBY as having normative or even moralising undertones, such that it is seen as the selfish expression of private interests. Specifically, Eranti analyses the dispute letters sent by individual residents to planning authorities in land-use cases, finding argumentation in those letters most frequently used public justification based on the common good to contest proposed land-use changes.

In his study of the housing activism of millennials in five American cities, Max Holleran (2021) adds a further term into the mix: YIMBY or 'Yes In My BackYard'. He shows how arguments about affordable housing and suburban planning are often framed in generational terms, 'despite the fact constraints to homeownership are largely economic or class based' (Martin and Roberts 2021: 736). While millennial-age housing activists seek more apartment development, fewer zoning laws and push for market-rate rental housing, they accuse baby boomers of NIMBYism, since they form neighbourhood groups opposing growth, and also seek to prevent zoning to increase housing density and higher occupancy. By contrast, many of the groups supporting growth have banded together under the banner of the YIMBY movement 'to argue for higher density, better public transit, and a general relaxation of zoning laws that neighbourhood groups fight to protect' (Holleran 2021: 848).

In this sense, the struggle over space ensues from what Deborah Martin (2003: 733, original emphasis) calls 'place-framing' around neighbourhood identity as it pertains to 'common experiences among people in a place, as well as imagining an ideal of how the neighbourhood *ought* to be'. Put another way, the struggle reflects contested ways of valuing place that gives rise to contrasting 'senses of place' (Nicholls 2007: 616) or a particular 'terrain of resistance' (Routledge 1993), which refers to:

> … the sites of contestation and the multiplicity of relations between hegemonic and counter-hegemonic powers and discourses, between forces and relations of domination, subjection, exploitation and resistance. It refers to the movement within and between these forces and relations – a movement of contradiction, multiplicity and heteronomy. More specifically, a terrain of resistance represents an interwoven web of specific

> symbolic meanings, communicative processes, political discourses, religious idioms, cultural practices, social networks, economic relations, physical settings, envisioned desires and hopes. These are endowed with varying degrees of strategic force, movement and meaning according to the particular spatial, cultural and historical contexts of a conflict. (Routledge 1996: 516).

WHY SPACE MATTERS TO OCCUPY

Frustration over the bailout of Wall Street help feed the frustrations of Tea Partiers who felt 'the reckless economic risks of bankers and mortgage defaulters were being unfairly subsidised by taxpayers' (Courser 2012: 52). Hence, the feeling that the established political order has stopped responding to the concerns of average voters led to a call for populist democracy by the Tea Party. Indeed, insofar as the real issue driving the Tea Party is 'not partisan rage on the right but a profound sense of crisis of governmental legitimacy that should deeply concern us all' (Rasmussen and Schoen 2012: 15), there are stark similarities with Occupy, which was also a response to the significant 'legitimacy deficit' in modern societies, that, as we saw in Chapter 7, is regarded by Bryan Turner (2013: 80, 149) as the root cause of the Tea Party and Occupy Wall Street movements.

Similarly, Paolo Gerbaudo (2023) argues Occupy represents a 'populist turn' in protest politics – something we also considered in Chapter 1 – evident in other movements including the Gilets Jaunes (see Chapter 6) that seek an appeal to 'the people against elites' (see also Aslanidis 2016). To Gerbaudo, Occupy Wall Street attempted to unify by identifying with a social majority – such as in the 'we are the 99 percent' slogan – in a deliberate effort also to move away from the self-ghettoising tendencies of movements in past protest waves, e.g. the anti-globalisation movement of the 1990s and 2000s. However, the adoption of a popular identity was not unproblematic, with critics (including activists) arguing it detracted from class conflict, undermined internal diversity and pluralism (see Box 8.5), and risked opening up the movement to infiltration by nationalists and other right-wing groups.

Given the above, it is no surprise that the bipartisan nature of frustrations voiced by millions of Americans, initially at least, caused pundits and journalists to consider the Occupy movement as the left-wing counterpart to Tea Party (Dreier 2012: 761). And while the two movements do differ significantly in respect of their protest repertoires, grievances, goals, and so forth, both nevertheless contribute,

albeit in different ways, to our understanding of the relationship between space, social movements, and protest politics.

For Sbicca and Perdue (2014: 310), Occupy is an example of the practice of *spatial citizenship*, which 'arises in opposition to the uneven processes of neoliberalisation, specifically the state facilitation of capital accumulation through privatisation, deregulation, financialisation and trade liberalisation'. On this view, '[s]patial citizens engage and reclaim public spaces in their quest for democracy' (Sbicca and Perdue 2014: 311). Similarly, according to Pickerill and Krinsky, 'making space' is one of the reasons Occupy matters. In London, for instance, 'the failed attempt to occupy space within the square mile of the City facilitated a public realisation that the financial corporate world was not only off-limits to most, economically and socially, but also quite literally' (Pickerill and Krinsky 2012: 280).

Moreover, as with the sites of most protest camps, which are chosen to 'draw attention to an injustice' (Brown et al. 2018: 11), the tactic of setting up physical encampments was both strategic and symbolic: 'Occupy camps reasserted the spatial dimensions of exclusion and inequality by forcing society to recognise that capitalist accumulation happens in certain places, and that these places can be named, located and objected to' (Pickerill and Krinsky 2012: 280). The encampments thus 'reasserted the power of the tactic to camp, and the power of such encampments to identify the geography of capitalism' (Pickerill and Krinsky 2012: 280–281). Importantly, though, to Pickerill and Krinsky (2012: 281), this focus on space poses a challenge to social movement studies, which must 'move beyond merely conceptualising the extent of space or the compression of space by time (as with discussions of globalisation and 'scaling up' protest), and instead to more thoroughly explore the strategic use and occupation of space as symbolic'.

Indeed, Occupy not only 'contrasted the public space owned and controlled by the state with a common space, opened and shared by those who occupied and shared it according to their own rules', they also rejected representative politics in favour of embodied prefigurative politics (Routledge 2017: 56). Likewise, the largely student-led Umbrella Movement that occupied an area of Hong Kong in 2014 was protesting at a political system with a very limited form of representative democracy. In that case, protestors moved into what became known as Harcourt Village, which for a short period had what might be described as 'prefigurative infrastructure', including a tent city with free water, toiletries, and bathrooms regularly cleaned by volunteers, first aid provision, and a homework zone where tutors helped students sat at improvised desks (Dapiran 2017: 8, 78).

As with other forms of protest discussed in Chapter 6, the Umbrella Movement also prompted an intense outburst of creativity. Art students from Hong Kong Baptist University created 'a patchwork



Figure 8.6 Hong Kong riot police shoot tear gas on protesters at night on Nathan Road during Umbrella Movement protests, 18 November 2019 © hano iki/Alamy

canopy made from discarded umbrellas damaged by pepper spray and tear gas' deployed by police seeking to disperse crowds in the early days of the protests (Dapiran 2017: 80), 'posters covered the walls of public and commercial buildings, slogans and sketches in chalk decorated the roads and footpaths and walls, and the protest sites overflowed with paintings, sculptures and installations' (Dapiran 2017: 7), and there was a constant array of spontaneous events, including music and dance performances (Dapiran 2017: 79).

These examples of protestors enacting prefigurative politics echo the way Melucci conceives of contemporary social movements as 'cultural laboratories' (Melucci 1989: 60) experimenting in alternative forms of socialisation (Melucci 1984: 829, 1985: 789). Given that, it is no surprise the collective learning of activists during the 2014 Umbrella Movement protests helped pave the way for the successful mobilisation of Hong Kong's 2019 anti-extradition movement (Ho 2020). Indeed, to Feigenbaum et al. (2013: 233), 'protest camps can be read as laboratories of the politics of the commons', which is increasingly a feature of much social movement practice across:

> … a range of examples of such place-based laboratories, including social centres, neighbourhood organisations and newly founded autonomous universities, to name but a few. In these laboratories, people take matters into their own hands, pursuing a 'post-capitalist politics' that seeks to expand non-capitalist practices and to gain collective autonomy for them. (Feigenbaum et al. 2013: 233–234)

Another way Occupy expressed the symbolic significance of space and articulated opposition to the privatisation of public space was through the use of what we might call a 'carnivalesque protest repertoire', which, as seen at various junctures in this book, entails the reversal or overturning of dominant norms, codes, meanings, and structures. In Chapter 6, for example, we considered Pussy Riot's performance of a 'punk prayer' in the Cathedral of Christ the Saviour in Moscow as carnivalesque in nature, since it was about young women occupying a sacred space that is symbolic of patriarchal religious power and authority (Seal 2013: 295). Occupy's tactic of setting up camp at key points of capital accumulation, such as Wall Street and the City of London, is equally carnivalesque, for it inverts the primary use of those spaces and thereby poses a 'symbolic challenge' to dominant codes (Melucci 1996), including the prevailing organisational logic of capitalism. In short, locating itself at the heart of the City of London, provided a 'counter-temporality' (Adams 2011), and 'reasserted the agency of territoriality based on social movements' (Halvorsen 2012: 431). Like Pussy Riot, Occupy London also protested in a sacred space at St Paul's Cathedral (Shackle 2011) (see Figure 8.3). However, the similarities do not stop here.

Although not directly relevant to our concern in this chapter with the spatial dimensions of social movements, it is worth noting that the protests of Occupy and Pussy Riot both lend support to Eyerman and Jamison's (1991: 3–4) 'cognitive praxis' approach to social movements, which, it will be recalled, refers to a movement's success in diffusing its consciousness or spreading its knowledge interests. In Chapter 6, we saw how while she acknowledges the continued stereotyping of women and negative representation of femininity across Western societies, Seal (2013: 298) says the Western media's endorsement of Pussy Riot's feminism can be explained in terms of the incorporation of elements of feminism and post-feminism into news media discourse in the West over the past two decades. Similarly, by crafting and repeating slogans, such as 'we are the 99 percent' (whether correct or not), Occupy has been successful in spreading an 'incredibly powerful' message about the nature of inequality in capitalist societies, and according to Pickerill and Krinsky (2012: 281) that has been 'key to the success of the movement', since '[i]t is exactly through this repetition that slogans come to populate the discourse and establish their own truths'.

Box 8.5 Already occupied: Indigenous peoples and Occupy movements

Earlier in the chapter, we were reminded of material presented in Chapter 7, showing how Native American women have forged 'unlikely alliances' with Christian Right groups on abortion

issues (Smith 2008). Conversely, one might think Indigenous peoples and Occupy's 99 percent would constitute a 'likely alliance', given their apparently congruent concerns, namely 'broad-based opposition to economic and political marginalisation, strong sub-currents of environmentalism and direct democracy and antipathy towards state violence' (Barker 2012: 327). However, as Barker (2012: 327) shows, although groups of Indigenous peoples have engaged with Occupy in North America, they 'have also raised powerful critiques of the goals, philosophies and tactics of various Occupy movements'. To Han and Strolovitch (2015), that has been a consequence of Occupy casting its net too wide when creating partnerships with 'bystander publics' – including Indigenous groups – under a broad set of economic and social justice grievances that ultimately could not address the concerns of an array of marginalised groups comprising those bystander publics. Indeed, many of the concerns of Indigenous peoples remain unaddressed by Occupy, including, most significantly, legacies of historical colonisation that are the cause of persistent colonial dynamics in contemporary settler societies (Barker 2012: 328). Hence:

> For settler states such as Canada and the USA, the reality of capitalist oppression is inseparable from the history of colonisation; the concerns of Indigenous communities are not necessarily those of the 99% and 'occupation' as term and tactic needs to be fundamentally reconsidered. (Barker 2012: 329)

To Barker (2012: 329), the last point is most important, for Canada and the US together constitute the northern bloc of settler colonialism, which is a space that 'was created and has been perpetuated through the production of a "structure" of invasion'. And, since '[t]hat invasion has never ended; this space is already occupied' (Barker 2012: 329). Noteworthy, here, is a poster entitled, 'Decolonise Wall Street', that was distributed widely by Occupy groups online. The poster, depicting a Native American, with accompanying text, 'Wall St. is on occupied Algonquin land' and 'defend Mother Earth', has been subject to much debate and criticism. Among other things, it is argued the poster presents a confused message by portraying an 'aesthetic commonly appropriated by Settler people in constructing myths of pure, noble savages', and using another overplayed trope to exhort supporters to defend Mother Earth, 'as if Indigenous concerns are strictly environmental, leaving economic and political critiques to others' (Barker 2012: 329).

Barker suggests it is important to remember occupying particular sites has a long history in Indigenous peoples' struggles against colonial aggression. However, he says, these occupations are fundamentally different from those of the various Occupy movements, which 'seek to claim the spaces created by state power and corporate wealth – specific sites such as Zuccotti Park or Wall Street, and more general spaces of urban poverty and suburban collapse' (Barker 2012: 329). By contrast, Indigenous occupations seek:

> … to reclaim and reassert relationships to land and place submerged beneath the settler colonial world. Their occupations do not question simply the divisions of wealth and power in the northern bloc; they question the very existence of settler colonial nation-states. (Barker 2012: 329)

Given the pervasiveness of settler colonialism, says Barker (2012: 330), its persistence within Occupy is unsurprising. And that is why although Indigenous dispossession has its roots in capital accumulation, Occupy has focused on the abuse of power and position of individuals and corporations, which is a problem to be resolved by the 99 percent. However, Indigenous peoples are not part of the 99 percent in the way most settler people are:

> In order to enter the social space of the 99%, Indigenous peoples must ignore generations of difference making and marginalisation by governments and Settler communities, and assume the role of a politicised 'minority' in solidarity with other minority groups making equivalent claims. Participation is contingent on abandoning fundamental aspects of indigeneity. (Barker 2012: 331)

Indigenous activism constitutes 'the act of reconnecting with land, and through this, to identity, social cohesion and self-sufficiency [and] is practised through the direct, collective assertion of place-based relationships that inform a worldview encompassing individual and group identities, resource acquisition and use, and governance structures and social institutions' (Barker 2012: 332). While Indigenous peoples are willing to include non-Indigenous peoples in their struggle, Barker argues the goals of Indigenous liberation and decolonisation appear to be lost on the Occupy movements, which have engaged only partially with Indigenous concerns:

> The Occupy protestors may be more than this, but thus far their unwillingness to engage with Indigenous concerns and settler colonial privilege in the main seems to reinforce the point. The nationalistic, racialised nature of Occupy movements in North America does not just leave Indigenous peoples out; it situates Occupy as another settler colonial dynamic participating in the transfer of land and space to the hands of the settler colonial majority. (Barker 2012: 333)

Interestingly, in their study of a local iteration of Occupy Wall Street, Occupy Gainesville (OG), Sbicca and Perdue (2014) show how the 99 percent are divided in terms of privileged activists who choose to occupy public protest space, and those who have no option other than to occupy that space, including homeless people. They show how this division was clearly evident in the policing of OG, when 'police originally chose to work with the mainly white OG protestors and not arrest them for sleeping on sidewalks, while arresting the largely black homeless people for the same, politically unmotivated behaviour' (Sbicca and Perdue 2014: 317).

POLICING SPACE

According to Pickerill and Krinsky (2012: 285), another reason why Occupy matters relates to the politics of policing. Law enforcement responses to Occupy have tended to be harsh. In Oakland, for example, an activist nearly died after being assaulted by police. And although most Occupy camps were cleared on the pretext of health and safety grounds or the need to ensure public order, Pickerill and Krinsky (2012: 285) say the harsh treatment of Occupy activists is symptomatic of the increased securitisation of society over the past decade, as well as 'an ongoing erosion of the right to dissent for much longer'. To Pickerill and Krinsky (2012: 285), Occupy is pertinent to the politics of protest policing on three grounds: 'Occupy has illustrated the extent to which protest policing has evolved, the ways in which policing tactics have diffused across countries, and the very act of confronting the police has a central place in what could be called the "Occupy" repertoire'. We will consider some of these issues in this section, which deals specifically with the policing of protest space.

In the book so far we have focused principally on the collective action of protestors, which has meant that, apart from a few exceptions – when we have considered countermovement responses to

social movements – we have not looked at state responses to social movements and protest politics. In particular, we have not considered in any great depth the ways protest is subject to state repression and social control by police, although in Chapter 1 we did look at the criminalisation of dissent and policing in the context of an emergent 'post-protest society'. In Chapter 6, we saw briefly how the happiness and positivity generated during the theatrical protest performances of Peruvian women's grassroots groups differed from angry mainstream protests that sometimes provoke an aggressive police response (Moser 2003: 185). Also in that chapter, we considered how accounts of violent clashes between New Age Travellers and police were retold by travellers as a 'war story', similar to the way soldiers do after a battle (Fine 1995: 136; Martin 1998: 740–741). Earlier in this chapter, we saw how police responded to protesters during Bolivia's water war in a similarly repressive fashion, as well as how authorities in France came down hard on the Sans-papiers movement. In Chapter 10, we will also take a look at some of the ways protest was policed during the COVID-19 pandemic.

Protest policing has evolved over time, and has done so partly in response to the changing repertoire or tactics of social movements (Martin 2011b: 28–29). It is argued there has been a move away from a 'hard' or 'escalated force' approach to public order and protest policing, which was prevalent during the 1960s, and a move towards a 'soft' policing style (della Porta and Reiter 1998: 17). Hence, commentators talk of police *handling* protest events, which is 'a more neutral description for what protestors usually refer to as "repression" and the state as "law and order"' (della Porta and Reiter 1998: 1; della Porta and Fillieule 2004: 217). Thus, it is suggested there has been 'a general softening of social control, as the velvet glove increasingly comes to replace, or at least cover, the iron fist' (Marx 1998: 255).

In this context, we witness the emergence of the 'managed incorporation of dissent' (Waddington and King 2007: 419), or the 'negotiated management' approach (Fernandez 2008: 14–15) to protest policing, features of which include 'the protection of free speech rights, toleration of community disruption, ongoing communication between police and demonstrators, avoidance of arrests, and limiting the use of force to situations where violence is occurring' (Vitale 2005: 286). Softer methods of police control also involve what Noakes and Gillham (2006: 111–114) call 'strategic incapacitation', which entails the use of pre-emptive arrests, the demarcation of 'no-protest zones', and the corralling (or 'kettling') of protesters.

As discussed in Chapter 1, a major shift in the policing of protest occurred after the now infamous Battle of Seattle, when protestors successfully disrupted the WTO ministerial meetings in 1999. While protest policing had been evolving throughout the 1990s in response to the confrontational tactics of anti-globalisation activists (see

Chapter 11), and their adoption of decentralised, non-hierarchical, network-based forms of organising (Fernandez 2008: 130, 137), after the Battle of Seattle law enforcement agencies radically revised their strategies, devising techniques such as securing space, building barricades, creating security (or frozen) zones, and conducting mass pre-emptive arrests (Fernandez 2008: 92–93). Importantly, given our focus in this chapter, instead of relying on negotiations and 'protest permits' to engage protestors, states 'moved to control the physical landscape around protest, aiming to prevent another Battle of Seattle' (Fernandez 2008: 93).

While policing space and territorial control have always been central to police work (Herbert 1997), and everyday policing now entails the expansive use of 'soft', surveillance tactics across the urban landscape (Beckett and Herbert 2008: 16), these developments are amplified at high-profile international events, such as WTO, G8 and G20 meetings. Hence, the *policing of space* at these so-called 'mega-events' (Boyle and Haggerty 2009) involves the use of increasingly sophisticated modes of social control that are neither purely repressive nor entirely negotiated, which is captured by Luis Fernandez (2008: 15), when he says that, 'the current mode is an effective mixture of hard- and soft-line tactics, including the use of new "non-lethal weapons" as well as laws, codes, regulations, and public relations strategies that attempt to control protest spaces directly and indirectly'. Many of these developments are evident at mega-events, where a particular policing style that is distinct from the domestic governance of dissent (Peterson and Wahlström 2014) – or what Martin (2011b: 31, 43) calls a 'global protest policing repertoire' – has emerged. The policing of space at the 2007 Sydney Asia Pacific Economic Cooperation (APEC) meeting provides a case in point (see Box 8.6).

Box 8.6 Policing protest space, Sydney style

The APEC meeting held in Sydney in September 2007 provides an example of a high-profile international event where both hard and soft tactics were employed. In the lead-up to the summit, the Australian government and the police undertook months of planning and preparation, which included running an intimidation campaign, harassing would-be protestors, and executing pre-emptive arrests (Martin 2011b: 34). At the meeting itself, security measures involved a huge police presence, rooftop snipers, 'ring of steel' fencing, water cannon, rolling prisons, and police frogmen on jetskis. The 'fortification' and 'militarisation' of Sydney during the APEC summit is now common to many such mega-events where there tends to be an overwhelming

police presence (Fernandez 2008: 123), and where the space around meetings 'resembles a war zone, with armored vehicles and police in full riot gear, including dark padded uniforms, sturdy helmets, and large see-through shields, and wielding batons and other weaponry' (Fernandez 2008: 122).

Another means of fortifying space is to create security or frozen zones, which enable police to secure entire areas of cities without fences, 'keeping close watch on everyone who enters the area' (Fernandez 2008: 127). Part of the 'soft', non-lethal weaponry of protest policing, the fortification and securitisation of space can be provided for by laws, codes, and regulations. In the case of APEC, police powers were enshrined in legislation enacted especially for the Sydney summit, which gave police extraordinary authority in parts of the Sydney CBD from 30 August-12 September 2007 inclusive (Martin 2011b: 33). Within specially designated 'security areas', police had the power, for instance, 'to establish roadblocks, checkpoints and cordons; search people, vehicles and vessels; seize and detail prohibited items; give reasonable directions; exclude or remove people from APEC security areas' (Snell 2008: 5). The legislation also gave the New South Wales Police Commissioner authority to compile (and publish) an *excluded persons list*, 'comprising persons the Commissioner is satisfied would pose serious threats to the safety of persons or property (or both) in an APEC security area during the APEC period' (Snell 2008: 13).

Costing $170 million, the APEC summit also provided an example of what Fernandez (2008: 100–101) identifies as the 'economy of protest' that has grown up 'around training officers and cities hosting anti-globalisation protests', which 'costs the local government millions of dollars'. As with other high-profile international events, it has been argued that the principal reason for spending so much on policing and security at the APEC summit was to provide reassurance that Sydney is a safe and unproblematic (i.e. protest-free) place for capital investment and tourism, which is increasingly imperative as external pressures from global neoliberalism are brought to bear on 'global cities' (Sassen 2001), such as Sydney, that 'now compete with one another to create hospitable environments for corporate investment, retail, tourism and other high-end services' (Martin 2011b: 31).

Hence, *showcasing security* becomes a vital means of publicity for cities competing in a global marketplace. Margit Mayer (2007: 94) sees this 'place promotion' as an aspect of public sector austerity under neoliberalism, which has gone 'hand in hand with a limited urban policy repertoire'. Success in this

competition depends on 'the packaging and sale of urban place *images*, which [...] keep downtowns and event spaces free of "undesirables" and "dangerous elements"' (Mayer 2007: 94, original emphasis). That not only involves excluding protestors occupying 'spaces of resistance' (Coleman 2005: 143), but also excluding any other elements that are deemed a threat to city spaces that are directed increasingly by private, commercial, and corporate interests (Martin 2011b: 38).

Thus, at the Sydney APEC meeting, protestors were excluded from the city, but so too were homeless people, most of whom moved away 'voluntarily' during APEC week (Martin 2011b: 39). Also affected were tourists and restaurateurs, the latter being told by police to remove butter knives and forks from outdoor tables in case they might be used as weapons (Martin 2011b: 42), thereby providing an example of what Vitale (2005: 284) refers to as the 'micro-management of demonstrations'. Ironically, international business leaders, who were delegates at the APEC meeting, also complained the intense security hampered their ability to move around the city and mix freely (Martin 2011b: 39). Therefore, a serious question mark hung over possible police mishandling of the APEC event, and whether the spectacle of security triumphed over the substance of security, a point made all the more poignant given what occurred at one point during APEC week:

> On 6 September 2007, a team of satirical comedians from the Australian TV show, *The Chaser's War on Everything*, breached the security cordon by driving a fake motorcade displaying Canadian flags within 10 meters of the Intercontinental Hotel where the US president, George W Bush, was staying. The police arrested 11 members of the cast and crew only after the motorcade was turned around by the show's executive producer and one of the comedians alighted a vehicle dressed as Osama bin Laden. (Martin 2011b: 35)

CONCLUSION

Many of the developments in protest policing discussed above presuppose a blurring of police and intelligence security service functions, which is a process that pre-dated the 'war on terror', although it intensified after the terror attacks of 11 September 2001. Essentially, this has meant police forces now have at their disposal powers, techniques and technologies that, in the past, were used

primarily by security/spy agencies (Martin 2011b: 29, 40). Hence, reversing the traditional strategy of investigating past events to determine criminal responsibility, policing increasingly involves intelligence gathering and surveillance work to *pre-empt* crime, and thus prevent it from occurring in the first place (Martin 2011b: 29–30). In these circumstances, the use of surveillance technologies by law enforcement agencies has become a normalised part of everyday police work, as well as another tool used by police in public order settings and at protest events. However, as we shall see in the next chapter, the ubiquity of smartphones, in particular, has leveled the playing field somewhat, enabling protestors and bystanders alike to turn their gaze back on the police, who are increasingly likely to be subject to public scrutiny if photographed and filmed using excessive force.

Martin's (2011b) analysis of the policing of space at high-profile mega-events, like the Sydney APEC summit, broadly reflects a critical approach, which we encountered when we looked above at Indigenous peoples' struggles over space. It will be recalled that critical geographers are concerned with the 'relationships between space, power, and social transformation' (Feldman 2002: 32), recognising that power relations are infused in the social geographies of marginalisation. Martin's analysis also demonstrates a concern with political economy, which gives explanatory priority to social relations, 'seeing spatial patterns as the outcome of social struggle' (Miller 2000: 9), and, importantly, regarding space as *commodified* via capitalist social relations, as well *territorialised* via the exercise of state military and police power (Miller 2000: 12).

According to this view, the police are not benign upholders of law and order, but coercive agents of the state, providing support, by force if need be, to establish conditions for the proper functioning of free markets in a neoliberal capitalist mode of production (Martin 2011b: 32, 40–41). Although that is something of a contentious point in some parts of the protest policing literature, the view that the social and the spatial are mutually constitutive and inseparable is widely accepted in the discipline of geography (Martin and Miller 2003: 144, 146), even if scholars express different views as to the precise nature of the configurations, permutations and power relations involved. The example of protest policing at major international events, then, provides a lens through which to view some of the key issues underpinning struggles over space that we have examined in this chapter. And, as we shall see, it also provides a springboard from which to examine some of the issues relating to media and movements that we look at in the next chapter.

SUGGESTED READINGS

The first chapter of this book (co-written by Deborah G. Martin) provides a comprehensive overview of the field relating to geography, space, and social movements. It explores the key concepts of *space*, *place*, and *scale*. And it looks at some of the ways geographic research can contribute to our understanding of movement mobilisation via an assessment of resource mobilisation theory, political process models, and new social movement theory.

Miller, B. A. (2000) *Geography and Social Movements: Comparing Antinuclear Activism in the Boston Area*. Minneapolis, MN: University of Minnesota Press.

The following article provides additional insights into the book cited above:

Miller, B. (2001) 'Many paths forward: Thoughts on *Geography and Social Movements*' *Political Geography* 20(7): 935–940.

The following texts explore connections between geography, activism and protest, including key studies and discussion of foundational ideas and concepts:

Featherstone, D. (2003) 'Spatialities of transnational resistance to globalization: The maps of grievance of the inter-continental caravan' *Transaction of the British Geographers* 28(4): 404–421.

Martin, D. G. (2003) '"Place-framing" as place-making: Constituting a neighbourhood for organizing and activism' *Annals of the Association of American Geographers* 93(3): 730–750.

Nicholls, W. J. (2007) 'The geographies of social movements' *Geography Compass* 1(3): 607–622.

Routledge, P. (1993) *Terrains of Resistance: Non-Violent Social Movements and the Contestation of Place in India*. Westport, CT: Praeger Publishers.

Routledge, P. (1996) 'Critical geopolitics and terrains of resistance' *Political Geography* 15(6/7): 505–531.

Routledge, P. (2014) 'Geography and social movements' in D. della Porta and M. Diani (eds) *The Oxford Handbook of Social Movements*. Oxford: Oxford University Press, pp. 383–396.

Routledge, P. (2017) *Space Invaders: Radical Geographies of Protest*. London: Pluto Press.

This edited volume aims to provide a state-of-the-art analysis of how space plays a constitutive role in social movement mobilisation:

Nicholls, W., Miller, B. and Beaumont, J. (eds) (2013) *Spaces of Contention: Spatialities and Social Movements*. Farnham: Ashgate.

These two edited collections look at the important impact of globalisation and neoliberalism on a variety of urban social movements in different geographical locations:

Hamel, P., Lustiger-Thaler, H. and Mayer, M. (eds) (2000) *Urban Movements in a Globalising World*. London: Routledge.

Leitner, H., Peck, J. and Sheppard, E. S. (eds) (2007) *Contesting Neoliberalism: Urban Frontiers*. New York, NY: The Guildford Press.

These two edited volumes provide useful introductions to some of the key themes and issues in the policing of protest (della Porta and Reiter) and, more generally, the repression of social movements (Davenport et al.):

Davenport, C., Johnston, H. and Mueller, C. (eds) (2004) *Repression and Mobilization*. Minneapolis, MN: University of Minnesota Press.

della Porta, D. and Reiter, H. (eds) (1998) *Policing Protest: The Control of Mass Demonstrations in Western Democracies*. Minneapolis, MN: University of Minnesota Press.

The following also offer insights into protest policing:

della Porta, D. and Fillieule, O. (2004) 'Policing social protest' in D. A. Snow, S. A. Soule and H. Kriesi (eds) *The Blackwell Companion to Social Movements*. Oxford: Blackwell, pp. 217–241.

Fernandez, L. A. (2008) *Policing Dissent: Social Control and the Anti-globalization Movement*. Brunswick, NJ: Rutgers University Press.

There are several journal special issues relevant to topics discussed in this chapter, including:

Critical Sociology 38(4) (2012): 'Tea Party Politics in America'.

Mobilization 8(2) (2003): 'Space and Contentious Politics'.

Mobilization 11(2) (2006): 'Repression and the Social Control of Protest'.

Policing & Society 15(3) (2005): 'Policing Political Protest after Seattle'.

Social Movement Studies 11(3-4) (2012): 'Occupy!'

Social Movement Studies 20(2) (2021): 'Conceptualizing the Context of Collective Action: Field, Space, Arena'.

CHAPTER 9

Media and movements

INTRODUCTION

While the study of media has often been omitted from books on social movements, some texts do now include material relating to the role of media in social protest, which has become necessary, especially given the advent of the Internet, new media, and social networking sites. In her brief commentary on the subject, Susan Staggenborg (2011: 45–47) shows how the issue of *newsworthiness* tends to preclude the grievances of social movements being aired in the mass media. The idea here is that because they are driven by a commercial imperative to produce stories that sell – which is heightened in the increasingly competitive 24/7 mediasphere marketplace – mainstream news media tend not to be interested in covering social movement issues of long-term policy relevance, such as tackling poverty or addressing environmental damage.

When the media does dedicate space to the activities of social movements, argues Koopmans (2004), it does so according to three main selective mechanisms, or 'discursive opportunities', which affect the diffusion chances of contentious messages: (i) *visibility* (the extent of coverage of a message by the mass media); (ii) *resonance* (the extent of reaction to a message by allies, opponents, authorities, and so on); and (iii) *legitimacy* (the degree of support for such reactions). Nevertheless, there remains a media bias against social movements, which are seen as 'endowed with little social capital (in terms of relations and reputation as reliable sources) to benefit journalists' (della Porta 2012: 45). On the other hand, protests 'that succeed in drawing many people to the street signal a relevant social issue journalists cannot ignore', thus underscoring the finding of Wouters (2013: 99) that '[d]emonstration size appears to be the single strongest predictor of newsworthiness'.

DOI: 10.4324/9780367821760-9

When they do receive information on issues of social import, journalists tend to rely on official sources (e.g. government agencies), which provide a one-dimensional perspective, thereby missing alternative viewpoints, such as those provided by social movements. Indeed, in his study of Spanish antimilitary mobilisation, Sampedro (1997) found that government elites tend to trivialise movement challenges, thus reducing their newsworthiness, and that the tendency among established media actors to abide by journalistic rules serves to validate the political class, which dilutes social protest in the long-run.

Gathering information from official sources may not only result in news organisations producing distorted or inaccurate stories, but it can also result in them missing the existence of social movements altogether. For instance, Todd Gitlin (1980) has shown how the Students for a Democratic Society (SDS) existed five years prior to its 'discovery' by the mass media in 1965. This then could explain why some movements apparently lay in abeyance for long periods of time (as we saw in Chapter 5). It also goes some way to explain why certain movements, such as Tea Party (examined in Box 9.2 below), seem to appear 'out of nowhere'.

Because they tend to be ignored by the mainstream media, many social movements resort to dramatic tactics to get noticed. However, a problem associated with this, as Staggenborg (2011: 46) notes, is that standards for coverage may escalate too. Returning to Gitlin's (1980: 182) study, he argued that the increasingly flamboyant gestures used by the anti-Vietnam War movement in the 1960s raised the threshold of rhetoric and violence needed for coverage, such that while 'a picket line might have been news in 1965, it took tear gas and bloodied heads to make headlines in 1968'.

The focus on sensationalist news stories is well documented in the media studies literature, which shows how some of the most salient 'news values' are those of sex and violent crime (Martin 2019a). In the context of social protest, the requirement for sensationalist newsworthy stories that provide good copy is evident in the overemphasis on repressive state responses to social movements. We get a sense of this from some of the information provided by Wilson and Serisier (2010: 168) in their study of video activists, which 'refers to people who use video as a tactical tool to deter police violence, document abuse and misconduct by police authorities, and in an effort to influence and set the political agenda'. Wilson and Serisier's (2010: 174) findings highlight the oft-made complaint that the demands of newsworthiness (and especially the media's preoccupation with violence) may decontextualise footage or lead to it being freighted with meanings that distort the original intentions of those filming, with one interviewee stating: '… there are two issues. There's the issue around which the protest and the activism is happening and then there's the

issue of police accountability and often we capture stuff which shows police behaving badly and the issue we're trying to get attention for gets ignored for the police stuff'.

Towards the end of Chapter 8, we touched upon what Wilson and Serisier (2010: 167) describe as the 'democratisation and diffusion of imaging technologies', which indicates there is now greater equality of access to and use of surveillance equipment. And below we will consider this development in more depth when we see how protestors and ordinary citizens alike are now able to use digital and networked technologies, including smartphones and social media, to surveil the police in protest/public order settings. For now, we should note, as Wilson and Serisier (2010: 170) do, the interactive nature of protestor-police relations, described by them as a 'constant interplay of move and countermove between police and video activists', which, as mentioned in Chapter 1, 'activates ascending spirals of surveillance and counter-surveillance' in what Gary Marx (2007: 299) calls a 'surveillance arms race'.

The example from Gitlin's study also demonstrates the point not only that 'repertoires of contention' (i.e. movement tactics) change or evolve over time – a point made originally by Charles Tilly (see Chapter 4) and applied more recently to the 'electronic repertoire of contention' of online social movements (Rolfe 2005) – but that they do so via interactions with other collective actors in a wider, external environment, including police, the state and media. We also looked at this in Chapter 8, when we saw how policing across the globle changed tack after protestors successfully disrupted the WTO meetings in 1999 at the Battle of Seattle.

Along with showing how potentially pivotal the media are in discovering social movements in the first place, Gitlin's account of the case of the SDS also shows how when the media do discover social movements, they may not necessarily depict them in ways protestors like. Hence, when the SDS was eventually discovered by the media, it was portrayed only as an anti-war organisation, even though it 'put itself forward in no uncertain terms as a multi-issue organisation which worked in university reform, civil rights, and community organising, as well as against war and corporate domination of foreign policy' (Gitlin 1980: 34).

Box 9.1 Pussy Riot redux

In Chapter 6, we saw how the medium of music has been used by social movements as a means of 'mobilising traditions' (Eyerman and Jamison 1998: 2) and as a source of 'cognitive praxis', whereby it contributes 'to the ideas that movements offer and

create in opposition to the existing social and cultural order' (Eyerman and Jamison 1998: 24). We also saw how the positive acceptance on Western news media websites of Russian feminist punk band, Pussy Riot, could be considered an example of the cognitive praxis of the women's movement insofar as it demonstrates a successful diffusion of feminist ideas and knowledge interests (see Box 6.5). However, Pussy Riot's performance-based, media-savvy style of protest also highlights the increasing use of social media in contemporary activism.

In this respect, and according to Seal (2013: 299), Pussy Riot's success lies 'in promoting their cause and mobilising media and activist support'. While the band does communicate their ideas via interviews with journalists, their 'supporters have an online presence that does not rely on the mainstream news media, such as the website Free Pussy Riot!, YouTube video clips of the band's songs and performances, Facebook pages, and a Twitter account' (Seal 2013: 299–300). And, it is believed, because of its effective use of the Internet, Pussy Riot posed a genuine challenge to the Putin regime (Seal 2013: 300).

GREENPEACE: A MEDIA-SAVVY SOCIAL MOVEMENT ORGANISATION

Staggenborg (2011: 46) notes that '[m]ovement organisations that are more centralised and professionalised, and that learn how to conform to media norms and provide information or "stories" in a format acceptable to media organisations, are most likely to get coverage' (see also Gamson and Wolfsfeld 1993). However, even for professionalised movement organisations, she says, 'it is difficult to get movement frames represented accurately in the mass media, as journalists and news organisations apply their owns frames to events' (Staggenborg 2011: 46). The paradigmatic example of a media-savvy social movement organisation is Greenpeace.

Given the media's predilection for newsworthy stories, Greenpeace, like other campaigning organisations, has faced difficulties presenting issues of environmental concern in the media. Specifically focusing on the medium of television, Aaron Doyle (2003: 118–119) says these problems include that environmental issues often occur in geographically isolated locations, they have a slow onset, are often invisible and technically complex, and tend to implicate 'faceless villains', such as corporations and governments. Hence, and in accordance with what was said earlier about social movements responding to lack of media interest with flamboyant gestures and tactics to get noticed, Greenpeace devised a repertoire of 'media stunts' (see Figure 9.1).



Figure 9.1 As Shell executives and guests hold a PR event dinner in the National Gallery, London, UK, on 21 February 2012, Greenpeace activists abseil from the building's roof and hang a massive 40 foot banner across its pillars. The protest was to highlight the dangers that drilling for oil pose to the Arctic region © Pete Maclaine/Alamy

Greenpeace's early direct actions were rooted in the Quaker idea of 'bearing witness' (Doyle 2003: 117), which, as mentioned at various places in this book, is intended to present an audience with ideas and information that cannot be ignored. Greenpeace's media stunts subsequently evolved to become highly planned and organised; they are also announced well in advance of the stunts taking place, and are timed to suit media deadlines. The media stunts consist of brief vignettes or 'micro-dramas' involving direct action, which is tailor-made for the medium of television, and they 'always involve visually striking, made-for-TV elements such as acts of physical daring, wearing of costumes, or unveiling of a banner with a very brief message' (Doyle 2003: 119).

To add to the drama, Greenpeace often also instigate strategic nonviolent law-breaking, such as a sit-in or blockade, to prompt on-the-spot arrests. The organisation has even produced a media handbook, which provides information about 'arrest scenarios' that include 'placing trained activists in highly visible situations from which they cannot be whisked away by the police' (Doyle 2003: 119). Sometimes arrest scenarios might be negotiated with police in advance and timed to meet TV deadlines. Greenpeace also has its own videographers who can provide footage to television outlets that are unable to send cameras to the scene of stunts. The net effect is what Altheide and Snow

(1991) call, 'post-journalism', meaning Greenpeace's stunts are pre-packaged to such an extent that journalists, whether sympathetic or not, are increasingly redundant, as the organisation prepares its own provocative stories.

Doyle shows how TV has helped shape Greenpeace and its tactics in a number of ways. First, as '[t]elevision tends to reduce politics to a spectacle', Doyle (2003: 125) says, Greenpeace produces simple bite-sized messages, which, during direct action stunts, frequently take the form of banners promoting the organisational brand, such as 'Let the whales live – Greenpeace'. As discussed in Chapter 8, this strategic use of slogans has proved powerful more recently in Occupy's attempt to highlight issues of inequality and corporate greed by crafting and repeating the slogan, 'we are the 99 percent'. Secondly, TV has helped shape Greenpeace's organisational goals. For instance, it has focused on certain environmental issues and mediagenic images such as baby harp seals being clubbed to death, rather than drawing attention to concern over the possible extinction of the giant earwig of St Helena (Doyle 2003: 127). In this way, Greenpeace has also used emotion to get its message across. While this stands in stark contrast to the 'dispassionate politics' of animal rights activists studied by McAllister Groves (2001) that we looked at in Chapter 6, others have drawn on Jasper's (1997) notion of 'moral shocks' to show how the animal rights movement has 'used drama and spectacle, often involving scandalising images', as a 'key tactic in achieving mass media exposure' (Munro 2014: 520–521; see also Jasper 1999; Jasper and Nelkin 1992; Jasper and Poulsen 1995).

Finally, the organisation's reliance on media stunts has increased support from a *passive public* who are uninclined to take part in mass demonstrations but are willing to support organisations like Greenpeace by donating money, for example. While this so-called 'couch potato activism' certainly has monetary advantages, Doyle (2003: 131) shows how the requirements of television have been such that they have also led to the taming and institutionalisation of Greenpeace, which, as discussed at various points in the book, is a dilemma for many social movements, since it can result in movements becoming less radical and more conservative, as their original demands and objectives are compromised to accommodate organisational imperatives and political goals. This is summed up by Doyle (2003: 130) when he says, 'Former president Robert Hunter's early philosophising suggested that a change in "public consciousness" would be wrought by Greenpeace's media campaigns. This now seems very secondary to achieving the organisation's financial and political goals'.

While Greenpeace's use of media stunts as *dramas* and *vignettes* highlights the importance of storytelling and narrative (examined in Chapter 6) in the tactical repertoire of the organisation, Doyle

(2003: 122) is critical of Greenpeace activists' portrayal of themselves as heroic outlaws (e.g. eco-cowboys, 'rainbow warriors') pitted against giant corporate villains (i.e. in David and Goliath scenarios), since it belies the organisation's 'latter-day status as a large multinational organisation'. Something similar is observed by Carroll and Ratner (1999: 14) who say Greenpeace's reliance on visual stunts has detracted from grassroots organising, although it 'has increasingly used the Internet to bypass mass media'. However, there are dangers here, too, with commentators warning 'clicktivism' – a variant of 'slacktivism' – can give people engaged in social media (e.g. clicking 'like' on Facebook) a sense of being important and useful when, in reality, their actions may have very little 'political' impact (Halupka 2018).

Box 9.2 Tea Party: Media manufactured or genuine grassroots movement?

In Chapter 7, we looked at the Tea Party movement as an example of the relative convergence of social and religious issues, and, in Chapter 8, we looked at spatial and geographic explications of the emergence of Tea Party. Much has also been written about the relationship between the Tea Party movement and the US media. A central point of contention here has been whether Tea Party constitutes a genuine grassroots movement, or whether it is a media-manufactured phenomenon.

To recap, in Chapter 8, we saw how commentators are at odds with one another as to the origins of the Tea Party movement. On the one hand, Cho et al. (2012) argue that non-traditional elites were crucial to Tea Party's emergence. On the other hand, DiMaggio's (2011) view is that rather than being a genuine grassroots movement, the Tea Party is a proxy for an entrenched Republican elite, bolstered by the right-wing US media. Banerjee (2013) provides a variant of this view, arguing that rather than being a post facto consequence of news, coverage tended to precede Tea Party mobilisation, and thus was its most important predictor. A middle-range perspective is presented by Skocpol and Williamson (2012) who agree with DiMaggio on the pivotal role played by business elites (including billionaire reactionaries) and the conservative media (e.g. Fox News), but differ from him in disputing the idea that the Tea Party came 'out of nowhere', since, they argue, many Tea Partiers had deep ties to pre-existing grassroots conservative groups and Republican organisations.

This argument confirms the view of resource mobilisation theorists, such as Doug McAdam (1982) and Anthony Oberschall (1973), who stress the importance of extant networks for movement mobilisation (see Chapter 4), as well as Verta Taylor's (1989) idea that movements are sustained by 'abeyance structures', which, as we saw in Chapter 5, is her antidote to the 'immaculate conception' of social movements or the notion that collective action emerges suddenly, as if from nowhere. Moreover, Skocpol and Williamson's take on the relative speed by which Tea Party came to prominence and gathered momentum could be seen to complement the view of Thompson (2012: 512), discussed in Chapter 8, who accounts for the quickness with which the Tea Party movement generated and organised, as well as the homogeneity of their beliefs, in terms of the non-urban spatial environment inhabited by a 'certain strata of American society that predisposes individuals to feel outraged at specific political institutions, social policies, and social groups'.

Skocpol and Williamson's vision of a tripartite Tea Party (i.e. elites, media, grassroots) also helps explicate the prima facie hypocrisy of Tea Partiers, who are, at once, angry at government spending on those they perceive as 'undeserving' (e.g. younger generations and poor people) and angry at cuts to government spending on schemes they feel entitled to as 'rightfully earned compensation for years of hard work and contributions' (Fetner 2012: 764). The contradiction is exemplified in the clash between the Tea Party grassroots and the extreme-right billionaires who support the movement where 'most grassroots supporters are in favour of government-run Medicare and Social Security programs, while the business elite faction, aided by ultra-conservative Republican legislators, would like to destroy these programs, privatising health care and retirement savings for the elderly' (McVeigh 2012: 767). As we saw in Chapter 1, similar divisions were evident among Brexit supporters who ranged from 'elite Brexiteers' to 'Lexiteers'.

Contrary to DiMaggio's (2011) view of the Tea Party as a media-manufactured fiction created by powerful elite interests, Courser (2012: 48) sees Tea Partiers as being driven by a profound distrust of politicians and partisan elites. While Tea Partiers are overwhelmingly conservative, Courser disputes the popular characterisation of them as being engaged in a 'culture war' focused on moral and religious issues. Instead, he argues, the war 'is one for populist democracy against elite domination of politics' (Courser 2012: 50). Moreover, he says, distrust of

the political class and elite interest groups is found on the right *and* left sides of American politics, both of which express disillusionment at the disconnect between government and the people it purports to represent.

To be sure, the Tea Party movement operates in a political context perceived as being dominated by entrenched interest groups that are unresponsive to public opinion, which is why, '[t]he frustration Tea Partiers felt over the federal bailout of Wall Street, the rescue of General Motors, or the convoluted manner the healthcare reform bill was passed into law, all reflect the responsiveness of government to the demands of interest groups' (Courser 2012: 51). This is not to say, however, that elite domination is a problem only affecting the right, since the problem goes to the heart of American democracy, such that '[w]riters from the left have observed a growing distrust by voters of the established political order, especially among the white middle class' (Courser 2012: 51).

HACKERS AND HACKTIVISTS

In the chapter so far we have focused mostly on relationships between social movements and what might be regarded 'traditional' forms of media and information technologies. Indeed, Staggenborg (2011: 47) states that 'the issue of how movements can use the mass media effectively is a critical one for social movement studies', where an 'important development is the availability of the Internet as a direct form of mass media for social movements'. She continues:

> Movements have always used internal communications such as newsletters to convey their messages, but the Internet provides a quick, low-cost means of reaching a large number of potential supporters and of organising events through email and websites. The global justice movement, for example, has made extensive use of the Internet to organise its international campaigns. In some instances, collective actions or 'e-movements' have been organised strictly online with little formal organisation. The strengths and limitations of this type of organising, which bypass the mainstream media, are an increasingly important topic for social movement research. (Staggenborg 2011: 47)

Interest in media-movement relations has risen exponentially in recent times, mainly since the emergence of social media and innovations in

digital technologies, and their increasing use *as a resource* for movement mobilisation and goal attainment. This has been referred to as the instrumental contribution of 'information and communication technologies' (ICTs) to social movement activity, which is particularly evident in the building of transnational movement cultures (Van Aelst and Walgrave 2002), since ICTs 'allow for cheap, fast, and easy modes of communication and participation that facilitate activism, particularly for resource-poor actors' (Earl et al. 2014: 359; see also Mosca and della Porta 2005; von Bülow 2023).

In a variation of this, Hill et al. (2018) show how social media enabled football fans from clubs across England to transcend entrenched rivalries and increase the reach of their campaign against the increasing commercialisation of modern football. Another study, this time of Black Lives Matter, has shown how social media can enable movements to 'scale up', that is either strengthen themselves internally, or expand by recruiting new activists as well as build coalitions and partnerships to facilitate strategic action (Mundt et al. 2018).

In many ways, the study of digital activism is made possible through the application of digital methods and analysis of digital data sources as we discussed in Chapter 2 by reference to Carlsen and Toubøl (2023). These include ethnographers examining 'not only the everyday practices of media activists, but also how new and other media have shaped the organisational logic and cultural dynamics of contemporary social movements' (Juris and Khasnabish 2014: 586). In subsequent sections of this chapter, we will consider various ways in which protestors and social movements have used not only the Internet but also other new information technologies and social media forms beyond the mainstream media. The focus in this section, however, is on early studies of 'hackers' and 'hacktivism', which have examined the relationship between activism and new media technologies, and, in particular, activists' use of the Internet.

Interestingly, these studies provide an alternative take on the view that microserfs and hackers tend to be conservative and apolitical. It will be recalled how, in Chapter 5, we saw how although they are a core constituent of an increasingly precarious workforce in post-industrial societies, high-tech and IT workers tend to regard trade unions as antiquated and irrelevant to their profession. Moreover, in his study of Microsoft workers, Brophy (2006: 631) shows how they are also critical of progressive social movements, such as the global justice movement. Studies of hackers and hacktivism provide a very different view.

Insofar as the hacker generation that emerged in the mid-1980s actually had a political agenda, it concerned the control and liberation of information (Jordan 2007: 74). Hacktivism grew out of hacking in the mid-1990s, and entails 'the combination of hacking techniques with political activism' (Taylor 2005: 626). Hacktivists speak out on

political matters and as such are more outwardly focused than hackers, in that they connect 'hacking to a politics outside that of informational freedom' (Jordan 2007: 75). Tim Jordan (2007) argues there are two strands of hacktivism: (i) *mass action*; and (ii) *digital correctness*.

Mass action hacktivism translates the classic tactic of civil disobedience into electronic civil disobedience (Garrett 2006: 208–209). Although sometimes denigrated as ephemeral and ineffective, Earl et al. (2014: 356–357) point to the potential 'flash activism' has on influencing government and corporate policy and public opinion, when so-called 'slacktivists' use more accessible and more far-reaching means of protest afforded by ICTs in preference to street mobilisations (though they note new media can also support street action). In 1998, for instance, the Electronic Disturbance Theatre (EDT) staged a series of web sit-ins in support of Mexico's Zapatistas, who have themselves employed the Internet as a prefigurative method of organising (Atton 2003; see also Kulick 2014). EDT created a piece of software called Floodnet, which, once downloaded to a computer, connected the surfer's web browser to a preselected website and automatically reloaded the web browser every seven seconds (Taylor 2005: 634–635). When large numbers of people participate in virtual sit-ins of this nature, it has the effect of slowing down or even closing down targeted websites. Mass action also gives legitimacy to the cause. Another EDT virtual sit-in was targeted against an organisation that opposed migration across the US-Mexican border. This virtual sit-in involved 27,000 participants who managed to close access to key sites, including the US Border Patrol website and the NAFTA website (Jordan 2007: 76).

A similar action was staged by the Electrohippies, whose virtual sit-in against the 1999 Seattle WTO meeting involved 450,000 participants over five days, having the effect of slowing down the WTO network, and even stopping it on occasion (Jordan and Taylor 2004: 74–75). This action is important among other things for highlighting the connection between hacktivism and the anti-globalisation/global justice movement. Indeed, for Jordan (2007: 76–77), 'the vast majority of mass hacktivism actions have been launched within the context of the alter-globalisation movement', making a 'historical association […] based on the emergence of hacktivism in the mid-1990s at the same time that the alter-globalisation movement was blossoming'. Nonetheless, according to Jordan (2007: 76), hacktivism should be viewed more as a tactic or repertoire than an ethic or social movement with its own collective identity and goals, for, 'any cause may find hackivist repertoires of action useful', including, he says, campaigns against the death penalty in the USA.

Virtual sit-ins such as those of EDT are 'a form of electronic civil disobedience in which the social form of the protest takes precedence over its technological content' (Taylor 2005: 635). *Digitally correct*

hacktivism, on the other hand, is not concerned with replicating offline modes of protest like civil disobedience but is focused on the technology. Digitally correct hacktivism is more hacker-like than mass-action hacktivism. It tends to be online-based and technology-focused, and concerned with 'a politics of free, secure access to information on the Internet enacted through the production of software' (Jordan 2007: 79). Accordingly, their main targets are national governments that try to censor and restrict access to the Internet as well as surveil people's traffic. However, they also target corporations such as Microsoft, which as a result of the activities of some hackivists has been forced to face up to security issues associated with its Windows operating system (Jordan and Taylor 2004: 111–114). Digitally correct hacktivists, then, 'implement a politics with software' (Jordan 2007: 81), inventing and utilising specially encrypted software to ensure free and secure access to the Internet.

Jordan (2007: 84) points out that, like other social movements, the hacktivist movement is 'internally varied'. Indeed, both he and Paul Taylor show how tension exists between different types of hackivists. Digitally correct hacktivists are critical of mass-action hacktivists' use of inefficient and resource-hungry programs such as Floodnet. Protest of this sort, they argue, becomes a form of censorship because it interferes with people's bandwidth (access) rights and the rights of digital information. For groups such as EDT, however, digitally correct hacktivists 'are nerdishly missing the point' (Taylor 2005: 635). To Taylor (2005: 635), this represents the 'politically myopic' nature of the digitally correct position 'and its failure to separate technological means from social ends'. However, Jordan (2007: 83) argues mass-action hacktivists' caricature of the digitally correct as more concerned with the rights of machines than the rights of humans misrepresents digitally correct hacktivists who are, in fact, concerned with 'the human right to free speech in the age of the Internet'. For example, digitally correct hacktivist group, Hacktivismo, named their Six/Four project after the Tiananmen Square massacre, which took place on 4 June 1989, and their CameraShy project – ostensibly a means by which users could hide information in graphic files and then swap them – had human rights as its chief purpose, 'illustrated by the dedication integrated into CameraShy to Chinese human rights activist Wang Ruowang' (Jordan 2007: 81).

Box 9.3 Culture jamming

As a form of hacktivism (Taylor 2005: 634), 'culture jamming' entails 'the practice of parodying advertisements and hijacking billboards in order to drastically alter their messages'

(Klein 2000a: 280). In so doing, it subverts a corporation's own image and advertising in what Namoi Klein (2000b) refers to as a kind of 'brand boomerang' whereby culture jammers adapt the messages corporations wish to convey about themselves. For instance, the 'Think Different' campaign of Apple Inc. acquires a photograph of Stalin, accompanied by the slogan, 'Think Really Different':

> The process forces the company to foot the bill for its own subversion, either literally, because the company is the one that bought the billboard being altered, or figuratively, because whenever anyone messes with a logo, they are tapping into the vast resources spent to make that logo meaningful. (Klein 2000b)

Culture jamming is a form of anti-corporate activism, which we have looked at in various parts of the book, including via the work of Soule (2009) as well as in relation to the anti-sweatshop movement (Ross 2008: 43), which we examined in the context of precarity in Chapter 5. In Chapter 6 we also saw how young people especially are increasingly likely to participate in consumer activism, including boycotts, using social media (Heldman 2017). Likewise, culture jamming is a technique used on anti-corporate websites aligning themselves with the culture jammers movement. For example, McSpotlight, which targets McDonald's, uses it, as does Adbusters, which is a Canadian anti-consumerism organisation that runs its own website and is involved in the CokeSpotlight campaign targeting the Coca-Cola Company (Rosenkrands 2004: 72; see also Leizerov 2000).

WIKILEAKS: HACKTIVISM AND COUNTERVEILLANCE

Founded by Julian Assange in 2006, Wikileaks came to prominence in April 2010 when it published on its website the controversial video, *Collateral Murder* (http://www.collateralmurder.com/). Taken during an airstrike carried out in the Iraqi suburb of New Baghdad on 12 July 2007, the video consists of US-military-classified gunsight footage from an Apache helicopter, which depicts the killing of a dozen people – including two Reuters journalists – in clear breach of the military's rules of engagement.



Figure 9.2 Superleakers: Julian Assange (top), Edward Snowden (left), Bradley Manning (right) © Greg Martin

According to its website (https://wikileaks.org/About.html), Wikileaks describes its purpose as being 'to bring important news and information to the public' by providing 'an innovative, secure and anonymous way for sources to leak information to our journalists'. It adds that the broader principles upon which its work is based 'are the defence of freedom of speech and media publishing, the improvement of our common historical record and the support of the rights of all people to create new history'. These principles derive, it says, from Article 19 of the Universal Declaration of Human Rights, which 'inspires the work of our journalists and other volunteers', for it states, 'that everyone has the right to freedom of opinion and expression', which is a right that 'includes freedom to hold opinions without interference and to seek, receive and impart information and ideas through any media and regardless of frontiers'.

Wikileaks sees one its most important activities as publishing 'original source material alongside our news stories so readers and

historians alike can see evidence of the truth' (https://wikileaks.org/About.html). The media, and particularly Wikileaks, is significant in this respect because:

> Publishing improves transparency, and this transparency creates a better society for all people. Better scrutiny leads to reduced corruption and stronger democracies in all society's institutions, including government, corporations and other organisations. A healthy, vibrant and inquisitive journalistic media plays a vital role in achieving these goals. We are part of that media. (https://wikileaks.org/About.html)

Clearly, Wikileaks sees itself as a journalistic organisation, a conception about which there has been much debate, with opponents of Wikileaks claiming it does little to improve transparency but instead releases information that has potential to endanger national security, damage diplomatic relations between nations, and risk peoples' lives (Fenster 2012). Moreover, despite providing 'a high security anonymous drop box fortified by cutting-edge cryptographic information technologies' to protect journalists, whistleblowers, and other anonymous sources of information (https://wikileaks.org/About.html), Wikileaks was unable to prevent the arrest in May 2010 of Private First Class Bradley Manning (now Chelsea Manning). A 22-year-old intelligence analyst with the US Army in Baghdad, Manning was subsequently charged with disclosing the *Collateral Murder* video to Wikileaks, and was suspected of supplying the organisation with various classified documents. Notwithstanding Wikileaks' use of novel media technologies to further its cause, it has been noted that the Manning case is only the most recent example of state victimisation of a whistleblower; the landmark case being Daniel Ellsberg's leaking to *The New York Times* in 1971 of the 'Pentagon Papers', which contained sensitive information about US military involvement in the Vietnam War (Rothe and Steinmetz 2013).

In some respects, the activities of Wikileaks can also be seen as a form of hacktivism (Ludlow 2010), and, in particular, 'digitally correct' hacktivism, which, as described above, includes the targeting of national governments that try to censor and restrict access to information. Wikileaks' activities may also be characterised as a form of reactive 'data activism', which identifies 'individuals and groups who seek to resist the threats of massive data collection by both the state and industry' (Milan 2023: 1). Yet another way of conceiving of Wikileaks is as a variant of 'counterveillance', which 'refers to a form of protest that reverses the visual field not only as a challenge to penal power but also toward institutional reform' (Welch 2011: 304). For Welch, counterveillance, consists of two main inversions: (i) turning the prison inside out; and (ii) watching the watchers:

> In the first inversion, counterveillance turns unwanted attention to inhumane conditions of imprisonment – which the state deliberately hides from public view. In so doing, prisoner neglect and abuses of state power are exposed to a wider audience; therefore, contributing to greater transparency of the State's penal operations. (Welch 2011: 304)

The second inversion (i.e. watch the watchers) shares an important dynamic with what Thomas Mathiesen (1997) terms, the 'synopticon', whereby the *many watch the few*. The synopticon concept itself constitutes a reformulation of Michel Foucault's (1977) calculus of the 'panopticon' in which the *few watch the many*: 'Together the two-way – or double – process speaks to the magnetic quality of power when exercised visually, and equally important its potential to reduce, balance, or invert asymmetries of observation' (Welch 2011: 303).

Mathiesen (1997: 219), then, provides an important corrective to Foucault's idea that modern society is predominated by various forms of panoptic surveillance, or 'his whole image of society as surveillance'. Given the ubiquity of mass media, Mathiesen urges us to think in terms of a 'viewer society', which 'does not dismiss the vector of surveillance but provides a fuller picture of the public sphere by recognising that visibility is also synoptic' (Welch 2011: 303). In particular, Mathiesen stresses the electronic media and their role in the viewer society, especially with respect to celebrities and entertainment (and voyeurism). He also emphasises the coupling of panopticism with synopticism, thereby producing a two-way – reciprocal – framework. However, Michael Welch (2011: 304) argues while 'it is true that there are instances of the many watching the few and the few watching the many, both Mathiesen and Foucault neglect an important dimension of modern society. That is, there are also instances in which those being watched also watch back'. The result is what Monahan (2006: 515) describes as 'counter-surveilllance', which denotes, 'intentional, tactical uses, or disruptions of surveillance technologies to challenge institutional power asymmetries'. Welch applies these ideas to the context of prisons:

> By *watching the watchers*, key officials governing the penal apparatus themselves are monitored by a collective of prisoners, ex-cons, and activists. With that switch in attention, state officials are put on the defensive. That reduction of the asymmetry of power has the capacity to enhance levels of official accountability. (Welch 2011: 304, original emphasis)

Although he is writing about counterveillance in the penal context, the general principles relating to counterveillance can be applied to other forms of protest – or 'optical activism', to use Welch's (2011: 304–305)

term – against surveillance, examples of which include 'disabling or destroying surveillance cameras, using video recorders to monitor surveillance personnel, and staging public plays to draw attention to the prevalence of surveillance in society' (Welch 2011: 303). Importantly, as Fiona Jeffries (2011) argues, several contemporary social movements articulate resistance to surveillance even though they are not anti-surveillance per se.

One example she cites is called, Fulana, a group of female activists based in New York City that 'has sought to provoke reflection and pose alternative perspectives on war and imperialism, immigration and migrant justice, gentrification and displacement, social inequality, racism, sexism, and the commercial colonisation of the popular cultural environment' (Jeffries 2011: 185). While Fulana is not an anti-surveillance organisation, Jeffries (2011: 185) says 'its use of media activism, the broad multi-dimensional content of its political critique and the historical context in which the group was formed, situates its form and strategy of critique within the renaissance of radical thought and practice that erupted into public view during the high point of the alter-globalisation protests'.

Interestingly, Fulana has used the technique of culture jamming – also synonymous with the global justice movement (see Box 9.3) – to alter and 'hijack' the slogan, 'If you See Something, Say Something', which formed part of a post-9/11 poster campaign run by New York City's Metropolitan Transportation Authority. Hence, Fulana's 'Fear Something, See Something' poster intends 'to seize the language of the fear-promoting spectacle and play with it so that it can be turned against itself' (Jeffries 2011: 185). The poster asks viewers to reflect upon 'the dangerous normalisation of the citizen-informer model of social participation and public responsibility', and warns that, 'prejudices fuelled by sensational commercial media portrayals of who is designated as dangerous and what constitutes suspicious behavior can combine toxically with desires to stay safe' (Jeffries 2011: 186). Put simply, by 'raising concerns about surveillance as a social technology that purports to enhance public safety, the poster sought to contest the repressive definition of security that shaped the government and media response to the 9/11 attacks' (Jeffries 2011: 186). And, in particular, 'it served as an intervention in the debate about the effects of surveillance as a discourse of security in a fear-drenched climate thought by many commentators to be perilous to democracy' (Jeffries 2011: 186).

Wikileaks can be seen as another example of counterveillance, since it aims to turn the surveillant gaze back on the watchers – to watch the watchers. In so doing, it seeks to challenge institutional power asymmetries involved in the keeping secret of information, disclosure of which, it is argued, enhances transparency and official accountability, and ultimately contributes to the building of stronger

democratic structures. In highlighting the dangers posed to democracy by secrecy and surveillance, Wikileaks is similar to activist groups like Fulana. However, as a form of digitally correct hacktivism, Wikileaks differs from Fulana, since it resembles more an anti-surveillance organisation, which not only contests the ubiquity and nefariousness of surveillance technologies, which, among other things, create a compliant and complacent (or docile) public, but it does so by way of employing those very technologies.

CITIZEN JOURNALISM AS SOUSVEILLANCE

Towards the end of Chapter 8, we saw how police increasingly use surveillance technologies not only in public order/protest settings, but also how surveillance has become a part of everyday policing. In this way, police have become implicated in what Haggerty and Ericson (2000: 606) call the 'surveillant assemblage', which refers to 'the convergence of what were once discrete surveillance systems', and involves, among other things, police organisations (and intelligence services) having increased access to information stored on a host of non-police databases, including those from insurance companies, financial institutions, and schools. Combining information sources via computerised data matching, allows for an exponential increase in the amount of information police now have at their disposal:

> Files from telephone and utilities companies can be used to document an individual's lifestyle and physical location, and marketing firms have developed consumer profiling techniques that contain precise information on a person's age, gender, political inclinations, religious preferences, reading habits, ethnicity, family size, income, and so on. (Haggerty and Ericson 2000: 617)

Given these developments, Haggerty and Ericson (2000: 613) argue that today 'we are witnessing the formation and coalescence of a new type of body', known as a 'data double', which is 'a form of becoming which transcends human corporeality and reduces flesh to pure information'. Indeed, Haggerty and Ericson (2000: 619) point out that, '[t]he coalescence of such practices in the surveillant assemblage marks the procession to the "disappearance of disappearance" – a process whereby it is difficult for individuals to maintain their anonymity or to escape the monitoring of social institutions'. One would think therefore that the sheer scale and ubiquity of surveillance in modern societies would render resistance futile. Indeed, on thinking about attempts at attacking or resisting increased surveillance Haggerty and Ericson (2000: 609) say, 'as important as they might be [they] are akin to

efforts to keep the ocean's tide back with a broom – a frantic focus on a particular unpalatable technology or practice while the general tide of surveillance washes over us all'.

However, as mentioned previously, the increased availability of mobile surveillance devices, such as smartphones, has brought about a degree of democratisation, or 'digital democracy' (Loader and Mercea 2012: 2; Martin 2017d), which has levelled the playing field, enabling ordinary citizens (including protesters) to turn the surveillant gaze back on the watchers, i.e. to watch the watchers. And of all the watchers, it is police who are most likely to be subject to counterveillance of this sort since it is police who most frequently encounter activists at protest events in public spaces. The transformations in public order and protest policing discussed in Chapter 8 are captured by what de Lint and Hall (2009: 267–270) call, 'intelligent control', which includes increased use of pre-emptive surveillance. Moreover, as stated earlier, the repertoires of police and protestors tend to evolve and interact with one another, so it is unsurprising that protestors have responded to the police practice of intelligent control.

Most worrying for some activists, however, is police use of covert surveillance to monitor activists, which in some of the most high-profile cases in the UK has involved so-called 'spy cops' infiltrating movements, including examples where police officers have had sexual relationships and fathered children with activists, in a situation activists describe as like 'being raped by the state' (Apple 2019: 186; see also Stephens Griffin 2021). In a very much delayed public inquiry that was established in 2014 following a stream of allegations about the misconduct of undercover police officers who infiltrated left-wing groups between 1968 and 1982, retired judge, Sir John Mitting, concluded that although the Scotland Yard undercover unit, the Special Demonstration Squad, operated with the approval of the highest levels of government, and with funding from the Home Office (its reports also routinely passed to MI5), the intrusive methods of the Special Demonstration Squad officers were not justified and should have been rapidly closed down, which would have happened had the undercover operations been publicly known at the time (Evans 2023).

We have already referred briefly to Wilson and Serisier's (2010: 168) study of video activists, who use video as a tactical tool to document instances of police misconduct and abuse, and to deter police violence. Another response has been the relatively recent phenomenon of 'citizen journalism', which is a 'form of reportage that blends on-the-ground citizen news collecting, analysing, and disseminating, with a form of participatory surveillance' (Dennis 2008: 349). To Mattoni (2023), the widespread use of smartphones now 'renders the combination of citizen journalism and social movements even

stronger'. Also known as 'participatory journalism', this type of coverage also constitutes a form of counterveillance, itself a variant of 'sousveillance', which was a term coined by Steve Mann (1998) to describe unmediated forms of bottom-up surveillance.

A key moment is the modern history of this kind of surveillance was the case of Rodney King, who, in March 1991, upon being stopped after a high-speed car chase with California Highway Patrol, disobeyed police commands to lie down, which resulted in his receiving a prolonged beating by Los Angeles Police Department officers that was videotaped by a bystander. Almost a year later, in April 1992, the police officers were acquitted by a jury, sparking the Los Angeles riots, which lasted just under five days and ended with 50 people killed, more than 2,000 injured, and over 8,000 arrested. To Dennis (2008: 348), this most memorable event in spectator recordings 'heralded the power of the handheld video recorder to capture, store, and transmit images that could now be reproduced globally in almost an instant [and] gave out a message: that living in the eye of the camera meant a person, people, institutions, and organisations were no longer insular and immune'. The more recent filming of the police killing of George Floyd on 25 May 2020 in Minneapolis represents another signal case demonstrating the power of smartphones and social media not only to capture and expose police violence but also their role in the orchestration of the Black Lives Matter protests that followed (which we look at in more detailed in Chapter 10).

The advent of digital media technologies then clearly provides greater scope than ever before for police accountability not only in everyday scenarios, such as the cases of Rodney King and George Floyd, but also in protest and public order settings. New digital technologies thus transform capabilities for 'disruptive disclosure', for the surveillance of policing, and mean 'the tactics of maintaining secrecy, keeping silent and practising concealment are less available to police now' (Goldsmith 2010: 920). In short, these technologies enable the exposure of alleged police misconduct to mass audiences. Importantly, this 'new visibility', as Goldsmith (2010: 925–926) calls it, relates largely to police use of force and police brutality, which, we might add, is accentuated in public order and protest policing, simply because that type of policing is by definition more visible.

While maintaining silence and preserving secrecy are legitimate police practices in lawful covert operations for example, they can also be defensive manoeuvres to avoid public embarrassment and formal accountability (Goldsmith 2010: 915). However, the police's 'account ability' (i.e. keeping up normal appearances via forms of impression management within the control of the police) has been greatly diminished and, in turn, their accountability to the court of public opinion greatly increased with the advent of smartphones,

video-sharing platforms like YouTube, and social networking sites, such as Facebook and Twitter (see also Schneider 2015). Indeed, while Haggerty and Ericson (2000: 618) recognise these developments have not led to 'a complete democratic levelling of the hierarchy of surveillance', they nevertheless constitute a positive and productive effect of the surveillant assemblage:

> … the monitoring of the powerful has been eased by the proliferation of relatively inexpensive video cameras. These allow the general public to tape instances of police brutality, and have given rise to inner-city citizen response teams which monitor police radios and arrive at the scene camera-in-hand to record police behaviour. (Haggerty and Ericson 2000: 618)

Box 9.4 Policing's new visibility: The case of Ian Tomlinson

Since the Battle of Seattle in 1999, Indymedia, the Internet-based network of Independent Media Centres, has played a prominent role in anti-globalisation demonstrations that have taken place at high-profile 'mega-events', such as at G8 meeting in Genoa in 2001 where 'amateur journalism' and 'native reporting' – both species of citizen journalism – 'provided a powerful counter to the dominant mainstream media coverage of the protests' (Atton 2003: 10). The relationship between citizen journalism and the new visibility of policing was also evident at the 2007 APEC Sydney summit (Figure 9.3), which we looked at in Chapter 8. However, the case of the death of Ian Tomlinson provides a powerful example of how citizen journalism can effect real change, such as intervening in the administration of justice.

During the protests surrounding the London G20 summit in 2009, Tomlinson was filmed being struck with a baton and pushed to the ground by a police officer. Soon after, he died. Tomlinson was not a protestor (he was, in fact, walking home from work at the time), and although most citizen journalism tends to be practiced by activists and other people committed to political causes (Loader and Mercea 2012: 4), the video footage in this case was shot by an American tourist, Christopher La Jaunie, who initially failed to realise the significance of the video, but when he did, he forwarded it to *The Guardian* newspaper, which proceeded to publish it on its website (Scott Bray 2013: 457, 468). This altered the formal course of events, revealing the power in citizen journalism.

Prior to the release of the footage, the UK Home Office pathologist determined Tomlinson died of natural causes, and at that time his death was not subject to a review by the



Figure 9.3 Police officer and camera crew during the APEC protests in Sydney, Australia, September 2007 © Russotwins/Alamy

Independent Police Complaints Commission (IPCC). After the video's release, however, the IPCC assumed investigative control of the case and subsequently conducted three other independent investigations in response to complaints from Tomlinson's family. The video release also precipitated further autopsies and informed a coronial verdict of 'unlawful killing' (Scott Bray 2013: 455). That verdict led the Crown Prosecution Service (CPS) to review its original decision not to prosecute the police officer, PC Simon Harwood, shown striking and pushing Tomlinson, and charge him with manslaughter; although ultimately Harwood was acquitted, resulting in what has been described as an instance of 'paradoxical justice' (Scott Bray 2013: 471).

Like the earlier case of Jean Charles de Menezes (the Brazilian shot dead by Metropolitan police officers on London's Underground in 2005), controversy surrounded the original decision of the CPS not to prosecute in the Tomlinson case (Greer and McLaughlin 2012: 284–285). Indeed, the viral spread of the Tomlinson G20 footage via the Internet caused Brazilian viewers to reflect upon the de Menezes shooting and led to the formation of a Facebook group (Goldsmith 2010: 923–924). Although that fell short of an Internet campaign for justice, in other contexts the Internet and social media have been used as an extra-legal means of campaigning for justice and exposing miscarriages of justice (Gies 2017; Tyson 2009).

In certain respects, citizen journalism resembles Altheide and Snow's (1991) notion of 'post-journalism', as described above in relation to Greenpeace's media stunts, which are pre-packaged to such a degree so as to obviate the need for professional journalists. Indeed, although in its pure form citizen journalism entails unmediated bottom-up surveillance (sousveillance), it is also a mode of civic participation that is increasingly incorporated into mainstream news media (see Dennis 2008: 349–350), as attested to by Alan Rusbridger, then editor-in-chief at *The Guardian*, who, recognising its significance in the case of Ian Tomlinson, said: '"I am sometimes giddy with the possibilities new technologies offer us … for being embedded in the most astonishing network of information the world has ever seen or could ever have imagined"' (Wilby 2012: 37). To illustrate his point, Rusbridger noted how *The Guardian's* exposé of the police's role in the death of Ian Tomlinson at the G20 protests in London, 2009, was based on eye witnesses' use of mobile phone camera footage, which amounted to a situation where '"old-fashioned reporting was allied with the mass observation of people we wouldn't call reporters but who were, on the day, able to do acts of journalism"' (Wilby 2012: 37).

THE 2011 ENGLISH RIOTS: DIGITAL MOB OR MEDIATED CROWD?

While citizen journalism and other forms of sousveillance can be used productively and positively for good purposes, Kingsley Dennis (2008: 348) shows these forms of surveillance may also have 'dark undertones', some of which reawaken old fears of early collective behaviour theories relating to the perceived dangers of the mass psychology of mobs and crowds that we examined in Chapter 3. Hence, the increased ubiquity of and access to 'miniaturised and

mobilised surveillance devices is thus empowering both individualistic acts of "good intentions" as well as encouraging mob activism' (Dennis 2008: 350). Accordingly, we witness the emergence of 'digital mobs' (Dennis 2008: 35), evident in instances of 'virtual-vigilantism' (Dennis 2008: 348, 351, 355).

Also known as 'digital vigilantism' or 'digilantism', this online variant of vigilantism has itself been described as 'a social movement giving rise to premeditated acts of force – or threatened force – by autonomous citizens' (Johnston 1996: 232). Essentially, it entails individuals using social media to perform citizen-led surveillance and policing to bypass state law enforcement that are regarded corrupt and/or ineffective (Chang and Poon 2017; Galleguillos 2022; Martin 2019a, 2023b; Trottier 2015; Vitis et al. 2022). It might also involve forms of public Internet humiliation, such as naming and shaming, reminiscent of community punishments meted out in medieval times, which the mainstream media can participate in too. In one example during the COVID-19 pandemic, 'two African women who tested positive for COVID-19 after returning to Brisbane from Melbourne via Sydney without declaring they had visited coronavirus hotspots, were named and shamed by the media in what was widely regarded as sexist and racist reporting' (Martin 2022a: 218–219).

Stephanie Baker (2012) has shown how the use of new media played a similar role in the wake of the riots that occurred in England in August 2011. She argues that despite the apparent intelligence failure of police, who did not integrate social media services into their tactics for policing the riots, social media nevertheless played a part in the policing of the riots, whereby 'social networking sites operated as public surveillance platforms to locate those responsible for the unrest. The blogging platform, Tumblr, for example, hosted an account called, "Catch a Looter", which encouraged users to disseminate photos of looters and, thereby, expose their identities to the police' (Baker 2012: 185).

Just as the perceived injustice of the acquittal of the officers filmed beating Rodney King sparked the Los Angeles riots in 1992, the 2011 riots in England were triggered by the fatal shooting of Mark Duggan by police in Tottenham, North London (Martin and Scott Bray 2013: 642). The widespread sense of social injustice surrounding this 'social tragedy' was a key factor precipitating the riots, with social media contributing to the ensuing disorder 'by facilitating feelings of solidarity and empowering collective action' (Baker 2012: 176; see also Martin 2011a). Clearly, says Baker (2012: 175), social media had a notable effect in contributing to the riots evidenced, for instance, by 'symbolic images posted on Facebook of burning police cars in Tottenham, and protestors calling on members of the community to avenge Mark Duggan's death [which] engendered a sense of social cohesion by connecting actors from disparate geographies into a

common symbolic space'. In an argument reminiscent of Mario Diani's (2000) earlier ideas about the impact of 'computer mediated communication' on social movement networks, Baker (2012: 176) argues that the protests associated with the 2011 riots gave rise to the formation of a *mediated crowd*, 'wherein the interactive online relationships enabled by social media connected aggrieved users into intense relationships that transpired offline'.

For Baker (2012: 172–173), it is important to recognise both the online and offline aspects of this new form of mediated crowd membership so as to counteract 'technological determinism', which, in the case of the English riots, gave rise to a common perception in the mainstream media and among commentators that social media was solely to blame for recruiting rioters and looters – thus gainsaying the human agency and emotionality of the *people* who were motivated to riot. A more nuanced approach, she argues, enables us to appreciate the role of social media not only in contributing to the speed and scale with which the riots emerged, but also allows us to understand how some used social media as a form of resistance, choosing not to participate, as well as helping to orchestrate the clean up in the immediate aftermath of riots. In this sense, Baker (2012: 182) argues, 'Twitter operated as an extension of the public sphere'. The establishment via Twitter of Riot Cleanup, for example, 'operated as a collective act of resistance against rioters with online social networks transpiring into an offline social movement' (Baker 2012: 183).

Box 9.5 Arab Spring

Technological determinism during and after the English riots of 2011 led to calls for authorities to censor social networking services, such as BlackBerry's instant messenger service, 'by removing hashtags, temporarily shutting down services, and banning individual users thought to be responsible for inciting the riots' (Baker 2012: 171). Baker (2012: 171–172) shows how this not only appeared to contradict the liberal democratic principles of British society but also how '[t]alk of such a move drew parallels to contemporary methods of censorship used by authoritarian regimes during the Arab Spring, and was consequently publicly criticised'. However, the parallels do not end there.

Referring to the uprisings against despotic regimes across the Middle East and North Africa during 2011, it has been said of the Arab Spring that the 'constant narrative arc of the uprisings involves digital media' (Howard and Hussain 2011:

46). Accordingly, repressive governments across the region adopted what Howard and Hussain (2011: 44) call the 'desperate tactic' of attempting to block Internet access and Facebook use; a strategy that was foiled by hacktivist groups, Anonymous and Telecomix, 'by building new software to help activists get around state firewalls' (Howard and Hussain 2011: 37; see also McBain 2014).

Given the centrality of social media in the Arab Spring, it is hardly surprising those 'countries that experienced the most dramatic protests were among the region's most thoroughly wired, and their societies boasted large numbers of people with the technical knowledge to use these new media to strong effect' (Howard and Hussain 2011: 46). In Egypt and Tunisia, for instance, almost everyone has access to a mobile phone (Howard and Hussain 2011: 37–38). On the other hand, say Howard and Hussain (2011: 47), 'the countries with the lowest levels of technology proliferation have also tended to have the weakest democratisation movements'.

Although Howard and Hussain (2011: 47) believed it too early to claim the Arab Spring represented a wave of democratisation – indeed, a year on from the Arab Spring, it was argued the protests for democracy had been hijacked by Islamist parties, such as Egypt's Muslim Brotherhood (Roy 2012; see also Gerges 2011) – they argue, '[d]igital media are important precisely because they had a role in popular mobilisations against authoritarian rule that were unlike anything seen before in the region'. That is why, as stated in Chapter 7, the use of social media during the Arab Spring could be considered as adding to the protest repertoire of Islamic activism. Indeed, while discontent had existed prior to the Arab Spring (Kurzman 2012), the role of digital media, and especially the Internet and smartphones, was a pivotal contributing factor:

> … spreading protest messages, driving coverage by mainstream broadcasters, connecting frustrated citizens with one another, and helping them to realise that they could take shared action regarding shared grievances. For years, discontent had been stirring, but somehow the drivers of protest never proved sufficient until mobile phones and the Web began pervading the region. (Howard and Hussain 2011: 41)

Howard and Hussain (2011: 41) go on to say that although it is never wise 'to look for simple, solitary causes of a revolution, to say nothing of a string of revolutions […] the use of digital



Figure 9.4 A man waves an Egyptian flag in Tahrir Square hours before President Mubarak steps down from office on 11 February 2011 © James May/ Alamy

media to rouse and organise opposition has furnished a common thread'. Two things should be noted from this comment and the quotation above. First, while digital media were crucial to the Arab Spring, as with movements in other contexts (Funke and Wolfson 2014), traditional media sources also played their part. However, unlike the 2011 English riots, where 'old' media tended to focus negatively on working-class and minority groups (Baker 2012: 179), thereby reinforcing extant power structures (Baker 2012: 187), the role of mainstream news media in the Arab Spring was altogether more positive (cp. Almeida and Lichbach 2003). For example, Al Jazeera had a highly innovative

new media team, which transposed its traditional news product to social media sites and made use of the pre-existing social networks of its online users:

> But a key aspect of its success was its use of digital media to collect information and images from countries in which its journalists had been harassed or banned. These digital networks gave Al Jazeera's journalists access to more sources, and gave a second life to their news products. (Howard and Hussain 2011: 45)

Secondly, it should be noted that, as Baker (2012) does in respect of the English riots (discussed earlier), the Arab Spring was not only an online, digital revolution. Certainly, as with the English riots, the speed and viral spread of the uprisings during the Arab Spring can be accounted for by the use of social media such as Twitter, YouTube, and Facebook. However, it is equally important to recognise that alongside the virtual spaces created by bloggers and activists to produce alternative newscasts and a place for political discussion, protests also occurred in actual public spaces (Howard and Hussain 2011: 36).

SYMBIOTIC RELATIONSHIPS BETWEEN ONLINE/OFFLINE PROTEST AND OLD/NEW MEDIA

The coexistence of online activism and physical protest in public spaces during the Arab Spring (mentioned at the end of Box 9.5) is something it has in common with Occupy, which was itself inspired in part by the Arab Spring (Gaby and Caren 2012: 368; Kerton 2012: 302; Pickerill and Krinsky 2012: 284). Eltantawy and Wiest (2011: 1212) draw directly upon resource mobilisation theory to argue 'a significant resource for the Egyptian revolution that was utilised effectively was social media'. Similarly, Gaby and Caren (2012) contend that by allowing Occupy activists to post shocking images online, social networking sites like Facebook and Twitter proved important recruitment tools and powerful resources that enabled the rapid and widespread reach of information (see also Tremayne 2014). According to Thorson et al. (2013), Twitter and YouTube also provided media sharing across wide-scale networks of videos, which acted as repositories of movement resources that allowed activists, armed with cell phones and digital cameras, to produce footage as eyewitness accounts of protest (and police) activity. Indeed, insofar as video footage was used to

monitor the policing of Occupy, Thorson et al. (2013: 426) say, it fit squarely with the notion of sousveillance, which 'keeps watch on those in power in an effort to equalise the asymmetrical nature of the relationship'.

Notwithstanding the significant role played by digital media in the Occupy movement, like the Arab Spring (and the English riots), offline activity also constituted an important part of the protest. To Pickerill and Krinsky (2012: 285), 'Occupy was mediated through a mix of "old" and "new" methods of diffusion [which] worked with electronic media, and also through interpersonal ties and existing alliances'. Thus, alongside so-called Facebook activism, as we saw in Chapter 8, offline activity was a central element of the Occupy protests, 'involving activists gathering in central city locations for hours, days or even months on end' (Gaby and Caren 2012: 369). Hence, Pickerill and Krinsky (2012: 285) say, 'Occupy will doubtless be celebrated as a product of an online age of 24/7 interaction and rampant social networks, but there remains an interesting tension between the utility of online social networks for protest and the place-based utility of personal ties'. Indeed, Sara Salem (2015: 185) has argued social media use during the Arab Spring had less of an impact than often assumed, showing how after the uprising in Egypt for example, the state and many other institutions regrouped to ensure pre-uprising patterns of domination re-emerged, causing activists to realise challenging the status quo requires activism in multiple spaces, not only online (see also Mirshak 2019).

In his examination of the interaction between social media and the street protests of the 2011 Egyptian uprising, the Indignados and Occupy Wall Street, Gerbaudo (2012: 12) talks of a 'choreography of assembly' to refer to a process of *symbolic construction of public space*, which is a practice 'made visible in the use of social media in directing people towards specific protest events, in providing participants with suggestions and instructions about how to act, and in the construction of an emotional narration to sustain their coming together in public space'. Similarly, Anastasia Kavada (2015) shows how Occupy activists' use of social media helped to blur the boundaries between the inside and the outside of the movement, thus bolstering its values of inclusive and direct participation captured in its claim to represent the 99 percent.

Similarly, in the context of China, Liu (2017) has drawn on Melucci's arguments regarding the importance of everyday structures of resistance (see Chapter 5) to show how the mundane use of digital media in activists' daily lives acts as a precursor of publicly visible contentious politics. In another study, this time of the Gezi Park occupation in Istanbul, Turkey in 2013, McGarry et al. (2019: 285) look beyond the iconic images that appeared in the mainstream media and in popular culture to focus on the everyday or mundane activities of protestors – e.g.

eating, reading, cleaning, praying – posted on social media, which, among other things, 'communicated the idea that the protestors occupying the park were just ordinary people doing something extraordinary, and that the protest "belonged" to everyone'.

Along with complementing not substituting for physical gatherings, Gerbaudo (2012: 13, original emphasis) argues social media use is also 'a vehicle for the creation of new forms of proximity and face-to-face interaction' that has contributed 'in constructing a new sense of social centrality, focused around "occupied squares", which are thereby transformed into *trending places*, or venues of *magnetic gatherings*, with a great power of emotional attraction'. Moreover, he says, the term 'choreography' serves to indicate that 'the symbolic construction of public space, for all the participatory character and techno-liberation claims of protests culture, has not been entirely "spontaneous" or "leaderless"' (Gerbaudo 2012: 13). Drawing on Jurgenson's (2012) critique of 'digital dualism' or the idea that physical and digital spaces are separate, Mislán and Dache-Gerbino (2018) provide a similar assessment of the protests in Ferguson, Missouri following the police murder of Michael Brown on 9 August 2014, which, they say, underscore the continued importance of physical space for locally-based activists as well as the limits of digital media, such as the larger #BlackLivesMatter platform.

However, once physical events have waned, some movements have continued to develop online/media strategies. In the case of the Indignados, for instance, it has been observed that the movement's 'educommunicative' orientation not only strengthened its pre-existing media activism but opened up possibilities for media innovation (Barbas and Treré 2023). Nonetheless, the idea that there is a symbiotic relationship between online and offline protest activities remains, and is reiterated by Lee Artz (2021), who articulates a version of the view considered in Chapter 4 which sees as central the role of pre-existing offline networks for movement mobilisation.

Artz contrasts the important part played by physical networks and years of offline activism in the success of the Arab Spring with the less effective role of 'hashtag activism' in the Black Lives Matter movement. Underscoring the view that 'mass actions are essential for expressing, developing, and exerting power' (Artz 2021: 263; see also Mundt et al. 2018: 10), he also argues social media is driven fundamentally by global media corporations intent on maximising profits rather than being dedicated to political causes and increasing democratic discourse. Moreover, the idea that social media is somehow the only virtuous means of influencing political mobilisation is misguided given, first, 'social media mostly repost stories published by traditional news media', and, secondly, the fact that, as evidenced by the Arab Spring, social media often supplements 'more powerful commercial media' when organising protest (Artz 2021: 252).

This raises again the ways in which social media technologies are 'recasting movement relations with the traditional news media' (Gardner 2023: 2), which was addressed in Box 9.4 when we considered the signal case of Ian Tomlinson. Another example of digital activism partnering with mainstream media is presented in research by Rae et al. (2018: 482) on the 'self-represented witnessing' of asylum-seekers held by the Australian Government in offshore detention centres, which, they argue, entails refugees using 'digital media to bear witness to their own suffering and communicate this directly to an online audience'. Drawing on work by Joyce (2013), Rae et al. (2018: 480) say while this species of 'bearing witness' is largely unmediated, detained asylum seekers have used social media 'to connect with journalists, advocates, activists, legal representatives and loved ones'. For refugees imprisoned in Australia's offshore processing facilities, producing counter-images and counter-narratives are vital in the face of state secrecy as well as negative portrayals of asylum seekers in news media (Martin 2015, 2017b, 2019b; Martin and Tazreiter 2017).

Rae et al. (2018: 489) show how although asylum seekers' use of social media enables them to 'bypass the restrictions on traditional media outlets so they can continue to provide insider accounts of life inside Australian-operated immigration detention centres', their message distribution tends to be limited to the social media network itself. Accordingly, self-represented witnessing using social media platforms has made the most impact when 'content is picked up and reproduced by mainstream media that are, by definition, able to reach a broader audience' (Rae et al. 2018: 491).

These arguments resonate with those of Aron Doyle (2011) who shows how various sorts of media – including video surveillance footage of police taken on mobile phones – can act as sites of resistance for oppositional groups to get into the news. Indeed, Rae et al.'s case study shows how despite claims that old media is obsolete in the digital age or era of 'post-journalism' (Altheide and Snow 1991), 'interventions will often be more efficacious when newer media are paired with older media' (Martin 2019b: 347; see also Artz 2021: 249; Briguglio 2021: 310). However, while that has happened to some degree, Rae et al. (2018: 481) say their examples of asylum seekers self-represented witnessing 'demonstrate the limited capacity for this form of witnessing to effect policy change'. Indeed, although refugees making their lives visible enables 'empathetic others in the larger public to recognise humans in hardship' (Heemsbergen and Daly 2017: 390), even with the support of a 'significant minority' of Australians (Heemsbergen and Daly 2017: 394; see also Martin 2019b: 347) the policy of processing asylum seekers in offshore detention centres is unlikely to change anytime soon.

CONCLUSION

In his review of the literature on social movements and new ICTs, Garrett (2006: 209) suggests the ability provided by new ICTs to disseminate information rapidly may increase political accountability, since '[e]lites are more likely to behave in a manner consistent with citizen concerns if they work in an environment where they must assume their actions are being observed and that news of any inappropriate actions – even those traditionally outside the media spotlight – will quickly reach the public'. Clearly, this resonates with ideas discussed above to do with sousveillance, counterveillance, and citizen journalism. On the other hand, Garrett argues, activists' reliance on ICTs also provides opportunities for 'demobilisation'. For instance, when cyber activists become too threatening they could be denied access to resources by elites and their allies who often own and/or control the ICT infrastructure (Garrett 2006: 210). Alternatively, network architecture, such as firewalls and controlled gateways, can be modified by states to preserve censorship (Garrett 2006: 214). We have seen how that occurred in several countries during the Arab Spring, and how this kind of state surveillance and control over access to information is something Wikileaks was set up to oppose.

Poell (2015) has extended this analysis to show how especially in China and Iran 'state censorship and repression appear to have succeeded in steering people away from directly confronting central state authorities'; though, the death of 22-year-old Kurdish woman, Mahsa Amini, while in custody following her arrest by Iranian 'morality police' for not wearing the hijab headscarf properly sparked mass protests and corresponding state crackdowns in September 2022 (Wintour 2022). Indeed, it has been suggested that using low-cost, easily accessible ICTs might assist protestors in authoritarian contexts where those activities can be harder for authorities to monitor and track, thus decreasing what are already potentially serious risks to personal safety posed by activism in those environments (Earl et al. 2014: 375–358).

Similarly, Garrett argues that as well as providing for more *political accountability*, the use of ICTs tends also to increase levels of *political participation* by facilitating the creation of low-cost forms of participation, such as accessing information on the Internet (see also Rosenkrands 2004: 72; Loader 2008). This provides some resolution to the 'free rider' problem, which, it will be recalled from Chapter 3, provides that people only participate in collective action if the benefits to them of participation outweigh the costs. Hence, Garrett (2006: 206) shows how ICTs 'allow very small contributions to be effectively aggregated'. Examples of such 'micro-contributions' include 'click and give' websites. Moreover, he suggests, the act of making even small

contributions may foster a greater sense of obligation and commitment to a cause (Garrett 2006: 206–207), although as we saw earlier a danger of 'clicktivism' is that it can give people a false sense of being useful given their actions often have little, if any, impact.

Nonetheless, this idea resonates with Greenpeace's reliance on a passive public (discussed earlier), which, fatigued by street protesting, is more inclined to 'couch potato activism'. While this model applied originally to Greenpeace's television campaigning, digital technologies, such as the Internet and social media, will conceivably only intensify privatised forms of political participation. Indeed, as Loader and Mercea (2012: 3) state, the citizen equipped with social media 'no longer has to be a passive consumer of political party propaganda, government spin or mass media news, but is instead actually enabled to challenge discourses, share alternative perspectives and publish their own opinions'. However, we must not fall prey to the kind of 'technological determinism' described earlier, recognising the human agency behind the use of new media and understanding that the 'acquisition of an iPhone or access to a social networking site does not in itself determine the engagement of citizens' (Loader and Mercea 2012: 3).

In the case of Occupy, online media 'enabled a large audience to register support without physically joining a camp, and for ideas and strategies to be shared more easily' (Pickerill and Krinksy 2012: 285). However, as the examples of Occupy, the Indignados, the Arab Spring, Black Lives Matter, and the English riots demonstrate, even in the digital age, offline activism nevertheless remains an important – some would say essential – feature of social movement activity and protest politics. Reinforcing that point, Harlow (2011: 229) has used a framing approach to show how an online Guatemalan justice movement moved offline when online comments 'pointed out the problem, identified solutions, and motivated people to participate offline'. Moreover, as discussed in Chapter 8, space, whether physical or virtual, should be considered an important aspect of the study of social movements, which, in the era of social media, say Pickerill and Krinsky (2012: 285), needs 'to move beyond the superficial celebration of digital mediation and unpack the (particularly scalar) implications of this use of mixed media'.

This brings us to a final point regarding the *global efficacy* of movements using social media and digital technologies. It is something of a cliché now that, as Garrett (2006: 207) puts it, ICTs facilitate community creation, reinforce existing social networks, and help maintain geographically dispersed networks. Hence, as well as increasing individual participation, ICTs give rise to de-centred, non-hierarchical forms of organisation, increasing the likelihood of what Gerhards and Rucht (1992) call 'mesomobilisation'; that is,

'a high degree of co-ordination between movement networks across a broad geographical range without creating fixed hierarchical organisational forms (a network of networks)' (Scott and Street 2001: 231).

Certainly, a noted feature of protests relying on social media, such as Occupy and the Arab Spring, has been their non-hierarchical and amorphous form (Howard and Hussain 2011: 37, 48; Kerton 2012: 307). Moreover, while Occupy, in particular, has been celebrated for its international reach, as Pickerill and Krinksy (2012: 284) rightly point out, 'that does not mean it was a global movement per se'. Indeed, while Internet-based diffusion was crucial to Occupy's globality, 'questions remain as to how international solidarity can be usefully practiced across such vast distances' (Pickerill and Krinsky 2012: 284). We will take up this and other matters relating to transnational activism and global social movements in Chapter 11. First, we turn to examine legal mobilisation, protest policing, and criminal justice campaigns, some of which also employ ICTs and social media, including hashtag activism.

SUGGESTED READINGS

This is a relatively early edited volume considering how new media and information technologies, like the Internet, have reshaped political mobilisation, protest, and communication in the twenty-first century:

Webster, F. (ed.) (2001) *Culture and Politics in the Information Age: A New Politics?* London: Routledge.

Each of the books below explores the impact of new media technologies on social movements, activism, and informational politics.

Gerbaudo, P. (2012) *Tweets and the Streets: Social Media and Contemporary Activism*. London: Pluto Press.

Gillan, K., Pickerill, J. and Webster, F. (2008) *Anti-War Activism: New Media and Protest in the Information Age*. Houndmills: Palgrave Macmillan.

Han, S. (2011) *Web 2.0*. London: Routledge.

Trottier, D. and Fuchs, C. (eds) (2015) *Social Media, Politics and the State: Protests, Revolutions, Riots, Crime and Policing in the Age of Facebook, Twitter and YouTube*. New York, NY: Routledge.

Van de Donk, W., Loader, B. D., Nixon, P. G. and Rucht, D. (eds) (2004) *Cyberprotest: New Media, Citizens and Social Movements*. London: Routledge.

The following contributions discuss some of the key ideas examined in this chapter:

Earl, J., Hunt, J., Garrett, R. K. and Dal, A. (2014) 'New technologies and social movements' in D. della Porta and M. Diani (eds) *The Oxford Handbook of Social Movements*. Oxford: Oxford University Press, pp. 355–366.

Loader, B. D. (2008) 'Social movements and new media' *Sociology Compass* 2(6): 1920–1933.

Martin, G. (2017d) 'Digital democracy' in B. S. Turner, C. Kyung-Sup, C. F. Epstein, P. Kivisto, J. M. Ryan and W. Outhwaite (eds) *The Wiley-Blackwell Encyclopedia of Social Theory*. Chichester: Wiley-Blackwell, available at: <10.1002/9781118430873.est0627>.

The article by Dennis provides a brief introduction to some key ideas in the surveillance literature, including panopticism, sousveillance and citizen journalism. The article by Haggerty and Ericson is a classic in the field of surveillance studies.

Dennis, K. (2008) '*Keeping a Close Watch* – The rise of self-surveillance and the threat of digital exposure' *The Sociological Review* 56(3): 347–357.

Haggerty, K. D. and Ericson, R. V. (2000) 'The surveillant assemblage' *The British Journal of Sociology* 51(4): 605–622.

This book provides interesting case studies on state surveillance of activists in different countries:

Choudry, A. (ed.) (2019) *Activists and the Surveillance State: Learning from Repression*. London: Pluto Press.

In this chapter, we have focused only on the role of social media during the 2011 English riots. This edited book contains several essays about other aspects of the riots:

Briggs, D. (ed.) (2012) *The English Riots of 2011: A Summer of Discontent*. Sherfield: Waterside Press.

Although now a little outmoded by recent events discussed in this chapter, such as Occupy and the Arab Spring, Garrett's literature review still provides some useful ways of thinking about the relationship between new media technologies and social movements.

Garrett, R. K. (2006) 'Protest in an information society: A review of literature on social movements and new ICTs' *Information, Communication & Society* 9(2): 202–224.

The following journal special issues provide in-depth analyses of some of the issues considered in this chapter:

Information, Communication & Society 12(6) (2009): 'Changing Politics Through Digital Networks'.

Information, Communication & Society 18(8) (2015): 'Social Media and Protest Identities'.
Interface 4(1) (2012): 'The Season of Revolution: The Arab Spring and European Mobilizations', available at: <http://www.interfacejournal.net/2012/05/interface-volume-4-issue-1-the-season-of-revolution-the-arab-spring-and-european-mobilizations/>.
Mobilization 17(4) (2012): 'Understanding the Middle East Uprisings'.
New Media & Society 20(6) (2018): 'Digital Activism'.
Social Movement Studies 16(4) (2017): 'Technology, Media and Social Movements'.
Surveillance & Society 6(3) (2007): 'Surveillance and Resistance'.

CHAPTER 10

Legal mobilisation, protest policing, and criminal justice activism

INTRODUCTION

Like other examples considered in the last chapter, media attention is an important symbolic resource that can be used to publicsie and dramatise issues and events when social movements mobilise law or the threat of litigation to frame disputes against opponents. As we shall see later in this chapter, critical legal and socio-legal studies scholars influenced by what Scott Cummings (2018a) calls the 'social movement turn in law' have shown how media publicity can be particularly effective when used in combination with other strategies, such as street demonstrations and legislative lobbying. Moreover, they say, beyond the *direct effects* court victories might have on affirming rules or declaring rights, the 'legal mobilisation' of social movements can have significant *indirect effects*, including changing attitudes and consciousness raising.

There are clear similarities here with Eyerman and Jamison's (1991) ideas about the 'cognitive praxis' of social movements, as well as those interested in the *cultural impacts* of social movements and protest politics (e.g. Polletta and Amenta 2022), both of which we have encountered previously in the book. For law and social movement researchers too, movements are seen as vital in helping to change public attitudes *before* law changes. Hence, insofar as 'social movements ensure legal compliance: their work is culture-shifting rather than just

DOI: 10.4324/9780367821760-10

rule-shifting' (Cummings 2017a: 255). By the same token, we ought not be beguiled by what Scheingold (1974) terms the 'myth of rights', which recognises the limits successful litigation and court pronouncements on rights have in realising rights and affecting social change. Indeed, as we will see, if court decisions are out of step with public opinion, they risk provoking backlash or countermobilisation.

Therefore, expressing 'concern about the *legitimacy* of law as a tool of progressive social reform' (Cummings 2017a: 235, original emphasis), critical law scholars impacted by 'the cultural turn in studies of law' (Cummings 2017a: 250) have sought to consider the impact of law and legal mobilisation beyond the institutional limits of courts and judicial proceedings. In this way, their interest reflects that of new social movement theorists (discussed in Chapter 5) by, for instance, considering the self-realisation of marginalised groups, such as 'single welfare mothers', who have shown themselves capable of mounting sophisticated and successful campaigns for legislative reform and, in so doing, challenge dominant stereotypes and deep-seated political prejudices (Loffredo 2001: 201). Movements such as these train 'attention on reshaping public discourse and norms, while changing behaviour outside of institutional settings' (Cummings 2017a: 249). Equally, some have argued institutionalisation via the elimination of discriminatory, stigmatising, oppressive law has also been a key goal of identity-based social movements and their politics of recognition (Eskridge 2001).

Importantly, 'relying on critical theory's seminal insight that law and claims of neutrality in law could serve as means of oppression', critical legal studies researchers argue that because courts and lawyers are part of the establishment, they are likely to hinder rather than enable change (Rubin 2001: 40). At other times, judicial decisions are informed by 'policy considerations', meaning '[c]ourts try to decide what is best for society, and then dress up their conclusion in the raiments of legal reasoning, or, less hysterically, integrate their policy judgments into the constraints imposed by legal reasoning' (Rubin 2001: 56). However, using adjudication to resolve policy disputes risks overstepping the line between law and politics whereby courts interfere 'with politics in ways that undercut its progressive potential' (Cummings 2017c: 1645). To Cummings (2017c: 1555), this goes to the 'law-politics problem' at the heart of progressive legal theory; that is, 'how to mobilise law for social change while protecting the boundary between law (as neutral and procedural) and politics (as partisan and substantive)'.

From the vantage point of the critical legal studies movement, however, law is inherently political, and 'the idea of legal neutrality is largely an illusion created by powerful elites to hide the way that their political interests are served through the legal system' (Cummings 2017c: 1655). On this view, while the role of courts and lawyers is to reinforce 'a bankrupt status quo', the role of radical lawyers is 'to

expose the political nature of law from the inside of the system, while aligning with social movements on the outside to build the power necessary to produce and sustain authentic democratic change' (Cummings 2017c: 1655). Accordingly, like new social movement theorists, critical legal scholars are concerned with movement cultures and the grassroots; bottom-up, client-focused, 'movement lawyering', which *integrates* legal and political strategies (Cummings 2017b).

Likewise, Cary Coglianese (2001: 115) observes law is 'not fully autonomous from society'; thereby stressing 'the symbiotic nature of the relationships between social movements, law and society' (Coglianese 2001: 86). For that reason, he says, 'law reform by itself is not adequate to sustain a social movement's goals over the long term' (Coglianese 2001: 108–109). Indeed, relying on law alone can mean the hegemonic order is replicated, since law is infused with society's dominant values, including patriarchal and racist attitudes (Roach Anleu 2010: 184). That is why it is important – in accordance with the notion of cognitive praxis – that social movement values 'diffuse throughout society' (Coglianese 2001: 107). Furthermore, 'law reform itself needs a supportive social and political climate', and thus to be successful, 'social movement reformers need not only seek changes in the law but changes in public values too' (Coglianese 2001: 116).

There are obvious resonances here with the concept of 'political opportunity structure', considered in Chapter 4, and the derivative concept, 'legal opportunity structure', which is discussed in this chapter. Indeed, as we shall see, the political process model, resource mobilisation theory and new social movement theory have all influenced research in law and social movements. However, as Loffredo (2001: 202) notes, the cognitive praxis approach is arguably best placed in recognising how 'social movements provide resources from endogenous sources, adding to intellectual capital and changing existing discourses'. This is examined later in the chapter when we look at the crucial role education and awareness raising might play in challenging online-digital forms of male violence through law reform *and* culture change. More generally, we will also see how debates over reform versus more radical alternatives, such as abolition, have played out across a range of criminal justice issues, including in relation to policing and prisons. To begin, though, the chapter considers the disconnect that has existed until quite recently between legal scholars and social scientists both interested in studying law and social movements.

LAW AND SOCIAL MOVEMENTS

Similar to the estrangement between the sociology of religion and study of social movements noted in Chapter 7, one of the key themes of the literature on law and social movements is that there has generally been

very little dialogue between social movements scholars and legal scholars even though 'the two fields display considerable overlap in both their subject matter and their methodology; they study the same phenomena and draw on the same theoretical sources in doing so' (Rubin 2001: 2). For instance, noting social movement theory and socio-legal studies have rarely engaged with one another in the study of law and social movements, Barclay et al. (2011: 2) say 'these two intellectual traditions [have] largely existed as two wheels spinning away on their own separate paths'. To Rubin (2001: 66), the disjunction between the social science study of social movements and the legal study of court decisions and legislation is particularly surprising given much of the legal history of the United States at least can be regarded the product of social movements, such as abolitionism, which he describes as a 'classic social movement' motivated by 'moral outrage and religious conviction'.

What Rubin (2001: 45) characterises as the 'relative insulation of social movements scholarship and legal scholarship from one another' has led some to try to synthesise approaches on law and social movements in ways not dissimilar to those who have attempted to reconcile American and European approaches to social movements (Chapter 5). In some cases, those efforts have incorporated the 'new sociology of social movements' (Cummings 2018a: 376) to consider movement culture an important factor in legal mobilisation (Cummings 2017a: 249–250). Like European approaches to new social movements, the critical legal studies movement was influenced strongly by the 'neo-Marxist analysis of critical theory' (Rubin 2001: 13), and its emphasis on ideology (Rubin 2001: 33–34). However, most approaches aimed at providing a synthetic perspective are US focused and thus influenced by American-style social movement theory, such as the political process model and resource mobilisation theory.

Hence, law is treated as a resource and lawyers are seen as providing valuable skills and knowledge, which they use to represent the interests of social movements in court, and when navigating the complexities of the legal system (Boutcher and Stobaugh 2023: 2). Accordingly, early studies in this field tended to focus on the effectiveness of litigation as a strategy for social movements in realising their goals, which, in turn, resulted in a tranche of 'court impact' studies aimed at measuring the relationship between court decisions and legal implementation (Bauer 1966; Gould and Barclay 2012; see also Cummings 2017a: 238, 2018a: 370–374). These studies revealed court decisions, and decisions of the US Supreme Court in particular, 'failed to translate into robust social change on the ground' (Cummings 2017a: 238, citing Campbell and Ross 1968). In the parlance of critical legal studies this is one manifestation of the long-recognised gap between 'law on the books' and the 'law in action' (Barclay et al. 2011: 7; Cummings 2017a: 238; Pound 1910).

To Gould and Barclay (2012: 328), the best-known modern 'gap study' is Gerald Rosenberg's (1991) book, *The Hollow Hope*. Conducting large-scale empirical analyses of iconic progressive legal campaigns during the US civil rights era, Rosenberg set out to examine the relationship between court decisions and social change. He looked at the campaign for women's abortion rights culminating in the US Supreme Court case of *Roe v Wade* 410 U.S. 113 (1973), though it is his controversial analysis of the Court's decision in *Brown v Board of Education* 347 U.S. 483 (1954) that has attracted most attention. Rosenberg argued *Brown* failed to produce meaningful school desegregation because it had no *direct effect* on the percentage of black and white children enrolled together in Southern schools.

In fact, according to Rosenberg, the decision in *Brown* had the opposite effect, provoking political backlash and countermobilisation, as desegregation was effectively resisted by white school boards in the South following the Supreme Court ruling. In addition, there was no substantial *indirect effect* of *Brown* on public opinion, nor did the Court's decision galvanise black grassroots activism. Indeed, it was not until the *Civil Rights Act* was introduced in 1964 – threatening to cut off federal funding for segregated schools – that significant school desegregation occurred; the implication here being that 'although legislation could produce desegregation, a judicial decision could not' (Cummings 2018a: 373). To Rosenberg (1991: 338), then, litigation strategies offer 'hollow hope' for substantive policy reform, as expressed in his conclusion that, 'US courts can almost never be effective producers of significant social reform'.

Earlier, Stuart Scheingold (1974: 5) offered a more explicit critique of impact litigation, arguing it and the activist lawyers pursing it tend to be beguiled by a 'myth of rights', namely 'that litigation can evoke a declaration of rights from courts; that it can, further, be used to assure the realisation of these rights; and, finally, that realisation is tantamount to meaningful change'. Conversely, Scheingold argues, impact litigation is largely ineffective in producing social change, which is why he says we must consider the significant *indirect effects* of litigation and not 'limit the evaluation of rights litigation to the immediate result of the case itself' (Young 2007: 321). Accordingly, we must view litigation in terms of its effectiveness for mobilising the 'politics of rights', that is 'to capitalise on the perceptions of entitlement associated with rights to initiate and to nurture political mobilisation – a dual process of *activating* a quiescent citizenry and *organising* groups into effective political units' (Scheingold 1974: 131, original emphasis). In this way, 'litigation is more useful in fomenting change when used as an agent of political mobilisation than when it is employed in the more conventional manner – that is, for asserting and realising rights' (Scheingold 2004: 8). Joel Handler's (1978: 209–222)

seminal empirical study followed this approach but used additional insights from the organisational perspective provided by resource mobilisation theory to show 'how social-change-oriented legal groups mobilised resources and expertise toward systemic challenges across issue areas, often in the pursuit of indirect effects outside of court, such as changing elite attitudes or raising consciousness' (Cummings 2018a: 375).

Building upon research conducted in the post-civil rights era but also developing a robust critique of it, Michael McCann led the charge of socio-legal scholars in 'a nascent field of "law and social movements"' in the 1990s (Cummings 2017a: 251). McCann was critical of the top-down focus and instrumental view of law contained in earlier judicial impact studies, which tended to see law, litigation, and adjudication as counterproductive and sometimes damaging to the very movements lawyers sought to help. Instead of viewing law in terms of a 'formalistic relationship between legal institutions and social movements' (Boutcher and Stobaugh 2023: 2), McCann (1994: 81) adopted a capacious understanding of law that was decentred from courts, showing how 'law becomes meaningful through the practical material activity of citizens'.

In this way, law is seen to play a constitutive role in the daily struggles of activists that advance from the bottom-up. And while earlier scholarship was sceptical and often pessimistic as to the effectiveness of litigation and its impact on social and political change, McCann posits an optimistic view about the indirect effects of reform litigation, which can be 'used by activists to achieve policy concessions, build movement infrastructure, and transform the legal consciousness of the actors involved' (Cummings 2017a: 252). In a similar vein, Andrews and Jowers (2018: 11) use the concept of 'embedded legal activity' to show how during the US civil rights era movement lawyers were involved in a diverse range of activities beyond what is considered typical legal mobilisation, which 'tends to be more specialised, autonomous from other movement tactics, focused more exclusively on courts, and linked to proactive impact litigation strategies'. In the case of the civil rights movement, those activities included 'defense for movement participants charged with misdemeanors and other crimes, movement assistance on organisation-level legal matters, and general legal aid to movement constituents' (Andrews and Jowers 2018: 10).

From McCann's 'legal mobilisation' perspective, then, 'lawyers emerged as political actors, standing alongside other activists, and courts were presented as relevant for leveraging indirect effects' (Cummings 2017a: 253). This bottom-up view draws on the resource mobilisation theory tradition in valuing 'law […] as a resource and not as an end that could change social behaviour without political work' (Cummings 2017a: 253). Thus, McCann (2004: 512) shows how 'conclusive, far-reaching victories in courts or other official forums are

not necessary to achieve this legal catalysing effect'. Indeed, he shows how the *threat* of costly public interest litigation – such as over race and gender discrimination, unsafe workplaces, or environmental damage – sometimes operating in combination with positive media coverage and publicity campaigns dramatising abuse, can secure social reform or bring about the informal resolution of legal rights claims (McCann 2004: 512–515). The threat of legal proceedings, for example, 'encouraged employers to prefer bargaining to confrontation in the context of the American equal pay movement' (Agrikoliansky 2023: 1).

Hence, to McCann (2004: 513), 'legal advocacy often provides movement activists with a source of institutional and symbolic leverage against opponents'. Significantly, the legal leveraging of movements applied to exert political pressure on opponents is not premised on a zero-sum game between law and politics, as earlier proponents were inclined to hold. Instead, McCann (1994: 295) promotes 'a diversified tactical approach', which is 'complementary and interactive rather than merely exclusive in nature'. Accordingly, legal tactics are seen 'to be most useful in concert with other tactics, such as demonstrations, legislative lobbying, collective bargaining, electoral mobilisation, and media publicity' (McCann 2004: 515).

Box 10.1 Legal opportunity structure and law as a master frame

Boutcher and Stobaugh (2023: 2) contend that, '[s]tudying law and social movements as a bottom-up, constitutive process aligns socio-legal scholarship with the long tradition of social movement scholarship that focuses on resources, political opportunities and threats, and framing'. They go on to note, however, that social movement scholars have been slow to include law in their analyses of social movements. There are exceptions. As we saw in Chapter 4, Sarah Soule (2009) has identified various modifications of the 'political opportunity structure' concept, including 'legal opportunity structure'.

Among others, Andersen (2005) employed a 'legal opportunity structure' framework in her study of the lesbian, gay, bisexual, and transgender movement, showing how the openness of courts at particular points in time can influence the strategies used by activists and the cases they instigate. Indeed, notwithstanding the backlash and countermobilisation resulting from the decision in *Brown* (discussed earlier), social movement scholars have shown how that decision contributed directly to the political vulnerability of segregation, and how it facilitated the grassroots

campaigns of Southern black activists (McAdam 1982; Morris 1984). In this way, court decisions can be seen as an element of the wider structure of political opportunities in a society, such that when the prevailing political opportunity structure is more responsive to incorporating excluded demands and grievances that can precipitate the opening up of legal opportunities for other rights-based movements.

As canvassed in Chapter 8, spatial dynamics may come into play too. In a 'geographically differentiated polity' such as the US, for example, certification in particular states might shift public opinion or 'put pressure on the national polity to re-examine its certification/recognition policies' (Martin and Miller 2003: 151). As referred to earlier, this actually happened in the case of the civil rights movement with the passing of the *Civil Rights Act* in 1964, which provided the ultimate legal protection for civil rights on a national scale. More recently, we have seen the geographically uneven way certification has panned out following the Supreme Court's 2022 overturning of the protection of abortion rights under the federal constitution enunciated in *Roe v Wade* (1973), which automatically triggered laws banning abortion in 60 percent of US states (Witherspoon et al. 2022) (Figure 10.1).



Figure 10.1 Pro-choice and pro-life advocates gather at the US Supreme Court, Washington DC on 24 June 2022, responding to the decision overturning the 1973 landmark decision in *Roe v Wade* that legalised abortion © Patsy Lynch/MediaPunch Inc/Alamy

The idea that a responsive political opportunity structure might provide avenues for excluded rights-based movements is premised on Scheingold's (1974: 131) arguments about the 'politics of rights', which posits marginalised groups 'capitalise on the perceptions of entitlement associated with (legal) rights to initiate and to nurture political mobilisation'. What transpires is another of the indirect effects of successful social movement litigation: in this case, what has variously been referred to as a sort of 'contagion effect' or movement 'spillover effect' (see also Chapter 4) that is generated by rights litigation and high-profile judicial victories such as *Brown*, which 'impart salience or legitimacy to general categories of claims (for example, anti-discrimination rights) as well as to specific formulations of challenges within these broad legal traditions' (McCann 1998: 84; see also Meyer and Boutcher 2007). Hence, the civil rights movement, and the decision in *Brown* especially, had a galvanising effect on subsequent progressive movements, producing legal norms that framed the demands of the labour movement, women's movement, welfare rights movement, animal rights movement, the gay and lesbian rights movement, and the disability rights movement (Cummings 2017a: 240; McCann 1998: 84, 86). Indeed, McCammon et al. (2018) have employed the concept of 'analogical legal framing' to show how the movement for gender equality used race-gender analogies when presenting their legal arguments before the US Supreme Court in the 1970s.

While not using the term 'legal opportunity structure' specifically, Pedriana (2006) examines what he refers to as the 'legal framing processes' of the women's movement during the mid-to-late 1960s. Also highlighting the omission of law and legal institutions from much social movement research, Pedriana draws on 'constitutive' approaches to law to show how movement grievances, identity, and objectives are frequently framed through culturally embedded legal symbols, categories, and codes. Indeed, in highly legalised societies, such as the United States, social movements typically (though not exclusively) frame their causes in explicitly legal terms, since 'law provides one of the deepest reservoirs of symbolic resources, discourses, and institutionalised scripts available to collective actors' (Pedriana 2006: 1727–1728).

Accordingly, Pedriana (2006: 1726, original emphasis) conceives of law as a 'master frame' (see Chapter 4) central to which is the 'rights frame' that resonates so strongly with movements in the US because 'rights are fundamental *legal* symbols with a powerful impact on how grievances and objectives are conceived,

legitimised, and acted upon in the American political system'. Moreover, and echoing McCann's legal mobilisation approach discussed earlier, he says law is a unique symbolic resource that can be used by social movements as both *means* and *ends*. It can be used as means 'by appealing to deeply resonant legal symbols, garner legitimacy and support', and as the ends of that process by 'translating a cultural frame into an officially recognised legal *right*' (Pedriana 2006: 1729, original emphasis). That usually (though not always) happens via litigation when aggrieved groups' access to courts allows them to translate symbolic frames into legal claims. Notwithstanding the fact that legal framing is not always a successful movement strategy (Pedriana 2006: 1724), and that engagement with dominant legal ideas and institutions may have a 'conservatising effect on social movements' by restricting political and social vision (Bernstein 2001: 421), Pedriana (2006: 1729) thus proposes that 'while law is central to a movement's framing strategies, it is also an endpoint in a political contest that uses frames in ways that can foster progressive social change more generally'.

This again highlights the argument that legal action alone is often insufficient to produce positive social movement outcomes. However, while legal victories can also spawn negative outcomes, such as countermobilisation, backlash, and demobilisation, studies show how successful litigation may have indirect effects upon activists' sense of empowerment. In his work on pay equity, for instance, McCann (1994) shows how direct and tangible policy accomplishments, such as receiving wage raises of 10 to 25 percent, were often not the most important gains cited by interviewees:

> Rather, women workers repeatedly talked to me about matters of what we might call workplace empowerment. They told me about how their sense of efficacy as citizens was greatly enhanced, and even more how their identification with other women workers had been increased markedly. This was related to a growth in the organisational power of women within their unions, and of their unions relative to their employers. Many women specifically talked about the significance of increased 'rights consciousness' that resulted from the legal mobilisation efforts around wage equity. The result is that, in most workplaces, the pay equity struggle quickly gave rise to new issue demands for maternity leave, fringe benefits, job mobility opportunities, better work conditions, and the like. (McCann 2004: 518)

As stated previously, conclusive, far-reaching legal victories are not needed to secure positive movement outcomes, including legal catalysis and fostering a 'legal consciousness' among activists. Again, McCann's (1994) study of wage equity shows how it was not court decisions that served to 'enlighten' working women about their subordination, but 'sustained legal action over time worked to render employers vulnerable to challenge, to expand the resources available to working women, to provide them a unifying claim of egalitarian rights, and to increase both their confidence and sophistication in advancing those claims' (McCann 2006b: 28).

MOVEMENT LAWYERING

To many, legal tactics are regarded as a drain on resources and a diversion of attention from grassroots activism, with lawyers seen in equally bad light for often being co-opted by the state through law, or otherwise constrained by the legal system, its institutional rules and norms (Agrikoliansky 2023: 1; Boutcher and Stobaugh 2023: 2; Cummings 2017c: 1644, 1648, 2018a: 368, 395–396; McCann 2004: 513). In his recent book, *Against the Law*, David Renton (2022: 152) even goes so far as to suggest that despite its noble intent, 'cause lawyering' associated with social movements that consider themselves against the state is not only 'trapped in law', but it is complicit in the process of 'juridification' or the expansion of law and resultant increase in state power. One example he gives is of Occupy protestors, who although self-styled anarchists, critical of the state and capitalist system, have nevertheless worked comfortably with radical lawyers, assuming the existence of the law, when faced with eviction (Renton 2022: 158–159).

Other approaches cast 'movement lawyering' in a more positive light, showing how it can be both *accountable* and *effective* by 'taking instructions from activist organisations in client-centred fashion and deploying law in politically sophisticated ways designed to maximise the potential for deep and sustained democratic change' (Cummings 2017b: 1731). In addressing the dual problem of efficacy and accountability in the 'new movement lawyering literature' (Cummings 2017b: 1645), Cummings (2018b: 450–451) contrasts old canon accounts and new canon accounts. The old canon had to do with the progressive legal campaigns that were bolstered by liberal public interest advocacy as evident in top-down impact litigation like the landmark decisions in *Brown* and *Roe*. The new canon, in contrast, consists of accounts of bottom-up movement lawyering that are focused on legal institutions beyond courts, are concerned with the interaction of law and politics, portray lawyers as attentive to movement dynamics and the potential for overreach, and are trained on

both the direct and indirect consequences of legal campaigns for movement mobilisation.

In relation to *accountability*, lawyers are seen as top-down operatives, who, like courts, can overreach by imposing their own elite-driven, court-centred vision upon movement strategising, which can suppress marginalised voices and thereby stoke intra-movement dissent, as well as limit political effectiveness or bring about a movement's demise. In terms of *efficacy*, law is now regarded a blunt tool that has limited effect on sustained social and political change, and can result in demobilisation, countermobilisation, and even backlash as courts overreach their authority without legitimacy; that is, without widespread societal support and the concomitant cultural shifts in place to provide a foundation for impactful judicial decision-making.

Given the limitations of the old canon, Cummings proposes a synthetic approach, generating a new definition of movement lawyering that is 'oriented toward building the power of marginalised constituencies through linked legal and political strategies, and premised upon the twin features of representing mobilised clients and deploying integrated advocacy' (Cummings 2017b: 1731). Indeed, to Cummings (2018a: 370), it is the purpose of the 'new social movement turn in progressive legal scholarship', or, more generally, the 'social movement turn in law', to seek to answer the question, 'what role lawyers, litigation, and courts should play' to 'avoid legal liberal concerns about accountability and efficacy while still delivering transformative progressive reform'? Examining US Supreme Court decisions regarding gender inequality (1965–2016), McCammon et al. (2020) similarly show how the involvement of organised feminist cause lawyers increased the likelihood that decisions would expand women's legal rights and/or promote gender equality. They show how broader legal and political opportunities combine with legal-activist efforts to produce judicial outcomes, thus developing a theory of the 'joint effects' of activist legal mobilisation and broader legal/political opportunities.

Cummings cites a variety of examples to highlight the virtues of bottom-up, client-centred approaches that integrate legal and political strategies. For instance, an anti-sweatshop campaign mounted in the 1990s in California came to symbolise the integration of law with other modes of action focused on political rather than legal outcomes. Ultimately, the campaign succeeded in making it easier for garment workers to hold manufactures liable for labour violations. The anti-sweatshop movement was able to do that via a multifaceted strategy, combining different modes of advocacy – litigation, education and policy work – to achieve results. Benefitting from changes at some law schools in legal education promoting problem-solving, collaboration and holistic advocacy, a new generation of young lawyers allied to the anti-sweatshop campaign engaged in social

justice clinics and internalised critiques of past strategies centred on litigation 'to develop approaches that connected their legal work to the energy created by the immigrant rights, labor, and other progressive movements' (Cummings 2017b: 1686).

This approach is reminiscent of Philip Selznick's (1980) 'jurisprudence and social policy' program, which he developed in the late 1970s while at the University of California, Berkeley (Messinger and Selznick 1986). Arguing the law should be more responsive to problem-solving, Sleznick advocated for a perspective on legal scholarship and legal education that blurs the lines of law and politics and, in so doing, is more explicitly committed to serving the ends of justice. In some ways this echoes Roscoe Pound's (1912) earlier call for a 'sociological jurisprudence' aimed at the reformist goal of legal realism to reconnect legal justice and social justice, that is 'to be achieved not through judicial activism, but rather by rejecting the centrality of common law adjudication in favour of "new principles, introduced by legislation, which express the spirit of the time"' (Cummings 2017c: 1565, quoting Pound 1910: 35).[1]

Box 10.2 Movement law

Although they have been inspired by both law and social movements scholarship and movement lawyering, Akbar et al. (2021: 826) argue *movement law* is distinct from legal scholars studying social movements and movement lawyering where the latter 'aims to create space within public-interest practice to work with movements to build grassroots power'. In contrast, movement law is concerned to 'create space within legal scholarship to think alongside social movements' (Akbar et al. 2021: 826). To Akbar et al., that entails developing a particular methodology involving four interrelated moves.

First, movement law scholars attend to modes of resistance by social movements and the local organising of everyday people, which has the effect of diversifying the voices, sources and horizons of legal scholarship. Secondly, movement law scholars strive to make sense of the strategies, tactics, and experiments of resistance and contestation – including but not limited to law reform campaigns – which enables them to engage with pathways and possibilities for justice often obscured in legal scholarship. Thirdly, movement law scholars shift their focus from courts and siloed legal expertise towards the stories, strategies, and histories of social movements, which is a move intended to take the epistemologies of social movements seriously, as well as denaturalise the status quo

and allow more radical possibilities to emerge. Fourthly, movement law scholars strive to develop a sense of solidarity and accountability to the social movements they study, seeing themselves not as individual experts with opinions from above or apart from movements but thinking and working alongside and in conversation with social movements to co-generate ideas for change emanating from the grassroots. This view chimes with approaches discussed in Chapter 2 that see social movements as 'knowledge-producers in their own right' (Chesters 2012: 145) and envisage academics working in partnership *with* activists to co-produce knowledge.

In many respects, too, the collaborations between lawyers and community organisations that movement law scholars talk about resemble what Jennifer Gordon (2005: 294–302) describes as *law in the service of organising*. Here, lawyers are involved in ongoing relationships with communities, prioritising the deployment of soft law intended to *shape processes* rather than *create enforceable rights* (hard law), frequently working through law school clinics 'to translate information about the law so that it is intelligible and useful to community groups as they make decisions about how legal strategies might help their work' (Gordon 2007: 2142; see also Ashar 2008, 2016).

Indeed, while Akbar et al. (2021: 826) note the many movement law scholars who engage in movement lawyering, they see movement law as distinct from movement lawyering in that it provides 'an approach to lawyering in solidarity with social movements'. Likewise, while the law and social movements subdiscipline provides important information for those seeking to understand social movements and the theories of social change they represent, movement law offers something different: 'a methodology for legal scholars across areas of law' (Akbar et al. 2021: 826). Hence, movement law's mark of distinction is its 'scholarly method', which 'approaches scholarly thinking and writing about law, justice, and social change as work done in solidarity with social movements, local organising, and other forms of collective struggle' (Akbar et al. 2021: 826).

Echoing Eyerman and Jamison's (1991) arguments about the cognitive praxis of social movements, movement law seeks to disrupt existing ideas and develop new understandings in solidarity with those who have lived experience of inequality and of movement work and organising on the ground (Akbar et al. 2021: 868–869). Likewise, just as narrative and storytelling are crucial to social movements (see Chapter 6), so movement law seeks to elevate movement narratives and tell grounded

stories stemming from everyday life to relay 'what is wrong with our systems and institutions of law' and 'advocate for solutions' (Akbar et al. 2021: 829). Some of that work intersects with academic endeavour and legal education, whereby movement law scholars spend time providing help and legal support for campaigns and protests, often with their students, 'both inside and outside of the classroom' (Akbar et al. 2021: 869).

Indeed, while collaborating with social movements is key to movement law, it does not eschew legal scholarship, which is seen as vital for propagating new ideas and telling new stories derived from inquiries that, 'range from close, critical analysis of movement texts, to immersion in social movement spaces, to even co-authoring or engaging in participatory action research with movement leaders' (Akbar et al. 2021: 862). There is also a role here for traditional academic writing forms in propagating ideas, such as law review articles, which, while 'long and cumbersome', can 'do powerful work' (Akbar et al. 2021: 845).

In terms of research ethics, which we looked at in Chapter 2, co-writing activities of these kind, where academics and activists collaborate in the co-production of knowledge, can also provide a means for activist-scholars to reciprocate or give something back to research participants who have spent time and perhaps risked personal safety to give researchers access and information (Chesters 2012: 155; Gillan and Pickerill 2012: 135–136, 141). Indeed, the provision of legal help and support by movement law scholars spotlights what Sandra Smeltzer (2012: 262–263) says about the value of 'back office activism', particularly in political environments where a researchers' safety might be compromised should they participate in visible forms of frontline activism or direct action.

Movement law then follows in the critical legal studies tradition (discussed in the introduction to this chapter): not believing 'the rule of law is neutral and objective – separate from our political and social arrangements' (Akbar et al. 2021: 878), and therefore contending that law embrace politics, since embracing the politics of law 'allows us to better understand inequality and explore new pathways for change in solidarity and in conversation with others outside the academy' (Akbar et al. 2021: 874). Prefigurative social change projects and experiments provide important examples here, including those discussed in greater depth later in the chapter in relation to abolitionism and collective action against the carceral state.

Hence, Akbar et al. (2021: 857–856, 2022) draw on studies showing how bail funds, cop-watching, and court-watching

groups aim to destabilise the carceral state and racialised logic of the criminal legal system by redefining notions of harm, community, and public safety. For instance, '[w]hen bail funds post bail, they challenge notions of community and public safety by performing alternative visions of community and safety that include those targeted by the carceral state' (Akbar et al. 2021: 858). In this way, the space created by social movements enables communities to build the bonds of solidarity and safety that facilitate their survival during increasingly perilous times.

Likewise, Dean Spade (2020: 131–133) has shown how the proliferation of mutual aid networks following the COVID-19 pandemic provided an alternative to law reform strategies, many of which offer no real, material relief to the most marginalised in society. To Spade (2020: 136), as 'a form of political participation in which people take responsibility for caring for one another and changing political conditions', mutual aid is an essential means of 'building new social relations that are more survivable'. In this way, mutual aid is also seen by Spade as a fundamentally abolitionist strategy predicated on collective practices of care, self-organisation, and self-determination.

A more recent example of socially engaged lawyering cited by Cummings is the first wave of the Black Lives Matter movement, which mobilised after the police killing of Michael Brown, and unarmed African American man, in Ferguson, Missouri in 2014. Following the protests in Ferguson, 'a group of attorneys came together to form the Black Movement-Law Project to provide "legal support to local communities throughout the country as they demonstrate against police brutality and systemic racism"' (Cummings 2017b: 1684, quoting Black Movement-Law Project). This is a lawyering model embedded in movements that:

> … combined defensive legal tactics (representing protestors and workers prosecuted for legal violations) with street-level politics, affirmative lawsuits, and policy development to assert and enact new legal norms. In so doing, lawyers used multiple advocacy tools and relied upon the expertise of community leaders and nonlawyer activists to make the public case for reform, which in turn created opportunities for additional legal challenges to underlying conditions of inequality. (Cummings 2017b: 1684)

Underpinning justified feeling of injustice in Ferguson before and after Michael Brown's death was a system of 'justice' enacted within the city 'that came to be defined by structural injustice: a law enforcement and adjudicative scheme distorted through a combination of revenue-seeking and discrimination to produce pervasive unconstitutional conduct' (Cummings 2018b: 488). In what has been described as the 'New Jim Crow', African Americans were resubordinated through criminalisation; pulled into the criminal justice system 'as cities starved of funding by anti-tax forces have sought to balance budgets through the imposition of fines and fees for petty offenses, placing police in the position of double agents of law enforcement and revenue collection' (Cummings 2018b: 488).

Portrayals of Ferguson before Michael Brown's killing were of a city where officials deliberately conspired to overpolice the community's most marginalised, arresting them for low-level misdemeanours (e.g. high grass and weeds in yard, excessive noise, walking along a roadway in the 'wrong manner', sitting in a parked car with no seatbelt), imposing disproportionate fines that could not be paid, thereby pushing residents into debt collection and often prison. As observed elsewhere, this case study serves to reinforce the more general point about the discriminatory operation of criminal justice, such that 'even racially neutral enforcement of traffic laws will invariably punish poorer residents who are least able to maintain their vehicles and pay fines' (Vitale 2021: 15). In the Ferguson case, unconstitutionality included violations against the Fourth Amendment protection from unreasonable searches and seizures by the government:

> The most egregious example of this was the ubiquity of arrests for 'failure to comply' – when police would order a stop for no reason, failure to stop would be bootstrapped into an independent failure-to-comply violation triggering arrest, and thereby setting in motion the fine-making and carceral machine. (Cummings 2018b: 489–490)

Other unconstitutional conduct consisted of failure to provide misdemeanour defendants with their right to counsel under the Sixth Amendment, as well as judge-imposed 'economic fines in sentencing without regard to defendants' ability to pay: in violation of the Eight Amendment's Excessive Fines Clause' (Cummings 2018b: 490). Against this backdrop, lawyers intervened, 'seeking to expose structural illegality and reclaim the system for justice rather than revenue' (Cummings 2018b: 490). Lawyers inside and outside the Black Lives Matter movement played four key roles:

1 Information gathering and dissemination, which helped shape public debate, advocate local reforms, and educate affected communities;

2 Lawyers from progressive organisations defended protestors and activists who had been involved in demonstrations following Michael Brown's killing;
3 Barak Obama initiated a series of Department of Justice investigations against police departments in cities with records of abuse; and
4 Private lawyers filed individual lawsuits on behalf of families of victims of police violence.

Source: Cummings (2018b: 491–493)

Class actions were also brought against police departments and cities to close 'debtors' prisons', including in Jackson, Mississippi, 'for using "their local courts, jails, and police forces to generate millions of dollars in profit off the backs of their most impoverished residents"' (Cummings 2018b: 493, quoting Equal Justice Under Law 2017). The effect of these combined legal efforts, which have operated in tandem with grassroots mobilisation, has been to achieve substantive reforms in certain locales, as well as provide protection for activists. In New York City, for instance, stop-and-frisk was reduced, while in Ferguson and other cities, policing practices were restructured and the imposition of low-level fines and fees curtailed.

Moreover, in their study of the effectiveness of Black-led social movements in achieving policy change and police reform in the US, Peay and McNair (2022) show how Black Lives Matter protests have had an impact on reducing and reimagining police contact resulting in the killing of black men experiencing a mental health episode. In the years since the first wave of Black Lives Matter protests in 2014, 'ten states have implemented some form of crisis diversion policy', responding to demands of Black Lives Matter activists 'that cities and states seek out ways to de-escalate and divert police responses for those in the midst of a mental health episode' (Peay and McNair 2022: 7).[2]

Although welcome, these achievements have been seen as lacking by those critical of mainstream legal responses that reinforce marginalised voices within the movement for police accountability, and do not go far enough in terms of criminal justice reform. In fact, writing from the perspective of the Movement for Black Lives – the organisational wing of the movement – Amna Akbar (2018) has proposed a more radical reimagining of the relationship between black communities and the state. Such an approach would go beyond legalistic solutions that remain rooted in a 'law and order' paradigm – such as those proposed by the Department of Justice as a corrective to police failure to adhere to constitutional law – and entail 'investing more resources in police: more trainings, better supervision, community policing' (Akbar 2018: 410).

Radical alternatives, by contrast, encompass abolitionist programs aimed at reducing investment in police (e.g. 'defunding police'), as

well as shifting resource allocation from reactive crime control measures to proactive social, health, and well-being programs (e.g. 'justice reinvestment'). These approaches to defunding and justice reinvestment are not limited to radical proposals seeking to reimagine the function of police but extend to other areas of suggested criminal justice reorganisation, such as in relation to prisons (examined later in the chapter). Indeed, some of these very issues came to the fore during the second wave of Black Lives Matter protests following the police murder of George Floyd in Minneapolis on 25 May 2020 amidst the COVID-19 pandemic (see Box 10.3).

Box 10.3 Rebellious lawyering

Throughout the COVID-19 pandemic, local protests frequently connected to global movements in what has been identified as an expression of a 'glocalised' protest repertoire (Martin 2021: 227, 2022b: 32). The Australian Black Lives Matter protests were no exception. Sometimes organised by activist academics, these protests aimed to raise awareness about Aboriginal deaths in custody in solidarity with the broader Black Lives Matter movement. However, the protests also connected to the global RebLaw movement that was inspired by Gerald Lopez's 1992 book, *Rebellious Lawyering*. In 2021, the Australian Rebellious Lawyering movement held its inaugural conference, which 'brought together lawyers, law students, community organisers, and storytellers to explore how we can transform the Australian legal profession to better support grassroots movements for systemic change' (https://reblaw.com.au/).

However, RebLaw in Australia is not new but a more recent manifestation of lawyers working with activists and organisers. That has included establishment of the Aboriginal Legal Service in Redfern, Sydney, a community legal centre started by young lawyers in the 1970s fighting police harassment of Aboriginal people (Alam 2019). As an exemplar of the movement lawyering model, the Aboriginal Legal Service was 'founded on principles of Aboriginal control and supported Aboriginal people not only through direct legal services, but also by serving as a meeting space, providing advice to other Aboriginal-controlled organisations and by setting up bail funds and halfway houses' (https://reblaw.com.au/what-is-movement-lawyering/).

In Chapter 4, we saw how those protests built on prior activism as well as the work of pre-existing movement organisations across the US (Weddington 2021). Especially in relation to the struggles for public safety in Minneapolis, Phelps et al. (2021) have shown how the failure of 'resonant frames' (Ferree 2003), or those fitting within the existing (e.g. reformist) discursive opportunity structure, adopted by protestors in the mid-2010s that interpreted the problem in policing as one of poor training and accountability (evident in the continuing spate of policing killings without any visible improvement and culminating in the killing of George Floyd), pushed activists to adopt more radical (e.g. abolitionist) frames identifying policing itself as the problem. In terms of the study's broader contribution to social movement theory, Phelps et al. show how despite being homogenised in the media, tensions exist among Black Lives Matter activists around how to move forward in policing, although to the extent all activists align to the master frame that policing is violent and racist, resonant/reformist frames and radical/abolitionist frames co-exist along a fluid and often shifting spectrum that disputes the binary conception of Black Lives Matter frames as *either* reformist *or* abolitionist.

LAW IN ACTION: PROTEST POLICING DURING THE COVID-19 PANDEMIC

Contrary to initial conjecture that most protest during the COVID-19 pandemic would be conducted online due to restrictions on mass gatherings, Pressman and Choi-Fitzpatrick (2021: 770–771) have argued street protests remained the dominant repertoire of contention, though physical protests were sometimes supported by online action (see also Briguglio 2021; Pinckney and Rivers 2020). Other studies have shown how limits on public gatherings spawned less visible civil society activism, with voluntary action, mutual aid, and community groups forming neighbourhood networks to facilitate food distribution and shopping for medical prescriptions in lockdown (Bianchi et al. 2023; Bringel and Pleyers 2022; Chevée 2022; Fatsis and Lamb 2022: 77, 108–110; Kowalewski 2021: 763; Pleyers 2020; Renton 2022: 152). In Hong Kong, for instance, loss of faith and trust in government following the enactment of an anti-democratic national security law – which was a target of the Umbrella Movement (see Chapter 8) – coupled with self-help born of prior experience with major health risks posed by Avian flu, SARS and swine flu produced a series of spontaneous self-organised initiatives and campaigns to tackle panic buying and assist with personal protective equipment (or PPE) distribution to health workers (Chan 2021: 556).

When physical protest events did occur, some protestors made a series of 'tactical adjustments' to incorporate 'public health guidelines into their protests' or otherwise shifted 'to protest methods that



Figure 10.2 Protestors cheer and chant in front of police horses at the Shrine of Remembrance during the 'Freedom Day' anti-mask and anti-lockdown protest, Melbourne, Australia, 5 September 2020 © Michael Currie/Alamy

did not put people in close proximity', such as 'car caravans' (Pressman and Choi-Fitzpatrick 2021: 770). Other innovations included 'ersatz protests, with virtual representations and/or non-human presence' (Mead 2021: 102). In contrast to the mostly organised protests that took place around human rights and social justice issues during the pandemic, anti-lockdown protests tended to be spontaneous, with protestors largely flouting public health advice about wearing masks, use of hand sanitiser, and social/physical distancing (Gerbaudo 2020; Meeker 2021: 113) (Figure 10.2). However, even when protestors organised events observing COVID-19 safety protocols, police sometimes responded with repressive methods. Such was the case at a protest held at the University of Sydney where police used COVID-19 public health orders as a pretext to clamp down hard on 'students with fines and move-on orders supported by the force of more than 70 riot and mounted officers' (Martin 2021: 280; see also Martin 2022a: 228, 2022b: 33).

Research suggests a failure to maintain public trust and confidence in police legitimacy can lead to civil disorder (Reicher and Stott 2020a, 2020b; Sheldon 2021: 22), and, moreover, that the way police behave at protests can also affect trust and confidence in the legitimacy of police (Bonner and Dammert 2022; Perry et al. 2017). Indeed, as we saw in Chapter 8, in the recent past some commentators have argued as 'the velvet glove increasingly comes to replace, or at least cover, the iron fist' (Marx 1998: 253) the

style of protest policing has been more democratic, resembling a 'negotiated management' model (see Vitale 2005 for discussion; see also Smith 2012). In the Australian state of New South Wales, that idea finds statutory expression within the *Summary Offences Act 1988* (NSW), the purpose of which is to facilitate cooperation between protest organisers and police who, it is hoped, will arrive at a consensus over things like protest purpose, protestor numbers, and protest route (Gotsis 2015: 14).

However, since the Battle of Seattle in 1999, when anti-globalisation protestors successfully disrupted the WTO ministerial meetings (Martin 2011b), the negotiated management model has been subject to critical scrutiny, with observers noting a demonstrable 'shift away from communicative models of interaction between individuals and governments to a more repressive and hostile relationship' (Bourne 2011: 191). In respect of protest policing that has meant greater use of authoritarian and wholly undemocratic tactics (Gilmore 2010) – like the deployment of 'paramilitary units […] to respond to protest activity' (Vitale 2021: 11) – in an intensification of the 'criminalisation of dissent' (Martin 2017a).[3]

Throughout the COVID-19 pandemic, protestors, including activist academics and Rebellious Lawyers seeking redress for Aboriginal deaths in custody (see Box 10.3), applied to police to hold protests even when coronavirus restrictions were at their most stringent. In New South Wales, that gave rise to a unique and internationally significant corpus of jurisprudence on the legality of protest gatherings during the pandemic, with the state Supreme Court both allowing and prohibiting protests contingent upon the risk such events might pose to public health and community safety at particular phases of the pandemic (Freckelton 2020; Gordon 2022; Martin 2021).

In the United Kingdom, protestors also sought to hold protests during the pandemic, including the high-prolife Reclaim These Streets vigil at Clapham Common in London to remember Sarah Everard at a time when COVID-19 rules in England did not provide an exemption for protests (Grierson and Dodd 2020). In that case, the High Court advised police engage constructively with protestors to ensure a safe event could take place (Kirk 2021; see also Renton 2022: 162–163). In the event, police failed to do so, with broadcast and social media footage of the vigil subsequently portraying (mainly male) police officers clashing, sometimes violently, with female protestors – the vigil ironically highlighting a key grievance of protestors, namely police attitudes to assault against women.

Somewhat depressingly, online video footage and images of the vigil also provided visual parallels to police arresting suffragettes

outside Buckingham Palace in the early 1900s (Martin 2022b: 34) (see Figures 10.3 and 10.4). Interestingly, the suffragettes then were attempting to chain themselves to Palace railings, which, as we saw in Chapter 1, today would render them guilty of 'locking on' and thus subject to a maximum of six months' imprisonment, an unlimited fine, or both. The scenario at Clapham Common was by no means inevitable, however. On the same night as the Clapham vigil another was held in Birmingham (contrary to police advice), which 'passed off without incident and with no obvious sign of uniformed police' (Campbell 2021).

Box 10.4 Same scenario, different century: Juxtaposing images of policing women's protest



Figure 10.3 A suffragette protester is accosted by police after trying to chain herself to the railings of Buckingham Palace in 1914 © Pictorial Press Ltd/Alamy



Figure 10.4 A woman is arrested as police clash violently with protestors at the vigil to remember Sarah Everard who was murdered by a serving Metropolitan police officer, Clapham Common, London, 13 March 2021 © Denise Laura Baker/Alamy

To be sure, divergent use of police discretion during the pandemic was confusing and hard to predict, with protests sometimes being broken up even when protestors adhered to social distancing and mask wearing (Mead 2021: 104–105). Clearly, then, individual police forces took it upon themselves to decide when it was 'necessary and proportionate to restrict protests' (Lines 2021: 9). Indeed,

generally the onus is on police to assess how protest events can proceed in a way that is 'proportionate and safe' (Kirk 2021), which means that, in practice, 'police make the initial decision about protest authorisation' and are thus 'the "primary definers" of legitimate protest' (Boon-Kuo et al. 2021: 82).

This, in turn, exposes the negotiated management model of protest policing as a legal fiction that assumes police and protestors enter into negotiations with equal bargaining power (Martin 2021: 280, 2022b: 29, 33), which has led some to suggest the model is merely symbolic (Baker 2014). Moreover, regardless of what courts rule, recommend, or advise, it has been observed that police discretionary power on the ground operates *relatively autonomous* of judicial intervention (Martin 2021: 280, 2022b, 2023a). This then relates to what was discussed earlier in the chapter in respect of the distinction between 'law on the books' and 'law in action', which here applies to the differing interpretation of protest rights by courts and police, and the *choice* of police to exercise discretion at public protests in ways that mean they routinely violate individual rights, often with impunity (Maguire 2021: 300).

Even though the Metropolitan Police Service (MPS) was exonerated by Her Majesty's Inspectorate of Constabulary and Fire and Rescue Services (2021: 46) from acting 'inappropriately or in a heavy-handed manner' at the Clapham Common vigil – police later justifying their actions on the basis they feared the vigil had become an 'anti-police protest' (Ambrose 2022) – the High Court found decisions made by the MPS in the run-up to the vigil breached the organisers' rights to freedom of speech and assembly (PA Media 2022). Statements made at the time by the MPS indicated holding the vigil would be unlawful, which, the Court said, 'had a "chilling effect" and made at least some causal contribution to the decision to cancel the vigil' (Judiciary of England and Wales 2022: 2). In summary, the Court held, '[t]he relevant decisions of the MPS were to make statements at meetings, in letters, and in a press statement, to the effect that the COVID-19 Regulations in force at the time meant that holding the vigil would be unlawful' (Judiciary of England and Wales 2022: 2).

The idea of the relatively autonomous operation of police power at protests will come as no surprise to radical policing scholars and critical criminologists for whom, '[p]olice power has a logic all its own, a logic that operates independently from a purely legal logic' and '[l]aw only matters […] if police insist it should' (Correia and Wall 2021: 6). Once 'radical' statements such as these took centre stage during the resurgence of the Black Lives Matter movement following the police killing of George Floyd in May 2020. Indeed, while Black Lives Matter protests focused on racialised police violence, they resonated with longstanding calls to defund, abolish, or divest police, which as we will discover later in the chapter, are

arguments originating from an understanding of the prehistory of modern policing as being located in the imperial-colonial context of the slave trade, whereby 'pre-professional colonial, slave-catching militias' played a key role in protecting profits when the accumulation of capital was threatened by slave insurrection (Fatsis and Lamb 2022: 26).

The aims of policing were then to ensure colonial efficiency, stability and profitability for capitalism, such that any notion of 'policing by consent' or legitimacy was oxymoronic (Tankebe 2008: 74). Exposing the myth that British policing 'was not immaculately conceived in nineteenth century London, but founded during colonialism and slavery' (Fatsis and Lamb 2022: 27) allows us to understand why, not only in the context of protest, but more generally, policing 'continues to function as a tool for fighting against resistance to political power' (Fatsis and Lamb 2022: 31). Indeed, unlike the model of policing that was exported and adapted across the colonies, domestic policing did seek legitimacy (policing by consent) and was less militaristic, though in periods of social unrest or when there were industrial disputes it 'could quickly transform into more military-style responses' (Cunneen 2023: 68). Fundamentally, therefore, 'police are the frontline troops of penal governance' (Cunneen 2023: 63), occupying a structural position and immediate physical presence tasked with 'protecting the interests of ruling elites and international capital – interests that reflect not only money and political power but also social relations of racism, patriarchy and ableism' (Cunneen 2023: 75).

It is hardly surprising abolitionists contend police *reform* through things like greater training and professionalisation are insufficient given what we know about the raison d'état of police, since, it is argued, reformers 'fail to appreciate that the basic nature of law and the police, since its earliest origins, is to be a tool for managing inequality and maintaining the status quo' (Vitale 2021: 15). A key justification for calls to defund, disarm, disband and disempower police is born of data showing police spend a relatively small proportion of their time dealing with crime-related matters (Seigel 2018: 7). Largely because of years of austerity and state disinvestment in public health, welfare, and social services under neoliberal policies, the majority (two thirds) of police work is dedicated to dealing with incidents of social origin; tasks that could be better performed by care, welfare, and community support agencies if only they had state funding. And that is a major reason why police forces seek increasingly to divert emergency calls to attend mental health incidents to suitably trained medical professionals (discussed earlier). Paradoxically, however, that puts even more pressure on already over-stretched health and social/care services (Dodd 2023).

The context of underfunded public services under neoliberalism also goes some way to explaining why the COVID-19 health crisis

elicited a law enforcement/criminal justice response, with numerous mutual aid groups and community organisations stepping into the breach to provide resources and support the state could not. In many ways, then, what happened during the COVID-19 pandemic represented the culmination of a political crisis because 'our political leaders have embraced a neoconservative politics that sees all social problems as police problems' (Vitale 2021: 28). Ultimately, however, the criminal justice stance during the pandemic was a conscious choice of politicians, not an inevitability: coronavirus regulations in England during the pandemic actually offered an alternative to the prevailing criminal justice response, giving enforcement powers ordinarily reserved for police to other 'relevant persons', including 'police community support officers' and any 'other nominated persons such as environmental health officers or civil enforcement officers' (Sheldon 2021: 19).

IMAGE-BASED SEXUAL ABUSE: AGITATING FOR LAW REFORM AND CULTURAL CHANGE

A case study of image-based sexual abuse (IBSA) highlights the argument made by those working across criminology and within the field of law and social movements that, ideally, law reform must be accompanied by cultural change, sometimes with the aid of social movement activism, if positive outcomes are to be achieved. Like the example of school desegregation at issue in *Brown* (discussed earlier), that is because the roots of social harm lie not only in law but in prevailing public attitudes, which must be primed for widespread and lasting change to occur. Similarly, feminist scholars argue IBSA – defined 'as the "non-consensual creation and/or distribution of private sexual images'" (McGlynn and Rackley 2017: 536) – must be set within the broader context of a patriarchal hierarchy of gender power relations.

The need for a feminist framing of the issue resides in the differential meanings and experiences of men and women. While the sharing of sexual self-images is becoming increasingly normalised, there is a 'substantial minority' of IBSA victims who experience serious and negative harms, including from current or former intimate partners. Invariably it is women who are more likely than male victims to experience negative impacts. Accordingly, in their study, Flynn and Henry (2021: 316) show how male victims of IBSA reported flattery and humour as impacts: 80.8 percent of men as compared to 47.7 percent of women. By contrast, female victims reported negative impacts, including low self-esteem, depression, anxiety, social withdrawal, and suicide ideation: 80.8 percent of women as compared to 72.9 percent of men (Flynn and Henry 2021: 316).

These findings are reinforced by McGlynn and Rackley (2017: 551, 545) who say women's withdrawal may take the form of retreat from jobs, schools, public discourse, and social media, which can drive women offline, thus solidifying male dominance of online spaces. In some cases, however, concerned citizens, including victim-survivors, have taken the law into their own hands via acts of 'digital vigilantism' or 'digilantism' (Vitis et al. 2022), which itself has been found to be a gendered response, where '[f]emales tend to conduct more investigations and low attacks (blaming) than males, but males tend to perpetrate more harsh attacks (rebuking) than females' (Galleguillos 2022: 371).

In combination, feminist criminology and social justice perspectives consider the *collective* harms associated with IBSA, as well as public discourse and responses to it, such as narratives of victim blaming that reproduce 'gendered social subordination' (Powell et al. 2018: 311). Accordingly, a feminist analysis of IBSA places public discourse and responses to victims 'within a broader context of socially constructed values around both gender and sexuality' (Powell et al. 2018: 311). More generally, this analysis fits the view of 'zemiology', or study of social harms beyond the confines of crime and criminology, the key aim of which is social justice (Canning and Tombs 2021: 3).

Significantly, McGlynn and Rackley (2017: 544) recognise not only the harms caused by IBSA to *individuals* (e.g. injuries to respect, dignity, privacy) but also the 'cultural harms' wreaked upon the collective and society. Adding more nuance, they say while IBSA does not cause rape or sexual assault and perpetrators will not necessarily go on to commit rape or sexual assault (McGlynn and Rackley 2017: 550), the phenomenon nevertheless needs to be seen in the broader context of gender inequalities where IBSA is one of many forms of 'technology-facilitated sexual violence' that can be positioned on what Liz Kelly (1987) has identified as the 'continuum of sexual violence' (McGlynn and Rackley 2017: 537; see also McGlynn et al. 2017). Thus, IBSA is situated:

> … among the multitude of forms of sexual violence and as a form of gendered abuse […] to examine its varied harms – individual physical and mental illness, loss of dignity, privacy and sexual autonomy – which combine to constitute a form of cultural harm, impacting not only directly on individuals, but also on society as a whole. (McGlynn and Rackley 2017: 535)

Such abuse risks normalising non-consensual sexual activity, which, combined with the public discourse and societal responses that minimise its harms, 'engenders a culture which is conducive to further forms of sexual violence' (McGlynn and Rackley 2017: 549).

We need therefore to recognise the collective-cultural harm caused by IBSA as 'the instantiation of a culture that accepts the creation and/or distribution of private sexual images without consent as a "harmless prank", where the vast majority of perpetrators are "rarely reprimanded" while victim-survivors continue to be "frequently chastised as hypersensitive or humourless"' (McGlynn and Rackley 2017: 549, quoting Jane 2014: 539).

To McGlynn and Rackley, tackling the attendant issues will help increase cultural well-being for society and its citizens. Solutions proposed by those working in the field include short-term measures implemented with industry cooperation to stem the circulation of non-consensual images, such as codes of conduct/terms of service, and consequences for individual violations (e.g. deplatforming offenders), which could be introduced by 'corporate bystanders', i.e. Internet platforms and service providers (Flynn and Henry 2021: 322). This raises the perennial and arguably intractable dilemma of whether self-regulation or government regulation or a combination of the two works best.

Longer-term challenges entail shifting gendered inequalities and sexual double-standards impacting upon men and women, albeit in different ways. There is a role here for awareness raising (e.g. via websites, police initiatives) as to some of the legal consequences of IBSA, including 'bystander culpability' consequent to forwarding on 'sext' material. Generally, there is some consensus here, too, as to a focus on education as part of a 'multifaceted approach' to combat IBSA. That includes education to transform cultures of non-consensual sharing of images of women and victim-blaming whereby women are blamed for engaging in certain behaviour or dressing in certain ways (Powell et al. 2018: 310), as well as police training to better understand IBSA laws and increase their 'confidence investigating cases and responding to victims' (Flynn and Henry 2021: 322) (see Box 10.5). Victims ought also to have equal access to justice and not be turned away because their cases are deemed too difficult to investigate (Flynn and Henry 2021: 323; Henry et al. 2018: 578).

Box 10.5 Ongoing campaigns against male violence: #MeToo, Reclaim These Streets, March 4 Justice

Among other things, strategies to tackle IBSA include 'responsibilisation' through education. For instance, the Australian *ThinkUKnow* website – designed to develop resources and advice for parents, carers, and educators, children and young people to prevent online child sexual exploitation – posits Megan's Story, the experience of a young schoolgirl who voluntarily sent a picture to her boyfriend who then sent it to

classmates. The aim of the story is to encourage girls to 'think again' when producing sexual images of themselves. However, this approach has been criticised for feeding into public discourses of victim-blaming that position girls and women as naïve and essentially responsible for their own protection, 'as opposed to challenging gender-based violence and cultural stereotypes' (McGlynn and Rackley 2017: 548). Hence, although IBSA is a gendered activity that impinges upon rights to 'sexual agency women have fought so hard to own' (McGlynn and Rackley 2017: 549), the challenge remains 'how to regulate image-based abuse while also enabling women to exercise their rights to sexual autonomy and expression in ways of their choosing' (McGlynn and Rackley 2017: 561).

Many of the issues discussed in this part of the chapter under the heading IBSA underpin the #MeToo movement, which emerged from 2017 following allegations made against film producer Harvey Weinstein (Reger 2023). Under the #MeToo hashtag, women globally shared their experiences of rape, sexual assault, and harassment; that is, stories highlighting the cultural harm caused by sexual violence situated within the broader context of gendered inequality (Figure 10.5). Similar issues emerged a few years later in the United Kingdom following the murder of Sarah Everard after she was kidnapped and killed by a serving Metropolitan Police officer while walking home alone at night in March 2021. In an example



Figure 10.5 #MeToo women's march in Hollywood, California, 12 November 2017 © Faye Sadou/MediaPunch Inc/Alamy

of what Verta Taylor (1989) describes as social movement 'abeyance' (discussed in Chapter 5), the 2021 protests of Reclaim These Streets to raise awareness about these issues constituted a resurgence of the Reclaim the Night campaign of the late 1970s, which, similar to the 2021 protests, was sparked by the Yorkshire Ripper murders and police response to them instructing women to stay away from public spaces after dark.

Accordingly, both campaigns sought to challenge police and public attitudes towards women, which, to critics, not only misses the point that it is male behaviour rather than female behaviour in need of change but also undermines women's fundamental right to use public spaces free from fear of violence. Like IBSA, however, the prevailing patriarchal culture 'sends a message to all women that they are not equal, that they should not get too comfortable […] that it might happen to them' (McGlynn and Rackley 2017: 546).

The UK protests also resonated with March 4 Justice demonstrations that occurred across Australia on 15 March 2021 under the banner 'Enough is Enough'. These protests coalesced around revelations made by Brittany Higgins of her rape in Parliament House, Canberra (Topsfield 2021), and the testimonies of 4,000 students from private single-sex schools in Sydney who had experienced sexual assault and harassment by other students, frequently at parties where male students took advantage of female students while drunk (Visontay 2021). These stories prompted Chanel Contos, a former student of Sydney's Kambala girls' school, to start a petition, which received more than 20,000 signatures, including from girls as young as 13 years old. As with IBSA campaigns, cultural change and education were key demands, including that private school principals be more proactive, starting with an overhaul of their schools' consent education.

There is also a role for activism and social movements in shifting attitudes. That is something Sophie Maddocks (2018: 356) considers when looking at campaigns to reshape prevailing understandings of 'revenge porn' by, for instance, renaming and reframing it, thus echoing what others say about attending to terminology and definitional problems this label throws up when not all perpetrators are motivated by revenge and/or pornography (see McGlynn et al. 2017; Powell et al. 2018). It is argued therefore that the term IBSA works better to capture a range of behaviours, and because it is capable of explicitly naming the sexually abusive harms experienced by victims.

This includes a relatively new form of sexual voyeurism called, 'upskirting', which involves 'the non-consensual taking of images or videos of an individual's pubic area underneath their outer clothing' (McGlynn and Rackley 2017: 539).

In one Australian study, it was discovered upskirting has affected 1 in 20 women (Flynn and Henry 2021: 318). That study also proposes Australia is leading the way in IBSA law reform. While upskirting is not recognised in many Australian jurisdictions, in the state of Victoria the law has been innovatively responsive to the gendered harms it causes, capturing 'situations where an individual intentionally observes or takes images up a person's skirt/dress/shorts, regardless of whether the perpetrator goes on to distribute that image' (Flynn and Henry 2021: 318). In this way, the law is seen to play an important symbolic role, having both an *educative function* as well as *deterrent effect*, 'sending a clear message to the community and criminal justice agents that upskirting is harmful and unlawful' (Flynn and Henry 2021: 318). It also signals that everyone, but especially women, are entitled to a reasonable expectation of privacy, including a transgender or intersex person identifying as female (Flynn and Henry 2021: 321–322).

These ideas about the knowledge production and consciousness raising functions of activism, and, more broadly, the 'cognitive contribution mobilising activities make to law reform efforts' (Loffredo 2001: 202), once more resonate with Eyerman and Jamison's (1991) ideas about the cognitive praxis of social movements. Similarly, in an effort to change attitudes, activists and academics concerned with IBSA 'emphasise the importance of education over criminalisation' (Maddocks 2018: 357). But activists and social movements also call for law reform (McGlynn and Rackley 2017: 535) by proposing, for example, 'revenge porn' be classed as a sex crime, thus granting anonymity to victims who would, in turn, be less inclined to drop criminal charges for fear of further exposure (Maddocks 2018: 350).

On the other hand, McGlynn and Rackley (2017: 558) show how civil actions in Britain do guarantee claimants anonymity, and how successful civil proceedings can result in damages, which may be preferable to some victims than filing criminal claims (where perpetrators are given custodial sentences or community service penalties), as the award of financial damages in civil cases helps claimants rebuild their lives. Nevertheless, civil action can create problems when claimants have a strong case but lack resources to bring an effective claim. One means of financing legal proceedings that is increasingly popular is crowdfunding; although that has itself been seen as problematic since movements critical of neoliberal capitalism use online platforms to draw attention to issues and in the process provide a portion of the money donated to support corporate-owned

for-profit crowdfunding sites (Rodan and Mummery 2018). In a recent quantitative analysis of the crowdfunding field in the UK, Sam Guy (2023: 332) shows how 'crowdfunding is used most frequently in judicial reviews which form part of campaigns mobilising to seek or resist broader change', and which consist of 'the mobilisation of law for social goals by groups outside the "usual suspects" – that is, relatively well-established and well-resourced policy groups operating at national level'.

Although an example of an individual seeking to fund litigation pertinent to IBSA, Emily Hunt was able to raise money through CrowdJustice – a crowdfunding platform for legal action – to finance a challenge in the UK to the Crown Prosecution Service's decision not to prosecute a man who filmed her naked and unconscious without consent (Oppenheim 2019). Ultimately, Hunt won in the UK Court of Appeal, which ruled what happened to her was a criminal offence (Bowcott 2020). Other problems with civil actions are that many defendants will not be able to pay damages, and the fact that injunctions against individuals do not have the effect of removing images from the Internet or elsewhere, which 'not only limits the expressive and coercive power of the civil law on an individual basis, but also significantly restricts civil law's broader deterrent effect' (McGlynn and Rackley 2017: 559).

Partly for these reasons, McGlynn and Rackley (2017: 557) propose a holistic framework be adopted that combines criminal and civil remedies to 'engender culture change as well as provide a form of redress and justice for victim-survivors'. Vital to that approach is 'harnessing the expressive and coercive power of civil and criminal law in new ways to provide redress for victim-survivors and to encourage cultural change, replacing current piecemeal approaches which fail to encompass the breadth of activities or the extent of their harms' (McGlynn and Rackley 2017: 561).

Resonating with constitutive approaches to law showing how social movements often frame grievances via culturally embedded legal symbols, categories, and codes (see Box 10.1), McGlynn and Rackley argue harnessing the *expressive power of law* is fundamental to a project of change, since law has an ability to communicate society's commitments and beliefs as well as shape peoples' behaviour to deter them from committing criminal acts or civil wrongs proscribed by law. When the law prohibits specific acts, such as those associated with IBSA, ideally that will result in greater societal disapproval of those acts, and that law will thus 'operate symbolically to restore and affirm the dignity of the victim-survivor' (McGlynn and Rackley 2017: 552).

Deploying the *coercive power of law* means it can act as a deterrent; though not one that is purely punitive but educative too, and therefore conducive to cultural change. Further, while criminal law

can serve the demands of justice and provide redress for victim-survivors, it is crucial victim-survivors are able to access a range of civil law remedies 'to tailor the form of their redress, but also as a means of seeking to deter future actions' (McGlynn and Rackley 2017: 553). Indeed:

> Insofar as the imposition of liability encourages changes in behaviour, this may prove one of the most effective means of regulation. It may provide a wider recognition of the many and collective harms of image-based sexual abuse, with the availability of both criminal and civil liability enabling women's equality and dignity in both physical and digital spaces. (McGlynn and Rackley 2017: 553)

NEW ABOLITIONISM AND CRITICAL CARCERAL STUDIES

Academics and activists concerned with the variety of harms caused by IBSA make clear there is a crucial role to be played by law reform and recourse to legal remedies if justice is to be achieved for victim-survivors and broader cultural change is to occur. For some observers and commentors, however, reform does not go far enough, since it fails to alter fundamentally institutions and practices that cause and perpetuate harm, violence, and injustice, and largely in ways bolstering the ideology and interests of dominant groups while simultaneously discriminating against marginalised and disadvantaged populations. For example, abolitionists contend wholesale transformation is required, though that is not to deny the various shades of abolitionism (and reformism) that exist on the abolition-reform continuum, as we discussed earlier in relation the spectrum of resonant/reformist and radical/abolitionist frames that fall along a shifting spectrum within the Black Lives Matter movement (Phelps et al. 2021).

What is referred to as 'new abolitionism' is one variant of abolitionism, which can be set within the context of 'critical carceral studies', that is 'a growing interdisciplinary movement for engaged scholarly and activist production against the carceral state' (Brown and Schept 2017: 440), or 'an interdisciplinary location home to inspiring and insurrectionary work against police and imprisonment, for guidance in materialising criminology's abolitionist and radical potential' (Brown and Schept 2017: 441). The newness of new abolitionism is attributed to its call to dismantle the intersecting institutions of punishment, control, discrimination, and exclusion of the carceral state (police, courts, prisons, borders), which, as we saw earlier in relation to the grievances of Black Lives Matter protestors, are institutions rooted historically in the imperial-colonial context of

slavery. The argument here is that those state institutions function today just as they did in the past, serving to 'maintain and exacerbate racial inequality' (Vitale 2021: 15), as well as secure capital accumulation, albeit now in relation to the 'prison-industrial complex'. Hence, during the COVID-19 pandemic, anti-colonial abolitionist voices sought to highlight how the violence of incarceration impacts disproportionally upon First Nations peoples, whose experience of prison is of a systemically racist, overcrowded, and perilous site of disease transmission, marked by insufficient healthcare provision and inequality (Anthony and Chartrand 2022).

Specifically, the novelty of new abolitionism lies in its recourse to scholarly critiques and historical analyses not only of incarceration but also of slavery (Brown and Schept 2017: 452). Here, new abolitionists 'are concerned broadly but distinctively with the way in which slavery as a racial project is mapped onto the long durée of modernity, present at the foundations of the capitalist and racial order' (Brown 2020: 75). Accordingly, Fatsis and Lamb (2022: 87) say, 'the use of the term "abolitionism" is not accidental', since it has 'emerged as a movement against colonial slavery, and it continues today as a movement against the anti-Black carceral state, the prison-industrial complex and the criminal legal system'.

Crucially, the new abolitionist movement is also a reaction against conservative criminology, such that 'criminology has often played an active role as an intellectual prosthesis for the state, providing both material and ideological support and legitimacy for expansions and exercises of police power and mass imprisonment' (Brown and Schept 2017: 442). In this sense, new abolitionism and critical carceral studies constitute a critique of 'administrative criminology', and what Jock Young identifies as 'the "elective affinity" between positivist criminology and the state, both in the discipline's supply of necessary technocratic data but also in the form of "shared notions of ontology and of social order", a position shared by many others operating from within the discipline' (Brown and Schept 2017: 443). For instance, critical carceral scholars and abolitionists would explain the paradox between rising incarceration rates in the face of stable or falling rates of crime (Brown 2010: 142; Weatherburn 2016: 142) in terms of the operation of the prison-industrial complex under neoliberalism.

As part of a wider 'criminal justice-industrial complex' that includes the private security industry which preys on peoples' fear of crime and disorder (Leighton and Selman 2018: 263–264), the idea of the prison-industrial complex 'has been subject to wide-ranging criticisms for exaggerating the significance of corporate interests in driving prison expansion in the US, and implying the existence of a conspiracy between business and political elites to subvert justice for profit' (Xenakis and Cheliotis 2018: 252). However, the idea is supported by

numerous empirical examples, including that in one southern US jurisdiction being released on bail requires an electronic monitoring device costing $300 per month payable directly to the monitoring company that shares part of its revenue with government (Leighton and Selman 2018: 266). This is one reason abolitionists and others have called for an end to 'cash bail' (Brown 2020: 81, 82).

Some criminologists therefore call for reform of the criminal justice system or strategies of 'justice reinvestment' whereby funds ordinarily used to build prisons and detention centres are channelled into early intervention and diversionary programs, such as social welfare, health, and educational service provision (Brown et al. 2012; Brown et al. 2016). However, critical carceral scholars and activist criminologists demand more radical transformation, including abolition and decarceration (Brown and Schept 2017: 442). To radical activists and scholars, such transformative action is warranted since criminological alternatives and system reform frequently 'feed the beast'. In this way, and as discussed earlier, criminology can be complicit in maintaining and extending the state-administered criminal legal system. For instance, it is observed that 'policy recommendations around re-entry and justice reinvestment initiatives have extended carceral logics, state intervention, and surveillance through the constructs of justice reform' (Brown and Schept 2017: 443).

Hence, new abolitionists and critical carceral studies scholars 'show little interest in a public sociology or criminology dedicated to questions of abolition's political tenability in policy discussions' (Brown and Schept 2017: 443). Instead, their work 'emanates from experiences, practices, and movement-generated theories grounded in *survivability*', which refers to 'the urgent pursuit of liberation from the threat of captivity, torture, and social death, from generational histories in the continuous shadow of conquest, settler colonialism, slavery, Jim Crow, and the carceral state' (Brown and Schept 2017: 443, emphasis added). The very same point about the continuing legacies of slavery and colonialism has been made in relation to Black Lives Matter protests around policing:

> Enforcing racial hierarchy has been a central task of policing since the days of slave patrols. Today, however, the criminal justice system performs social control tasks – the regulation of black bodies, the harnessing of black surplus labour in the name of corporate profit – once fulfilled by Jim Crow segregation and other overt forms of discrimination. (Rickford 2016: 37)

Against that backdrop, Rickford (2016: 36) says the real success of the Black Lives Matter movement 'lies in popularising radical discourse and providing a vibrant mode of democratic participation', which is similar to arguments made by Obasogie and Newman (2016) about

Black Lives Matter not only raising awareness of inequality but also opposing media framings and disrupting narratives of 'respectability politics' that seek to legitimise police killings of black men by questioning their innocence, seeing them as somehow deserving of what happened to them or, at the very least, seeing it as their fault. In this way, Black Lives Matter stands for the proposition that 'people killed by police should not have their value based on what they did or did not do during their lives' (Obasogie and Newman 2016: 553).

Indeed, like those urging 'revenge porn' and 'sexting' be replaced by the more encompassing term 'image-based sexual abuse' (Maddocks 2018; Powell et al. 2018), and in accordance with Eyerman and Jamison's (1991) arguments about cognitive praxis being a key function of social movements as bearers of new ideas and knowledge, new abolitionists and critical carceral researchers contend it is imperative we develop new keywords and terminology, since rethinking language enables us to reconceive practices. Only through 'the systematic dismantling of a series of criminological keywords' might we 'open up transformative spaces within our training, pedagogy, and practice' (Brown and Schept 2017: 444). Brown and Schept propose this be done across five areas.

First, we must rethink *crime* in terms not only of how mass incarceration depends upon criminalisation but how, in the carceral era, it 'depends upon the production of vulnerability through forms of neoliberal dispossession and its consequent criminalisation at an unprecedented scale' (Brown and Schept 2017: 445). Increased criminalisation has, in turn, created 'a vast swathe of new carceral subjects' in categories including poverty, addiction, homelessness, mental illness, children and youth, women, migrants, race, sexuality, and disability. Accordingly, 'the carceral subject is a form of life that inhabits states of precarity continuously and is thus dedicated to projects of survivability' (Brown and Schept 2017: 445).

We therefore need to push back against normative treatments of violence as interpersonal, individualised, and 'natural', and the attendant denial of structural violence inflicted by the neoliberal state. Hence, the new abolitionist vision is one that seeks to formulate abolitionist reforms in a way that 'does not strengthen, reify, or extend the state's footprint of harm' (Brown 2020: 81), but instead focuses 'on building up health, education, housing, jobs, and alternative approaches to harm as they also dismantle the prison' (Brown and Schept 2017: 446). To Brown and Schept (2017: 446), a crucial lesson for criminologists in this is 'the acknowledgment of criminal justice as foundational to the exercise of violence and one of our largest obstacles in the pursuit of social change'.

Secondly, critical carceral studies calls for a more 'nuanced approach to *law*', since liberal legal constructs and neoliberal penality emphasise 'responsibilisation', a notion that has, in turn, 'served to

individualise the production of harm, isolate victim survivors, reproduce tools of punishment and exclusion, and expand the carceral regime' (Brown and Schept 2017: 446–447, emphasis added). Thirdly, in respect of *punishment*, critical criminology and abolition can challenge the historical prison-crime disconnect, which 'requires uncoupling in popular thinking and public discourse' (Brown and Schept 2017: 447). Abolitionist projects stress the criminogenic nature of punishment as 'having produced social, psychic, political, and economic harms of unprecedented proportions' that also disproportionately affect the poor and people of colour (Brown and Schept 2017: 447; see also Brown 2010: 141). Presently, however, 'the violence of the state and capital is barely recognised as such, let alone subject to the kinds of sanctions that the criminal law metes out to those in violation of its most minute provisions' (Brown and Schept 2017: 447).

Fourthly, abolitionists regard mass incarceration as a failed project in establishing *safety* for a host of reasons but primarily for one that is of deadly significance: 'the life disruptions of criminal justice shorten existence for its subjects, their families, and communities' (Brown and Schept 2017: 448). One expression of this is known as 'coercive mobility', which refers to the idea that the removal or outward migration of residents in poor neighbourhoods to state incarceration is a major source of instability and harm for those communities hardest hit by crime and, paradoxically, already suffering the adverse impact of crime control measures (Clear et al. 2003).

To abolitionists, then, the current system does not produce safety, nor does it offer a remedy to the social harm and violence that originates in society's oppressive institutions, including those of the criminal legal system. The fact that the vast majority of rapists never see the inside of a courtroom, let alone get convicted and go to jail, is evidence the system is broken. Indeed, as American lawyer and trans activist, Dean Spade (2011), writes, prisons are themselves the serial rapists and murderers. Hence:

> Giving attention to the root causes of harm and state violence promotes a sociological analysis of the conditions of transformation, one that inverts conventional ways of thinking about safety. This is evident in calls to *divest* from police and prisons and *invest* in housing, education, healthcare, food security, jobs, etc. (Brown 2020: 78, emphasis added)

While this implies a strategy of justice reinvestment should be adopted, what abolitionists actually advocate for is a reconceptualisation of notions of *safety* and *security*. The call to 'end police', for instance, which goes against the 'naturalised logic of the police as the singular resource for public safety in the United States makes the rethinking of



Figure 10.6 'Anti-police' posters appearing after the second wave of Black Lives Matter protests, Sydney, Australia (2022) © Greg Martin

security central to abolitionist accounts' (Brown 2020: 77–78). Police departments are mired in controversy and are not infrequently incompetent at fighting crime; they are also quite literally lethal to poor and black people as evidenced by the large number of mainly black men killed by police year-on-year, which has, of course, been a key grievance of the Black Lives Matter movement (discussed earlier and represented in Figure 10.6).

Rarely is the institution of police seen as a problem, however. Indeed, we are taught police are essential. But there is hard evidence police do not, in fact, enhance public safety and security. For example, '[t]he 1972 Kansas City Patrol Experiment demonstrated that increased police patrol does not reduce crime. When NYPD cops went on strike in 2014, crime reports (not just arrests) plummeted. Fewer police, not more, enhances public safety' (Brown 2020: 78, quoting Correia 2018). Therefore, we need to call not only for an end to police but, more broadly, we must reconceptualise safety beyond carceral safety: 'In contradistinction to carceral safety then, insurgent safety names locally determined anti-capitalist ethics and practices that work within and against the racist carceral state to build a world where safety is not predicated on banishment, mass criminalisation, or policing in any form' (McDowell 2019: 51).

Hence, and fifthly, we must move beyond a 'narrow understanding of *justice*' (Brown and Schept 2017: 449, emphasis added) to promote 'alternative configurations of justice' (Brown and Schept 2017: 453), developing and practicing *transformative justice*, which

'places interpersonal harm and accountability in the context of and inseparable from structural harm and state accountability' (Brown and Schept 2017: 449–450). This conception of transformative justice is one that 'seeks safety and accountability without relying on alienation, punishment, or State or systemic violence, including incarceration or policing' (Generation Five 2007: 5). In practical terms, abolitionists demand we reconceptualise safety to create transformative systems of accountability:

> Transformative justice seeks to develop strategies to address intimate, interpersonal, community, and structural violence from a political organising and movement-building perspective in order to move beyond state-imposed, institutionalised criminal legal and punishment systems and professionalised social services. By developing community responses for support, intervention, healing, and accountability that do not rely on the state, these grassroots movements are building capacity to address multiple forms of structural and institutional violence. (Palacios 2016: 94)

New abolitionists therefore 'theorise justice and a world beyond prisons' (Brown and Schept 2017: 450), and indeed 'a world without prisons and police' (Brown 2020: 81). The transformative justice envisioned by new abolition is prefigurative and utopic in that it envisions a new world or new society of *deinstitutionalisation* (Brown 2020: 81). And, in this way, while cognitive praxis is a necessary condition of abolition it is not enough on its own. Following the foundational work of Angela Davis (2003: 106), abolitionists thus urge us to resist envisioning abolition as an alternative metaphorical and material edifice, and 'to let go of the desire to discover one single alternative system of punishment that would occupy the same footprint as the prison system'.

Hence, abolition always necessitates ending or closing down carceral spaces, including asylums and psychiatric hospitals, and dismantling material institutions, like prisons, by any means possible. Accordingly, deinstitutionalisation is not limited to decarceration. And while it entails 'a perpetual movement towards a world without prisons and police' (Brown 2020: 81), '[w]hat was once a discussion solely about prison abolition is now one that takes on the police, court practices (including cash bail and the monetisation of fines), borders and the entire criminal justice system' (Brown 2020: 82).

Somewhat surprisingly, given their understandable aversion to perpetuating carceral institutions, reforms are part of the new abolitionist order, but only in a 'non-reformist' sense (Brown 2020: 81) that aims to 'resist liberal attempts at co-optation, incorporation, and/or reconciliation' (McDowell and Fernandez 2018: 388). This goes to a debate within the field over reform versus non-reformist reform,

which relates more broadly to dilemmas confronting activists when faced with the prospect of incorporation or even co-option by the political mainstream, which was discussed in Chapter 4, as well as earlier in this chapter when we considered how cause lawyering might be constrained by institutional rules and norms in law.

Part of the problem here resides in how many remedies are proposed for what has become the all-purpose use of prisons, or, that is, the 'use of prisons as catchall solutions to social problems' (Gilmore 2007: 5), which often results in strengthening the prevailing order, and ultimately justifies the expansion of the prison system (Russell and Carlton 2013: 486). As we saw earlier, similar trends are evident in relation to policing, whereby the majority of police time is spent attending to calls to solve problems that are non-crime related and therefore could be handled better by services and agencies dedicated to care, welfare and community support. And this is what underpins calls to defund or divest from police, namely that funds ordinarily spent on policing be redirected to those community organisations and support services that are better equipped to deal with incidents of social origin.

That is why, in line with abolitionist aspirations, it is important to distinguish, as Mathiesen (1974) does, 'positive' or 'reformist' reforms from 'negative' or 'non-reformist' reforms. While 'positive reforms are changes which improve or "build up" the system so that it functions more effectively' (Mathiesen 1974: 202), to Russell and Carlton (2013: 487) non-reformist reforms 'interlock with abolitionist visions by working in the short-term to increase community-based alternatives and drive decarceration', as well as seeking to 'increase system transparency and expose the harms of imprisonment to weaken the prison's legitimacy'. Indeed, in seeking to 'unravel rather than widen the net of social control through criminalisation' (Gilmore 2007: 242), a key aim of negative, non-reformist reforms is not dissimilar in purpose to 'counterveillance' as conceived by Welch (2011: 304), in that it seeks to provide greater transparency of state penal apparatus and to enhance official accountability (see Chapter 9). The conundrum of reform is considered further in Box 10.6.

Box 10.6 Reform as a resistance strategy for anti-carceral feminist activism

Russell and Carlton (2013) examine a 'gender responsive' program in Victoria, Australia called, *Better Pathways*, to ask whether it transforms or consolidates and expands the existing system of criminal justice. To begin, the program focuses on Vietnamese women, and ignores Aboriginal women. Therefore,

it perpetuates the penal racism of the Australian colonial and now neocolonial project (see also Baldry et al. 2015). In this way, the criminal justice system not only expels any notion of structural racism as a determinant of women's incarceration but in the context of the violence of settler colonialism in Australia it misrecognises 'the simultaneous ubiquity of gender oppression and white supremacy within the coloniser's claim to territory' (Russell and Carlton 2013: 483).[4]

The scheme is also premised not only on a neoliberal logic but on liberal feminism, which reduces social and structural issues (e.g. limited access to education, mental health, family violence) to women's choices, such that offending and reoffending rest with individual women who are responsible for making positive (and poor) life choices (Russell and Carlton 2013: 478–479). To Russell and Carlton (2013: 480), however, individualising responsibility and choice, and failing to address the conditions that produce women's inequality and oppression – a 'triple jeopardy' of race, class and gender – perpetuates 'gendered criminalisation'.

As with the critique provided by new abolitionism, a key issue for gender-responsive 'reforms' like *Better Pathways* is that they can result in buttressing the penal system since '[t]he focus on reforming and reframing prison as a therapeutic response to women's needs diverts attention away from decarceration and community-based alternatives' (Russell and Carlton 2013: 486). Thus, 'the penal system's co-option of the rhetoric of rehabilitation in the form of "therapeutic intervention" obscures the further entrenchment of imprisonment through new construction, population growth and financial investments' (Russell and Carlton 2013: 487). Again, the paradox is that 'anti-carceral feminist work in these contexts has been central to the development and implementation of expansionary reform agendas designed to better address women's needs in prison' (Carlton 2018: 289).

By contrast, Bree Carlton (2018) has used the historical example of anti-carceral feminist activism and organising in 1980s and 1990s Victoria to show how anti-carceral feminist campaigners employed *reform as a resistance strategy*. In the process, she rejects the 'simplistic dualism of reform and abolition as mutually exclusive strategies for change to highlight alternative approaches born through anti-carceral feminist activism and organising' (Carlton 2018: 300). Here, she diverges somewhat from what abolitionists say vis-à-vis negative or non-reformist reforms, though she states that despite the risks it poses, reform 'remains a paradoxical yet necessary component of abolitionist strategy' (Carlton 2018: 300).

Accordingly, Carlton (2018: 301) says her's is a 'more complex account of reform', providing 'vital lessons for abolitionists' that show 'there is a place for reformist strategies within anti-carceral politics and action insofar as they are able to be intertwined with and informed by broader struggles for social change'. Hence, abolition is about 'decentring prisons from analyses and solutions in order to work towards the longer term goal of social change' (Carlton 2018: 302).

Problems remain, however. For instance, because of a strengthening of bail laws following a fatal car rampage in Melbourne's CBD in 2017 (killing six people), more Victorian women are now in prison awaiting their charges to be heard than are imprisoned for actually committing and being sentenced for crimes, with Indigenous women especially affected (Millar et al. 2021). In this case, then, it has been proposed that what is needed is reform to bail laws, which cause the over-imprisonment of women in the first place, including:

- Repealing the reverse-onus provisions in the bail laws;
- Creating a presumption in favour of bail for all offences, with the onus on the prosecution to demonstrate that bail should not be granted due to there being a specific and immediate risk to the physical safety of another person or the person posing a demonstrable flight risk; and
- Repealing the offences of committing an indictable offence while on bail, breaching bail conditions and failure to answer bail.

Source: Human Rights Law Centre (2021)

A major obstacle to change continues to be the pressure politicians face when confronted with community and media pressure to be 'tough on crime'. In such circumstances, and when presented with the complexity of reform and justice reinvestment, politicians tend to take the politically expedient way out, which 'seems to make prison building an easier option for politicians even if incarceration does not work effectively' (Lovell et al. 2018: 236). Indeed, the implementation of justice reinvestment initiatives requires 'governments to display considerable policy sophistication' (Lovell et al. 2018: 235). Moreover, as alternatives to incarceration are seen as 'politically risky', considerable 'political will' and 'political vision' is required to not build prisons and take the plunge with justice reinvestment (Brown 2010: 139–140, 145; Lovell et al. 2018: 227–228, 235).

As noted, Brown and Schept (2017: 443) propose the transformative justice vision of abolition goes further than reforms like justice reinvestment that tend to bolster the criminal legal system, which itself produces and reproduces forms of structural violence and oppression. However, as Carlton (2018: 301–302) has shown in respect of anti-carceral feminist campaigns in Victoria, reformist strategies within anti-carceral politics and collective action can intertwine with and be informed by broader struggles for social change (Box 10.6). Hence, reformist strategies may accord with abolitionists' vision for structural transformation in a new society.

Indeed, the convergence of *racial and social justice* inherent in new abolitionism (Brown and Schept 2017: 446), also chimes with approaches seeking to conceive of justice reinvestment *as* social justice. For example, Cunneen et al. (2016: 316) propose at local, community level justice reinvestment aligns with social justice values – informed by a human rights framework – to address the underlying, structural issues affecting those social groups disproportionately and adversely affected by the operation of the criminal justice system, including its agents (police) and institutions (prisons), which, in Australia, includes Indigenous minorities, women and people with mental health issues and cognitive impairment.

Thinking about justice reinvestment as social justice in this way also aligns with conceptions of zemiology, the key aim of which it will be recalled from our earlier mention is social justice (Canning and Tombs 2021: 3). Like new abolitionists and critical carceral researchers, zemiologists reject the normative use of language around 'crime'. That is because dominant language about crime tends to 'inadvertently reproduce crime as a social truth, as though it is a natural rather than a social construct', and obscures harms that are not confined to crime but are 'based more often than not in broader policy or structures', including many of society's most serious ills, like malnutrition, child poverty, pollution-induced premature deaths that 'relate to structural or institutional violence for which it is difficult or impossible to hold individuals or organisations to account' (Canning and Tombs 2021: 3).

We have already seen how this approach to crime and criminal justice resonates with Eyerman and Jamison's (1991) conception of the cognitive praxis of social movements. However, abolitionists and other critical scholars, including zemiologists, are at pains to make clear that changing language, definitions, and terminology will not suffice on their own. What is also required is reform, social and cultural transformation or, more radically, abolition of the material conditions and institutions that produce and reproduce harm, punishment, and injustice in the first place.

CONCLUSION

Arguments about abolition versus reform and the role of both activists and academics in that debate and attendant interventions are part of wider conversations in criminology and criminal justice studies converging around what has become known as 'activist criminology'. While social movements and criminologists have frequently worked together to draw attention to issues and problems under the guise of 'public criminology' – e.g. 'racial profiling and the persistence of racist policing around the globe' (Chancer and McLaughlin 2007: 159) – the allied term 'activist criminology' was originally coined by Joanne Belknap (2015: 5) in her 2014 American Society of Criminology Presidential Address, and defined as 'criminologists engaging in social and/or legal justice at individual, organisational, and/or policy levels, which goes beyond typical research, teaching, and service'. Belknap's speech and subsequent paper later inspired a special issue of *Critical Criminology* published in 2016 exploring academic activism in criminology. More recently, the book series *Emerald Studies in Activist Criminology* – and its Handbook (Canning et al. 2023a) – has been established with the aim of promulgating critical criminology and zemiology perspectives by providing a forum and space for activist scholars and practitioners and the justice campaigns of victims/survivors of harm and crime, including those from the Global South.

Indeed, the need for international solidarity, collaboration, and recognition is something Maddocks (2018: 348, 355, 357) has argued is required to connect activists in the Global South and Global North in respect of the impact IBSA has on women living in less economically developed parts of the world. In the law and social movements field, too, McCann (2004: 514–515, 519, 2006b: 30) identifies the proliferation of transnational human rights advocacy networks as increasingly important for the legal leveraging practices of social movements in domestic settings, especially in nations lacking independent courts, judges and legal advocates capable of exerting political pressure on dominant groups and the state.

In a similar vein, Lisa Vanhala (2018) examines the interaction of international and domestic law to show how British activists have used international legal norms designed to help Eastern European environmental democracy in shaping the structure of legal opportunities in England and Scotland. In so doing, she develops a critique of the notion of legal opportunity structures, not treating them 'as a given' or 'as an "independent variable"' (Vanhala 2018: 112), nor the movement actors and civil society agents engaging law as 'simply passive beneficiaries of rights' (Vanhala 2018: 111). Rather, she shows how legal opportunity structures are actively constructed by protest

groups and NGOs as 'strategic actors who can demand, develop, and shape access to justice from the bottom up' (Vanhala 2018: 111). This work resonates strongly with David Meyer's (2003) observations about the *nesting* of national political opportunity structures within broader international contexts, as well as Sarah Soule's (2009) arguments about the impact of international treaties and agreements on anti-corporate activism (see Chapter 4). We will examine some of these and related ideas further in the next chapter when we look at transnational activism and global social movements.

Notes

1 Both of these approaches stand in stark contrast to the current trajectory of policing and criminal justice teaching and research in the neoliberal university, which 'is done by scholars who lack a critical distance from the subjects of their study', and who, because they 'direct their attention to the source of their grant money' are unable to 'move beyond the shoring up of systems that are rooted in coercion and punishment' (Vitale 2021: 248-249; see also Sheptycki 2023).
2 In a similar move, London's Metropolitan Police Service announced that from 31 August 2023 unless there was a threat to life it would no longer be attending emergency calls to those in mental health crisis, as medical professionals, not police officers, are the best people to deal with mental health incidents, and because such calls divert police from their core role of fighting crime (Dodd 2023).
3 Martin (2017a) notes the increasing convergence of private and state interests in what he terms the 'political economy of protest', where the rights of business are privileged over citizen rights to protest. However, while the state will intervene to criminalise protest, private corporations may use civil litigation to contain resistance and prevent criticism of their activities that undermine human rights and/or damage the environment. Strategic Lawsuits Against Public Participation or SLAPPs are an example used across democracies to acquire damages as well as silence protest and instil fear of civil action in the minds of activists (see also Anthony 2009).
4 Similar observations have been made about the Black Lives Matter movement that was initiated by black women via social media, though violence towards women of colour was largely absent from the dominant discourse and quickly became an afterthought as the focus shifted to state-sanctioned police violence against black men (Carney 2016: 195).

SUGGESTED READINGS

These books constitute some of the classic studies in law and social movements scholarship:

Handler, J. F. (1978) *Social Movements and the Legal System: A Theory of Law Reform and Social Change*. New York, NY: Academic Press.

McCann, M. (1994) *Rights at Works: Pay Equity Reform and the Politics of Legal Mobilization*. Chicago, IL: Chicago University Press.

Rosenberg, G. (1991) *The Hollow Hope: Can Courts Bring About Social Change?* Chicago, IL: Chicago University Press.

Scheingold, S. A. (1974) *The Politics of Rights: Lawyers, Public Policy, and Political Change*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.

The following edited collections offer interesting insights and case studies from the perspective of law and society/socio-legal studies:

Garth, B. G. and Sarat, A. (eds) (1998) *How Does Law Matter?* Evanston, IL: Northwestern University Press.

McCann, M. (ed.) (2006a) *Law and Social Movements*. Aldershot: Ashgate.

Sarat, A. (ed.) (2004) *The Blackwell Companion to Law and Society*. Oxford: Blackwell Publishing.

The books below provide useful accounts of the law of protest and protest rights, including in relation to public order/protest policing.

Mead, D. (2010) *The New Law of Peaceful Protest: Rights and Regulation in the Human Rights Act Era*. Oxford: Hart Publishing.

Thornton, P., Brander, R., Thomas, R., Rhodes, D., Schwarz, M. and Rees, E. (2010) *The Law of Public Order and Protest*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.

Wainwright, T., Morris, A., Craig, K. and Greenhall, O. (2012) *The Protest Handbook*. Haywards Heath: Bloomsbury.

Readers can refer to suggested readings at the end of Chapter 8 for texts on protest policing and the repression of social movements. In addition, the following provide insights into issues expressly covered in this chapter to do with the criminalisation of dissent:

Martin, G. (2017a) 'Criminalizing dissent: Social movements, public order policing and the erosion of protest rights' in L. Weber, E. Fishwick and M. Marmo (eds) *The Routledge International Handbook of Criminology and Human Rights*. Abingdon: Routledge, pp. 280–290.

Terwindt, C. (2020) *When Protest Becomes Crime: Politics and Law in Liberal Democracies*. London: Pluto Press.

The edited volume by Canning et al. explores intersections of protest and critical criminology and is part of a wider book series, *Emerald Studies in Activist Criminology*, which aims to provide a forum and space for the justice campaigns of victims/survivors of harm and crime and seeks to include a mix of publications by senior researchers and early/mid-career scholars, as well as promoting the work of activists and academics from the Global South. The book series can be accessed here: <https://books.emeraldinsight.com/page/series-detail/emerald-studies-in-activist-criminology/?K=e20190815849335714>.

Canning, V., Martin, G. and Tombs, S. (eds) (2023a) *The Emerald International Handbook of Activist Criminology*. Bingley: Emerald Publishing.

As explained in the chapter, activist criminology is also the subject of a journal special issue that was inspired by Joanne Belknap's 2014 American Society of Criminology Presidential Address, subsequently published as an article:

Belknap, J. (2015) 'Activist criminology: Criminologists' responsibility to advocate for social and legal justice' *Criminology* 53(1): 1–22.
Critical Criminology 24(4) (2016): 'Critical Criminology as Academic Activism: On Praxis and Pedagogy, Resistance and Revolution'.

The following special issues provide insights and examples from the field of law and society/socio-legal studies:

California Law Review 95(5) (2007): 'Symposium: Race, Economic Justice, and Community Lawyering in the New Century'.
Studies in Law, Politics, and Society 54 (2011): 'Social Movements/ Legal Possibilities'.
Law & Policy 40(1) (2018): 'Law, Social Movements, and Mobilization Across Contexts'.
University of Pennsylvania Law Review 150(1) (2001): 'Social Movements and Law Reform'.

Each of the special issues below considers the social control of protests with specific reference to the law and policing of mass gatherings during the COVID-19 pandemic and mobilisations around Black Lives Matter:

*Justice, Power and Resistance*5(1-2): (2022): 'Pandemics, Policing and Protest'.
King's Law Journal 32(1) (2021): 'COVID-19: Political Responses and Legal Consequences'.
Mobilization 26(4) (2021): 'Black Lives Matter'.

CHAPTER 11

Global activism

INTRODUCTION

At the end of Chapter 9, we considered briefly the important role played by new media and information technologies in transnational mobilisation. In that chapter, we looked at the Arab Spring and Occupy as prime examples. Because the use of new media, information, and communication technologies looks likely to continue to influence future global protest, this is one of our concerns in this chapter, too, where, among other things, we look at how the global justice movement has used the Internet extensively to organise international campaigns (Staggenborg 2011: 47).

Another issue we touched upon in Chapter 9, which also concerns us here, has to do with whether social movements having an international reach can be considered truly *global* movements. Put another way, we ought not assume transnational activism necessarily equates to concern with globalisation. Indeed, transnational mobilisation may originate in concerns that are of a local or national nature. Not surprisingly, then, issues relating to transnational activism and global mobilisation that we examine in this chapter are relevant, in some way or other, to questions of *scale*, which we looked at in Chapter 8, when we considered struggles over space.

Consideration of many of the issues explored in this chapter requires some knowledge and understanding of globalisation, which is discussed below in terms of its technological, economic, political, and cultural dimensions, as well as in relation to its positive and negative effects. Generally speaking, anti-globalisation/global justice activists regard the hegemony of neoliberal capitalism to be the principal cause of many of the ills of globalisation. Although when confronted by the seemingly unstoppable juggernaut of globalisation

DOI: 10.4324/9780367821760-11

resistance may appear futile, effective opposition to globalising processes has been evident at local grassroots level. Moreover, transnational advocacy networks and social movements have been able to take advantage of international structures of opportunity created by the formation of a 'global civil society', which houses international institutions, such as the UN, that are receptive to the demands of transnational NGOs and movements.

One development here that has gathered momentum, and will likely continue into the future, is global activism around international human rights. Indeed, towards the end of Chapter 10, we saw how McCann (2004: 514–515, 519, 2006b: 30) predicted that the proliferation of transnational human rights advocacy networks would be increasingly important for the legal leveraging practices of social movements in domestic settings, and particularly relevant in countries lacking independent courts, judges and legal advocates able to exert political pressure on dominant groups and the state. In that part of Chapter 10, we also considered Vanahala's (2018) work on the interaction of international and domestic law and how activists have used international legal norms to actively construct and shape legal opportunity structures in domestic contexts. Among other things, both the arguments of McCann and Vanahala demonstrate the significance not only of international law, transnational activism, and global civil society institutions, but also the continuing relevance of domestic law and the nation-state, which is something we will explore in more detail towards the end of this chapter.

TRANSNATIONAL ACTIVISM AND GLOBALISATION

In Chapter 9, we considered Pickerill and Krinsky's (2012: 284) contention that, although movements such as Occupy have an extensive international reach this does not necessarily make them global social movements per se. On this issue, Olesen (2005: 49) argues that while '[t]here is widespread agreement that social movements are becoming increasingly transnational and that this development is somehow linked with globalisation [...] instances of transnational activism are rarely transnational in the same way and for the same reasons and are not even necessarily related to globalisation'. For example, he says, transnational activism may be spurred by a local or national event or situation, which is what happens when activists react to human rights violations in far-off places, or when they respond to issues relating to global warming:

> What emerges from these points is that transnational mobilisation does not have a necessary direction from the global to the local or vice versa; nor does it take place only in some abstract global

> sphere. Rather, transnational mobilisation takes place simultaneously on local, national and global levels. (Olesen 2005: 50)

To Olesen (2005: 50), '[h]ow (and whether) these levels are integrated is […] a question of the issues at play and the way in which social actors construct them'. In other terms, globalisation 'does not necessarily lead to transnational mobilisation; the missing link between globalisation and transnational mobilisation is a process of social construction that links the local, the national, and the global' (Olesen 2005: 50).

Olesen's (2005: 50) main objective, then, is to integrate the globalisation literature and the social constructivist framing approach to social movements (see also Chapter 4), as well as, more generally, 'to improve our understanding of the relationship between the concepts of globalisation and transnational mobilisation'. He identifies one of the most troubling ways the concept of globalisation has been misused in analyses of transnational mobilisation as being the way globalisation is endowed with a strong degree of agency, which effectively 'reifies globalisation and draws an image of it as a force at work outside the reach of social actors; something that forces them in certain directions and increasingly divides the world into global and local spaces' (Olesen 2005: 52). This is something we have encountered previously in Chapter 8, when we saw how Feldman (2002: 42) argues that in contrast to top-down approaches portraying social movements as reactive to globalising pressures, the international Indigenous peoples' movement has played a very active (bottom-up) role in what 'ultimately amounts to centuries of Indigenous peoples' efforts to shape and force open international institutions and fields of mobilisation'.

To integrate globalisation and framing perspectives, Olesen looks at transnational mobilisation through the lens of 'injustice frames' (see Chapter 4), which, in the context of globalisation, operate as 'transnational injustice frames'. The example of neoliberalism is especially relevant here, since neoliberal restructuring processes during the 1970s and 1980s have been used extensively as 'the axis of transnational injustice frames' (Olesen 2005: 55). Hence, notwithstanding national and regional differences:

> … it is fair to say that never in the course of human history have a larger number of people been affected by the same complex of political and economic ideas. This situation has facilitated the potential for constructing transnational injustice frames with a broad appeal on a world scale. (Olesen 2005: 55)

While the extensive impact of neoliberalism on a world scale is an empirical fact, argues Olesen (2005: 55), its greater significance lies

in the fact that people across the global have become increasingly aware of the influence and negative consequences of neoliberalism, and it is this 'global consciousness' that presupposes the construction of the transnational injustice frame of neoliberalism. Moreover, he says, the injustice frame of neoliberalism falls under the broader 'radical democratic action master frame' (Olesen 2005: 57), which, although Olesen does not state as much, could presumably be conceived of as a 'transnational master frame'.

Similar arguments have been made about the 'movement of movements' against neoliberal global capitalism; also described as alter-globalisation, anti-capitalist, or global justice movements (Cox and Nilsen 2007: 424). For instance, Gemma Edwards shows how what she calls the 'alternative globalisation movement' originated in the global South in the struggle of the Zapatistas (Edwards 2014: 161) – who were themselves involved in creating a global 'master frame' (Benford and Snow 2000) – 'arguing their struggle was best cast as part of a global struggle against "neoliberalism"' (Edwards 2014: 176). This is why despite being labelled the *anti*-globalisation movement by the media, activists preferred to call it the *alter*-globalisation movement, since it was not against globalisation per se, but 'was specifically rejecting dominant neoliberal forms of capitalism, whilst creating a diversity of alternative networks' (Halvorsen 2012: 429). Before considering opposition and resistance to neoliberal globalisation/global neoliberalism, we should first outline some of the principal features of globalisation.

WHAT IS GLOBALISATION?

One could devote and entire book to the topic of globalisation. For our purposes, though, it is sufficient to provide a brief overview of its main elements and set out some of the reasons globalising processes have attracted criticism and been the target of social protest. The first thing to note is that although there was a step change in interest in globalisation from the 1980s, processes of globalisation had been occurring for some time before that. This was something recognised by Immanuel Wallerstein (1976), among others, who noted that, historically, modernity has involved the interdependence of world economies, nation-states, and cultural systems. Certainly, however, the technological revolution of the 1980s caused an intensification of global interdependence, allowing, for instance, greater flows of capital in international markets and information flows via the Internet. In this sense, then, the *technological* and *economic* transformations that took place towards the end of the second millennium are two moments of historical significance in the process of globalisation:

> A technological revolution, centred around information technologies, began to reshape, at accelerated pace, the material basis of society. Economies throughout the world have become globally interdependent, introducing a new form of relationship between economy, state, and society, in a system of variable geometry. (Castells 1996: 1)

Among other things, *economic globalisation* involves the increased flow and mobility of capital and labour. Transnational corporations, in particular, have taken advantage of this, locating the production arm of their operations in the 'free trade zones' of developing countries, which have few, if any, labour standards (e.g. no minimum wage), as well as providing tax breaks as financial incentives for the 'inward investment' of these corporations. This, in turn, has given rise to an 'international division of labour', whereby the vast majority of goods consumed in the developed world are now produced in developing countries, while the economies of developed countries are geared increasingly to the provision of services. Consequently, globalisation has led to polarisation, which, for Bauman (1998: 2), is epitomised in the distinction between the *tourist*, whose experience is one of postmodern freedom, and *vagabonds* who 'are on the move because they have been pushed from behind – spiritually uprooted from the place that holds no promise'.

Against Bauman's somewhat fatalistic view, Hardt and Negri (2000) regard the mass movement of nomadic proletarians as a potential source of threat to capitalism, which is unable to control the rebellious and autonomous flows of highly mobile 'immaterial labour'. In his review of their work, Kalyvas (2003: 269) explains that Hardt and Negri celebrate mass worker nomadism 'as a supreme emancipatory, anti-capitalist force', since '[t]he more labour moves, the more it enters into an unmediated confrontation with global capitalism [which] also explains why the power to move is portrayed by the authors as an affirmation of freedom, cooperation, spontaneous networks, and creative mixtures'. Social movements play a part here too. The activities of transnational corporations are the target of anti-corporate protestors and consumer activists that have been the subject of our discussions at various points in this book, including here when we look at boycotts of Nestlé and Fair Trade below. These activists might also be considered and indeed consider themselves part of a broader anti-globalisation/anti-capitalist movement that is critical of global neoliberalism as the defining context within which transnational corporations operate.

Neoliberalism is both an *economic* and a *political* phenomenon. Accordingly, in his book on the subject, Harvey (2005: 2) defines neoliberalism as a 'theory of political economic practices', whose

project, as we saw in Chapter 5, has been 'to re-establish the conditions for capital accumulation and to restore the power of economic elites' (Harvey 2005: 19), by setting up 'those military, defence, police, and legal structures and functions required to secure private property rights and to guarantee, by force if need be, the proper functioning of markets' (Harvey 2005: 2). The focus on free markets heralds what Michael Pusey (1991: 10) has called, 'the triumph of economic rationalism', whereby 'primacy is given to "the economy", second place to the political order, and third place to the social order'.

The increasing global hegemony of neoliberalism since the 1970s has seen deregulation, privatisation, and state withdrawal from many areas of social provision become commonplace across the Western world (Harvey 2005: 3), which is one reason why, as we saw in Chapter 5, some contemporary social movements remain focused on 'old' and newly relevant survival issues to do with material (rather than post-material) wellbeing. Indeed, while proponents of neoliberalism contend human wellbeing is best advanced and protected by 'liberating individual entrepreneurial freedoms and skills within an institutional framework characterised by strong private property rights, free market, and free trade' (Harvey 2005: 2), its detractors argue the economically reductionist individualism of neoliberalism has had multiple deleterious social effects.

For example, it has caused a hollowing out of civil society, and a concomitant decline in the influence of 'social capital', including less engagement in politics and government, less involvement in volunteer organisations, and a general trend to social and civic disengagement (Putnam 1995); all elements in what was described in Chapter 1 as a 'post-care society'. Arguably, too, the widespread accommodation of neoliberalism in mainstream politics, and broad acceptance that there is no alternative to the present system – what Mark Fisher (2009) calls 'capitalist realism' – has led to an impoverishment of the public sphere, as well as widespread disillusionment with politics (see Dean 2014), which we discussed in Chapter 1.

The ultimate consequence of the operation of neoliberalism, on a global scale, was the GFC of 2008 where, as Colin Crouch (2016) says, 'the financial institutions that had created the crisis were able to influence public policy in a way that protected their interests, pushing the burden on to the general public who had been their victims and who had to bailout the banks with public spending cuts'. Crouch (2016) has talked about the bank bailout and other forms of corruption in terms of 'post-democracy', which, it will be recalled from Chapter 1, he defines as 'a situation where all the institutions of democracy – elections, changes of government, free debate, rule of law – continue, but they become a charade, because democratic institutions have been surpassed as major decision-making entities by small groups of financial and political elites'.

Although his analysis of post-democracy is not limited to political and corporate corruption, Crouch (2004: 10) nevertheless notes that 'corruption is a powerful indicator of the poor health of democracy, as it signals a political class which has become cynical, amoral and cut off from scrutiny and from the public'. Moreover, he shows how the emergence of post-democracy is a consequence of neoliberalism, which has equated democracy 'with limited government within an unrestrained capitalist economy and reduced the democratic component to the holding of elections' (Crouch 2004: 11).

As we have seen at numerous points in the book, this state-of-affairs has provided the backdrop to the emergence of movements like Occupy and the Indignados that have voiced opposition not only to the effects of austerity measures imposed on citizens by governments to fund the bank bailout, but more broadly to the gross inequalities produced by regimes of neoliberal capitalism. However, despite the protests, the funding of the back bailout by austerity measures continued unabated, highlighting just how hard it is, in practice, to resist neoliberal globalisation and pose a genuine challenge to the current system, let alone offer a viable alternative (issues we consider shortly). It also underscores Harvey's (2005: 19) point, made above, about the purpose of neoliberalism being to re-establish conditions for capital accumulation and restore the power of economic elites.

Box 11.1 Global civil society

One of the most important *political* effects of globalisation has been the apparent decline of the sovereign nation-state. According to Martin Shaw (1994: 649), that 'has been accompanied by an increasing crisis of civil societies: traditional national symbolic systems have declined in potency, and traditional institutions like parties and churches have lost support'. Hence, argues Shaw (1994: 649), '[t]he debate about global society has brought into focus the issue of an emerging "global civil society"'. Shaw (1994: 650) thinks about global civil society in terms of a civil society that 'increasingly represents itself globally, across nation-state boundaries, through the formation of global institutions'. He proposes at least three major types of organisations that comprise the emergent global civil society:

> … formal organisations linking national institutions (organisations of parties, churches, unions, professions, educational bodies, media, etc.); linkages of informal networks and movements (e.g. of women's, gay and peace groups and movements);

> and globalist organisations (e.g. Amnesty, Greenpeace, Médecins sans Frontières), which are established with a specifically global orientation, global membership and activity of global scope. (Shaw 1994: 650)

Accordingly, just as social movements and movement organisations are important collective actors in civil society, so they also play a key role in global civil society, which 'can be seen as a response to the globalisation of state power and a source of pressure for it' (Shaw 1994: 650). An example, here, is the international Indigenous peoples' movement, which, as discussed in Chapter 8, has carved out a space for itself globally; actively shaping and forcing open international institutions and fields of mobilisation. Hence, Feldman (2002: 39) says, we have 'seen the prospering of co-operative projects between Indigenous NGOs and communities, state agencies and organs like the UN Development Program, UNICEF, the International Labour Organization and the World Bank, International Monetary Fund, Organization of American States' (Feldman 2002: 39).

The preeminent scholar in this field is John Keane (2003: xi–xii), who has observed the promiscuousness of the concept of global civil society for attracting a wide variety of supporters the world over, so that '[w]hen used by its friends as an ethical standard […] it champions the political vision of a world founded on non-violent, legally sanctioned power-sharing arrangements among many different and interconnected forms of socio-economic life that are distinct from governmental institutions'. In order to consolidate its various meanings, Keane has devised the following ideal-typical definition of global civil society:

> … a dynamic non-governmental system of interconnected socio-economic institutions that straddle the whole earth, and that have complex effects that are felt in its four corners. Global civil society is neither a static object nor a fait accompli. It is an unfinished project that consists of sometimes thick, sometimes thinly stretched networks, pyramids and hub-and-spoke clusters of socio-economic institutions and actors who organise themselves across borders, with the deliberate aim of drawing the world together in new ways. These non-governmental institutions and actors tend to pluralise power and to problematise violence; consequently, their peaceful or 'civil' effects are felt everywhere, here and there, far and wide, to and from local areas, through wider regions, to the planetary level itself. (Keane 2003: 8)

From this rather abstract definition, Keane (2003: 8–17) distils the following five key features of global civil society that highlight its historical distinctiveness:

1 It refers to *non-governmental* structures and activities;
2 It is a form of *society*, which 'refers to a vast, sprawling non-governmental constellation of many institutionalised structures, associations, and networks within which individual and group actors are interrelated and functionally interdependent';
3 It involves *civility* or 'respect for others expressed as politeness towards and acceptance of strangers';
4 It contains both strong traces of *pluralism* and *strong conflict potential*; and
5 It is *global*, which refers to 'politically framed and circumscribed social relations that stretch across and underneath state boundaries and other governmental forms'.

Global civil society is an important aspect of *political globalisation*, and we will return to consider it again in various parts of this chapter when we look at transnational advocacy networks, international opportunity structures, and the institutionalisation of international human rights.

Along with its economic and political aspects, globalisation also has important *cultural* dimensions. Much of the criticism here has been directed at the flattening and homogenising of local cultures by the juggernaut of global capitalism. An oft-cited example is George Ritzer's (1993: 1) notion of McDonaldisation, which denotes 'the process by which the principles of the fast-food restaurant are coming to dominate more and more sectors of American society as well as the rest of the world'. Ritzer uses McDonald's as a metaphor for the increasing standardisation that is taking place across societies, which some see as a process synonymous with Americanisation.

However, even McDonald's caters to local tastes. So, in France, you can have a glass of red wine with your Big Mac, while you can order an Aussie Burger in Australia. Hence, 'globalisation is marked culturally by processes of "glocalisation", whereby local cultures adapt and redefine any global cultural product to suit their own particular needs, beliefs and customs' (Giulianotti and Robertson 2004: 546). In their study of football, Giulianotti and Robertson show how although the world's major clubs are transnational corporations that drive the game's contemporary globalisation, the glocality of these transnational corporations is also observable.

Hence, all clubs are 'ethnocentric', in that they retain key symbolic ties to 'home' (Giulianotti and Robertson 2004: 552). They do so most notably through name, headquarters, home stadia, branding, strip colours, and by emphasising their local support base:

> However, as clubs like Manchester United establish marketing outlets in Asia and North America, more 'polycentric' marketing possibilities arise. Deterritorialisation would intensify if clubs were to play 'home' fixtures outside of their 'home' city, or to obfuscate their geographical origins. (Giulianotti and Robertson 2004: 552)

The concept of glocalisation highlights the very real sense in which globalisation does not merely steamroller local cultures, which experience globalisation in a variety of ways, adapting accordingly. Moreover, it calls attention to the fact that globalisation is not all bad: for instance, technological developments associated with globalisation, such as the Internet, have increased access to information, positively enabling people to gain greater insights into and understanding of 'other' cultures.

Glocalisation also brings into relief questions of *scale*, which were discussed in Chapter 8 (when we looked at struggles over space). Hence, for example, anti-globalisation movements of 'the local', observes Mayer (2007: 93), 'increasingly see localities as the scale where global neoliberalism "touches down" to make itself felt, where global issues become localised'. In this way, 'the experience of neoliberalism is nuanced, subject to local variations and played out differently in different countries and cities across the world' (Martin 2011b: 39). In the case of urban movements in a globalising world, Hamel et al. (2000: 2) have contested the typical view of urban social movements as being preoccupied with local issues, arguing they have always been 'extra-local', although admittedly that is more pronounced in the present period of globalisation.

More recently, Uitermark and Nicholls (2012) have shown how local activist networks in Los Angeles and Amsterdam shaped the global trajectory of the Occupy movement, arguing that the relatively rich social movement milieu in Los Angeles as compared to the less rich 'associational soil' in Amsterdam, has meant that, in Los Angeles, Occupy's message continues to circulate, whereas, in Amsterdam, it has all but disappeared. By contrast, in their study of the global justice movement, Hadden and Tarrow (2007: 371) have shown how after 9/11 and in the wake of the Iraq War, the movement flourished in Europe, yet stagnated in the United States for the following three reasons: (i) a more repressive response to transnational protest; (ii) the negative effect of US politicians linking

global terrorism with all kinds of transnational activism; and (iii) 'social movement spillout' whereby US activists became involved in a resurgent peace movement, turning their attention from the fight against global neoliberalism and towards domestic electoral politics 'to try to defeat the administration that had brought the country into an immoral and unwinnable war'.

Early in this chapter, we saw how transnational mobilisation might originate in concerns that are of a local or national nature or be sparked by local or national events or situations. That was indeed the case with the two waves of Black Lives Matter protests, which were triggered by police killings of black men in the US cities of Ferguson and Minneapolis but quickly spread to become global movements thereafter. It will be recalled, too, that in Chapter 10 we saw how local protests during the COVID-19 pandemic sometimes constituted glocalised expressions of the broader Black Lives Matter movement. For instance, activists in Australia sought to raise awareness about Aboriginal deaths in custody in solidarity with the bigger Black Lives Matter movement.

Box 11.2 Think globally, act locally: Resisting globalisation 'from below'

While Uitermark and Nicholls (2012) are interested in local networks shaping a global movement, a consideration of global-local relations can equally raise the prospect, mentioned earlier, as to whether, and to what extent, it is possible to resist or challenge globalisation. In his early attempt at theorising the relationship between globalisation and social movements, Leslie Sklair (1995) argued that although capitalism is increasingly organised on a global scale, opposition to capitalist practices tends to be most effective if it is locally-based, which has come to be known as 'globalisation from below' (Martin 2004: 42; della Porta et al. 2006). According to Sklair (1995: 501), this partly explains why movements working against global capitalism, such as the labour movement, have had some notable successes, but have generally failed globally (cf. Ayers 2001: 55). His point is this:

> The dilemma is that the only chance that people in social movements have to succeed is by disrupting the local agencies with which they come into direct contact in their daily lives, rather than the more global institutions whose interests these agencies are serving directly, or, more often, indirectly. (Sklair 1995: 499)

Moreover, 'while workers are often confused about whom (which representation of capital) to oppose when their interests (conditions of labour, livelihoods) are threatened [...] as capitalism globalises, subordinate groups find difficulty in identifying their adversaries' (Sklair 1995: 499). Thus, Sklair (1995: 501) concludes that 'movements working against global capitalism have been singularly unsuccessful globally, though their prospects of challenging global capitalism locally and making this count globally, globalising disruptions, seems more realistic'.

Hence, while the global organisation of transnational corporations is far too powerful for locally organised labour to resist, when transnational corporations have been challenged, 'it has usually been due to local campaigns of disruption and counter-information against TNC [transnational corporation] malpractices which have attracted world-wide publicity' (Sklair 1995: 501). The campaign against the promotion by Nestlé of its infant formula in developing countries is a case where the local disruption of a transnational corporation's activities led to a widespread global challenge; the general boycotting of Nestlé products, as a form of resistance to capitalist consumerism, or 'disrupting consumerism' (Sklair 1995: 504–507).

A similar ethos underpins the Fair Trade movement, which is about consumers in affluent nations exercising their power by purchasing goods made by local producers in preference to goods produced by multinational corporations. In this way, Fair Trade is part of a wider 'social responsibility movement' – a subset of 'lifestyle movements', which we looked at in Chapter 7 – that 'encourages participants to "vote" with their dollars, buying from socially responsible companies (and boycotting others), supporting locally owned businesses, purchasing "fair trade" products, and making socially responsible investments' (Haenfler et al. 2012: 6). However, as Huey's (2005) research into the website linking of global and local food movements shows, there can be a disparity between global rhetoric and local engagement.

Sometimes, Huey says, global environmental organisations' opposition to agribusiness does not adequately offer links to local alternatives and projects. While local farmer's markets do connect to organisations with broader agendas, like Greenpeace, they do not link with other farmer's market associations beyond their part of the world. Hence, 'instead of crafting a movement to provide local alternatives globally, their global work is projected onto organisations with very broad missions to protect the environment and the rights of citizens in non-industrialised regions from the depredations of big business' (Huey 2005: 135).

TRANSNATIONAL ADVOCACY NETWORKS AND INTERNATIONAL OPPORTUNITY STRUCTURES

In various parts of this book, we have seen how a key goal (and dilemma) for many social movements is maintaining autonomy in the face of political incorporation or co-optation. Especially in Chapter 5, we saw how autonomy is reckoned to be crucially important to new social movements, although it has also been observed that to be successful all movements must connect their demands to 'institutionally imminent possibilities' (Giddens 1991b: 155). We can frame this controversy in terms of *political globalisation* and global civil society, which, as we saw in Box 11.1, comprises international institutions, such as the UN, World Bank, and IMF, as well as international NGOs and global social movements; the latter being regarded 'as the principal hope for the democratisation of a newly forming global civil society' (Nash 2002: 438). In these terms, global civil society may be seen as an institutionally immanent transnational opportunity structure for global movement demands. Equally, global civil society could be thought of as the transnational equivalent of the new political space Alberto Melucci (1985: 815) sees contemporary movements occupying; that is, the intermediate public space between state and civil society, wherein movements strive to maintain their autonomy.

On globalisation and social movements, Melucci (1992: 53, original emphasis) has stated that, 'how to *exist with the other* in a planetary world is the moral challenge of our time'. In other words, he argues, we need an ethic of coexistence: 'a situational ethic, capable of lending dignity to the individual decision and repairing the links between genders, cultures, the individual and the species, living beings, the cosmos' (Melucci 1997: 66). Therefore, it would seem that, to Melucci, a globalised world is simply a bigger version of 'complex society', and that his ideas about coexistence are quite similar to his ideas about the recognition and acceptance of difference and autonomy, albeit on a larger scale. Accordingly, global civil society might be thought of as a space that is autonomous of individual nation-states within which international organisations and transnational movements (co)operate.

While, as we saw earlier, globalisation is a deep-rooted historical process, the formation of global civil society began more recently in the decades after the Second World War. This was a period when international NGOs proliferated, playing a key role in what Keck and Sikkink (1998) call 'transnational advocacy networks', which have been formed around human rights, peace, environmental, women's rights, and economic justice issues. As well as working through international institutional structures, such as those at the UN, these

advocacy networks have also supported and expanded with grassroots movements (Staggenborg 2011: 152). Importantly, however, given Olesen's (2005) reservations about the linkages between transnational activism and globalisation (discussed earlier), Cerny (2009: 154) argues, 'these advocacy groups do not merely mimic domestic cause groups', for the following three reasons:

> In the first place, they target issues which are international and/or transnational in scope […] Another reason is that they can bring together a range of coalition partners who would not normally be prepared to work closely with each other in a national setting for a variety of structural and historical reasons […] Finally, the Internet and other new communications and information technologies give these coalitions great reach and flexibility in the ways they can target different agents in states, international institutions, academics, the media, and the like. (Cerny 2009: 154)

Cerny goes on to state that transnational advocacy groups have benefitted from a transformed field of action, which Kreiger and Murphy (1998) call the 'transnational opportunity structure'. Essentially, this is the idea of 'political opportunity structure' we encountered in Chapter 4 transposed into a global context. Hence, Cerny (2009: 154–155) says, while 'the traditional pressure group and social movement literature focuses on the more embedded institutional points of access of the state, commentators on NSMs [new social movements] and NGOs are increasingly pointing to opportunities at the international and transnational level'. Similarly, Tarrow (2005: 25) has talked of the opportunities (and threats) provided by 'internationalism', which he takes to mean, 'a dense, triangular structure of relations among states, non-state actors, and international institutions, and the opportunities this produces for actors to engage in collective action at different levels of this system' (see also Smith 2004: 314).

The threats posed by internationalism are very real and well-documented, and include threats to sovereignty, equality, and diversity. Intensifying border security and tightening immigration controls are typical state responses here (Martin 2015, 2017b, 2019b; Martin and Tazreiter 2017). However, Tarrow (2005: 25) says, 'internationalism also offers an opportunity space into which domestic actors can move, encounter others like themselves, and form coalitions that transcend their borders'. For Tarrow, international institutions are 'double-edged'. On the one hand, international governance institutions like the WTO, IMF, and World Bank are regarded as agents of global capitalism, and thus 'as carriers of threats to ordinary citizens around the world, which is a source of justified resentment and resistance' (Tarrow 2005: 25). On the other

hand, international institutions 'offer an opportunity space within which opponents of global capitalism and other claimants can mobilise' (Tarrow 2005: 26). Tarrow alludes to the formation of a global civil society when he says:

> International institutions have emerged at the core of an increasingly complex international society around which NGOs, social movements, religious groups, trade unions, and business groups cluster. They both intrude on domestic politics through their policies and personnel and offer venues where non-state actors and states can take their claims and build coalitions. Not all of these groups directly challenge or work within the ambit of these institutions; many protest against them and others respond only indirectly to their directives and policies. But as in domestic politics, in which states are both targets of resistance and fulcrums for social conflict and coalition building, international institutions, regimes, and practices are 'coral reefs' in a broader sea of complex internationalism. (Tarrow 2005: 27)

Out of the expanded political opportunities for transnational protest internationalism provides there has emerged what many believe is a genuinely global movement for social justice. This 'global justice movement' can be thought of as a *global* social movement, since it consists of 'supranational networks of actors that define their causes as global and organise protest campaigns that involve more than one state' (della Porta et al. 2006: 18). We will now look at the global justice movement in more detail.

Box 11.3 Global social movements and sport

In Chapter 1, we provided several examples of Just Stop Oil activists disrupting major sporting events in Britain. While sport might be considered an aspect of the study of culture and social movements, which we looked at in Chapter 6, controversy has flowed from the view that, as a cultural pursuit, sport, including those who play it and its governing bodies, should keep out of politics. To critics, that rigid separation of sport and politics can lead to 'sportwashing' whereby countries host sporting events despite having poor human rights records. Indeed, there is a history of rights movements' involvement in sport (Harvey et al. 2014), and over time there have been many instances of sport players and sporting bodies taking a stand against human rights abuses, discrimination, inequality, and injustice.

An early example connecting sport and activism was the activities of the anti-apartheid movement in the 1960s and 1970s 'when cricket and rugby union – two team sports holding great popularity and significance for white male South African identity – were subject to protest, campaigns and boycotts' (Harvey et al. 2014: 78). The anti-apartheid movement was a worldwide network, which, among other things, campaigned successfully for a 'third party' boycott of New Zealand after it allowed a South African rugby tour to take place in 1976, ultimately leading 'to 19 African countries withdrawing from the 1976 Montreal Olympics in protest at the inclusion of New Zealand' (Harvey et al. 2014: 78). Subsequently, South African sportspeople were banned from competing at international athletics, swimming and association football events.

Since then, global sporting 'mega-events' such as the Olympics and the Fédération Internationale de Football Association (FIFA) World Cup Finals have increasingly become a platform for sport players and governing bodies to speak out on human rights issues. A trailblazing example was the first Fair Play campaign launched ahead of the 2004 Athens Olympics, which was itself part of a wider campaign that had begun in the 1990s against the exploitation of workers worldwide aimed specifically at sportswear brands like Nike (see Klein 2000a). Along with raising awareness about worker exploitation, these campaigns sought concrete action from governments 'to resist the pressure from the companies and ensure labour legislation was enforced to protect the rights of the workers' (Harvey et al. 2014: 38).

Similar issues were voiced in relation to the 2022 men's FIFA World Cup Finals hosted by Qatar. Like the Fair Play campaign, one issue raised at that event concerned the exploitation and death of migrant workers who had constructed football stadiums and other key infrastructure for the Finals (Panja and Sharma 2022). Qatar's anti-homosexuality laws were also brought into sharp focus when England captain, Harry Kane, and Wales captain, Gareth Bale, both proposed to wear 'OneLove' rainbow armbands in support of LGBTQ+ rights. Ultimately, the players and their respective Football Associations backed down after FIFA said the players could be booked during the match for wearing the armbands, but Kane and Bale still wore FIFA-endorsed 'No Discrimination' captain armbands (Liew 2022). Meanwhile, Germany's football team staged their own protest at FIFA's threat to penalise players if they wore rainbow armbands (Figure 11.1).



Figure 11.1 As they pose for a team photo ahead of the FIFA World Cup Group E match against Japan at the Khalifa International Stadium, Doha, German players cover their mouths to protest at threats made by FIFA to penalise players from seven European football federations for speaking out about discrimination and human rights abuses (23 November 2022) © Mike Egerton / PA Archive/PA Images/Alamy

In addition, during their opening game with England at the 2022 Finals, the Iranian football team fell silent when their national anthem was played in defiance of the Iranian regime's brutal crackdown on demonstrators calling for women's rights following the death in custody of Mahsa Amini, aged 22, after her arrest by 'morality police' on a visit to Tehran earlier in September, which, as we saw in Chapter 9, was for her allegedly wearing her headscarf improperly contrary to Iran's strict female dress code (Fahim 2022; Liew 2022). The England team also 'took the knee' before their games kicked-off at the Finals in a show of solidarity with Black Lives Matter, which was a gesture adopted by many sport teams globally following the police murder of George Floyd in Minneapolis on 25 May 2020.

GLOBAL JUSTICE MOVEMENT

Earlier we looked at some possibilities for resisting globalisation, which many believe can only happen in a piecemeal way, and on a local scale. However, the idea that the juggernaut of global capitalism is unstoppable was subject to serious challenge when, in 1999,

anti-capitalist protestors successfully disrupted the WTO ministerial meetings during the Battle of Seattle, which at various places in this book we have described as a significant event and tipping point in terms of how it precipitated changes in the ways protests have been policed since. But the Battle of Seattle was not only a watershed moment for the social control of protest; it was also a time when activists realised the potential that may reside in a global movement for social justice.

In her potted history of the global justice movement, Staggenborg (2011: 150) shows how its beginnings can be traced to the neoliberal economic policies that were promoted by the Reagan and Thatcher regimes, in the United States and Britain respectively, during the 1980s and 1990s. Jackie Smith (2004: 313) argues that at this time the important shift was not the rising power of transnational corporations vis-à-vis nation-states, but changing power relations between Western states and non-Western peoples:

> Thus many analysts trace the origins of contemporary resistance to neoliberal forms of economic globalisation not to the 1999 World Trade Organization meeting in Seattle, but rather the countless 'IMF riots', or protests in the global South beginning in the 1980s to oppose the economic policies imposed on their governments by the World Bank and International Monetary Fund. (Smith 2004: 313)

The global justice movement also draws inspiration from the Jubilee 2000 campaign for debt relief, as well as Greenpeace's International Day of Action against McDonald's in 1985. However, the more recent incarnation of the movement was inspired by the vision of the Zapatistas, who, it will be recalled from Chapter 8, emerged in 1994 from the jungles of Chiapas, Mexico, fighting for autonomy against the NAFTA, which was a neoliberal reform also representing US neo-colonialism in the Central America region.

Subsequently, a coalition calling itself, Peoples' Global Action, sponsored the first global day of action in May 1998 to coincide with the G8 meeting held in Birmingham and the WTO meeting in Geneva. The second global day of action took place when the G8 met in Germany in June 1999, and the third coincided with the WTO meetings in Seattle in November 1999. After the terror attacks of 11 September 2001, the global justice movement also subsumed anti-war activism (Staggenborg 2011: 153), which was directed at another case of neo-colonialism, this time in the Middle East: the US-led invasions of Afghanistan and Iraq. The influence and legacy of the global justice movement have been more recently apparent in the protests of Occupy and other movements that sprung up against injustices resulting from the GFC, the bank bailout, and austerity measures (Halvorsen 2012: 429–430; Pickerill and Krinsky 2012: 279).

The global justice movement tells us important things not only about globalisation but also about social movement theory. Global justice activists target economic and cultural globalisation as sources of potential threats, including: incursions into national cultures and identities; government cuts to social programs; and trade policies, economic projects, and exploitation by corporations of workers and the environment (Staggenborg 2011: 150). However, while activists contest various cultural changes associated with globalisation, which have 'created threats to national and ethnic identities and local cultures' (Staggenborg 2011: 150), the fact that these struggles are embedded in broader economic conditions, and neoliberal policies, highlights the fact that 'old' politics and traditional issues relating to socio-economic injustice remain relevant. For Cox and Nilsen, though, the global justice movement attempts to defy this type of academic classification. Hence, in opposing the process of neoliberal globalisation, what the 'movement of movements' seeks to do is 'challenge and remake the same forms and institutions that the literature takes as its parameters and axioms' (Cox and Nilsen 2007: 426). Moreover:

> By its own bottom-up construction of alternative structures, media and ways of being, it also poses an *implicit* challenge to the world as represented through academic eyes. It is unsurprising, then, that the primary academic response is one of reasserting the primacy of existing, top-down knowledge. (Cox and Nilsen 2007: 426–427, original emphasis)

Significantly, the global justice movement exposes the essential ethnocentricity of accounts of social movements in the Global North. For this very reason, Nick Crossley (2003: 300–302) is critical of new social movement theory, which focuses on privileged First World movements concerned with post-material values, yet neglects the material difficulties faced by the majority of the world's population, and, importantly, ignores the fact that the prosperity and stability of the First World has been achieved by the exploitation and underdevelopment of the Third World.

Crossley looks at the anti-corporate movement, which, as we saw above, can be regarded a facet of the anti-globalisation movement, arguing what marks this movement out as distinctive is that First and Third World campaigners act together to address the problems of the underdeveloped world. Moreover, some Western activists say the central role played by Third World protesters in shaping the tactics and issues of anti-corporatism is what makes it a new and distinctive wave of mobilisation; raising the prospect of movements that are even newer than new social movements (Crossley 2003). The Mexican Zapatistas and the Brazilian landless movement, Sem Terra, are two examples of high-profile Third World networks within the anti-corporate movement,

which not only pre-date First World anti-corporate activism by some years, but also have considerable weight, kudos and symbolic capital within Western anti-corporate culture (Crossley 2003: 301–302).

Martin (2004: 42), too, has argued the financial imbalance between the rich countries of the Global North and the poor countries of the Global South, that is a principal grievance of anti-capitalist activists, suggests 'material and economic concerns continue to be crucial in a globalising world', which is, in turn, indicative of 'the ethnocentricity of (European) new social movement theory' (see also Martin 2017e). For example, while Melucci intimates the emergence of something resembling a global civil society where movements operate independently of the national state, and seems able to incorporate globalisation into his general thesis about collective identities in complex society, he still appears reluctant to take material issues seriously (Martin 2004: 42). Thus, he says, 'for developing societies the future is still open to development, but they are at the same time entirely involved in the planetary system based on information' (Melucci 1992: 73). Moreover, Melucci sees the world system as a network of relationships between sovereign states, whereas others see it more clearly in terms of a 'global financial apartheid' (Hari 2002: 24). Finally, Martin (2004: 42) contends that Melucci's work around social movements in a 'planetary society' appears to tell us little about how global collective struggles are played out locally, which is probably because his theory operates at a high level of abstraction.

NEW MEDIA AND GLOBAL ACTIVISM

As stated in the introduction to this chapter, a recent development that looks likely to influence global protest into the future is the ubiquity of new media and communication technologies. Earlier we also noted that although much protest derives from disquiet at the negative consequences of globalisation or, more specifically, 'global neoliberalism', globalisation is not all bad. Thus, a positive aspect of *technological globalisation* has been the rise of the Internet, which, among other things, has enabled people to become aware of different world cultures. From a social movement perspective, the Internet now provides activists with an invaluable networking and mobilising tool and resource.

This was something we looked at in Chapter 9, where we also considered the role of social media and digital technologies in global activism. We saw, for instance, how information communication technologies, such as the Internet, have been vital in bringing together activists from across geographically dispersed places. Indeed, in relation to global justice activists' protest at some of the negative cultural consequences of globalisation (mentioned above), Staggenborg (2011: 150) has said that 'new technologies like the Internet promoted

greater awareness of these issues and increased potential for global mobilisation'.

Likewise, in his ethnographic analysis of transnational Zapatitsa and global justice movements, Juris (2008) shows how network technologies have enabled the global spread of Zapatismo as a cultural-political ideal and its incorporation into the everyday practices of activist struggles (see also Khasnabish 2008). Similarly, Olesen (2005: 57) has argued that transnational framing processes are highly dependent upon the availability of effective means of communication across considerable physical, social, and cultural distances, which is why, he suggests, 'the Internet makes it easier for distant actors to share everyday experiences and thus to verify empirical credibility and construct experiential commensurability'.

To Olesen (2005: 57), this constitutes 'a qualitative change in the potentials for sharing everyday experiences and constructing a global consciousness through communication media [and] marks a relatively sharp break with traditional forms of communication media' (e.g. television and newspapers), which are characterised by one-way communication where a clear distinction exists between the producers and recipients of information. The Internet blurs this distinction and is thus one example of new media having a potentially democratising effect and function; by facilitating, for instance, greater access to information technologies, counterveillance, citizen journalism, and the like (see Chapter 9).

However, as mentioned towards the end of Chapter 9 in relation to Occupy, questions remain as to the effectiveness of social media and ICTs in enabling international solidarity. In their research into the use of new media by anti-globalisation protestors, Van Aelst and Walgrave (2002: 487) found the Internet has indeed provided a basis for collective identity formation and consensus building, allowing activists to frame globalisation as an economic problem with negative human and environmental consequences, as well as contest the lack of democratic legitimacy of international organisations as an aspect of political globalisation. Moreover, in accordance with what was said in Chapter 9 about the symbiotic relationship between online and offline activism, by offering general information on the issues, Van Aelst and Walgrave (2002: 487) discovered websites 'actively mobilise people to demonstrate against the symbols of economic globalisation'. Thus, websites provide an important 'means of support in the mobilisation process for all sorts of "real" protest actions' (Van Aelst and Walgrave 2002: 482).

In contrast, Kevin McDonald (2002) has suggested the concept of collective identity is redundant in the case of globalisation conflicts, which is why, he argues, we should shift focus from solidarity to 'fluidarity'. Likewise, Van Laer (2010) believes that because it is used mainly by 'superactivists' – who tend to be highly educated as well as experienced users of digital communication technologies – the

Internet reinforces participation inequalities, and thus might prove an inadequate tool to sustain collective action and maintain future movement organisations. Given this, and the widely accepted heterogeneity of the global justice movement, commentators have observed how the Internet is essentially double-edged, simultaneously providing opportunities and constraints for collective action. For instance, in their study of Internet use by global justice activists, della Porta and Mosca (2005: 171) note that although 'the Internet provides social movements with the means for managing logistics, the extent to which it has a levelling effect among social groups is still an open question'. Indeed, they observe, the Internet has given rise to a new form of inequality, or 'digital divide':

> Differences emerge in Internet access between different territorial levels (not only rich regions versus poor ones but also between rich and poor people in wealthy nations), different social classes in the same nation (penalising those lacking economic gtural resources), and between social sectors with different degrees of interest in politics (favouring groups of citizens already active and interested in politics). (della Porta et al. 2006: 98)

We saw something similar in Chapter 9, when considering how the ubiquity of mobile digital devices like smartphones can have a democratising effect, although, as Loader and Mercea (2012: 4) observe, the majority of citizen journalists tend to be activists already committed to political causes. However, some see the debate over whether ICTs improve the voice of social movements or accentuate existing inequalities as too simplistic when considered in contexts where basic access to ICTs can be lacking, and ICTs are therefore of limited use to activists. Drawing on over three years of fieldwork and 24 in-depth interviews among activists within the women's movement in Ghana, West Africa, Fallon and Boutilier's (2022) findings complicate a binary conception of access. For example, they show how movement organisations facing ICT restrictions often choose not to use them, not because activists lack motivation or understanding of ICTs, but because they make practical decisions to advance their interests using more reliable means. Hence, the study highlights the enduring relevance of the digital divide, including the importance of social movement organisations' capacity to access *quality* ICTs.

In relation to the global justice movement, della Porta (2012) has shown how, regardless of the digital divide, the use of new technologies resonates, at a normative level, with social movements' vision for *participatory* and *deliberative* democracy. First, beyond their instrumental use in expanding the capacity for communication of social movements, the fast and relatively inexpensive forms of communication

permitted by the Internet, for example, 'allows for flexible organisation and more participatory structures' (della Porta 2012: 49).

Secondly, the communicative value of new technologies also resonates with social movements' critique of representative forms of democracy that are based on principles of delegated authority and majority voting. By contrast, social movements have long been advocates for participatory conceptions of democracy, horizontal forms of internal (and leaderless) organisation, and the endorsement of direct citizen involvement in decision-making. In other words, decisional processes that are of a deliberative nature, involving 'conditions of equality, inclusiveness, and transparency [and] a communicative process based on reason' (della Porta 2012: 50). The global justice movement is one example of a movement that has paid 'attention to values related to communication in an open space, respect for diversity, equal participation, and inclusiveness' (della Porta 2012: 50). Similarly, it has been shown that institutions of global governance have inserted the issue of the digital divide into their agendas (della Porta and Mosca 2005: 172; della Porta et al. 2006: 98).

However, we should be cautious about the extent to which the networking logic of the Internet has enabled movements like the global justice movement to actually practice 'an "open space method" of internal democracy that should produce strength from diversity' (della Porta 2012: 50). Indeed, Martin (2004: 49) has pointed to some of the difficulties faced by the anti-capitalist movement, and other contemporary movements, which seek not only independence and autonomy to be part of a genuinely democratic global civil society, but also strive to ensure their own internal organisation and structures reflect their democratic ideals. In Chapter 8, too, we saw how Occupy has experienced some internal division, whereby protestors have been reluctant to engage with Indigenous peoples' concerns about settler colonialism (Barker 2012).

Indeed, Heather McKee Hurwitz (2019) argues Occupy's non-horizontal structure has meant it constructs gender and race differences in leadership just as leadership stratification occurs in more hierarchical organisations, which has led to activists enacting forms of 'discriminatory resistance' that impede women and genderqueer persons from all races and ethnicities assuming leadership roles. Scepticism has also been expressed by Gerbaudo (2012: 13) regarding claims movements using social media, including Occupy, are spontaneous, leaderless, networked, and horizontal (e.g. Mason 2012; Tufekci 2017), whereas social media has actually 'facilitated the rise of "soft" forms of leadership which exploit the interactive and participatory character of the new media communication technologies'. On the other hand, studies of the hacktivist movement, Anonymous, confirm its essentially networked, horizontal or rhizomatic character (Fuchs 2015; Uitermark 2017).

Something similar has been observed in respect of the Black Lives Matter movement, which is openly 'leaderful' in claiming to have a structure of organising where there are more horizontal and equal relationships between activists than hierarchical ones (Nulman and Cole 2023). An aim here is to avoid being leaderless to avert Freeman's (1972) 'tyranny of structurelessness' or the idea that a lack of structure and organisation produces implicit hierarchies via informal networks, which creates an elite and factions vying for power within an organisation. However, to realise its potential and ensure its longevity, Nulman and Cole (2023) argue Black Lives Matter still has work to do to assess how its organisational structures can nurture, promote or restrict the development of leaderfulness.

INTERNATIONAL HUMAN RIGHTS AND PROTEST

Along with the impact of new media and communication technologies, another development that is likely to continue to influence future global protest is international human rights norms and law, not least because this highlights a 'democratic deficit' of global institutions:

> While the proliferation of international regimes for human rights, environmental protection, and equitable development both focus transnational movements and expand their opportunities for participation, the neoliberal emphasis on market governance and the expanding influence of international financial institutions has reduced the political power of citizens as it excludes them from decision-making arenas that have increasingly significant implications for their lives. (Smith 2004: 319)

The contemporary terrain of international human rights has its origins in the formation of the United Nations after the Second World War, which, as noted above, was also a period when international NGOs proliferated. However, only relatively recently have social movement scholars and political scientists considered this an area where we might observe global civil society in action. Most of the focus here is on relations and/or interactions between macro (global), meso (national), and micro (local) levels of analysis.

Indeed, in Chapter 4, we looked at Meyer's (2003) case study of the New Zealand anti-nuclear weapons movement to explore some of the ways domestic and international factors interact and how that, in turn, impacts upon social movements. Much in the same way we saw earlier in the chapter how the 'transnational opportunities structure' (Kreiger and Murphy 1988) or 'internationalism' (Tarrow 2005) offers space *and* poses threats for social movements (Tarrow 2005), it will be recalled

that Meyer (2003: 19) extends the political opportunity structure concept to argue national opportunities are *nested* in a broader international environment, which promotes or constrains opportunities for activists within nation-states. This work reflects other research on global institutions and movements, which 'sees national polities as nested within a much broader system of institutional relations that will vary across issues, time, and place' (Smith 2004: 317).

Similarly, Muñoz (2006: 252) looks at the case of the EZLN (Zapatista Army of National Liberation) to highlight the 'intersection between domestic politics and international negotiations' over the NAFTA. Muñoz argues that although the NAFTA represented the dark side of globalisation and had negative effects for people living in the south of Mexico, the international attention it brought to Mexico also created openings for political reforms protecting human rights. In short, he says, 'the formation of human rights norms and economic globalisation have created a political opportunity structure that placed the Mexican government in a position where it was unable to either ignore or fully repress EZLN collective action' (Muñoz 2006: 252). Pressure from both international financial interests and human rights groups drastically constrained the Mexican government's military response to the Zapatistas in Chiapas, and the NAFTA played a key role, 'given that its supporters advocated that the agreement would advance human rights and increase political stability' (Muñoz 2006: 262).

While Muñoz (2006: 268) considers the influence of an international political opportunity structure upon state responses to address 'the lack of attention given to the way in which social movements alter the action of their opponents', Kate Nash (2012) argues state and national law remain important for institutionalising human rights norms. She, too, uses the 'excellent' but 'exceptional' example of the Zapatistas as a case supporting what 'subaltern cosmopolitans' see as the emancipatory use of human rights and law 'from below' (Nash 2012: 804). By contrast, 'global cosmopolitanism' is a 'top down' approach, which reflects the view that there is a single human rights movement creating international law, such as that enshrined in the Universal Declaration of Human Rights (Nash 2012: 798, 802–803). While there is often suspicion of universal human rights as a form of western imperialist economic and military power, Nash argues, the middle way of *bringing the state back in*, provides both a more fruitful and realistic perspective, albeit one that adds to rather than reduces the complexity of human rights law.

Although nation-states are increasingly 'internationalising' or 'becoming enmeshed in regulation and law across borders' in respect of human rights (Nash 2014: 745), states nevertheless remain the ultimate guarantors of international human rights, which are interpreted contextually by courts in national settings. However, the

interpretation and use of human rights is not restricted to national courts, for human rights law is multi-scalar by virtue of 'transnational legal pluralism'; that is, 'the co-existence of overlapping, local, national and international law within and across states' (Nash 2012: 804). Hence, complexity arises because '[n]ot only can there be more than one jurisdiction through which individuals may claim rights, but there is not necessarily any ultimate judicial authority to adjudicate conflicts' (Nash 2012: 807).

Moreover, even when priorities are clearly set out in domestic legal principles and precedents, and national courts become involved, 'state law does not automatically trump local customary law' (Nash 2012: 807). Similarly, international law does not automatically trump state law: 'Although international human rights law is negotiated to make clear requirements of states that have signed treaties and conventions, so that it seems as if the UN is above them as a judicial authority, it is not an authority that can be enforced' (Nash 2012: 807).

Accordingly, Nash (2012: 808) takes issue not only with global cosmopolitans but also the multiplicity of social movements that demand human rights 'from below', arguing human rights law is state-centric 'in that it is virtually exclusively through states that international human rights law is made and enforced'. Hence, against subaltern cosmopolitanism, she argues, 'we cannot avoid or ignore the state as it is currently constructed in international law as the guarantor of human rights' (Nash 2012: 808). Indeed, even when human rights are demanded from below, it is the state that tends to address them. Moreover, states do not necessarily adjudicate such matters simply by reference to national law, customary law, or international law. And even when governments sign international human rights treaties, they may not intend to implement them (Smith 2004: 315), which is a form of 'state hypocrisy' that can precipitate the formation of human rights NGOs and movements (Ball 2000: 74).

Bringing the state back in therefore complicates matters, such that 'in the complex interplay of definitions of human rights on the part of activists, lawyers and politicians at national and international level, what human rights mean in practice will, for the foreseeable future, involve a patchwork of legal victories, compromises, temporary solutions, and political trade-offs' (Nash 2012: 808). However, we continue to know relatively little about 'emerging forms of transnational activism that involve the grassroots mobilisations outside institutions that are typically associated with social movements and that at the same time address global elites through INGOs [international non-governmental organisations]' (Nash 2014: 751).

At various places in this book, though especially in Chapter 10, we have seen how some social movements demand changes in the law or legal system, such as petitioning for the introduction of legalisation to

protect against discrimination based on gender, race, or disability. We have also seen how, in certain circumstances, social movements may invoke international law or direct their grievances at international institutions. For example, in Chapter 8, we saw how the international Indigenous peoples' movement has played a very active role in challenging colonialism (and its legacies), using the language of self-determination, and standard-setting in international human rights law (Feldman 2002: 42). We also saw how international NGOs and human rights groups have connected the recognition, adoption, and elaboration of international standards relating to Indigenous peoples to wider global issues, such as nuclear disarmament and environmental racism (Feldman 2002: 39). In Box 11.4, we look at the case of a network of transnational human rights campaigners which successfully lobbied the UN using international humanitarian law.

Box 11.4 'Comfort women' challenging international law

> Pak Yong Sim – North Korea: 'I had to service thirty to forty soldiers everyday. One day I was really in pain, and when I didn't respond to the demands of one officer, that bastard beat me with his fists, kicked me with his boots, took a long knife and held it up against my throat and cut me. The blood poured out and soaked my whole body, but that bastard officer went on to satisfy his lust'. (Sajor 2004: 290)

From 1937 to 1945, the Japanese military established and maintained a 'comfort station' system that was considered vital to the Japanese war effort during the Second World War (Sajor 2004: 303). Comfort stations were an institutionalised system of rape and sexual slavery wherein 'comfort women' suffered brutal treatment at the hands of Japanese soldiers: Japanese Imperial Army documents even set out the rules and obligations of women in comfort stations (Sajor 2004: 300).

It took several decades before former comfort women came forward to speak out and tell their stories like the one told by Pak Yong Sim in the extract above. In 2000, former comfort women convened the Tokyo Women's Tribunal, which 'brought together women from nine countries in the Asia Pacific region to testify against the Government of Japan, who forced more than two hundred thousand women into sexual slavery during World War Two' (Sajor 2004: 288). The purpose of the Tribunal was 'to redress the historic tendency to trivialise crimes against women, particularly sexual crimes committed in war or armed conflict' (Sajor 2004: 289). Specifically, it aimed to hold the

Japanese government to account in accordance with the principles of international humanitarian law.

Tactics used by former comfort women included filing court cases against the Japanese government as well as picketing and demonstrating outside Japanese embassies in the cities of Seoul, Manila, Jakarta, Tokyo, Geneva, and New York (see Figure 11.2). Giving voice to their stories also enabled the former comfort women to engage in a process of educating the Japanese people about what had been done to them, which was reflected in the demand 'that their experiences be officially acknowledged in Japanese accounts of history, and taught to students in Japanese



Figure 11.2 Narcisa Claveria, 85, a former Filipino 'comfort woman', speaks at a protest on 1 March 2016 in front of the Japanese Embassy in Manila against enhanced military cooperation between the Philippines and Japan, which signed a bilateral agreement the previous day to allow Japan to transfer defense equipment and technology to the Philippines © Newscom/ Alamy

schools' (Sajor 2004: 294). Former comfort women also sought an official apology from the Prime Minister of Japan, individual apologies from soldiers, reparations, and compensation.

The Tokyo Women's Tribunal was tasked with conducting the Women's International War Crimes Tribunal and drawing up a Charter of the Women's Tribunal under which the Tribunal was granted jurisdiction over crimes committed against women as war crimes and crimes against humanity. However, unlike the 1993 International Criminal Tribunal for the Former Republic of Yugoslavia, or the 1995 International Criminal Tribunal for Rwanda, the Tokyo Women's Tribunal lacked the legal authority of an ad hoc Tribunal of the UN Security Council. Accordingly, it could not pass sentence upon individuals nor order reparations. It also diverged from UN Security Council-mandated Tribunals which hear only individual criminal cases, in that it assigned both individual and state criminal responsibility, even indicting Japan's late Emperor Hirohito. Ultimately, the Tokyo Women's Tribunal 'was able to make recommendations backed by the weight of its legal findings and its moral force' (Sajor 2004: 298). On 4 December 2001, a year after the case was heard, the Tribunal handed down its judgment in The Hague, holding:

> There is abundant evidence, most notably from victim-survivor testimony, that the Japanese government and military were involved in all aspects of the sexual slavery system. In addition, the evidence provided by experts confirms that Japanese officials at the highest levels participated knowingly in the system of sexual slavery. (Sajor 2004: 302)

The judgment of the Tokyo Women's Tribunal finally gave the former comfort women a sense of justice and provided recognition of their pain and suffering. Issues about comfort women are now included in Japanese school textbooks, although a nationalist countermovement has campaigned for their removal (Sajor 2004: 302). Lobbying on the part of former comfort women also played a part in preventing Japan from becoming a permanent member of the UN Security Council in 1994 on account of its denial of wartime atrocities (Sajor 2004: 294). The International Labour Organization, too, has recognised comfort women were victims of forced labour, which it prohibits (Sajor 2004: 295).

CONCLUSION

Some of the material presented in this chapter points to the adaptability of the concept of 'political opportunity structure', which, as we have seen, can be transposed into a global context. Indeed, in Chapter 4, we saw how Sarah Soule (2009: 44) has used the idea of 'international political opportunity structure' in relation to anti-corporate activism to argue social movements against multinational corporations are governed, to a significant degree, by multiple levels of opportunity operating domestically and transnationally. In that chapter, and elsewhere in the book, we have also considered prospects for applying the concept of 'repertoire of contention' on a transnational scale, which has been made possible in no small part with the advent of new media, information and communication technologies. The Arab Spring, Occupy and Black Lives Matter are obvious examples here.

Novel ways of applying concepts like political opportunity structure and repertoire of contention suggest the continued relevance of political process and contentious politics approaches to collective action. So, too, does Nash's argument about *bringing the state back in*, which indicates the ongoing relevance (and resilience) of the nation-state in spite of the apparent fact that globalising forces strip national states of their sovereignty. Indeed, as discussed in Chapter 1, observers continue to identify new variants of retreatism and processes of 'deglobalisation', which were brought into sharp relief during the COVID-19 pandemic when governments closed international borders and practiced what came to be known as 'vaccination nationalism'. It would seem also that these ideas gainsay arguments about social movements ('new' or otherwise) striving to maintain their autonomy by eschewing traditional forms of interest intermediation, such as state politics.

That is not to say, however, that all social movements must connect their demands to 'institutionally immanent possibilities' (Giddens 1991b: 155), or that social movement outcomes are always necessarily synonymous with political, legal, or policy change. For, as we have seen at various junctures in this book, social movements can also have cultural impacts, challenging and influencing societal values and attitudes. Especially in Chapter 6, we saw how movements might do that via emotions and narrative or storytelling, which, in turn, points to the 'cognitive praxis' of social movements which regards efficacy and success in terms of how influential a movement is 'in spreading its knowledge interests or diffusing its consciousness' (Eyerman and Jamison 1991: 3–4). These elements are clearly evident in the example of comfort women (Box 11.4), who, by *speaking out* and *telling their stories*, not only achieved a sense of justice in legal recognition but were also successful in spreading their consciousness; for instance,

now their story is told in school textbooks. As we shall see in the next concluding chapter, cognitive praxis is one of the most significant ways social movements – as 'knowledge-producers in their own right' (Chesters 2012: 145) – bring about change in society.

SUGGESTED READINGS

Smith, J. (2004) 'Transnational processes and movements' in D. A. Snow, S. A. Soule and H. Kriesi (eds) *The Blackwell Companion to Social Movements*. Oxford: Blackwell, pp. 311–335.

Jackie Smith's book chapter provides a very useful account of some of the most pertinent issues relating to globalisation and transnational activism. There are many books that look at this, including the following:

Cohen, R. and Rai, S. M. (eds) (2000) *Global Social Movements*. London: Continuum.

della Porta, D. (ed.) (2007) *The Global Justice Movement: Cross-national and Transnational Perspectives*. Boulder, CO: Paradigm.

della Porta, D., Andretta, M., Mosca, L. and Reiter, H. (eds) (2006) *Globalization from Below: Transnational Activism and Protest Networks*. Minneapolis, MN: University of Minnesota Press.

della Porta, D., Kriesi, H. and Rucht, D. (eds) (1999) *Social Movements in a Globalising World*. Houndmills: Palgrave Macmillan.

della Porta, D. and Tarrow, S. (eds) (2005) *Transnational Protest and Global Activism: People, Passions, and Power*. Lanham, MD: Rowman & Littlefield.

Smith, J. (2008) *Social Movements for Global Democracy*. Baltimore, MD: The Johns Hopkins University Press.

Smith, J. and Johnston, H. (eds) (2002) *Globalization and Resistance: Transnational Dimensions of Social Movements*. Lanham, MD: Rowman & Littlefield.

Tarrow, S. (2005) *The New Transnational Activism*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

The article below offers a useful exploration of the relationship between global activism and transnational processes:

Olesen, T. (2005) 'The uses and misuses of globalization in the study of social movements' *Social Movement Studies* 4(1): 49–63.

The following journal special issues provide insights into some of the topics covered in this chapter:

Millennium 23(3) (1994): 'Social Movements and World Politics'.
Mobilization 6(1) (2001): 'Globalization and Resistance'.
Mobilization 13(4) (2008): 'The World Economic Forum Process'.

Conclusion

OBJECTS AND OUTCOMES OF SOCIAL MOVEMENTS AND PROTEST POLITICS

The purpose of this final chapter is to draw together some of the more prominent themes and perspectives to have emerged in the book. To that end, it is probably apt to begin by looking at what is arguably the single biggest aim of any kind of protest, namely to bring about positive social change in the face of perceived wrongs or injustices. Indeed, in Chapter 3, we saw how Turner and Killian (1987 [1957]) believe a sense of injustice is central to *all* social movement activity. Similarly, scholars writing from the framing perspective argue diagnosing problems and attributing blame are key framing tasks, involving the articulation of 'injustice frames', which 'call attention to the ways in which movements identify the "victims" of a given injustice and amplify their victimisation' (Benford and Snow 2000: 615). Hence, William Gamson (1992: 68, original emphasis) has said that all 'collective action frames are *injustice* frames'.

However, as noted in Chapter 6, although the framing approach generally succeeds in overcoming the overly rationalistic view of resource mobilisation theory, it tends to overstate cognition as a principal factor that motivates people to get involved in protesting in the first place. And, in so doing, it fails to recognise collective action is often *preceded* by emotions, such as a sense of injustice, anger, indignation, fear, or compassion (Polletta and Amenta 2001: 305). Importantly, though, emotions are not only an important motivational force; they can also affect social movement outcomes.

While social movement scholars have tended typically to see movement outcomes in terms of bringing about concrete political, legal, or policy changes, at various points in this book we have seen

DOI: 10.4324/9780367821760-12

how the impact and influence of social movements can be far more expansive and wide-ranging. For instance, when we looked at the role of narrative and storytelling in Chapter 6, we saw how as well as functioning internally to cement social bonds, sustain, and strengthen activists' sense of commitment to shared organisational goals and a collective identity, storytelling can also have external effects. For example, 'stories of influence' can be a 'spillover effect' of social movement activity (Meyer and Whittier 1994), which can be considered a movement outcome beyond a specific policy goal. Hence, we saw how despite the defeat of the US Equal Rights Amendment in the 1970s, largely because of the influence of the narrative of the women's movement at the time, cultural values and attitudes about women in politics and the workforce were still dramatically transformed for the better during that period (Meyer 2009: 59). This goes to what Polletta and Amenta (2022) identify as the *cultural impacts* of movements and protest, which they say may influence the practices of institutions other than those directly targeted by activists. It is also reminiscent of Blumer's (1969) earlier ideas regarding the ways what he calls 'general social movements' bring about changes in values or 'cultural drifts' (considered in Chapter 2).

In Chapter 11, we also saw how speaking out and telling their stories was a tactic used by 'comfort women', who sought justice and recognition for the historic sexual crimes they suffered at the hands of Japanese soldiers during the Second World War. Moreover, we considered their success in having their experiences officially recognised in Japanese school history books as an example of the 'cognitive praxis' of social movements, which 'measures' a movement's success according to how influential it is in diffusing and spreading its knowledge interests or consciousness (Eyerman and Jamison 1991: 3–4).

In Chapter 2, we connected the concept of cognitive praxis to approaches that treat movements as 'knowledge-producers in their own right' (Chesters 2012: 145), and which see academic researchers as co-producers of knowledge as well as partners aligned with activists in their struggles for social justice. Embracing politics in this way is not only antithetical to past approaches that have regarded movements as objects of study but is viewed as ethical, since for too long Western conceptions of scientific neutrality and academic detachment have predominated. Academic knowledge production has also subjugated the knowledges of marginalised communities, including those of Indigenous peoples and others seeking to resist legacies of colonialism, such as Black Lives Matter activists who, as we saw in Chapter 10, locate policing's historically rooted racism within the imperial-colonial context of slavery.

As discussed in Chapter 2, these ethical-epistemological developments in social movements studies and activist criminology are

themselves part of a broader movement growing within academia to decolonise the social sciences, including 'decolonising the curriculum' (Koopman 2018), by approaching research and teaching differently. In the context of criminal justice and policing that might mean we 'do research *on* not *for* the police', and that we teach 'policing and the history of policing differently, to illustrate how the legacies and afterlives of colonialism and slavery still structure the criminal justice system today' (Fatsis and Lamb 2022: 111–112, original emphasis).

Similarly, in Chapter 10 we saw how 'movement law' has emerged as part of a wider critique of the neutrality of law that embraces the politics of law. However, movement law is distinct from practice-based movement lawyering in that it promotes a 'scholarly method', which, to Akbar et al. (2021: 826), 'approaches scholarly thinking and writing about law, justice, and social change as work done in solidarity with social movements, local organising, and other forms of collective struggle'. Like Chesters (2012) and others highlighting the role of activists and academics working together in the co-production of knowledge, movement law scholars aim to work alongside social movements to co-generate ideas for change emanating from the bottom-up. Movement law then seeks to 'create space within legal scholarship to think alongside social movements' (Akbar et al. 2021: 826), which includes co-authoring academic and other writing, as well as engaging in participatory action research with activists.

In other parts of the book, too, we have observed the cognitive praxis of social movements. In Chapter 6, we considered the Western media's general support and endorsement of Russian feminist punk band, Pussy Riot, as an example of the operation of cognitive praxis in music and protest, since, according to Seal (2013: 298), it indicates 'the incorporation of elements of feminism and post-feminism into the discourse of the Western news media'. Likewise, in Chapter 8, we saw how Occupy has been successful in spreading its message about the nature of inequality in capitalist societies by the creation and repetition of slogans (e.g. 'we are the 99 percent'), which, regardless of their factual correctness, have 'come to populate the discourse and establish their own truths' (Pickerill and Krinsky 2012: 281).

The idea that social movements and contentious politics can bring about widespread transformation in the ways we think about the world also relates to the performativity of social movements and, in particular, the Quaker tradition of 'bearing witness', which confronts the observer with an issue, such that turning a blind eye is not an option. In Chapter 7, we saw how one way social movements resemble religious movements is in their adoption of what might be called, 'religious protest repertoires', which include the act of bearing

witness. And in that chapter as well as in Chapter 9 we looked at the case of Greenpeace's early direct actions as an example of a social movement organisation that has been influenced by this religious tradition.

We also saw how the act of bearing witness does not necessarily intend to affect any specific political or policy change but can constitute a 'symbolic challenge' (Melucci 1984, 1985). Here we considered the example of Argentina's mothers of the disappeared, the Madres de la Plaza de Mayo, who, since the 1970s, have walked slowly around the perimeter of a public square in Argentina each Thursday afternoon, dressed in white headscarves and holding pictures of their missing relatives in an act of bearing witness to state oppression (Moser 2003: 188). The creative protest and radical street performance of women's grassroots groups in Peru might also be considered an act of bearing witness to government repression and corruption, which, accordingly, posed a symbolic challenge to the incumbent regime. Similarly, the aforementioned example of former comfort women speaking out and telling their stories of pain and suffering at the hands of the Japanese government during the Second World War can be considered an act of bearing witness with symbolic significance.

POLITICAL PROCESS, PROTEST REPERTOIRES, AND OPPORTUNITY STRUCTURES

The discussion thus far highlights the adaptability of the concept of 'repertoire of contention', which denotes the strategies or tactics social movements employ. In Chapter 4, we saw how Charles Tilly (1986: 390) likens activists' use of protest repertoires to the improvisation of jazz artists: 'people know the general rules or performance more or less well and vary the performance to meet the purpose at hand'. Accordingly, at various points in the book we have seen how the concept of repertoire of contention has been variously used to apply to performative protest (Chapter 6) as well as the ways social movements have harnessed a variety of media (Chapter 9), including in Chapter 7 when we saw how the use of social media during the Arab Spring might be seen as adding to the protest repertoire of Islamic activism.

However, while some have seen the rise of social media and online activism as heralding the decline of offline activism and street protests, others have spotlighted the persistence of physical protests. This was particularly marked during the COVID-19 pandemic when many commentators thought government restrictions on mass gatherings providing a de facto ban on street protests would give rise

to a concomitant increase in online activism. As we saw in Chapter 10, though, according to Pressman and Choi-Fitzpatrick (2021: 770–771), street protests remained the dominant repertoire of contention throughout the pandemic, albeit that physical protests were supported by online action.

Furthermore, towards the end of Chapter 9, we looked at several examples gainsaying what Jurgenson (2012) terms 'digital dualism', or the notion physical and digital spaces are separate. Occupy, Black Lives Matter, the Indignados, and Arab Spring protests all support the idea that there exists a symbiotic relationship between online and offline protest activities, whereby, for instance, pre-existing offline collective action provides vital underpinnings for what is ostensibly spontaneous online activism using social media. These examples therefore point to the enduring relevance of theories about the significance of pre-existing networks for movement mobilisation, which were discussed in Chapter 4.

In line with Tilly's notion that protest repertoire evolves within changing contexts, in Chapter 1 we saw how some protest groups have used increasingly more radical or extreme tactics to get themselves heard, including Extinction Rebellion activists who glue themselves to roads and infrastructure, and Just Stop Oil protestors who disrupt major sporting events or attempt to halt traffic flow in urban areas by 'slow marching'. As often happens when protestors devise new tactics, the state intervenes to create new criminal offences and enhance police powers to limit or prohibit protests. In Chapter 1, we considered these developments as features of policing in the 'post-protest society' wherein protest rights are eroded to near vanishing point and police have almost total control over protest events and discretion to ban them.

We have seen, too, how, as a consequence of *technological globalisation*, repertoires of contention have altered in scale. As will be recalled from Chapter 4, as originally conceived by Tilly, protest repertoires have evolved over time; shifting from being locally focused to becoming more national in scope. With globalisation, we observe a further shift in scale. The Internet and other new media and digital technologies now provide activists with networking capacities having transnational reach. And insofar as digital technologies and social media are used increasingly by activists as effective tools or resources for recruitment, mobilisation, and the dissemination of information, they signal the enduring relevance of resource mobilisation theory.

However, just as social networking platforms and digital media provide opportunities for activists, so too are they the subject of countervailing forces, as states and police deploy those very same technologies to monitor, surveil and impede activists in what increasingly resembles a 'post-protest society'. Moreover, as movement repertoires have become more globalised, so have protest policing

repertoires. Hence, in Chapter 8, we saw how after the Battle of Seattle and the 9/11 terror attacks a 'global protest policing repertoire' emerged particularly in relation to the social control of international 'mega-events' (Martin 2011b). Indeed, according to Pickerill and Krinsky (2012: 285), this is one of the ways Occupy matters, for it illustrates the degree to which protest policing has evolved and police tactics have diffused transnationally.

The concept of 'political opportunity structure' has also been applied to global activism. So, in Chapter 4, we considered Soule's (2009) arguments about how a transnational political opportunity structure – consisting of international institutions, like the UN, WTO, World Bank, which make treaties, agreements, and norms – affects the operation of anti-corporate movements. In that chapter, we also looked at Meyer's (2003) study of the New Zealand anti-nuclear weapons movement wherein he explores some of the ways domestic and international factors interact. This, we said in Chapter 11, reflects a more general interest in the relationship between global institutions and movements, which sees national opportunities as *nested* within a broader international environment and system of institutional relations (Smith 2004: 317). And in that chapter, we saw how this connects to conceptions of 'global civil society', 'transnational advocacy networks', 'internationalism', and the like, all of which constitute ways of thinking about international opportunities and spaces for international institutions and social movements to interact and coexist.

The notion of political opportunity also has a relationship with that other versatile concept, 'abeyance structures', which, as we saw in Chapter 5, was originally employed by Verta Taylor (1989) to explain social movement continuity. It will be recalled that Taylor argues social movements are more active (and more visible) when the wider political environment is responsive to their demands and grievances. However, movements retreat into quotidian structures and networks when political opportunities are scarce or the prevailing political climate is hostile or unfavourable. In this way, the idea of abeyance provides an answer to the question, what's new about new social movements, since, as Taylor (1989: 761) says, it 'depicts a holding process by which movements sustain themselves in nonreceptive political environments and provide continuity from one stage of mobilisation to another'.

In Chapter 7, we saw how Taylor's ideas have been applied to 'lifestyle movements', which, argue Haenfler et al. (2012: 13), can act as refuges in hostile political times, serving as abeyance structures until political opportunities improve. And, in Chapter 6, we saw how Taylor has influenced ideas about how stories of the past help sustain social movements in dormant periods (Goodwin et al. 2001b: 21; Polletta 2002b: 49). Moreover, as mentioned in Chapter 1, the recent surge

of populism underpinning Brexit and new forms authoritarianism in countries like the US, Brazil, and Hungary, while ostensibly precipitated by synchronic phenomena such as the Great Recession, are in many respects symptomatic of historically deep-seated sentiments and tensions and, as such, could be considered examples of 'populism in abeyance' (Newth 2022).

Insofar as Taylor's notion of abeyance structures intersects with earlier work by McAdam (1982) and Morris (1984) emphasising the importance of pre-existing networks for movement mobilisation, in Chapter 4 we saw how apparently spontaneous protests are frequently grounded in preceding movement organisations and cultures, collective identities, and grassroot activism, as evident in the cases of the Indignados (Fominaya 2015), the Umbrella Movement (Cheng and Chan 2017), Black Lives Matter (Weddington 2021), and even the 'flash mobs' linked to Budapest's Urban Playground Movement (Gyimesi 2021). However, while this view stresses the role of existing organisations and structures, Snow and Moss (2014) foreground the role spontaneity continues to play in collective action, or at least, as Turner and Killian (1987 [1957]: 294, emphasis added) do, the '*interplay* between spontaneity and organisation'.

MOVEMENT AUTONOMY AND THE STATE

Towards the end of Chapter 11, we proposed that innovative ways of applying concepts like political opportunity structure and repertoire of contention are indicative of the ongoing relevance of the political process model and contentious politics approach in social movement studies. We also said this, in turn, suggests we ought not dismiss the idea that the state remains a key player in social movement research. We saw, for instance, how Nash's (2012) work highlights the significance of the nation-state (and national courts) for the domestic institutionalisation of international human rights, which, we noted, is surprising given arguments about the threat posed to state sovereignty by globalising processes. Although in that chapter and in Chapter 1, we also drew attention to ongoing processes of 'deglobalisation' and state retreat witnessed recently with the contemporary rise of populism, as well as during the COVID-19 pandemic when governments closed international borders to all travellers and engaged in the practice of 'vaccine nationalism'.

Even when movements, such as Occupy, refuse to make demands on the state and instead strive to provide services (e.g. kitchens, bathrooms, first-aid posts, sleeping areas, educational space) in prefigurative alternative communities, this still raises issues about the role of the state and political parties vis-à-vis social movement.

Indeed, as we saw in Chapter 10, although Occupy protestors see themselves as anarchists critical of capitalism and the state, they still attend court and work with cause lawyers – who are themselves 'trapped in law' – when contesting eviction notices (Renton 2022: 152). Hence, as Pickerill and Krinsky (2012: 283) quite rightly ask, 'can we really speak about movements as fully autonomous from the state, and under what conditions does this make sense?'

In other contexts, such as the Arab Spring, we have witnessed the state's ever-looming and menacing presence exercised in the censorship and repression of movements for democracy across the Middle East, as discussed in Chapter 9. Worryingly, similar trends have gathered pace in democratic countries in what we have referred to as policing in the 'post-protest society'. Hence, in those parts of the book where protest policing is discussed, we have seen how democratically elected governments have increasingly sought not just to derogate from citizens' rights to protest but to criminalise dissent as well as extend the powers of police to suppress protest.

According to the political process model, the criteria for social movement success – or the 'effects' of movement activity – is defined in terms of 'integrating previously excluded issues and groups into the "normal" political process' (Scott 1990: 10), which, as we saw in Chapter 5, is diametrically opposed to the new social movement perspective, since, as Alan Scott (1990: 10) says, '[i]f there is a telos of social movement activity then it is the normalisation of previously exotic issues and groups'. The success of a movement 'is thus quite incompatible with, and indeed overlaps, the disappearance of the movement as a movement' (Scott 1990: 10–11). And, in this sense, argue Eyerman and Jamison (1991: 3, 64), talk of social movement 'success' is somewhat paradoxical. In other terms, Shemtov (1999: 92) has referred to natural-history models of social movements, which 'emphasise the logic of internal structures (e.g. bureaucracy, oligarchy) in predicting that most SMOs [social movement organisations] will displace their radical goals with conservative ones'. So, in Chapter 11, we saw how the global justice movement and Occupy have both struggled to ensure that their internal organisation and structure reflect their democratic ideals. Similarly, we saw how the Black Lives Matter movement still has work to do to realise its claims to have a 'leaderful' organisational structure where there are more horizontal and equal relationships between activists than hierarchical ones (Nulman and Cole 2023).

We looked at a related idea in Chapter 7 when we considered how some believe religious movements are necessarily precluded from having a positive, radical or progressive impact on society not because they lack the necessary internal organisational structures but

because they are, in essence, regressive, conservative, and inward looking. While that may be true of some (though not all) religious movements, so too can it with social and political movements, or 'ugly movements' as Gillan and Pickerill (2012) call them, which, as we saw in Chapter 1, have slowly infiltrated mainstream politics in contemporary manifestations of populism and authoritarianism.

These ideas about the continuing relevance of politics and the state, in turn, relate to what we have encountered previously in terms of movements' need to connect their demands to 'institutionally imminent possibilities' (Giddens 1991b: 155). However, while this view seems to dispute new social movement theory in particular, which posits social movements aim to be autonomous of the state and eschew traditional forms of political representation and interest intermediation, as said above, it is nevertheless important not to limit or reduce protest and social movements to political, legal and policy objectives and outcomes. Indeed, as we have seen at various points in the book, the success of a social movement might be observed in the effective dissemination of its knowledge or consciousness (i.e. its 'cognitive praxis'), or even simply in its awareness-raising activities and lifestyle politics. And this is one of the ways new religious movements and new social movements alike might have an influence on society.

When we looked at the confluence of religious and social movements in Chapter 7, we compared new social movements' quest for autonomy with the search or struggle of religious movements for 'free space' and 'identity spaces' (Beckford 2003: 172). And, in Chapter 8, we looked again at how the idea of identity space relates to Indigenous peoples' struggles for autonomy and self-determination. The Zapatistas are often held up as an exemplar of the kind of self-management and autonomy that new social movement theorists speak of. In this respect, movements can exercise some degree of agency against state interference or systemic intrusion. We saw, too, how in the face of top-down pressures exerted by globalisation the international Indigenous peoples' movement has been instrumental in shaping and forcing open international institutions in the global public sphere (Feldman 2002: 42).

This raises the issue of whether it is possible to effectively challenge, or even resist, the seemingly inexorable march of globalisation, which brings us back to the initial point made above about social movements' central concern with righting wrongs and perceived injustices. In Chapter 11, we saw how some believe the only way of resisting the ill effects of global capitalist neoliberalism is locally, 'from below'. Others place faith in the global justice movement, which, as we saw, has utilised new information and communication technologies and social media to bring people from geographically dispersed areas together, as well as to promote

awareness of the issues. Significantly, the very existence of the global justice movement represents an implied critique of new social movement theory since it highlights the persistence of material issues and survival struggles. In Chapter 11, we saw how this was a mark of the ethnocentricity of new social movement theory, which emphasises post-material values and the lifestyle struggles of privileged collective actors in the Global North. Thinking globally, therefore, is not just something activists might do; it is also something social movement scholars must do.

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